

set. The CCDR has the preponderance of responsibility aligned to a problem set. The CCDR can direct collaborative planning but does not receive additional command authority beyond that already assigned in the UCP or other foundational documents. A coordinating authority does not have the authority to compel agreement or direct resource allocation between CCMDs or Services.

For more information, see JP 1, Volume 2, The Joint Force; CJCSI 3141.01, Management and Review of Campaign and Contingency Plans; and JP 5-0, Joint Planning.

b. Executing the Global Campaign

(1) GCPs are integrated plans that address threats and challenges that significantly affect US interests across the globe and require coordinated planning across all, or nearly all, CCMDs. As problem-focused plans, GCPs look across CCMD seams and simultaneously provide direction to the CCDRs and military advice to SecDef. In execution, the GCPs are the focal point for integrated assessment and resource decisions regarding prioritization, posture, capabilities, risk, and risk mitigation measures.

(2) A coordinating authority performs three key functions: planning, assessing, and recommending approaches to develop integrated plans. Coordinating authorities use collaborative forums to support these functions and ensure multiple supported CCDRs' equities are accounted for in global campaigns (see CJCSI 3100.01, *Joint Strategic Planning System*).

(3) A collaborator is a joint force organization assigned in the JSCP to support integrated planning. The collaborator works with the coordinating authority to develop and assess the viability of globally integrated plans from their organization's perspective. CCPs are the centerpiece of the CCMDs' planning construct and operationalize the JSCP. CCPs incorporate intermediate objectives and tasks assigned to the CCMD from the GCPs and FCPs and support plan linkages, contingency plan linkages, and prioritization and risks in balancing the requirements placed on the CCMD. CCPs focus the command's enduring activities such as ongoing operations, military engagement, SC, deterrence, posture, basing, and other cooperative and competitive activities. CCPs organize and align operations, activities, and investments with resources to achieve the CCMD's objectives and complement related USG efforts in the theater or functional areas. CCDRs identify the resources assigned and allocated to the CCMDs, prioritize objectives, and commit those resources to create a favorable security environment within the OE and support the national strategic objectives. CCDRs evaluate the commitment of resources and make recommendations to civilian leadership on future resources and national efforts associated with executing the command's missions.

(4) Joint Campaigns and Operations in Contingencies

(a) The joint force implements contingency plans in response to changes in the strategic environment. Contingency plans build and expand the global, functional, regional, or CCMD campaigns already in execution. The Presidentially approved CPG

direct contingency plans address designated threats, potentially catastrophic events, and contingent scenarios that can threaten one or more national interests and warrant military response options. This guidance provides the basis for CCMD contingency plans and global war planning.

(b) The JS develops GIFs to facilitate CJCS advice to SecDef and the President on global risks, trade-offs, and opportunity costs across and within campaigns during an emerging situation. A GIF provides considerations for modifications to a particular GCP, as well as analysis associated with the joint force's ability to meet global requirements for a crisis or transition to armed conflict. GIFs also identify potential President or SecDef decisions required to execute the global response to a priority challenge. These decisions may include expanded actions within a GCP, risk mitigation options, reallocation and escalation management decisions, and actions to preserve options. GIFs also identify potential President or SecDef decisions required to execute a global response to a priority challenge.

(c) CCDRs prepare contingency plans to address anticipated situations. At execution, CCDRs will likely have to modify plans to respond to the actual conditions at the time. If an approved contingency plan closely resembles the emergent scenario, CCDRs and their staff can refine or adapt it as necessary for execution. During a contingency response and activation of an ICP, enduring campaigns continue in modified form to account for changes in the OE and address resource allocation.

(d) After the contingency passes, the force transitions to face new competitive challenges or re-characterized competitions and international conditions. Post-contingency circumstances may require civilian and military leadership to reevaluate existing strategies and campaigns to sustain new strategic conditions and objectives.

1. Contingency planning builds upon and expands the GCPs or FCPs already in execution to address designated threats, catastrophic events, and contingent missions. Contingency planning efforts are directed in the UCP, CPG, and JSCP, or by the CCDR. The UCP, CPG, and JSCP guide the development of plans to address potential threats that put one or more national interests at risk in ways that warrant military operations. Contingency plans account for the possibility that campaign activities could fail to prevent aggression, preclude large-scale instability in a key state or region, or respond to a natural disaster. An ICP coordinates the activities of multiple CCMDs in time and space to respond to a single contingency, which is in contrast to previous AOR-specific scenarios.

2. If the contingency plan is associated with a GIF, initial planning has been conducted to identify the requirements to reallocate and reassign forces across the globe to meet the crisis or contingency execution requirements, including the impact of executing the crisis or contingency on ongoing GCPs and FCPs. Even with this preparation, all CCDRs and their planners must reassess the risk associated with cessation of ongoing campaigning activities and ensure the CJCS is informed of changes in the assessment.

c. **Readiness Reviews.** Readiness reviews are detailed assessments of global implications for the joint force in the event of contingency plan execution. Readiness reviews begin with an examination of threats, threat capabilities, and likely enemy COAs. A readiness review then analyzes the family of plans related to the designated contingency plan to identify friendly resource requirements, potential shortfalls in readiness, resources, and capabilities. The review also identifies ongoing operations and makes potential recommendations for changes to ongoing operations and campaign plans to meet the contingency plan requirements. The output of a readiness review is the GIF that identifies priorities across the joint force while in conflict and outlines decisions required by the President and SecDef for execution.

13. Global Effects Coordination

a. Armed conflict against peer competitors requires simultaneous supporting/supported relationships between multiple CCDRs. Global effects coordination employs global capabilities synchronized in time and tempo across multiple geographic regions to achieve campaign objectives. A global coordination process to ensure a global perspective; an appreciation of out-of-AOR threats; and the capability to coordinate and integrate global capabilities, fires, operations, and information can facilitate global effects. The outputs of global effects coordination among CCMDs via global battle rhythm working groups feed the best military advice to the CJCS.

b. Global effects coordination focuses primarily on integration and synchronization across the CCMDs to help prioritize lethal and nonlethal global effects. The global effects coordination process seeks to improve situational awareness across CCMD theater and functional responsibilities; identify opportunities, tensions, and consequences of joint force action or inaction; and align CCMD global operations to generate desired effects. To meet global campaign objectives and provide coordination of global effects, CCMDs synchronize and deconflict diverse capabilities of the joint force across the globe through multi-CCMD coordination working groups. Globally integrated planning and detailed coordination are required to integrate and synchronize global effects. SecDef-designated supported and supporting CCMD relationships define the roles and responsibilities for global effects planning and execution. The supported CCDRs provide fire support requirements for their AOR and/or missions to the supporting CCDRs. The supporting CCDRs, given their unique capabilities and expertise with those systems, may have competing views and objectives of the most effective use and tempo of those limited resources. Although the supported and supporting CCDRs may see the situation in a similar fashion, each CCDR may have different perspectives, high-payoff targets, and global fires requirements. The global effects coordination process enables CCMDs to continually assess the multiple supported CCMDs' high-payoff target and global fires requests in the context of evolving situations and make recommendations to the CCDRs and, when necessary, the CJCS and SecDef, as the most effective employment of globally integrated fires. The recommendations for global effects seek to optimize effectiveness of fire support and mitigate risk to friendly forces and functions in the supported commands' AORs, as well as risk to HD, strategic deterrence, and defense of national interests.

c. Establishing global fire support requirements and synchronizing fire support actions are cross-CCMD and cross-boundary efforts, requiring a great deal of collaboration, close coordination, and information sharing. Effective cross-functional collaboration occurs through appropriate organizational processes that organize into elements, functional boards, and planning teams composed of representatives from across the CCMDs. Some degree of synchronization is necessary at the operational level to align actions and desired effects.

d. Commanders and their planners should identify desired lethal and nonlethal effects early in the targeting and planning processes, and continuously thereafter. A clear understanding of the problem, planning guidance, commander's intent, and the operational framework provide the necessary direction for the coherent integration of effects at the operational level, while appropriately leaving synchronization and detailed execution to subordinate tactical units.

e. Global battle rhythm working groups are key to providing global situational awareness across the OEs to all CCMDs to facilitate global integration of operations at the lowest echelon possible. The global battle rhythm meetings enable CCMD operations staffs to understand multiple, supported CCMD priorities. Staffs make recommendations for synchronizing operations across the globe that span multiple AORs and all domains. A common set of inputs for these working groups to integrate global effects includes who is requesting the effects support, who is providing the effects support, what are the desired effects, what are the consequences of action/inaction, and any unresolvable tensions.

f. The Use of Information

(1) Advances in information technology and the ease with which people and automated systems access and use information contribute to today's threats becoming increasingly sophisticated and dangerous. Within the OE, specific factors affect how humans and automated systems derive meaning, act upon, and judge impacted from information. The IE is the aggregate of these social, cultural, linguistic, psychological, technical, and physical factors. The IE is not distinct from any OE. It is an intellectual framework to help identify, understand, and describe how those often-intangible factors may affect the employment of forces and bear on the decisions of the commander. The informational factors that bear on the decisions of a commander are part of a commander's OE, just as the factors of the physical domains, cyberspace, and the EMS that affect the employment of forces and bear on the decisions of a commander are part of a commander's OE. The joint force leverages its understanding of the IE and the inherent informational aspects of military activities; improves the use of information to support decision making; counters adverse disinformation, misinformation, and propaganda; and synchronizes and unifies efforts across joint functions to create effects in the IE.

(2) **Understanding the IE.** Understanding the IE is critical to global integration because information affects the OE at a faster pace than ever. The IE is more complex, and threats are more global. Understanding adversarial perceptions, attitudes, and behaviors toward their global influence objectives will help address the problem. The joint

force improves its ability to conduct globally integrated operations by understanding the relevant audiences. These audiences impact joint force outcomes. Understanding what information drives those audiences' behaviors is essential.

(a) Information capabilities and activities often require knowledge of adversaries that is not common to traditional intelligence analysis and productions. OIE require answers to questions such as: Which audiences are affecting joint force objectives and why? Which audiences share joint force goals and objectives? What themes and messages created under the base narrative or tactical narrative might help specific audiences understand the threat they face from an adversary or threat? What information is being concealed by autocratic leaders from their internal audiences, and why? Analysis of influential audiences and the information and motivations that drive their beliefs and behavior adds a deeper understanding of current intelligence reporting.

(b) Advances in today's IE enable more options to monitor, analyze, assess, and share information. Technologies that store and share large amounts of data facilitate observation and measurement of perceptions, beliefs, and attitudes on social media. Information systems leave electronic signatures that indicate movement and other behavior. Automated intelligence can improve the ability to measure effectiveness by assessing the IE.

(3) **Leverage.** This section will provide considerations for how the joint force leverages, integrates, and uses information throughout the competition continuum not already discussed in Chapter III, "Joint Functions," paragraph 3. "Information." The joint force must gain and maintain an advantage against global threats that effectively mislead internal and external audiences and penetrate and disrupt friendly C2 networks and information systems. The JFC counters these threats with communication to these same audiences through messages, images, and actions. These activities are the sequence of actions that use information to affect the perceptions, attitudes, and other drivers of relevant actor behavior.

(a) The JFC and staff use operational design by developing options and COAs with select information capabilities and activities early, obtaining authorities and execution pre-approval early, then arranging them in time, space, and purpose to achieve desired objectives.

(b) Information sharing is key to unity of effort and to success. Sharing information requires time, resources, and approvals. When executed better than the adversary, information sharing is a combat multiplier and can lead to decision advantages. Communication synchronization depends on information sharing. The process of aligning our operations and communication is increasingly important for media-savvy audiences looking for opportunities to de-legitimize the joint force.

(c) Risks also vary when using information (i.e., risks to OPSEC, risk of mistakenly disseminating false information, risk of narratives reaching unintended or insufficiently understood audiences, and risk of unknown second- and third-order consequences of physical attacks on networks and systems).

(4) Competitive use of information may require JFCs to deny and degrade adversaries' mobility and access. JFCs employ identity activities and leverage collected identity information to inform global operations, HD, national screening, and vetting activities with interagency partners.

g. **Support to Human and Automated Decision Making.** The joint force seeks to gain and maintain an information advantage throughout the competition continuum. Facilitating the use of all available data to accelerate decision cycles by leveraging artificial intelligence, predictive analytics, information fusion, autonomous systems, and other data models that are consistent with DOD policy. Interoperability between modern information systems and legacy platforms enable the ability to share with allies, partners, and the private sector.

h. Today's technology requires a fundamental shift to treat information and data as a critical resource that enables the joint force to exploit an improved understanding of friendly forces, neutrals, the environment, and adversaries. The force must train and exercise decision making in information-degraded environments. With a shared situational understanding of relevant actors and their interconnections, commanders and their staffs will have better and faster human and machine-aided decision making.

14. Mission Areas and Enduring Requirements

a. Introduction

(1) The mission areas constitute the framework of global campaigns. Within the global campaigns, five mutually supporting mission areas describe the principal orientation and way the joint force operates and maneuvers across the competition continuum and around the globe—simultaneously in multiple regions with allies and partners and, as necessary, across UCP-designated AORs and other military boundaries. The mission areas are:

- (a) Deter strategic attack.
- (b) Deter conventional attack.
- (c) Assure allies and partners.
- (d) Compete below the level of armed conflict (competition).
- (e) Prepare/respond to threats.

(2) The mission areas within the global campaign entail coherent groupings of interrelated operational-level objectives, each with its own associated and multiple LOEs, tasks, and the many associated individual joint and Service component operations.

b. **Deter Strategic Attack Mission Area.** Deterring strategic attack is the highest defense priority of the United States. There is no conceptual or operational starting or

stopping point for strategic deterrence—it is perpetual. Deterring nuclear and nonnuclear strategic attack of any scale, either regionally or against the United States itself, is an essential and continuous aspect of global campaigns. The primary purpose of US strategic deterrence is to prevent a nuclear attack on the United States, but this mission area also includes dissuading strategic space, cyberspace, and EMS attacks. The deter strategic attack mission orients on dissuading adversaries from conducting attacks that result in strategic effects, particularly on the homeland. An adversary can create strategic effects with weapons such as nuclear, chemical, biological, space-based, cyberspace, or even conventional weapons, particularly on the homeland. Aligning and exercising all instruments of national power has become increasingly important as potential adversaries integrate their strategic military capabilities, expanding the range of potential challenges. This alignment is particularly true regarding threats from potential adversaries of limited nuclear escalation and non-nuclear strategic attack. Achieving the objectives within this mission area relies on creating the adversary's perception that the costs a response would impose far outweigh the anticipated benefits of conducting a strategic attack. To be effective, the operations and activities associated with deterring strategic attack must impact an adversary's decision making. Considering social, cultural, linguistic, and psychological factors is essential to avoid mirror-imaging, understand an adversary's actual perspective, and thereby arrive at a true understanding of the deterrence potential of friendly operations, activities, and investments. Neutrals and even friendlies may also be deterred from undesired operations, activities, and investments. Regardless of the ebb and flow of competition and uncertainty, the joint force must maintain a credible ability to respond to a strategic attack and impose unacceptable costs on the adversary. The joint force's pursuit of the objectives within this mission area is open-ended and enduring. The operations continue unabated through competition to armed conflict and the transitions between the two. All actions and operations against nuclear-armed adversaries require evaluation to address the risk of strategic deterrence failure.

c. Deter Conventional Attack Mission Area

(1) Deterring adversaries from territorial aggression and traditional warfare through the threat of denial or punishment is a long-standing central theme of joint force responsibilities. The objectives, operations, activities, and investments associated with the deter conventional attack mission area are usually passive but credible and overt in their signal to keep an adversary from both miscalculating and acting on their ambitions. The intent of the objectives within the deter conventional attack mission area is to prevent an adversary from considering armed conflict through the posturing of friendly capabilities and demonstrating the will to use them. The actions and signals purposefully place the initiative on an adversary to take the first actions. Through the posture, maneuver, and activities with this mission area, national and military leadership may communicate and convince adversaries that an attack is so unlikely to succeed that it is not even worth the attempt, which is deterrence through denial. Senior leadership can also convince adversaries that the effort required to accomplish its goals would be so costly there would be no real victory or advantageous outcome, also known as deterrence through perceived costs. In either case, the traditional assumption is US actions short of war can influence a rational adversary to maintain the status quo. Senior military and civilian leaders orient

the operations and activities within the mission area toward security and preparatory measures to protect US and allied interests and to indicate the capability and intent to deny the enemy's purpose for aggression. Effectively executing the tasks and messaging in this mission area discourages an enemy from initiating action. Commanders can greatly enhance the prospects for success in their choice and implementation of deterrence objectives if they view the escalatory events and their own reactive behavior from an empathetic perspective of the opponents' calculation of costs, benefits, and risks.

(2) Once an adversary decides and commits to pursuing objectives through armed conflict, then there may not be an opportunity for deterrence. Adversaries make decisions knowing full well the risks of war with the United States. If there is an opportunity to avert armed conflict after the enemy commits to initiating war, then that opportunity will likely have a very small window of time.

d. Assure Allies and Partners Mission Area. The operations, activities, and investments within the assure mission area orient activities to develop and strengthen partnerships. These partnerships encourage and enable allies and partners to defend their sovereignty, maintain territorial integrity, and participate in multinational military operations in support of mutually beneficial outcomes. By working together with allies and partners, CCDRs create strength and momentum toward the long-term advancement of our interests. The assure mission area objectives seek to link our capabilities and interests with allies' and partners' complementary capabilities and forces along with their unique perspectives, regional relationships, and information that improve joint force understanding of the OE. CCDRs seek to expand upon these opportunities. When addressing a situation deemed as a mutual interest, allies and partners can maneuver along with US formations, provide access to position, and operate within the necessary areas/regions. The assure mission area supports maintaining an optimal basing and logistics system, which is foundational for global sustainment and reach. Operating and exercising with allies demonstrates our cooperative commitment and promotes a level of interoperability across the competition continuum. Together, these efforts enable key nations to establish or maintain their sovereignty and domestic policies. Effectively assuring allies and partners minimizes the probability of dramatic shifts in their policy, such as turning to an adversary for their security partner of choice, miscalculating unilaterally, or overreacting to a common adversary's encroachment or provocation. The assure mission area's objectives and efforts seek to share responsibilities with like-minded allies and partners, resist authoritarian expansionism through competition, contest radical ideologies, and conduct combined joint warfighting in armed conflict. Maintaining and developing partnerships around the globe based on shared interests reinforce regional coalitions and military cooperation. Successful execution of the efforts within the assure mission area provides allies and partners with a clear and consistent message of alliance and coalition commitment and confidence and capability to face external threats.

e. Compete Below the Level of Armed Conflict Mission Area (Adversarial Competition). US strategic rivals want to shape a world consistent with authoritarian views and seek leverage and influence over other nations and geographic regions. These adversaries strive to avoid war and accomplish their objectives at an acceptable level of

risk and a relatively low opportunity cost. Their actions manifest themselves as territorial encroachments, infringements of sovereignty, and violations of the rule of law that favor the adversary's interests. In some cases, these encroachments seek to influence and control the internal domestic policy decisions of another country without having to seize or occupy parts of it. With appropriate authorization, JFCs can counter adversarial actions and malign influence through demonstration, strengthening and reinforcing allies and partners, global repositioning of forces, air and maritime interception operations, establishing exclusion zones, enforcing sanctions, supporting resistance partners, employing surrogate forces, and ensuring compliance with treaties. This mission area is not deterrence re-imagined, nor is it preparation or prelude to armed conflict. Adversarial competition is its own unique, challenging, and indefinite contest for influence, advantage, and leverage, where many aspects of malign influence and antagonistic behavior are undeterrable. Within all the global campaigns, the compete below the level of armed conflict mission area's objectives seek to proactively limit, counter, or even de-construct these coercive encroachments and their harmful effects. In adversarial competition, JFCs maneuver to contest and counter coercion and adversaries' use of malign and/or antagonistic operations, activities, and investments that encroach on matters of sovereignty or fall outside of international law and norms. Through competition, revisionist powers and rogue regimes use coercive and subversive measures such as corruption, predatory economic practices, disinformation and propaganda, political and socioeconomic subversion, annexing foreign territory, and deniable military force to change the environment in their favor. These nuanced approaches are deliberate alternatives to armed conflict. Activities associated with competition provide an alternative approach without armed conflict for countering our adversaries' use of malign and/or antagonistic activities intended to degrade US legitimacy, credibility, influence, economic power, and national security. Senior military leaders recognize these approaches and alternative uses of force short of war, to include working with the DOS and other USG departments and agencies in a concerted and coordinated effort to effectively compete.

f. Prepare for/Respond to Threats Mission Area. Responding to threats may involve the maneuver and application of military force against a threat to eliminate their cause or motivation. The objectives and corresponding tasks and operations within the respond to threats mission area promote enduring preparations, readiness, and adaptability. The responses are all scalable and employed in the context of the specific situation. The objectives may not be adversary-specific. This mission area also includes responding to the hostile actions of violent extremist organizations (VEOs) and other irregular threats. JFCs may encourage and enable allies and partners to take leading roles against irregular threats, with US forces in a supporting role. Within the global campaign, episodic or brief uses of violent measures may be adequate. If not, then guided by the GIF and strategic guidance, the CCCR can expand or recharacterize activities across all the mission areas. The guidance may be for the CCCR to transition to one or more of the problem set's contingency plans. When one global campaign transitions to a family of contingency plans, not only does the coordinating authority re-characterize the efforts across its mission areas but also the Joint Chiefs of Staff and CCRs may recommend modifications to all the global campaigns. When a committed enemy threatens our national security with regard to little else, then the United States can use military force to destroy the enemy's activity,

capabilities, or seize territory. Joint forces can disrupt the sources of power, which give the enemy the will to continue to pursue their objectives. Additionally, joint forces can attack the enemy's strategic decision-making process. When the joint force engages an enemy in armed conflict, there are three basic methods to prevail. The three methods are exhaustion, attrition, and annihilation. Rarely employed in isolation from the others, exhaustion is the erosion of the enemy's will, attrition is the process of gradually reducing their strength or effectiveness, and annihilation is the complete destruction of the enemy's means. Against a capable and determined enemy, the joint force should not expect any of these methods to be easy, fast, or inexpensive. The joint force should not expect military victory to be a foregone conclusion.

g. Additional Considerations

(1) Successful integrated deterrence, whether strategic or conventional attack, relies upon similar logic, but the stakes are different. Both mission areas depend on several critical functions. The first function is national leaders and commanders maintain real-time awareness of adversaries that can conduct strategic attacks. This situational awareness includes detailed insight into their intentions and interests, especially their importance. Second, it requires a clear understanding and identification of the preliminary and interim adversarial decisions leading to the use of strategic capabilities. Third, deterrence requires developing and maintaining an understanding of an adversary's calculations regarding the alternative actions, as well as its perception of the deterrent threat's credibility and cost. Fourth, it requires the capability to influence some of the inputs to the adversary's values and perceptions relevant to their decision making. Fifth, deterrence requires an understanding of the limits on the adversary's cost-benefit analysis. These limits change over time and vary among those potential adversaries who possess the capabilities of strategic attack. As such, some adversaries are difficult to influence, given the nature of their decision-making process or expectations of anticipated outcomes, the opportunity costs of their actions, and their analysis of the costs denial or punishment threatened by deterrence.

(2) If an emerging situation exceeds the existing authorities and resources of one of the global campaigns, the joint force senior leadership (Joint Chiefs of Staff and CCDRs) analyzes the problem. Before determining and recommending an appropriate response, the senior joint leadership diagnoses the situation. The considerations include determining the range of possible outcomes and likely long-term consequences. As senior military leaders come to their conclusions, they begin to form a globally integrated approach, which includes the best uses of all the joint force.

15. Tailoring Headquarters and Forces

a. Organizing the Joint Force

(1) How JFCs organize their assigned or attached forces affects the responsiveness and versatility of joint operations. The JFC's mission and operational approach, the principle of unity of command, and a mission command philosophy are guiding principles to organize the joint force for operations. JFCs can establish joint forces on a geographic or functional

basis. JFCs may centralize selected functions within the joint force but should not reduce the versatility, responsiveness, and initiative of subordinate forces. JFCs should allow Service and special operations tactical and operational forces, organizations, and capabilities to function as designed. However, against a peer enemy, the intended function may be insufficient, irrelevant, or obsolete. All Service components contribute distinct capabilities to joint operations that enable joint effectiveness. Joint interdependence is the purposeful reliance by one Service on another Service's capabilities to maximize their complementary and reinforcing effects. The degree of interdependence varies with specific circumstances. When JFCs organize their forces, they should also consider the degree of interoperability among Service components, with multinational forces and other potential participants. Complex or unclear command relationships are counterproductive to the synergy among multinational forces. Simplicity and clarity of expression are essential. Similarly, JFCs conducting domestic operations should consider overlapping responsibilities and interoperability issues among the Active Component and Reserve Component forces.

(2) Understanding the OE

(a) The JFC's OE is the composite of the conditions, circumstances, and influences that affect the employment of capabilities that bear on the decisions of the commander. It encompasses physical areas and factors (of the air, land, maritime, and space domains and the IE [which includes cyberspace]); EMOE; and other variables such as political, military, economic, social, information, and infrastructure systems that may be present in the OE. The OE includes enemy, adversary, friendly, and neutral systems relevant to a specific joint operation. Understanding the OE helps commanders understand the results of various friendly, enemy, adversary, and neutral actions and how these affect the joint task force (JTF) mission accomplishment.

(b) The JFC and staff can benefit from a comprehensive perspective of the systems in the OE relevant to the mission and operation at hand. JIPOE is an analytic process yielding tailored products that can assist the JFC in gaining a greater understanding of the OE. Developing a systems view can promote a common understanding of the OE among the joint force and other participating entities, thereby facilitating unified action. A systems perspective of the OE strives to provide an understanding of interrelated systems relevant to a specific joint operation without regard to geographic boundaries. A variety of factors, including planning time available, will affect the fidelity of this perspective. Understanding systems, their interaction with each other, and how systems' relationships will change over time is key. This understanding increases the JFC's knowledge of how actions within a system can affect other system components. A commonly shared dynamic visual representation and associated Global Command and Control System-Joint data management tools can help integrate and manage relevant data sources. This common reference helps the commander and staff analyze COGs, critical vulnerabilities, critical capabilities, and decisive points. Identifying decisive points helps commanders determine LOOs and LOEs, refine objectives and desired and undesired effects, and provide planning guidance for the operational approach.

(c) The JFC will face increasingly complex environments characterized by a wide variety of participants, enemies using combinations of traditional warfare and IW, adversaries with capabilities to influence information, information flow, and global interconnected relationships. The JIPOE products for an OE will assist the commander in understanding and navigating the complex environment. This broader, more inclusive approach to understanding the environment will assist in determining CCIRs and the operation or campaign assessment activity.

For further information on the OE and systems perspective, refer to the Joint Guide for Joint Intelligence Preparation of the Operational Environment; JP 3-12, Joint Cyberspace Operations; and JP 5-0, Joint Planning.

b. Physical Areas and Factors

(1) **Physical Areas.** The fundamental physical area in the OE is the JFC's assigned OA. This term encompasses more descriptive terms for geographic areas in which joint forces conduct military operations. OAs include such descriptors as AOR, theater of war, theater of operations, JOA, AOA, JSOA, and AO.

(2) **Physical Factors.** The JFC and staff must consider many factors, to include terrain (including urban settings), population, weather, topography, hydrology, EMS, and other environmental conditions in the OA; distances associated with the deployment to the OA and employment of joint capabilities; the location of and access to bases, ports, and other supporting infrastructure; the physical results of armed conflicts; and both friendly and enemy forces and other capabilities. Combinations of these factors affect operations and sustainment. Mobility of the force, integration and synchronization of operations, and ability to employ precision munitions can be affected by degraded conditions. Climatological and hydrographic planning tools, studies, and forecast products help the JFC determine the most advantageous time and location to conduct operations.

For additional information, refer to JP 3-59, Meteorological and Oceanographic Operations.

(3) **Urban Areas.** Urban areas possess all of the characteristics of the natural landscape, coupled with man-made construction and the associated infrastructure, resulting in a complicated and dynamic environment that influences the conduct of military operations in many ways. The most distinguishing characteristic of operations in urban areas, however, is not the infrastructure but the density of civilians. For example, industrial areas and port facilities often are collocated with highly populated areas, creating the opportunity for accidental or deliberate release of toxic industrial materials, which could impact military operations. During military operations in an urban environment, joint forces may not focus only on destruction of enemy forces but may also be required to take steps necessary to protect and support civilians and their infrastructure from which they receive services necessary for survival. As such, ROE may be more restrictive than for other types of operations. When planning for operations in an urban environment, the JFC and staff should consider the impact of military operations on civilians, to include their culture, values, and infrastructure, thereby viewing the urban area as a dynamic and

complex system—not solely as terrain. This insight implies the joint force should be capable of understanding the specific urban environment; sensing, locating, and isolating the enemy among civilians; and applying combat power precisely and discriminately.

(4) **Littoral Areas.** The littoral area contains two parts. First is the seaward area from the open ocean to the shore, which must be controlled to support operations ashore. Second is the landward area inland from the shore that can be supported and defended directly from the sea. Control of the littoral area often is essential to maritime superiority. Maritime operations conducted in the littoral area can project power, fires, and forces to achieve the JFC's objectives. These operations facilitate the entry and movement of other elements of the joint force through the seizure of an enemy's port, naval base, or airbase. Friendly access and freedom of maneuver within the littorals depend on the enemy's A2/AD actions and capabilities, such as the use of long-range fires and mines. The ability to avoid detection and maneuver to evade can be reduced in the littorals due to the proximity to enemy sensors and the lack of maneuver space, thus increasing risk. Depending on the situation, mine warfare may be critical to control of the littoral areas.

(5) **Orbital Areas.** The space domain contains numerous physical hazards and presents a dynamic and hostile environment. Earth's atmosphere extends well above the lower threshold for sustained orbital flight, expanding and contracting based on changes in solar activity. Space was once a sanctuary from attack, but the emergence, advanced development, and proliferation of a wide range of demonstrated counterspace weapons by adversaries have reversed this paradigm. Today, threats can contest the United States in space, like any other part of the OE, due to the increasing threat to orbiting assets by adversary weapons systems.

c. **Cultural, Political, and Socioeconomic Factors.** The JFC and staff should identify human factors and gain a deep understanding of the cultural, political, and economic factors that may impact operations. These include:

(1) Cultural factors. These factors encompass the ethnic and religious aspects of the populations within the OE. JFCs should understand how segregated or integrated these groups are with each other. These factors should include the location of important religious sites; physical and living cultural icons; and cultural controversies between regions, ethnic groups, and religious groups. These factors include religious beliefs and sectarian ideologies that motivate indigenous groups and influence their perceptions of the root causes of their struggles.

(2) Political issues. These issues include major local and regional political issues, to include existing or potential separatist or secessionist issues, historical ethnic or religious animosities, gender perspectives, and cultural conflicts.

(3) Economic factors. These factors include historical, legal, and illicit trade routes; food and water distribution channels; the condition of economic assets in the OE; and the conditions of road, rail, and water transportation networks. Economic factors may include the location and condition of local industries, farmlands, crops, access to markets,

SPACE AS AN OPERATIONAL ENVIRONMENT

Spacecraft operating beyond the protection of Earth's magnetosphere are not impacted by atmospheric drag but are exposed to solar wind. Originating from the sun, solar wind presents a constant barrage of radiation and charged particles capable of severely damaging a spacecraft's physical and electrical components. Space debris poses a further risk to human activity in space. As the concentration of space debris grows, debris-generating collisions become more prevalent, further jeopardizing orbital flight safety and compromising the utility of the space domain. There is no forward edge of the battle area behind which military spacecraft can reconstitute and recover. Spacecraft remain in orbit through all terrestrial circumstance where they are potentially at risk from adversary counterspace capabilities and the hostile space environment.

Various Sources

and sources and distributions of wealth. Other factors are matters that impact the health and welfare perceptions of the local population.

(4) Sociocultural factors. Human factors and conditions are the foundation of sociocultural analysis. Sociocultural analysis enables understanding of the threat's cultural nuances, to include age, gender, ethnic mix, religion, and other social factors present in the OE.

(a) Gender. Gender is a component of sociocultural analysis due to its influence on other identity activities between men and women in the OE, which are often difficult to detect.

(b) Gender Perspective. Implementing a gender perspective can only be done following a sociocultural analysis of the human aspects within the OA. A gender perspective enables commanders to examine risks and trade-offs to determine COAs with fewer unintended consequences to the HN population.

(c) Human Security. Human security emphasizes preventing, mitigating, relieving, or reducing human suffering. JFCs consider human security during military operations, such as stabilization activities, special operations, and FHA.

For more information on sociocultural analysis, see JP 2-0, Joint Intelligence.

d. **IE.** The IE comprises and aggregates numerous social, cultural, informational, technical, and physical attributes that impact knowledge, understanding, beliefs, and world view. The IE also includes technical systems and their use of data. The IE is a factor analyzed for its effect on a commander's OE or OA. The OA may be comprised of one or more commands. The JFC and staff consider the effects of all physical and informational activities within their OE. Additionally, the JFC and staff consider time and space factors

of the operation or campaign on the operational and IEs to determine what is, or is not, relevant at any given time and any given location.

(1) Information is pervasive throughout the OE and inseparable from military activities. As competitors, adversaries, and enemies have become increasingly capable and emboldened, they create political, social, and military advantages that exceed their formerly assessed combat power. To address these complex challenges successfully, commanders, planners, and operators must be competent warfighters in both the OE and IE. The skill sets required to achieve success in either and both environments are co-dependent and require understanding of the interrelationship of the informational, physical, and human aspects within the OE and the IE. Informational aspects reflect the way individuals, information systems, and groups communicate and exchange information. Physical aspects are the material characteristics of the environment that create limitations on and freedoms for the people and information systems that operate in it. Finally, human perceptions frame the OE. Understanding the interplay between the informational, physical, and human aspects provides a unified view of the OE.

(2) Cyberspace has a global reach that permeates all of the physical domains. It consists of the interdependent network of information technology infrastructures and resident data, including the Internet, telecommunications networks, computer systems, and embedded processors and controllers. Most aspects of joint operations rely in part on cyberspace, which reaches across geographic and geopolitical boundaries—much of it residing outside of US control—and integrates with the operation of critical infrastructures and the conduct of commerce, governance, and national security. When commanders plan and organize for operations, they should consider their critical dependencies on information and cyberspace, including factors such as degradations to confidentiality, availability, and integrity of information and information systems.

(3) Commanders conduct CO to retain freedom of maneuver in cyberspace, accomplish the JFC's objectives, deny freedom of action to enemies and adversaries, and enable other operational activities. CO rely on links and nodes in the physical domains and perform functions in cyberspace and the physical domains. Similarly, activities in the physical domains can create effects in and through cyberspace by affecting the EMS or the physical infrastructure.

For more information on CO and the IE, refer to JP 3-12, Joint Cyberspace Operations.

e. **EMS.** The EMS is a maneuver space consisting of all frequencies of EM radiation (oscillating electric and magnetic fields characterized by frequency and wavelength). The EMS organizes by frequency bands, based on certain physical characteristics. The EMS includes radio waves, microwaves, infrared radiation, visible light, ultraviolet radiation, x-rays, and gamma rays. Over the last few decades, advances in EMS technologies have led to an exponential increase in civil, commercial, and military EMS-enabled and dependent capabilities. This proliferation, coupled with the US military's heavy reliance on the EMS and the low entry costs for adversaries, poses significant military challenges to the JFC. JEMSO help achieve success, and EMS parity is essential to all joint operations.

For more information on the EMS and JEMSO operations, see JP 3-85, Joint Electromagnetic Spectrum Operations.

f. Joint Force Organizational Options

(1) CCMDs. A CCMD is a unified or specified command with a broad, continuing mission under a single commander established and so designated by the President, through SecDef, and with the advice and assistance of the CJCS. Unified commands conduct broad, continuing missions requiring execution by significant forces of two or more MILDEPs to achieve national objectives or other criteria found in JP 1, Volume 1, *Joint Warfighting*; and Volume 2, *The Joint Force*. Specified commands are normally composed of forces from one MILDEP but may include units and staff representation from other MILDEPs. The UCP establishes missions, responsibilities, and geographic AORs and functions to CCMDs. CCMDs have the authority to employ forces within their commands to carry out assigned missions. They act as the coordinating authority for planning and the supported commander in executing these missions. They may simultaneously be a supporting commander to other CCDRs for planning and executing the other CCDR's missions. In addition, United States Special Operations Command serves as SOF joint force provider and USCYBERCOM is a joint force provider for cyberspace forces. United States Transportation Command serves as joint force provider for mobility forces and joint enabling capabilities. USSPACECOM is a joint force provider for space operations.

(2) Subordinate Unified Commands. When authorized by SecDef through the CJCS, commanders of unified commands may establish subordinate unified commands to conduct operations continually IAW the criteria set forth for unified commands. DOD may establish a subordinate unified command on a geographic area or functional basis. Commanders of subordinate unified commands have functions and responsibilities as those of the commanders of unified commands. They exercise OPCON of assigned commands and forces and normally of attached forces in the assigned operational or functional area.

(3) JTFs. A JTF is a joint force constituted and designated by SecDef, a CCDR, a subordinate unified command commander, or an existing CJTF, to accomplish missions with specific objectives, which do not require centralized control of logistics. However, there may be situations where a CJTF may require directive authority for common support capabilities delegated by the CCDR. CCDRs may establish JTFs on a geographical area or functional basis. CCDRs can also establish JTFs based on a security challenge that focuses on specific threats that cross AOR boundaries or multiple noncontiguous geographic areas. The proper authority stands down a JTF when the JTF achieves the assigned objectives or receives a change of mission. A joint task force-state (JTF-State) may also establish under the C2 of their respective governor. This JTF-State will normally be a subordinate element under a National Guard (NG) joint force headquarters-state.

(4) There are several ways to form a JTF HQ. Normally, a CCMD may employ a Service component HQ or one of the Service component's existing subordinate HQs (e.g., Army corps, numbered air force, numbered fleet, or Marine expeditionary force) as the core of a JTF HQ and then augment that core with personnel and capabilities primarily

from the Services comprising the JTF and selected joint enablers. Also, the theater special operations command (TSOC) or a subordinate SOF HQ with the C2 capability can form the foundation for a JTF HQ. CCDRs verify the readiness of assigned Service HQ staff to establish, organize, and operate as a JTF-capable HQ. JTF HQ basing depends on the JTF mission, OE, and available capabilities and support. A JTF HQ can be land- or sea-based, with transitions between both basing options. CCDRs normally assign a JOA to a JTF. JTFs must be able to integrate effectively with USG departments and agencies, multinational partners, and indigenous and regional stakeholders. When direct participation by USG departments and agencies other than DOD is significant, the task force (TF) establishing authority may designate it as a joint interagency TF. The designation typically occurs when the other interagency partners have primacy and legal authority, and the JFC provides supporting capabilities, such as FHA and DSCA.

g. Forming and training the joint force HQ and task organizing the joint force can be challenging, particularly in escalatory and reactive situations. Joint forces must quickly adjust both operations and organization in response to planned operational transitions or unexpected situational transitions. Similarly, the JFC's mission will affect the echelon at which joint capabilities are best employed. Advances in areas ranging from communications and information sharing to munitions effectiveness make it possible to synchronize lower echelons of command in some situations without the risks and inefficiencies associated with fragmenting the assets themselves. JFCs should exploit such opportunities.

For further guidance on the formation and employment of a JTF HQ, refer to JP 3-33, Joint Force Headquarters.

h. **Component Options.** CCDRs and subordinate unified commanders conduct either single-Service or joint operations to accomplish a mission. All JFCs may conduct operations through their Service component commanders, lower-echelon Service force commanders, and functional component commanders. Further, functional and Service components of the joint force conduct supported, subordinate, and supporting operations, not independent campaigns.

i. **Service Components.** Regardless of the organization and command arrangements within joint commands, Service component commanders retain responsibility for certain Service-specific functions and other matters affecting their forces, including internal administration, personnel support, training, sustainment, and Service intelligence operations. Conducting operations through Service components can provide certain advantages up to a point, which include clear and uncomplicated command lines. This arrangement can be appropriate when stability, continuity, economy, ease of long-range planning, with a relatively narrow scope of operations, dictate organizational integrity of Service components. While sustainment remains a Service responsibility, there are exceptions such as arrangements described in Service support agreements, CCDR-directed common-user logistics lead Service, or DOD agency responsibilities.

j. **Functional Components.** The JFC can establish functional component commands to conduct operations when forces from two or more Services must operate in the same

physical domain or accomplish a distinct aspect of the assigned mission. These conditions apply when the scope of operations requires that the similar capabilities and functions of forces from more than one Service closely relate to objectives, and unity of command is a primary consideration. For example, functionally oriented components are useful when the scope of operations is large and the JFC's attention divides between major operations or phases of operations that are functionally specific. Functionally oriented components are useful when the scope of the campaign's subordinate operations is broad. Functional component commands are subordinate components of a joint force. Except for the joint force special operations component and joint special operations TF, functional components do not constitute a joint force with a JFC's authorities and responsibilities, even when composed of forces from two or more MILDEPs.

k. JFCs may conduct operations through functional components or employ them primarily to coordinate selected functions. The JFC will normally designate the Service component commander who has the preponderance of forces and the ability to exercise C2 over them as the functional component commander. However, the JFC considers the mission, nature, and duration of the operation, force capabilities, and C2 capabilities when selecting a commander. The establishment of a functional component commander must not affect the command relationship between Service component commanders and the JFC.

l. The functional component commander's staff composition should reflect the command's composition, so the staff has the required expertise to help the commander effectively employ the component's forces. Functional component staffs require advanced planning, certification, appropriate training, and frequent exercises for efficient operations. Liaison elements from and to other components facilitate coordination and support. Individual augmentees fill staff billets and when the commander forms the functional component staff for exercises and actual operations. The number of staff personnel should be appropriate for the mission and nature of the operation. The staff structure should be flexible enough to add or delete personnel and capabilities in changing conditions without losing effectiveness.

m. The JFC designates forces and military capabilities that will be available for tasking by the functional component commander and the appropriate command relationship(s). JFCs may also establish a support relationship between components to facilitate operations. Regardless, the establishing JFC defines the authority and responsibilities of functional component commanders based on the CONOPS, and the JFC may alter their authority and responsibilities during an operation.

n. **Combinations.** JFCs often organize their joint forces with a combination of Service and functional components. For example, joint forces organized with Service components normally have SOF organized under a JFSOCC, while their conventional air forces are organized under a JFACC. The JFC designates the authorities and responsibilities of functional component commanders based on the CONOPS.

o. **SOF Employment Options**

(1) JFCs use SOF independently, with conventional force support (since USC limits SOF combat support and combat service support) or integrated with conventional forces. SOF provides strategic options for national leaders and the CCMDs. In execution, SOF works through a global network that fully integrates military, interagency, and international partners. SOF is most effective when special operations integrate into the plan, and the execution of special operations is through proper SOF C2 elements employed intact.

(2) Commander, United States Special Operations Command (CDRUSSOCOM), synchronizes the planning of special operations and provides SOF to support persistent, networked, and distributed CCMD operations to protect and advance national interests.

(3) CDRUSSOCOM exercises COCOM of all SOF. CCDRs exercise OPCON of their supporting TSOCs and most often exercise OPCON of SOF deployed in their AORs. The establishing directive will define the command relationships between the special operations commands and JTF/TF commanders. A TSOC commander can be the JTF commander.

For more information on special operations, refer to JP 3-05, Joint Doctrine for Special Operations. For joint HQ augmentation options, there are various options available to augment a joint HQ that is forming for joint operations. See JP 3-33, Joint Force Headquarters, for more information.

p. **Organizing the Joint Force HQ.** Joint force HQs include those for unified, subordinate unified, and specified commands and JTFs. While each HQ organizes to accommodate the nature of the JFC's OA, mission, tasks, and preferences, all generally follow a traditional functional staff alignment (i.e., personnel, intelligence, operations, logistics, plans, and communications). The primary staff functional areas are also generally consistent with those at Service component HQs, which facilitate higher, lower, and lateral cross-command staff coordination and collaboration. Some HQs may combine functions under a staff principal, while other HQs may add staff principals. Based on the mission and other factors, some joint HQs may have additional primary staff organizations focused on areas such as engineering, force structure, resource, assessment, and CMO.

16. Partner Alignment

a. The US military cannot achieve acceptable and sustainable strategic objectives acting alone. Allies and partners are an important aspect of the global campaigns. In the conduct of military activities, the joint force may rely on partners to increase capacity, access unique capabilities and authorities, share intelligence, and extend operational reach to achieve objectives. However, many strategic challenges exist that military force cannot solve alone—especially in competition but also during post-combat consolidation and stabilization activities. Global integration uses a comprehensive approach, to include considerations of nonmilitary means to address these challenges and achieve operation-level objectives. Interorganizational partnerships are the sources of these means. The term “by, with, and through” describes how the joint force achieves military objectives alongside allies and partners. The partners may operate independently, with other allies

and partners cooperating in the same OE, and indirectly, and often non-overtly, through bilateral support to and cooperation with resistance partners, and unilaterally by employing surrogates operating under the direction and control of the JFC.

b. Collaborating with partners can increase the capability and capacity of the joint force and partners to achieve the JFC's objectives. Partnering is often a response to a problem, crisis, or opportunity that individual countries cannot respond to or address on their own. Furthermore, problems that are complex can motivate partnering to further understanding and collective problem solving. Successful partnering and collective action can change the direction of a complex, uncertain, and evolving situation. Partners are especially important in identifying and influencing HN attitudes toward friendly forces and threats. Partners can have information, intelligence, or established relationships that are essential to mission accomplishment.

c. Effective partnering achieves unity of effort. This partnering can include the ability to conduct operations and activities. Partnering can increase the effectiveness of interagency partners, international partners, and relations with HN groups who can provide assistance. The ability to leverage established relationships with domestic and foreign institutions, countries, or populations is often essential to the joint force accomplishing assigned missions. Partnering can potentially foster innovations by linking partners who may approach problems differently. Partnerships can also allow for greater responsiveness and flexibility, as partners may have greater authority or autonomy to respond to certain issues or quicker decision-making processes. This is enabled through sharing information, communications, and trust-based ownership of the problem. Best practices are shared among partners, and efforts should be made to identify shortfalls early and ensure accountability across partners.

d. The understanding and analysis of partners and friendly networks can be as important as it is for threats. While successful collaboration may not be sufficient to ensure success, lack of it can often ensure failure. It is essential to understand how partners assess threats (or the threat networks) and how they may prioritize them in the context of any other threats. This mapping may provide assessments of overlap and/or divergence of interests up front.

e. DOD facilitates and supports the participation of essential partners by embedding liaison elements to strengthen relationships, improve communication and information flow, and accelerate decision making. Beyond the USG, the joint force aligns efforts with allies and partners by developing common tactical, operational, and strategic approaches; conducting regular combined training and exercises; and assigning liaisons who are culturally astute and fluent in the partner's language. A commander's training and education reinforces a culture of collaboration. Training and education provide methods for building partnerships, absent the authority to compel teamwork. Partnership with the private sector is particularly important for CO, logistic support, and transportation. Partner alignment builds a common understanding and trust that facilitates global integration. Commercial support to operations can provide significant capability but may also pose inherent risk. Commercial capabilities support all layers of the global campaign such as

compete below the level of armed conflict, surge forces, defeat adversary aggression, and defend the homeland. JFCs should not expect assured access to commercial capabilities as the commercial sector is competitive and congested. Commanders using commercial support must assess and mitigate risk accordingly.

f. **Resilience.** Enemy capabilities have increased the need for a resilient joint force. The joint force achieves resiliency through iterations of experience, training, and education. Examples include professional military education and development, force protection measures, depth, exchangeability, interoperability, and dispersal so that a single attack cannot disable it. Depth provides the ability to replace capacity and capability with reserves and the industrial base to produce new assets. Exchangeability is substituting an asset for a lost one. JFCs employ multifunctional units and equipment. These units are modular and scalable, which increases exchangeability and operational flexibility. Dispersal eliminates vulnerability to a single point of failure. These considerations extend to the commercial infrastructure on which the joint force heavily depends, at home and abroad.

g. Force protection includes hardening physical barriers against attack and virtual barriers to protect against malicious cyberspace activity, EM pulse, and other disruptions.

CHAPTER V

THE COMPETITION CONTINUUM

1. Introduction

a. Competition is a fundamental aspect of international relations. As state and non-state actors seek to protect and advance their interests, they continually compete over incompatible aims. The Cold War was a clear example of the many facets of international competition. Rather than engaging in direct armed conflict with the other, each state fought through and with surrogates as an indirect means to achieve their strategic objectives. Yet, the two superpowers also cooperated, such as when both backed actions in the UN Security Council. Just as competitors can cooperate, friendly states can compete. Within an alliance, individual nations naturally seek to tilt policy in the direction most advantageous for their interests. Diplomats, trade representatives, and other members of the USG who regularly interact with foreign counterparts intuitively recognize that any strategic relationship mixes elements of both competition and cooperation. In general, competition is the interaction among actors in pursuit of the influence, advantage, and leverage necessary to advance and protect their respective interests. Competition is continuous because the conditions that define an acceptable state are constantly changing. Success requires perpetual adaptation in the application of all instruments of national power. There are four core elements of competition. The primary element is a nation's interests and the interrelated aspects are influence, advantage, and leverage through which a nation advances and protects its interests.

(1) Interests are qualities, principles, matters of self-preservation, and concepts that a nation or actor values and seeks to protect or achieve concerning other competitors. Interests are contextual and may include the maintenance of physical security, economic prosperity, continuity of government and culture at home, and value projection in the geopolitical environment, as well as emotional triggers (e.g., fear, honor, glory), and other drivers (e.g., virtual, cognitive) that animate action. Campaigning and interagency actions support a strategy framed by national interests that enables the USG to identify adversaries, threats, and opportunities to promote and protect those interests. An interest-led orientation, including understanding adversary interests more thoroughly, is the cornerstone of a comprehensive approach to competition.

(2) Influence is the ability to cause an effect in direct, indirect, or intangible ways. An actor can accumulate, spend, or lose influence. JFCs require informed assessments about the degrees of influence over another actor's understanding, locus of power, populations, interest groups, governance, grievances, and other strategic matters.

(3) Advantage is superiority of position or condition. States may create an advantage by the accumulation of influence toward the desired effect or acceptable condition. Inherently relative, a state realizes advantage through the exercise of the instruments of national power. An advantage may be comprised of physical or virtual aspects (e.g., technology, geographic access, resources, and arsenal inventories) as well as more nebulous, cognitive elements (e.g., initiative, momentum, morale, and skill).

Commanders establish advantage partially through activities generating recognizable qualitative or quantitative competitive advantage, such as during the Cold War strategic arms race.

(4) Leverage is the application of advantage gained to create an effect or exploit an opportunity. From a position of leverage, an actor is more capable of promoting and protecting its interests. Leverage also involves applying deep understanding of other actors and the strategic environment to increase the likelihood and scope of success.

b. Many aspects of strategic competition between the United States and other major powers take form through nonmilitary and noncoercive activities. Competitors are seeking influence and control over developments both within their regions and within peripheries. To do this, they can implement strategies of co-optation and attraction as they are often more effective than coercion. These actions may present or appear to be altruistic but always serve the initiator's interests, even when the recipient benefits. Moreover, some activities provide leverage in both categories—a form of attraction that can become coercive if necessary. The core US strategy in the Cold War reflects this complex mixture of approaches. In its most fundamental aspects, it was attractive. The United States offered access to an economic market, including the leading economies of the world, a powerful source of cultural appeal, democratic values, and other factors that created a gravitational effect for countries pursuing their economic and political self-interest.

c. A comprehensive approach to competition recognizes the importance of noncoercive strategies in gaining a competitive advantage. Targeting only a rival's coercive activities is not enough. If a peer competitor has success with attractive measures, it will rarely need to apply coercive measures. Successful competition requires clear strategies and tools optimized to oppose the attractive aspects of an adversary's approach as well as counter their coercive measures and intimidation.

ATTRACTION: A COMPETITIVE ADVANTAGE

A traditional message is that association with the United States and our alliances and trade agreements offer a far more attractive option for a nation's security and prosperity. Attraction can be a powerful message and an effective approach. Currently, the United States faces competitors that are doing their best to create a version of the same attractive strategy. Their core approach to competition is through economic means, using the magnet of their markets and the trading relationships and more targeted benefits of their foreign direct investments and foreign aid. Adversaries can turn these same tools into coercive means through economic sanctions and hostile information campaigns. A preferred approach is one of assurance, persuasion, attraction, and mutual benefit rather than coercion, subversion, or intimidation.

Various Sources

d. The current OE requires a more nuanced consideration than a simple peace and war binary model. Strategic competitors, operating below the threshold of armed conflict, employ a mixture of instruments of national power to achieve significant strategic advantages. They act in a manner calculated not only to avoid triggering a legal right to respond by force but to attract and persuade other states to align with their interests. Civilian and military leadership need to recognize and understand how to describe and participate in this competitive OE effectively.

2. Competition Continuum Overview

a. The competition continuum describes a world of enduring competition conducted through a mixture of cooperation, competition, and armed conflict. These descriptors refer to the relationship between the United States and another strategic actor (state or non-state) concerning a set of specific policy objectives. This description allows for simultaneous interaction with the same strategic actor at different points along the competition continuum. For instance, the United States might be in a state of competition with a strategic competitor regarding some interests, such as freedom of navigation in disputed areas, and cooperation in others, such as counter-piracy. By providing a lexicon to describe this complexity, the competition continuum facilitates shared understanding, both within DOD and with the interagency partners who often have a leading role. The lexicon enables better and more precise communication, planning, and decision making.

b. Elements of the Competition Continuum

(1) **Cooperation.** Situations in which joint forces take actions with another strategic partner in pursuit of policy objectives. Cooperation does not preclude some element of competition or even armed conflict when their objectives are not in complete alignment. Within cooperation, joint force actions may include SC activities, multinational training and exercises, information sharing, personnel exchange programs, and other military engagement activities. Military cooperation may also occur in the form of multinational operations and activities during armed conflict or competition.

(2) **Competition.** Competition is when joint forces or multinational forces take actions outside of armed conflict against a state or non-state adversary in pursuit of policy objectives, but neither seeks armed conflict. These actions are typically nonviolent and conducted under greater legal or policy constraints than in armed conflict but can include lethal and nonlethal actions by the joint force or sponsorship of surrogates or partners. Competition does not preclude some cooperation in other areas. Competition may include diplomatic and economic activities, political subversion, intelligence and CI activities, CO, OIE, special operations, and other nonviolent or intermediate force activities to achieve mutually incompatible objectives while seeking to avoid armed conflict. Joint force actions may include combinations of offense, defense, and stabilization activities; SC activities; MISO; freedom of navigation exercises; and other nonviolent military engagement activities. Competition does not preclude armed conflict or cooperation in other areas. Concurrent with competition, state or non-state forces may engage in forms of armed conflict (e.g., external support of an insurgency, COIN, or resistance movement).

(3) **Armed Conflict/War.** Armed conflict/war occurs when military forces take actions against an enemy in hostilities or declared war. International law distinguishes armed conflict from disturbances (e.g., riots, violent protests) by the intensity of the conflict and the organization of the parties.

c. The competition continuum describes, from the joint force perspective, the environment in which the United States applies the instruments of national power (i.e., diplomatic, informational, military, and economic) to achieve objectives. In practice, all instruments of national power should function together as an interrelated and integrated whole.

d. Cooperation, competition, and armed conflict can, and often do, occur simultaneously. Cooperation is a feature of nearly every significant military action because the joint force rarely operates unilaterally in any significant operation or campaign. In an interconnected world, there are few circumstances in which a major joint force activity does not have some ramifications for competition with at least one of the US's global or regional rivals. Cooperation and competition are always occurring, and the presence or absence of armed conflict is normally the only variable element. In either case, the joint force will be conducting cooperative activities with partners and competitive activities below armed conflict to counter adversaries who are seeking to turn the competition or conflict to their advantage. The joint force is never solely in cooperation but instead campaigns through a mixture of cooperation, competition, and armed conflict calculated to achieve the desired strategic objectives.

e. Description of Key Terms

(1) Cooperation

(a) Collaborate Selectively. Cooperate with a partner (who is often a competitor elsewhere) to achieve a specific objective.

(b) Maintain. Sustain an open-ended cooperative relationship with an ally or partner and secure bilateral advantage but without a significant increase in resources or commitment.

(c) Advance. Establish and improve an open-ended cooperative relationship with an ally or partner by significantly increasing resources or commitment.

(2) Competition

(a) Counter. Proactively challenge and prevent the competitor from achieving incompatible objectives, without causing an escalation to armed conflict.

(b) Enhance. Actively seek to achieve strategic objectives; improve relative strategic or military advantage.

(c) Contest. Maintain relative strategic or military advantage to ensure the competitor achieves no further gains; only seek to improve the US advantage, when possible, with existing resources and in a manner that does not jeopardize interests elsewhere.

(d) Limit. Minimize the adversary's gains. Achieve the best possible strategic objective within given resources or policy constraints, recognizing that this lesser objective entails the risk that the competitor will achieve further gains.

(3) Armed Conflict

(a) Defeat. Create a temporary condition where the enemy cannot achieve its operational-level objectives due to loss of capability or will.

(b) Deny. Frustrate the strategic objectives of the enemy.

(c) Degrade. To the greatest extent possible, reduce the enemy's ability and will, within resource constraints and acceptable risk.

(d) Disrupt. Temporarily interrupt the enemy's activities or the effectiveness of enemy organizations.

3. Cooperation

a. Cooperation can be an enduring activity where the relationship with the ally or partner is in place and will continue for the foreseeable future. However, cooperation in specific areas with a partner whose overall relationship with the United States is neutral or even adversarial may be necessary. Cooperative activities can take many forms, like counterpiracy activities, capability and capacity building through security force assistance (SFA) or conducting multinational operations in armed conflict. The common thread is that joint campaigns and operations through cooperation are purposeful activities to achieve or maintain policy objectives.

b. Joint campaigns and operations during cooperation require productive relationships. A partnership is unlikely to reach its potential if the joint force approaches military engagement as discrete events rather than as part of a deliberate, continuous process. Commanders and staffs develop an understanding of the OE, a realistic appraisal of the partners' objectives, and the nature of the partners' relationship with the United States to derive a range of feasible and productive military and nonmilitary options that lead to sustainable and acceptable outcomes. If done well, the resulting relationships can yield immediate tactical and operational benefits as well as enduring benefits, such as the increased commitment of a foreign military to the rule of law or greater willingness to assist US efforts. Though the immediate benefits of cooperative relationships are not always apparent, history demonstrates that long-term relationships can pay dividends in unanticipated ways.

c. Cooperation aids efforts in competition and armed conflict by integrating the contributions of partners and allies. Cooperation is not subordinate to competition. If credible, these actions reassure the partner of US capability and intentions, making the partner more likely to deepen the cooperation. This can lead to increased intelligence sharing, allowing greater US presence, or more closely integrating its air defenses into a regional network. If cooperation creates a more favorable situation in the region, then it counters the adversary's pursuit of their objectives. Simply put, cooperation is the US asymmetric response to competition. Rather than exchanging like-for-like responses with adversaries that operate under fewer restrictions on their actions, cooperation exploits the joint forces' competitive advantages as a partner of choice.

4. Competition

a. Competition tends to occur over extended periods of time. In comparison to armed conflict, actions are often more indirect, risks are different, and the expenditure of resources less intense, thus allowing for a more protracted effort. Generally, successful competition requires an appropriate alignment and blend of multiple instruments of national power. As an inherently constrained and measured approach, coercion is not generally used by competitors requiring quick results. For the joint force to successfully campaign through competition, it may adopt a similar long-term approach but one nuanced and flexible enough to react to rapid changes in the strategic environment. These competing demands create challenges for commanders and staffs who work through processes to employ military forces that operate on different, and often stringent, time horizons. The JFCs identify and request authorities and permissions for actions, activities, additional access, sharing information, and coordination with interorganizational partners. JFCs maneuver to set conditions to enable the maximum range of options to accommodate and respond to changing political and diplomatic situations.

b. The methods employed in competition will vary with the situation, but successful action will feature several characteristics. First, the joint force begins with the best possible understanding of the relevant actors and how they will perceive the action. Second, the joint force and its partners should conduct a broad array of activities: dynamic force employment, establish access to critical areas, forward position units, establish an appropriate and timely presence, organize exercises, share intelligence, prepare the OE for a response to a contingency, and conduct OIE, to include efforts to counter and undermine the adversary's narrative. Third, the joint force and its partners ensure the creative and flexible conduct of activities within a fluid situation. Fourth, the joint force conducts continual assessment of the adversary's intentions and capabilities, as these aspects will change over time. To have tangible effects on an adversary's behavior, it is essential to have a deep understanding of their perceptions and decision making. Additionally, the joint force facilitates the close alignment of diplomatic, informational, and military efforts. Finally, in comparison to armed conflict, competition can use indirect rather than direct use of military power.

c. The enduring nature of competition poses unique challenges for the consolidation of strategic objectives. Local successes rarely mean the end of the larger competition and few gains are reliably permanent. In this context, consolidation is an ongoing effort to

protect and advance national interests and position the joint force for the next evolution of competition.

d. Competition reflects a choice by the USG to pursue policy objectives while constraining military actions, so they remain short of armed conflict. Though this competition will typically be against an adversary that has also resolved to compete below armed conflict, the two competitors will rarely be equal in willingness to commit resources and accept risk. This policy asymmetry is a defining feature of competition below armed conflict. When the United States is more committed than the adversary, the joint force seeks to translate the operational advantage of greater resources and risk acceptance to achieve strategic objectives. When the adversary is willing to exert greater effort than the United States, the joint force seeks the best possible outcome under the circumstances.

5. Armed Conflict/War

a. Armed conflict can be an extensive and comprehensive effort in terms of scale, scope, and totality. Joint forces integrate capabilities across CCMDs to conduct combat operations and defeat the enemy's capabilities, strategy, and will. However, even during periods of armed conflict, success depends on the effective conduct of ongoing cooperative and competitive activities. Commanders and staff recognize the interrelated nature of these various elements. Civilian and military leaders should regard these elements as an integrated effort. In some instances, this might mean adopting what would normally be a suboptimal military COA in relation to armed conflict to bolster the US position within a cooperative relationship with an ally or concerning a third-party competitor.

b. The joint force should also campaign in armed conflict with a long-term view toward the transition period following the end of the main period of armed conflict. Rarely do wars cease with an immediate and complete end of armed conflict. Wars disrupt political, social, and economic structures, networks, and institutions, so it is often impossible to return to a pre-conflict state. Destruction of government and societal institutions can create conditions for intense competition among internal, regional, and global actors seeking to retain or gain power, status, or strategic advantage within a new order. Thus, the joint force might fight in an armed conflict against enemy combatants who become guerrillas, warlords, or criminal militias. Global or regional competitors can then exploit these conditions by supporting these groups as partners or surrogates to continue the armed conflict. Therefore, the immediate "post-war" period still requires the joint force to campaign through a mixture of cooperation, competition below armed conflict, and armed conflict. Violent, chaotic transitions are more difficult when significant resources withdraw and redeploy because perceptions of an idealistic "peace" has returned. Another significant complication is that ongoing military activities may be essential to maintaining an acceptable security situation but may support the activities of other USG departments or agencies or interorganizational partners.

6. The Competition Continuum and Deterrence

a. Deterrence applies across the competition continuum, though in different fashions according to the situation. Deterrence applies to cooperation. US cooperation with various

allies and partners can serve as a deterrent of aggression by others. This cooperation ideally serves to deter subversion, coercion, or open aggression against the United States and potentially against others within the partnership or network through an understanding or perception of the potential negative implications of their actions.

b. Deterrence in competition has a similar nuance and may be harder to judge. For instance, if an adversary supports a surrogate in a neighboring country, this is not proof that deterrence has failed. The adversary might have preferred to make an overt incursion but concluded the risks were too great. In that case, successful integrated deterrence of armed conflict led to competition. Perhaps the adversary might have employed surrogates or partners, but successful intelligence and SC between the United States and an ally caused them to conclude such operations would be fruitless, so they confined their actions to propaganda to discredit the United States. Once again, the act of competition may be the result of successful deterrence rather than its failure. In addition, as with armed conflict, the joint force can deter future actions in competition below armed conflict by effectively responding to current challenges. If the United States' counter to an adversary's use of surrogates or partners drives failure, then other adversaries might not resort to similar methods in the future.

c. During armed conflict, integrated deterrence continues and requires effort and consideration. In other instances, integrated deterrence must unfold over extended periods. The joint force seeks to deter a conventional attack against a partner or ally. However, even if that occurs, it is still possible to deter the attacker from expanding the war geographically (by attacking US installations elsewhere) or using certain forms of weapons (e.g., WMD). In some cases, deterrence may fail because an adversary miscalculates the United States' will or capability. If the adversary's actions stall or collapse, the deterrence might influence future adversaries from taking similar risks.

CHAPTER VI

JOINT CAMPAIGNS AND OPERATIONS IN COOPERATION AND ADVERSARIAL COMPETITION

1. Introduction

a. The joint force rarely operates unilaterally. In any significant campaign, cooperation is a feature of nearly every substantive military action. In an interconnected world, most major joint force activity includes some ramifications for competition with a global or regional rival or adversary. Cooperation and competition are perpetual. The joint force conducts cooperative activities with allies and partners and competitive activities to counter adversaries who seek to turn the competition to their advantage. Competition between states is the natural order and may not always have adversarial or malign characteristics. Many aspects of strategic competition between the United States and other major powers can be attractive and noncoercive activities. As competitors seek to influence and control developments both within their regions and periphery, proposals of collaboration and attraction are often more effective than coercion. No matter how rewarding the offer seems, these actions are not altruistic and serve the initiator's interests. In many cases, these overtures provide leverage that can become coercive, such as threats to decrease aid or to reduce trade. A comprehensive approach to competition should account for the importance of noncoercive strategies in gaining a competitive advantage. Targeting only an adversary's coercive activities is not enough. Successful cooperation and competition require clear strategies and tools optimized to increase resilience, influence, advantage, and leverage while countering adversaries' strategies of appeal and coercion. The role of the joint force in cooperation and competition may be to support USG efforts to compete successfully. The joint force's primary responsibility is to achieve operational objectives that establish conditions that enable other USG departments and agencies to achieve strategic objectives.

b. Cooperative elements of global campaigns are typically enduring activities without discrete start or endpoints. Cooperation may entail some combination of strengthening ties with an ally or partner and advancing a broader theater or global strategy. The joint force typically consolidates gains in cooperation through sustained military engagement with partners. In some cases, however, limited or selective interaction might be either necessary or preferable. JFCs should apply best practices as broadly applicable, even as the statutory and policy guidance governing SC continues to evolve.

c. Competition arises when one actor chooses to challenge the status quo or existing norms while another chooses to resist. The intensity with which either chooses to press the competition will often change in response to their perceptions of the other's intent and will. Thus, a rigid, pre-determined course of military action will often be unsuitable for competition, which can drive rapid shifts in the OE. These shifts create numerous challenges for the joint force as establishing the necessary conditions for employing military forces—administrative and logistical preparations. Effective actions in competition include the granting of appropriate authorities and orders, securing access,

coordination with interorganizational partners, and securing and executing funds, which requires considerable time.

2. Global Integration of Cooperation and Competition

a. JFCs account for external considerations such as the desired conditions that cooperation should create the nature of the relevant relationships and the potential partner's willingness and capacity. Commanders also account for internal considerations such as the interests, objectives, and priorities of other contributing USG departments and agencies; resource limitations; relevant statutory or policy restrictions on the amount, categories, and purposes of US SC expenditure; and other policy on SC that is relevant to the specific situation. Just as in armed conflict, the employment of the military instrument of national power, in concert with interagency partner efforts, seeks to achieve operational objectives in pursuit of strategic objectives. The duration is important because the most productive cooperative relationships take time to build and are unlikely to reach their potential if conducted as a series of episodic or discrete events.

b. As the force campaigns through cooperation, military leaders and planners understand and assess the character of the US relationship with each partner. In practice, bilateral relations are complex and include many subordinate elements. As they span many different activities, these relationships may be multifaceted. For instance, with a smaller, developing country, intelligence agencies might have a deliberately distant relationship, while the Air Force might have a limited relationship based on partner capacity. In contrast, the Army might have an extensive relationship due to partner contributions to international efforts aligned with the United States.

c. Projecting US military force invariably requires extensive use of international waters, international airspace, orbital space, and cyberspace. Cooperation helps assure allies and maintain operational access despite changing US overseas defense posture and the growth of A2/AD capabilities around the globe. A CCMD can promote favorable conditions across the globe by aligning interests and pursuing mutual objectives. Relevant CCMD activities include KLEs, such as bilateral and multinational exercises, and missions to train, advise, and equip foreign forces to improve their capability, capacity, and national institutions. Negotiations to secure basing and transit rights can help establish relationships and formalize support agreements. The use of grants and contracts to improve relationships can enhance resiliency, cooperative planning conferences, and multinational plans.

(1) Assessment of CCPs adds to DOD's depth of understanding of an environment; a partner's viewpoint of that OE; and where the United States, allies, and partners have common interests. This understanding allows the United States to use the relationships effectively across the OE. These initiatives help advance national security objectives, promote stability, prevent conflicts (or limit their severity), and reduce the risk of employing US military forces in a conflict.

(2) Partnerships can enhance the USG understanding of an adversary's capabilities and intent. In the best case, the USG and PNs cooperative action can avert the rise and diminish the risk of armed conflict.

3. Considerations for Cooperation

a. Cooperation enables and reinforces adversarial competition and armed conflict by integrating the contributions of partners and allies. When, in discussion with allies and partners, commanders identify mutual concerns and opportunities to pursue beneficial pursuits between states surrounding a specific interest or set of interests and adjust details for implementation. JFCs leverage the interrelations of different groups and organizations and their impact on relevant cooperative activities within a broader political, economic, and cultural context. JFCs determine a cooperative approach and identify the most effective tools and how best to employ those tools to support mutual concerns. As situations continue to evolve, so do the discussion and adaptation of mutual concerns between states. Cooperation enables competition and armed conflict. Particularly where an adversary seeks to overturn the existing security order, efforts to limit or counter these actions are more effective through cooperation with partners that seek to build resilience against subversion and capacity to resist coercion and deter violent attack. Through cooperative measures, the joint force ensures the continuance of mutual pursuits with established allies or supports the initiation of new partnerships. In this role, commanders do not seek to coerce an adversary or intervene in a situation in any martial way. The joint force's presence and a JFC's maneuver and actions are a signal to adversaries. Presence for cooperation seeks to reduce the likelihood of a crisis and mitigate the consequences if one occurs. In cooperation, joint force employment should not represent a show of support to one partner over other cooperative partners. Through cooperation, the joint force symbolizes and manifests a desire or willingness to obtain, strengthen, or solidify a relationship. The degree and tempo of individual operations, activities, and investments with a specific state represent the relationship's level of maturity. These cooperative relationships have unique qualities and provide great value. Just as important, cooperative arrangements provide essential contributions in adversarial competition below armed conflict and armed conflict for both the United States and the partner.

b. Cooperative activities include a broad scope of military engagement and SC activities within the CCP. Cooperation may also involve FHA and CMO. United States Northern Command and United States Indo-Pacific Command may cooperate with federal, state, and interorganizational authorities while performing DSCA. These activities generally occur continuously in a CCMD's AOR in parallel with other ongoing operations. In many instances, the military cooperates to support efforts of interagency partners and international organizations to achieve broader USG objectives. Military engagement and SC activities usually involve a combination of military forces and capabilities aligned with the efforts of interorganizational participants. The joint force executes these activities as part of a CCP and country plan objectives.

c. Cooperation includes mutually beneficial relationships with strategic partners with similar or compatible interests. Although interests will rarely be in complete alignment, fundamentally cooperative relations are strategically important for the United States because they underpin the international order, enhance collective security, help to ensure access, enable burden sharing, and deter conflict. In cooperation, the joint force works conscientiously and purposefully with others to achieve mutually beneficial outcomes. Efforts intended to strengthen ties and improve the security capabilities of allies and

partners support objectives of the GCPs and CCPs. Considerations for effective cooperative activities include:

- (1) Identification of the conditions JFCs can create within the security environment that favor US interests.
- (2) Recognition of the state and character of US partner relationships.
- (3) Determination of our partners' propensity, likelihood, and capacity to act in a manner aligned with our interests.
- (4) Conduct interest mapping with allies and partners over mutual concerns and opportunities.
- (5) Comprehension of other USG departments and agencies' interests, objectives, and priorities with respect to the specific circumstance.
- (6) Understanding the amount, scope, categories, and purposes of all the US foreign assistance funding Congress planned for the relevant area(s).
- (7) Analysis of how the joint force can most aptly apply the existing authorities and resources to the specific area and issue.

d. There is nothing routine concerning cooperation. The environment is dynamic and demands critical understanding and constant reassessment of the targets, objectives, and the results of cooperative efforts. These considerations enable JFCs to organize a campaign in these conditions and run throughout preparation, execution, and assessment. They underpin and characterize proactive methods and measures. A detailed description of each consideration follows.

(1) Identify Future Conditions. Commanders identify the required future conditions that favor US interests. Additionally, commanders develop expectations for cooperation with allies and partners. Purposes for cooperation are usually in the context of seeking favorable and beneficial conditions of a specific security environment. These are:

(a) Cooperate selectively. When cooperation may be transactional, commanders critically assess the objective of the cooperation and the conditions under which the United States chooses to cooperate. Cooperation can be to maintain a broader relationship, transactionally targeted toward the maintenance of a critical US objective or a combination where the interests of partners may diverge with the sole aim of achieving US objectives when the maintenance of a larger relationship with the partner is not desirable or worthwhile.

(b) Maintain. Cooperate to maintain relationships and secure bilateral advantage but without a significant increase in resources or commitment unless strictly in accord with overriding US interests.

(c) Advance. Expand cooperative activities most appropriately (e.g., building partner capacity, increasing interoperability, and expanding joint force access) to achieve US objectives while also enabling or advancing partner interests.

(2) Recognizing the Character of Current Relationships. In addition to determining the desired condition, military leaders and planners will normally exercise long-standing or emerging relationships to pursue those conditions. Many relationships are mature and enduring, while others are nascent or merely transactional. Recognizing the state or character of those relationships relative to the United States and the preferred condition is key. At other times, the United States realizes it does not have the necessary relationship to address a certain interest, and therefore, must establish one.

(3) State of Partners' National Power and Propensities. CCDRs determine whether a partner's propensity has a strong tendency to take action that aligns with US interests. CCDRs establish expectations based on a partner's similar interests. This propensity may be a function of a state's control over its sovereignty and the capacity of its governing institutions. The propensity ranges from a well-established state to a fragile state with little to no functioning institutions and whose sovereignty is under duress from both internal and external influences.

(4) Identify Mutual Concerns. JFCs conduct interest mapping with allies and partners over mutual concerns and opportunities. Interest mapping is recognizing mutual concerns and beneficial pursuits between states surrounding a specific interest or set of interests. Successful mapping aids JFCs in negotiating and adjusting details for implementation. Military and civilian leaders focus on the interrelations of different groups and organizations and their impact on relevant cooperative activities. Interest mapping considers the competing priorities of allies and partners that may override their mutual interest with the joint force and recognize likely situations when and where this might occur. Interest mapping informs the cooperative approach and identifies the most effective tools and how best to employ those tools. As situations continually evolve, commanders should consider interest mapping as a continuous aspect of execution and assessment.

(5) Understand and align with other USG Departments and Agencies' Interests. Other USG departments and agencies will have direct or indirect interests, objectives, and priorities concerning the objectives. The integration of activities across the interagency partners is a normal occurrence. The key is being able to understand and appreciate other USG priorities, objectives, and their associated activities that may well have a bearing on the joint force's desired outcomes. For greater cooperation, the joint force may assure an ally or partner, enhance interoperability to meet mutually agreed upon security objectives, collectively deter an adversary, or even prepare for conflict.

(6) Understanding US Foreign Assistance Funding. The United States provides foreign assistance in response to global needs, assists people overseas struggling to build a

better life, and makes the world safer. Commanders comprehend where the United States is committing foreign assistance funding and effort in a manner or region that affects regional security situations. Foreign assistance is aid given by the United States to other countries to support global cooperation, security, and development efforts and, when necessary, provide humanitarian response and relief. The joint force has a role in implementing or maintaining the conditions to implement these programs effectively. In simpler terms, foreign assistance is the unilateral transfers of US resources (funds, goods, and services) by the USG to or for the benefit of foreign entities (including international and regional organizations) without any reciprocal payment or transfer of resources from the foreign entities. Foreign assistance is not merely funds or commodities; it also includes the provision of technical assistance, capacity building, training, education, and other services, as well as the direct costs required to implement foreign assistance. JFCs understand the DOD SC guidelines and determine which of these applies to the circumstance and the condition the joint force will pursue. These areas contract and expand over time. Current guidance outlines these focus areas, but the USG can revise these at any time. Typical and historical programs for cooperation are:

- (a) Capacity building.
- (b) Operational capacity and capability building.
- (c) Human capacity and human capital development.
- (d) Institutional capacity and security sector reform (SSR).
- (e) Support for institutional capacity and civil-sector capacity building.
- (f) Combined operations capacity, interoperability, and standardization.
- (g) Facilitating access and relationships.
- (h) Gaining operational access and global freedom of action.
- (i) Intelligence and information sharing.
- (j) Assurance and regional confidence building.
- (k) International armaments cooperation.
- (l) International suasion and collaboration.

(7) Apply Existing Authorities and Resources to Specific Situations. CCDRs analyze how best to apply existing authorities and resources toward specific GCP and CCP objectives, enabling the joint force to organize the essential and optimal capabilities to foster favorable conditions, leverage initiative to take advantage of opportunities, anticipate and preclude deteriorating conditions, and respond to malign influences or

dramatic shifts to international order. As such, joint force efforts can, over time, help inoculate against and build resilience within these environments to detrimental consequences.

e. Military Engagement

(1) Military engagement is the deliberate contact and interaction between individuals or elements of the Armed Forces of the United States and those of another nation's armed forces or foreign and domestic civilian authorities or agencies. The purpose is to build trust and confidence, share information, coordinate mutual activities, and maintain influence. Military engagement occurs across the competition continuum. DOD engages its interorganizational partners as a component of national engagement efforts among individuals and/or elements of the USG to interact with foreign partners to protect and advance shared or complementary strategic interests. In addition to supporting CCPs, DOD military engagement supports national-level engagement strategies and plans. It also aligns with the engagement plans and programs of DOS, USAID, and other USG departments and agencies.

(2) Military engagement includes SC, CMO, and other interactions with foreign security forces (FSF), institutions, populations, and other relevant foreign actors; interagency partners and US domestic civilian authorities and populations; international organizations and NGOs; and the private sector. Military engagement activities usually involve coordinating, synchronizing, or integrating a combination of military forces and capabilities with the efforts of interorganizational partners.

(3) CCMDs seek out partners and communicate with adversaries to discover areas of common interest and tension. This military engagement increases the knowledge base for subsequent decisions and resource allocation. Such military engagements can reduce tensions. If armed conflict is unavoidable, long-term military engagement may enable a more informed USG to face any conflict with stronger alliances or coalitions.

f. SC

(1) SC encompasses all DOD interactions with foreign defense establishments that promote specific US security interests. JFCs use SC to develop allied and PN military and security capabilities for self-defense, facilitate multinational operations, and provide US forces with routine and contingency access to allied and PNs.

(2) SC typically occurs within USG security sector assistance (SSA) with allies and partners. Presidential Policy Directive (PPD)-23, *Security Sector Assistance*, establishes DOS as the lead integrator for all interagency assistance provided to a PN. SSA requires DOD to coordinate its SC policies, programs, and activities with DOS and other USG representatives to ensure unity of effort toward US strategic objectives. SSR, by contrast, is a comprehensive set of programs and activities that an ally or partner undertakes to improve the way it provides safety, security, and justice in its security sector. When

assisting an ally or partner that is carrying out SSR, the USG views this support as SSA. Hence, SC is DOD's contribution to USG SSA efforts.

For more information on SSA and SSR, see JP 3-20, Security Cooperation.

(3) SC is a key element of cooperative activities and communication synchronization at the strategic, operational, and tactical levels. Throughout the competition continuum, the joint force relies on allies and partners to apply their capabilities, provide access, or promote US interests. DOD brings about these outcomes through SC activities that include military engagements and developmental activities (organize, train, equip, build, and advise), as well as by administering various SC and security assistance (SA) programs that enable these activities. SC activities and the programs that support them are reinforcing and complementary, which CCDRs employ at all points along the competition continuum.

(a) Military Engagements. Joint forces conduct military engagements with FSF and their supporting institutions to improve relationships, interoperability, and decision making at the appropriate levels; military engagements also include joint force interactions with interagency or other stakeholders to enable SC.

(b) Developmental Activities. These activities occur in cooperation with FSF—from the ministerial/department level down to the tactical unit level.

1. SFA. SFA is the set of DOD SC activities that support the development of the capacity and capabilities of FSF and their supporting institutions, whether of a PN or an international organization (e.g., regional security organization), in support of US objectives.

2. Institutional Capacity Building (ICB). ICB comprises SC activities typically conducted at the department, staff/Service HQ, and related agency/supporting entity level to develop the strategic and operational aspects of the security institution. ICB is development that improves the FSF's ability to plan, develop, fund, acquire, man, employ, and sustain capabilities that can address shared challenges that are of mutual benefit to the United States and the ally or partner.

(c) Enabling SC Programs (to include SA programs).

1. SC programs represent an established joint process or plan allowed by authorization or appropriation, or group of authorizations and appropriations, which enable the use of DOD components in support of objectives. These programs include defense contacts and familiarization, personnel exchanges, combined exercises and training, train-and-equip/provision defense articles, and operational support, as well as defense ICB.

2. SA is a group of programs that provides defense articles, military training, and other defense-related services by grant, loan, credit, or cash sales to foreign

allies and partners to advance national policies and objectives. SA programs are funded and authorized through DOS and administered by DOD through the Defense Security Cooperation Agency.

(d) Countering Weapons of Mass Destruction (CWMD). The primary purpose of CWMD is to enable PNs to plan and build indigenous capabilities that deter WMD threats and incidents, conduct operational preparation of the environment, and response preparation. JFCs orient CWMD efforts toward the three areas of preventing acquisition, containing and reducing threats, and preparing to respond to a crisis. The JFCs' efforts include activities conducted across the USG to counter efforts to coerce or attack the United States, its Armed Forces, allies, partners, and interests with chemical, biological, radiological, or nuclear weapons.

For more information, see JP 3-40, Joint Countering Weapons of Mass Destruction.

(e) Counterdrug (CD) Operations. CD operations provide DOD support to LEAs to detect, monitor, and counter the production, trafficking, and use of illegal drugs. DOD supports federal, state, and local LEAs. JFCs provide support to CD operations. JFCs follow specific DOD authorities that pertain to CD activities and operations contained in Title 10, USC, Sections 124 and 371-382. Discussion of similar authorities can be found in DODI 3025.21, *Defense Support of Civilian Law Enforcement Agencies*.

For additional guidance on CD operations, refer to JP 3-07.4, Counterdrug Operations.

(4) SC Execution

(a) CCDRs' orders initiate execution of the CCP, which includes the country-specific security cooperation sections/country plans and supporting components' plans. The order may not authorize the entire execution of all SC activities. Collaborative planning among the security cooperation organization (SCO), PN, DOD component(s), OSD, Defense Security Cooperation Agency, DOS regional and functional bureaus, COMs, and CCMD results in the timely release of authorities and orders for synchronized execution of the approved and funded SC activities throughout a CCMD's AOR. Effective monitoring provides situational awareness of the status and progress of SC activities. Evaluation is a systematic process that analyzes the overall effectiveness of investing USG resources into building a partner's capacity or capability. Preparation and site surveys require authorities and funds for execution such as deployment, movement, sustainment, protection, C2, and other preparations months before the actual SC activities begin with the PN.

1. Campaign orders and supporting fragmentary orders issued by CCDRs or a component commander can update or adjust the execution of a CCP and its supporting component plans. CCMDs work with the other DOD components which provide forces, funds, and other resources, in coordination with the SCO and Defense Security Cooperation Agency. The CCMDs provide necessary direction, assessment, monitoring, evaluation, and, when possible, any adjustments to the planned SC activities.

The COM, JFC, and component commanders normally use the SCO as a point of contact for coordinating with the PN representatives before direct coordination between the United States and PN participants. The supported and supporting JFCs and component commanders ensure a chain of command with appropriate command relationships and reporting procedures. Once granted direct liaison authority by the CCMD through the component commands, the forces executing SC activities will normally work directly with the PN and SCO, keeping their parent and Service HQ informed. At the tactical level, forces plan and execute SC under the coordination authority of the SCOs, which will coordinate with the supported CCMD and keep the COM and country team informed. Forces will likely provide situation reports to and through their units and higher HQ to the component command HQ and the supporting CCMD, as required. Socium is the mandated system of record for SC and is a tool for collaborative planning, executing, evaluating, and assessing of SC activities.

2. The CCMD, DOS regional and functional bureaus, and COMs normally share a common understanding of objectives and priorities, but they have institutional perspectives on how to do things. The COM has the final decision concerning US activity in a specific country. The COM focuses primarily on the PN, while the CCMD focuses on the AOR; coordination for the planning and execution of SC activities must consider a balance of these perspectives and interests. The CCMD should coordinate SC efforts, to include planning and execution timelines, at least annually among the country teams with the SCOs, the component commands, PNs, and others who may contribute to SC-related activities (e.g., allies and international organizations).

3. Implementing organizations execute SC activities under the direction of the component command plans in support of the CCP objectives. Implementing organizations may be individuals or any component element or combination of elements of a joint force—military forces from the Active Component or Reserve Component, USG civilians, and contractors. While implementing organizations may plan and coordinate their activities with the component command HQ and the CCMD, they will normally work directly with the SCO during execution.

(b) Services

1. The Services' Title 10, USC, responsibilities to organize, train, equip, and resource Service component commands enable and support the conduct of SC activities. The Services support their Service component commands' execution of SC activities in support of CCMD objectives based on the available Service capabilities and resources. The CCMD should work together with service components in establishing the objectives and priorities of the CCP. These activities include senior leader defense contacts and familiarization, foreign participation or attendance at Service schools, cooperative research and development programs, foreign comparative testing, and equipping activities.

2. Various Service-to-Service memoranda of understanding and memoranda of agreement govern, inform, or shape Service SC activities with PNs. These include agreements governing exchange for LNOs, charters for Service-led staff talks, or

other activities. Service SC activities may follow established timelines known years in advance, such as recurring Service-to-Service staff talks, or may present more extemporaneously, such as official office calls, port visits, or Service chief or senior leader attendance at trade shows or regional conferences.

3. Campaign support plans (CSPs) may be developed by the Services, NGB, and DOD agencies that integrate the appropriate USG activities and programs, describe how they will support the CCMD campaigns, and articulate institutional or component-specific guidance. A Service CSP further explains how the Service, according to Title 10, USC, organizes, trains, and equips forces to support CCMD objectives, maintain readiness, and execute SC activities. Service CSPs are coordinated with CCMDs through the Service component commands and address topics such as exercises, readiness, interoperability, and capabilities development, as they may impact the CCPs. Service execution of SC is important to shape, build, train, and equip forces capable of operating in coalition environments, as needed, to augment CCDR efforts.

4. Services should coordinate with the CCMDs for the theater SC activities, as well as with their respective Service component commands.

(c) CCMDs. Throughout the execution of SC activities, CCDRs and their staffs continually use the operation assessment activities of **monitor**, **evaluate**, **recommend**, and **direct** to inform decision making at appropriate levels. The planning initiation step of joint planning coincides with an operation assessment, which provides a process to measure the effectiveness of SC activities and establishes continuity through execution. This provides the opportunity for correction and adaptation during planning and execution. CCDRs may collaborate with interorganizational stakeholders such as DOS country teams, to include allies and partners during any aspect of the operation assessment. The operation assessment enables the implementation of DOD policy for assessment, monitoring, and evaluation (AM&E) of SC activities. At the same time, the component commands do the same with their supporting plans. However, once resourced, execution of specific SC activities occurs as planned unless a circumstance unfolds that affect US forces and the PN, precluding completion of those SC activities. SC activities normally take place through bilateral agreements that constitute binding legal obligations for both the USG and PN. As a result, any deviation from the terms of a bilateral agreement likely requires the consent of both governments. Consequently, major changes are unlikely during the execution of a specific SC activity. The absence of a governing bilateral agreement may result in several fiscal years of SC activities undergoing various stages of planning, programming, budgeting, and assessment during any given calendar year.

For more information on the harmonization of the operation assessment and AM&E policy, see JP 3-20, Security Cooperation.

1. **Monitor.** CCMDs work with a variety of stakeholders, including allies and partners, to observe and analyze indicators of performance or effectiveness and conditions in the OE that affect those indicators. Monitoring begins with knowing the baseline of each indicator. As a matter of policy, CCMDs conduct initial assessments of

existing PN conditions that typically precede SC activities that involve the development of an FSF. These conditions include capability gaps, absorptive capacity, political stability, and other opportunities and risks. Initial assessments provide a baseline against which to monitor SC activities to inform requirements, resources, and program planning. In some cases, a CCDR establishes the target (to be state) of an indicator that is necessary for improving performance and effectiveness of an FSF or creating a desired condition in the OE.

2. Evaluate. The evaluate task is principally a CCDR function but can occur at any level. CCMDs use indicators to judge progress of SC activities toward desired conditions and determine why the current degree of progress exists. A single SC activity rarely achieves a strategic objective in isolation, and it is often difficult to determine the extent to which a specific DOD activity influences a PN. SC generally requires multiple activities, executed over time, to achieve strategic objectives.

3. Recommend. Based on evaluations, CCDRs integrate relevant SC information to inform decision making at the strategic, operational, and tactical levels, which includes informing interorganizational stakeholders, such as DOS or allies and partners.

4. Direct. This task is inherent to the authority of CCDRs to organize and employ joint forces as deemed necessary to accomplish assigned tasks and missions. Based on the results of CCMD assessment, the outcomes of a combined assessment with an ally or partner, or from strategic guidance and direction, a CCDR may direct changes to SC plans or activities in the AOR.

For more information on monitoring, evaluating, recommending, and directing during the planning and execution of SC activities, see JP 3-20, Security Cooperation.

(d) Service Component Commands

1. Depending on the resources available, the DOD components, in collaboration with the CCMD and PN, decide which activities to conduct in the following year and which activities to modify, postpone, or cancel. Modifications may involve combining activities or reducing the scale or scope of the original activity. Examples include combining a United States Air Force exercise with a United States Navy exercise or turning a face-to-face seminar into a virtual meeting. Component planners need to document how the gap between the resources they requested and the resources they received affected the country plan and, specifically, the achievement of component objectives.

2. The next step is executing the SC activity. The primary role of the component planner is to ensure appropriate tasking of activities to organizations within the component and appropriate coordination of activities with organizations outside of the executing component/agency. Early coordination of the SC activity during planning helps facilitate coordination during execution. With the activities properly assigned and

coordinated, the component planner monitors the execution and can help deconflict activities, as necessary. Many components and most SCOs maintain a calendar to help them keep track of activities and other important events in their countries. For example, Socium can document, track, and synchronize SC events and activities.

g. Other Considerations for Cooperative Operations and Activities

(1) Interagency, International, and Nongovernmental Organizations and HN Coordination. JFCs work with interorganizational and HN authorities to plan and conduct military engagement, SC, and deterrence operations and activities. Liaison organizations such as a JIACG can promote interaction and cooperation among diverse agencies. Consensus building improves each agency's understanding of the capabilities and limitations, as well as any constraints of partner agencies. Establishing an atmosphere of trust and cooperation promotes the unity of effort.

For further discussion on interorganizational coordination, refer to JP 3-08, Interorganizational Cooperation.

(2) Information Sharing. NGOs and international organizations, by their nature, become familiar with the culture, language, sensitivities, and status of the populace, as well as the infrastructure in a region. This information is valuable to commanders and staffs, who may not have physical access or the most current information. NGOs and international organizations may also need information from commanders and staff concerning hazards in the OE and on local populace humanitarian needs. However, these organizations typically hold neutrality as a fundamental principle and often as the basis for the security in operating in hostile environments. Many NGOs and international organizations will resist any perception of serving as sources of intelligence, even if the information sought is completely benign, and they may be hesitant to associate with the military. Discreet coordination can sometimes alleviate these concerns. JFCs may elect to establish mechanisms like a CMOC, or a similar organization, to coordinate activities and facilitate information sharing. Sometimes information can flow through third parties, such as the UN or PN institutions. International organizations and NGOs are more likely to participate if they perceive that mutual sharing of information aids their work and is not a threat to their neutrality. USAID, when it has a mission presence in-country, usually has the strongest network of contacts and information on international organizations. CCMDs should consult NGOs and local partners. However, NGOs and local partners may not be perfect sources of information. USAID missions require sharing their country development cooperation strategies with CCMDs, and conversely, CCMDs share their CCPs with USAID missions in their AOR to enhance collaboration.

(3) Cultural Awareness. Military support and operations intended to support an HN should build an in-depth understanding of the HN's cultural, social, gender, economic, and political realities. The JFC may augment Service-language and cultural awareness training and tailor supplemental training to the JOA and mission. Also, intelligence products and military engagement actions continuously update cultural, social, gender, economic, and political information. The beliefs, perceptions, lifestyles, and economic

underpinnings of the society, among other considerations, influence the OE and may affect planning and execution. Further, it is important to monitor perceptions and reactions of populations in the areas of influence and AOI, as these factors also affect current and future operations, activities, and planning. SC activities will likely impact nations throughout a region. Traditional rivalries among neighboring nations and hostility toward the United States may be factors. For example, US assistance to a nation with long-standing rivals may perceive the action as upsetting the regional balance or favoritism. While such factors do not dictate US policy, CCMDs should account for these ramifications.

(4) **Building Partnership Capacity (BPC).** BPC programs encompass SC and SA activities funded with USG appropriations. JFCs administer these programs as cases within the foreign military sales infrastructure. These programs may provide defense articles and/or services to other USG departments and agencies under the authority of the Economy Act of 1932 or other transfer authorities. The purpose of building the capacity of PN security forces is to enhance their capability to conduct CT, CD, and COIN operations or to support US military operations, multilateral peace operations, and other programs. BPC with PNs is frequently associated with supporting allies and partners to reach one or more shared objectives. BPC should be part of the planning process to ensure that the readiness and capabilities of friendly networks can appropriately address a crisis or an emerging threat network with minimal shortfalls. The goals of BPC include working to develop improved information sharing, which can include standardized reporting, collection data, lexicons, data exchange, terminology, common intelligence and operational pictures, and common operating standards to improve interoperability. BPC to counter threats can enable PNs to conduct more effective operations with reduced or no joint force assistance. Building long-term and self-sustaining PN capacities is critical to counter threats on an enduring basis. Partner capabilities that are not sustained present the risk of the threat adapting and then seizing the opportunity to re-assert itself once the PN capabilities are reduced.

(5) **Women.** Engaging women as key stakeholders in the OA is necessary for gaining a comprehensive understanding of human aspects of the OE. Importantly, HN women are not a homogenous group. Their behavior, decision making, and participation depend upon their culture and identity, intersecting characteristics that can be further examined through sociocultural analysis. This analysis yields information that informs tailored engagements with different women in the OE as individuals, organizations, and participants in formal and informal systems. When women engage as a key stakeholder group, the commander and staff gain information on the human security needs of the HN civilian population, and specifically the distinct security needs of women. Notably, civil-military relations should revolve around positive, often mutually supportive, relationships with nonmilitary stakeholders.

4. Typical Cooperative Operations and Activities

a. **Stabilization.** Stabilization is an inherently cooperative endeavor that requires aligning USG efforts (e.g., diplomatic engagement, foreign assistance, and defense) to create conditions for local legitimate authorities and systems to manage unstable environments effectively. DOS, USAID, and DOD cooperate to stabilize these fragile

countries of strategic importance to the United States. DOS is the overall lead federal agency for US stabilization efforts. USAID is the lead implementing agency for non-security US stabilization assistance. DOD is a supporting element, including providing requisite security and reinforcing civilian efforts where appropriate and consistent with available statutory authorities.

(1) To the extent authorized by law, DOD plans and conducts stabilization in support of mission partners across the competition continuum to counter subversion, prevent and mitigate conflict, and consolidate military gains to achieve objectives. DOD emphasizes small-footprint, partner-focused stabilization that works with and through local and other external partners to achieve strategic objectives.

(2) DOD's core responsibility during stabilization is to support and reinforce the civilian efforts of the USG lead agencies consistent with available statutory authorities, primarily by providing security, maintaining basic public order, and providing for the immediate needs of the conflict-affected population.

(a) When required to achieve US stabilization objectives, and to the extent authorized by law, DOD will reinforce and complement civilian-led stabilization efforts. Such efforts may include delivering targeted basic services, removing explosive remnants of war, repairing critical infrastructure, and other activities that establish a foundation for the return of displaced people and longer-term development.

(b) If directed, and consistent with available authorities, DOD will lead USG stabilization efforts in extreme situations until it is feasible to transition lead responsibility to other USG departments and agencies.

(3) Although stabilization is distinct from FHA, DOD FHA activities may complement USG stabilization efforts.

For further information on defense support to stabilization, refer to DODD 3000.05, Stabilization, and JP 3-07, Joint Stabilization Activities.

b. National Emergency Preparedness (Domestic Operations). Emergency preparedness consists of measures taken in advance of an emergency to reduce the loss of life and property and to protect a nation's institutions from all types of hazards through a comprehensive emergency management program of preparedness, mitigation, response, and recovery. National-level emergency preparedness encompasses those planning activities such as continuity capabilities, undertaken to ensure DOD processes, procedures, and resources are in place to support the President and SecDef in a designated national security emergency.

(1) Continuity capability refers to the ability of DOD to continue to perform its mission-essential functions, through COOP and continuity of government programs, to preserve the current form of government and the continued performance of the national essential functions under all conditions. Leadership, staff, communications, and facilities are the pillars of a continuity capability.

(2) COOP ensures continuous conduct of essential functions, tasks, or duties by USG departments and agencies, or other organizations necessary, to accomplish a military action or mission supporting the strategy. Continuity capabilities include the authorities and duties of a commander and the supporting functions of staff and others under the authority and direction of the commander. If the President directs additional support, DOD may task the joint force additional missions relating to emergency preparedness.

(3) Continuity of government involves a coordinated effort within each USG branch (executive, legislative, and judicial) to ensure the capability to continue national essential functions and responsibilities during a catastrophic emergency.

c. Arms Control, Nonproliferation, and Disarmament. Commanders and staffs oversee activities of military personnel involved in arms control, nonproliferation, and disarmament activities. These activities include verifying arms control treaties, seizing and securing WMD, and escorting authorized deliveries of weapons and other materials. Commanders and staffs seek to preclude loss or unauthorized use of these assets; conduct and host site inspections; participate in military data exchanges; implement armament reductions; or dismantle, destroy, or dispose of weapons and hazardous material.

(1) Arms control generally refers to those bilateral and multilateral treaties in which states agree to reduce the numbers, types, performance characteristics, proliferation, testing, or other aspects of certain categories of weapons. The goals of arms control are generally to reduce the likelihood, consequences, and the costs of preparing for armed conflict. A state could also seek to take advantage of technological advances in new weapon system areas, facilitate sources and methods of intelligence gathering, or negate a potential adversary's first strike capabilities.

(2) Nonproliferation includes the use of military capabilities in conjunction with a whole-of-government effort. JFCs act within a nation's legal authorities to deter and prevent the acquisition of WMD. JFCs and partners conduct nonproliferation by dissuading or impeding access and distribution of sensitive technologies, material, and expertise by state and non-state actors. Usually, the UN establishes sanctions through UN Security Council resolutions. However, states may view the need to unilaterally, or in concert, sanction certain military equipment as essential to their national interests.

(3) Disarmament is one of three elements in a program designed to bring peace in conflict zones. This program is called disarmament, demobilization, and reintegration (DDR). DDR is the process that contributes to security and stability during and after conflict by removing weapons from the hands of state and non-state combatants. It also takes the combatants out of military structures and helps them integrate socially and economically into society by finding civilian livelihoods. It often contains details about the reduction of a military establishment's aggregate capabilities such as numbers of weapons and forces to a specified limit set by international agreement. Although disarmament always involves the reduction of military forces or weapons, arms control does not. Arms control agreements sometimes allow for the increase of weapons by one or more parties to a treaty. Disarmament requires a high degree of trust (permissive OE), and disarmament operations are unlikely between hostile nations.

d. **Antiterrorism.** Antiterrorism is an aspect of protection and involves defensive measures to reduce the vulnerability of individuals and property to terrorist acts, to include limited response and containment by local military and civilian forces. Antiterrorism programs form the foundation to combat terrorism. The USG may provide antiterrorism assistance to foreign nations under Title 22, USC (Chapter 32, Part VIII, Antiterrorism Assistance).

For further guidance on antiterrorism, refer to JP 3-26, Joint Combating Terrorism.

e. Humanitarian and civic assistance programs are governed by Title 10, USC, Section 401. This assistance is in conjunction with military operations and exercises to fulfill unit training requirements while incidentally creating humanitarian benefit to the local populace. In contrast to emergency relief conducted under FHA operations, humanitarian and civic assistance programs encompass planned activities in the following categories:

(1) Medical, surgical, dental, and veterinary care provided in areas of a country that are rural or underserved by medical, surgical, dental, and veterinary professionals, respectively, including education, training, and technical assistance related to the care provided.

(2) Construction and repair of basic surface transportation systems.

(3) Well, drilling, and construction of basic sanitation facilities.

(4) Rudimentary construction and repair of public facilities.

f. **HD and DSCA.** Security and defense of the US homeland is the USG's top responsibility and is a continuous, cooperative effort among all federal agencies, as well as state, tribal, and local government. Military operations inside the United States and its territories, though limited in many respects, accomplish two missions—HD and DSCA. HD is the protection of US sovereign territory, domestic population, and critical defense infrastructure against external threats and aggression or other threats as directed by the President. DOD is the federal agency with lead responsibility, supported by other agencies, to defend against external threats and aggression. However, against internal threats, DOD may be in support of another USG department or agency. When ordered to conduct HD operations within US territory, DOD will coordinate closely with other government agencies. Consistent with laws and policy, the Services will provide capabilities to support CCDR requirements against a variety of threats to national security. These include invasion, cyberspace attack, attack in space, and air and missile attacks. Support to HD provided by the NG will be IAW DODD 3160.01, *Homeland Defense Activities Conducted by the National Guard*.

(1) DSCA is the support provided by US federal military forces, DOD civilians, DOD contract personnel, DOD components, and NG forces (when SecDef, in coordination with the governors of the affected states, elects and requests to use those forces in Title 32, USC, status) respond to requests for assistance from civil authorities for domestic

emergencies, law enforcement support, and other domestic activities or from qualifying entities for special events. For DSCA operations, DOD supports and does not supplant civil authorities. The majority of DSCA operations are IAW the NRF, which establishes a comprehensive, national, all-hazards approach to domestic incident response. Within a state, the governor is the key decision maker and commands the state's NG forces when they are not in federal Title 10, USC, status. When the governor mobilizes the NG, it will most often be under state active duty when supporting civil authorities.

(2) Other DSCA operations can include CD activities, support to national special security events, and support to civilian law enforcement IAW specific DOD policies and US law. Commanders and staffs consider the legal and policy limits on intelligence activities in support of LEAs; intelligence activities involving US citizens; and intelligence oversight regulations, policies, and executive orders.

(3) PPD-8, *National Preparedness*, describes the Nation's approach to preparing for the threats and hazards posing the greatest risk to the security of the United States. National preparedness is a shared responsibility of our whole community. The national preparedness goal describes what it means for the whole community to prevent, protect against, mitigate, respond to, and recover from threats, hazards, disasters, and emergencies. These threats and risks include events such as natural disasters, disease pandemics, chemical spills and other human-made hazards, terrorist attacks, and cyberspace attacks. In addition to stating the goal, PPD-8 describes Title 32, USC, core capabilities that address the greatest risks to the Nation.

(4) Commander, United States Northern Command, and Commander, United States Indo-Pacific Command, have specific responsibilities for HD and DSCA. These responsibilities include conducting operations to deter, prevent, and defeat threats and aggression aimed at the United States, its territories, and interests within their assigned AORs, as directed by the President or SecDef. However, DOD support to HD is global and is a responsibility of all CCDRs beginning at the source of the threat. In the forward regions outside US territories, the objective is to detect and deter threats to the homeland before they arise and to defeat these threats as early as possible when so directed. Identity activities help identify threats and limit their mobility and access across the OE and transnationally.

For more information on DSCA, see JP 3-28, Defense Support of Civil Authorities, and for detailed guidance on DSCA, see DODD 3025.18, Defense Support of Civil Authorities (DSCA).

For more information on NG support, see DODD 3025.18, Defense Support of Civil Authorities (DSCA); DODI 3025.22, The Use of the National Guard for Defense Support of Civil Authorities; and Chief, National Guard Bureau Instruction 3000.04, National Guard Bureau Domestic Operations.

For detailed guidance on HD, see JP 3-27, Homeland Defense.

g. **Support to Civilian LEAs.** When requested, DOD may provide support to federal, state, territory, tribal, insular areas, and local law enforcement organizations reacting to civil disturbances, conducting border security and CD missions, preparing for antiterrorism operations, and participating in other related law enforcement activities. The requested support must be consistent with the limits Congress placed on military support to law enforcement through the Posse Comitatus Act and other laws. Unless specifically authorized by law, no DOD personnel in a Title 10, USC, status will become involved in direct civilian law enforcement activities, including, but not limited to, search, seizure, arrest, apprehension, stop and frisk, surveillance, pursuit, interrogation, investigation, evidence collection, security functions, traffic or crowd control, or similar activities, except in cases and under circumstances expressly authorized by the President, Constitution, or act of Congress.

(1) Countering transnational organized crime (which includes CD operations) encompasses the actions taken by a government, international organization, or armed group to detect, identify, expose, disrupt, degrade, and neutralize designated criminal networks to mitigate their adverse effects on the strategic interests of the party taking the actions.

(2) Support for CD operations is in subparagraph 9.j.(11), “Support for CD Operations.”

For further guidance on DOD support to civilian LEAs, refer to JP 3-07.4, Joint Counterdrug Operations; JP 3-25, Joint Countering Threat Networks; and JP 3-28, Defense Support of Civil Authorities.

h. **FHA.** FHA operations relieve or reduce human suffering, disease, hunger, or privation in countries outside the United States. These operations are different from foreign assistance primarily because they occur on short notice as a contingency operation to provide aid in a specific scenario or similar events rather than as more deliberate foreign assistance programs to promote long-term stability. DOS or the COM is responsible for confirming the HN’s declaration of a foreign disaster or situation that requires FHA. FHA provided by US forces generally has a limit in scope and duration. Actions supplement or complement efforts of HN civil authorities or agencies with the primary responsibility for assisting. DOD assists when the need for relief is gravely urgent and when the humanitarian emergency dwarfs the ability of normal relief agencies to respond effectively.

For further guidance on FHA operations, refer to JP 3-29, Foreign Humanitarian Assistance.

i. **Recovery Operations.** Recovery operations may search for, locate, identify, recover, and return isolated personnel, sensitive equipment, items critical to national security, or human remains. For example, JTF FULL ACCOUNTING had the mission to achieve the fullest possible accounting of Americans listed as missing or prisoners of war from all past wars and conflicts. Regardless of the recovery purpose, each type of recovery operation is generally a sophisticated activity requiring detailed planning to execute.

Recovery operations may be clandestine, covert, or overt, depending on whether the OE is hostile, uncertain, or permissive.

5. Responding to Crises

a. A crisis is an incident or emerging situation involving a possible threat to the United States, its citizens, military forces, or vital interests. A crisis can develop rapidly and create a condition of such diplomatic, economic, or military importance that national leaders consider a commitment of military forces and resources. A crisis can occur anywhere across the competition continuum and the response can include almost any type of joint operation. The response may evolve into a limited contingency operation or even expand into large-scale combat operations. The joint force may respond to a crisis such as international and national humanitarian and natural disasters, deteriorating situations involving the safety of US citizens, or threats to allies or vital interests. JFCs may respond with lethal or nonlethal force as applicable and in compliance with ROE. In responding to a crisis generated by an adversary's provocations, the joint force may deploy forces to establish exclusion zones, enforce UN Security Council resolutions, or conduct strikes to respond to the adversary's behavior.

b. Where along the competition continuum the crisis occurs has little bearing on the scope, scale, or duration of a response to crisis. For example, FHA can employ considerable resources and can continue for many months. Countering adversarial behavior during competition below armed conflict can unfold on a massive scale. The joint force's contribution to the 1961 Berlin Crisis and the 1962 Cuban Missile Crisis were part of national mobilizations. The joint force's deployments and changes in posture were clear evidence of the US commitment, narrative, and strategic guidance. Successful crisis response involves the ability to deploy the joint force rapidly with required capabilities. If ordered by the President or SecDef, JFCs have the capability to conduct offensive operations with lethal or nonlethal force. Readiness is the key to a credible crisis response.

c. With proper authorization, the joint force may respond to a crisis with types of lethal force normally associated with armed conflict. These strikes are typically punitive in nature, and actions address a previous action. In circumstances where OEs are rapidly becoming fragile, when armed conflict is imminent, or adversary-supported irregular forces threaten a nation's sovereignty or regional stability, US forces may intervene to bolster internal defense, conduct offensive or defensive operations, or support stabilization efforts. A prompt crisis response may preclude escalation of the situation. Effective early intervention can also deny an enemy time to set conditions in their favor and achieve their objectives. Overall, the joint force can respond to a crisis in a broad or specific manner with a wide range of capabilities.

6. Adversarial Competition Below Armed Conflict: Foundation and Practice

a. Introduction

(1) Adversarial competition surrounds a persistent and long-term struggle between actors seeking to achieve incompatible strategic objectives while avoiding armed

conflict. In adversarial competition, nations or non-state actors apply their instruments of power over extended periods and throughout the OE to either initiate or counter malign or antagonistic behavior against their adversaries. The strategic purpose of these activities is to gain and sustain long-term comparative advantages (and mitigate disadvantages) indefinitely.

(2) A nation that competes successfully sets the terms of differing international pursuits to advance its own interests. A nation's successful competitive action drives others to do more of what it wants, at the times of its choosing, in the manner it prefers. The most successful competitor achieves objectives without invading, occupying, or destroying their adversaries but rather by subordinating, minimizing, and influencing their choices and decisions. Exercising international leadership is thus the risk, cost, and reward of successful competition. Competition is the work of establishing rules, attracting and convincing as many actors to adhere to them as much of the time as possible, incentivizing compliance, and penalizing defiance, so the rules remain intact. The prize is in the system's structural privileging of that nation's interests over those of others. This prioritization can incorporate the nature, type, and activities of multinational regimes and institutions but might be less formal. The nation's preferred prioritization can be evident in recognized norms without legal or organizational form, in loosely associated but common patterns of behavior, and in the simple requirement of considering how the dominant state will perceive and address a specific action relative to a contested interest.

(3) Some states may not accept this prioritization or follow the rules set by a competitor in the absence of a good reason. Other states may agree because they find the rules attractive, suit their interests, or align with their values. For all other nations or states, to be compelling and durable, the rules' structure must promise and deliver adequate benefit for good behavior or adequate consequence for noncompliance. This promise means that the rule-setting competitor must have the legitimacy, credibility, capability, and the will to give and to take away benefits and equities, as required, to assert and enforce standards and expectations upon other states.

(4) In adversarial competition, the joint force is primarily concerned with long-term strategies and programs, attraction, influence, and, when directed, the restrained use of force to counter coercion. The United States has experience with all these aspects of competition. Military institutional procurement programs focus on attaining and maintaining a credible force by fielding capabilities that provide relative advantages for extended periods. Concurrently, employing force in competition orients on maintaining and modifying other actors' behaviors without resorting to armed conflict. Adversarial competition is its own unique, challenging, and indefinite contest for influence, advantage, and leverage, where many aspects of malign influence and antagonistic behavior are simply undeterrable.

(5) The United States has a history of confronting adversaries and reinforcing allies and partners by blending the instruments of national power to change adversarial behavior. An effective use of the military instrument of national power within a broader foreign policy does not always require armed conflict to protect strategic interests. The United States depends on the military's ability to control waters, territory, air space,

THE CONSTANT OF COMPETITION

In the mid-1990s, successive editions of the United States' national security strategy (NSS) discarded the hard-earned appreciation and philosophy of countering communist expansionism accumulated throughout the course of the Cold War. In fact, these NSS(s) essentially declared that returning to great power competition and spheres of influence were not in the United States' interest. The reality today is that great-power competition is back and it has gathered concern and worry across the national security community. One of the foundational premises of almost all theories seeking to explain why countries act toward each other as they do is that, although much can be achieved by cooperating, the international environment is inherently competitive when differing values or interests clash. Competition among nations is a constant and nations perpetually strive to gain influence, leverage, and advantage. Sometimes these contests unfold in ways that are direct and obvious cases of confrontation and brinksmanship. Other situations emerge as nuanced encroachments over diplomatic norms and standards, human rights, environmental considerations, trade, core values, and the rule of law. To complicate matters, nations can wrap and disguise their measures in plausible denial. Above all, the strategic purpose of a rules-based international system is to establish and enforce rules and norms on these competitions.

Various Sources

cyberspace, orbital space, and influence people under conditions other than armed conflict to help to maintain economic and political freedoms. Enemies and adversaries continually probe the United States and its allies, seeking to modify norms and gain influence. Military forces support policy objectives through demonstration, regional repositioning, air and maritime interception operations, global deployments, establishing exclusion zones, enforcing sanctions, supporting resistance partners, employing surrogate forces, and ensuring compliance with treaties. JFCs recognize these circumstances where the joint force must contribute and coherently campaign to advance and protect US interests.

b. Foundation

(1) Coercion is a broad concept that encompasses two distinct forms of intimidation: deterrence and compellence. Deterrence seeks to maintain the status quo before an adversary shifts policy or takes undesired actions. Compellence seeks to modify behavior or persuade an adversary to desist an ongoing behavior, cease an action they have begun, or do something they would rather not do. While deterrence constitutes groupings of passive threats and activities to keep an adversary from encroaching, compelling behavior requires active measures to drive an adversary out of a position previously established and maintained through an encroachment. Compelling behavior typically requires more than just rhetoric. Coercing a change in behavior centers on the action, not simply a threat or signal.

(2) In calculating the efficacy or viability of coercion, whether deterring or compelling behavior, a state requires a detailed understanding of an adversary's determination, stake in the interest at hand, strengths, and vulnerabilities. A competitor state's analysis of coercive options demands a careful knowledge of the adversary's value system. Coercing behavior works by manipulating anticipated values and costs, and it is the adversary's perception of the values and costs that matters. JFCs should realize the fundamental considerations of coercing behavior.

(a) **Developing an Accurate Understanding.** States make calculations based on an understanding of the adversary and all the influences, motivations, capabilities, and long-term interests driving their decision making and behavior. Senior civilian and military leaders seek to know what an adversary deems vital and how much pressure they will endure before parting with it. Indeed, coercion can enable even a weak country to gain a more favorable outcome than a stronger state. A lack of understanding of the adversary's values and goals and a corresponding lack of understanding of what motivates its decision makers reduces the likelihood of coercive success from the outset.

COMPELLING BEHAVIOR WITH DEGREES OF FORCE

Compelling behavior through coercive measures can occur through three modes. First, a state can coerce through threats or an amplified narrative regarding a contested interest without employing force. This mode does not have a high success rate. However, in 1970 after discovering the Soviet navy was establishing a submarine base in Cienfuegos, Cuba, the United States exposed and threatened the Soviets to the degree that they abandoned the project. Second, a state can use force short of armed conflict. The best example is the Cuban Missile Crises in 1962, where the US changes in force posture and missions helped convince the Soviets to remove its nuclear weapons from Cuba voluntarily. Third, the employment of measured violent force. An example is where in 1999, North Atlantic Treaty Organization (NATO) forces attacked the Federal Republic of Yugoslavia to achieve a set of limited objectives. NATO was not seeking to depose President Slobodan Milosevic or occupy Serbia. NATO's objective was for Serbian forces to cease their violent retribution against the Kosovo Liberation Army. For compellence, the point is the choice of compliance remains with the adversary. In each of the three cases, the adversary may not have liked the choices, but the United States (and its Allies) imposed costs with restraint, leaving the decision up to the adversary. Alternatively, when using forcible action, a state no longer cares what the enemy chooses to do. The state does what it can and takes the necessary action to make the enemy succumb to its will. These necessary actions may include combinations of attrition, exhaustion, and annihilation.

Various Sources

(b) **Formulating the Demand.** The clarity in what a state seeks to achieve through coercion or protection against an encroachment and what CCDRs can provide is essential, as it ultimately forms the objective. First, broad threats regarding the contested interest are counterproductive. Scoping enables policymakers and military commanders to formulate and choose from multiple, viable approaches. Second, clarity and consistency in a state's demands help persuade the adversary of the strength of purpose, especially when the commitment of force aligns and reinforces the narrative. Alternatively, nonspecific demands decrease the likelihood of coercive success. Vague or unclear narratives increase the likelihood of misinterpretation, confusion, and the inadvertent defiance of unintentional escalation. Unclear demands can suggest the state's policy position is not firm but malleable under the pressure of intentional defiance. This lack of presenting clear and consistent objectives severely constrains the possibilities for productive bargaining with the adversary.

(c) **Determining Asymmetry of Interest.** As important as a state's perceptions of its stakes might be, recognizing the two-sided nature of motivation within the competition is essential. An asymmetry exists when the United States or its competitors are willing to sacrifice far more to succeed or are simply unwilling to bear the costs of driving their adversary from an established position or modifying an antagonistic behavior. An asymmetry of interest held or created by one of the actors may favor or drive a particular approach. Asymmetry may allow one side to keep the benefit at a relatively low opportunity cost. Of course, the competitor's relative motivation plays an important role in determining the outcome of coercive action. The state's approach is more likely to be successful if it is more motivated than the adversary regarding the interest at stake. What is critical is that the adversary believes the United States is more motivated to achieve its objective. In some cases, the nature of the circumstance tends to scope and fix the two sides' relative motivation. The state's senior civilian and military leaders carefully assess both sides' relative interests and recognize an asymmetry of interests where one actor values the object more than the other.

(d) **Formulating Credible Resolve.** To succeed, a state must demonstrate a heightened level of commitment, especially when there are no apparent crises or urgent matters. In many cases, there is a military aspect that serves or supports the coercive effort. The motivation must be strong and accompany the acceptance of the costs and risks inherent in steadfastly pursuing or countering coercion. When a state's national leadership makes key decisions, articulation and perception of the depth of national interest involved is essential. Secondly, the adversary must perceive the state's decisions and actions as unwavering commitment. Projecting sentiments or behaviors that raise the adversary's questions and skepticism about the state's commitment can be counterproductive. Presenting and communicating strong motivation to eliminate the threat should be obvious from the beginning. In many cases, a state must take added risk to communicate the strength of their commitment by placing forces in harm's way and potentially deploying additional forces later to reinforce both the perception of resolve and the original forces placed at risk.

(e) **Determining Aversion to Escalation.** The state can increase the scale of its coercive actions if the initial activities and communications arouse fear of escalation. This creation of fear is particularly effective if the adversary perceives the consequences would lead to less acceptable circumstances than complying with the state's demands. However, the adversary may fear the competitor state's coercive action more than armed conflict. The state's coercive measures, once enacted, may constitute an escalation of itself that the adversary finds unacceptable. The adversary may not regard one of their options or choices as compliance with the state's demands. Counter to the state's intentions, the adversary may see escalation as preferable to acquiescing and abandoning their foreign policy pursuits. The adversary may see their options as limited to circumnavigating the competitor's coercive mechanism or going to war. In some cases, determining an adversary's aversion or affinity to escalation is more complex than a choice between compliance or war. Developing this understanding is a function of many variables, such as past experiences of both competitors, internal domestic pressure, and external support structures. The calculation of the adversary's aversion or preference for armed conflict requires a fingertip feel and expertise in their decision making.

(f) **Crafting and Ensuring a Settlement.** Specific demands by the state are important, but they may not suffice. In some cases, the state must formulate specific terms for resolution of the circumstances. The joint forces' strategic uses of military force give equal emphasis to the credibility of assurance that the coercive action will cease or that the United States will abstain from carrying out the threat if the adversary complies with the demand. The parties must agree and establish procedures for instituting these terms and verifying their implementation. Specifying the terms of settlement in advance of formal agreement can be of major importance to the adversary. The adversary may want precise settlement terms to safeguard against the possibility that the state has a broader interpretation of the proposed resolution. For agreement and compliance, the adversary will need convincing that the state will not renew pressure and push for even greater concessions after the initial agreement. The adversary who contemplates succumbing to coercive diplomacy may need specific and reliable assurances that the state will carry out its part of the agreement.

KNOWING THE ADVERSARY: AVERSION OR PREFERENCE FOR ESCALATION?

By 1941, the Japanese determined that despite the many risks involved, continuing to seek alternative sources of raw materials at the expense of other states and waging war was preferable to modifying their behavior. The Japanese decided that attacking the United States and other Western powers in the Pacific was more acceptable than curtailing their expansionist ambitions in China because of the suffocating oil embargo. Japan's motivation to expand its sphere of influence was more powerful than avoiding armed conflict.

Various Sources

(g) **Follow Through.** The interaction and competition between a state and its adversary can continue indefinitely. While resolving an episode of coercion may require a great deal of the CCDRs' effort, energy, and commitment, it is likely just a single event in a continuing interactive relationship. The JFCs continually protect and monitor the advantages created and norms reestablished as these accomplishments are fragile and temporary. On the other hand, the adversary will quickly seek to pursue another facet of influence, point of leverage, or advantage. For adversarial competition, there are no permanent achievements or finality in inoculating a state's sovereignty and sociopolitical systems against all the measures and encroachments available to a committed adversary.

7. Patterns of Coercion and Determinants of Success

a. The Known Patterns

(1) **Introduction.** The United States has used its military power in adversarial competition and in the competitions that always emerge after armed conflict. Most of these cases involved both a diplomatic and economic dimension implemented to influence the perceptions and behavior of foreign countries' political leaders. JFCs posture, maneuver, and employ military forces in discrete ways for specific objectives. JFCs recognize successful employment is different for each situation. Evaluating these discrete activities requires considering the full range of uses of the armed forces in adversarial competition. Understanding the adversarial mechanisms that ultimately drive a US response is equally important. Finally, JFCs understand how the armed forces can maximize their unique role and what options can be most successful.

(2) **Estimating Adversary's Resolve Is Challenging.** One aspect of developing and implementing a coercive approach is estimating an adversary's resolve. Resolve refers to the strength of an adversary's will to prevail, and comparative resolve refers to whose will, the adversary's or the state's, is the stronger. Before a circumstance emerges, CCDRs can never know for certain whether their resolve is stronger than the adversary. Indeed, this discovery of will is the function of the confrontation, produced and revealed by the resort to coercive action to test the relative strength of each party's resolve. Estimating comparative resolve attempts to determine who cares more about the objectives. Making a solid estimation is a delicate assignment and easy to get wrong. JIPOE is critical in making an accurate estimation. As making decisions based on an accurate understanding is essential, determining resolve is a serious pursuit of the IC. Even with an accurate estimate, there is no guarantee the parties' comparative resolve will remain constant, as the competition will evolve. Resolve is not static once interaction between the competitors unfolds; commitments can change, often initially toward greater firmness. Typically, adversaries entrench as the contest gets underway to see how strongly the United States cares. When an adversary employs aspects of limited force, both sides are likely to harden their positions even more. Finally, the interaction can have an inherent dynamic toward escalation before the circumstances level out because neither party will either admit complicity or acquiesce at the first offer.

(3) **Coercing Behavior Is Difficult.** Developing a sound appreciation of an adversary's resolve and ability to resist is essential, but JFCs recognize that coercing an

adversary to choose an acceptable behavior is difficult. JFCs know it is intrinsically more difficult to get an adversary to change its behavior than to maintain and accept the status quo. Compelling successfully requires that the adversary alter a highlighted behavior that is evident to the affected parties as a response to the United States' declared initiative. In contrast, deterrent threats are easier for the adversary to pretend to ignore or to comply without great loss of face. In deterrent situations, the adversary can claim plausible deniability, maintaining that it did not intend to change its behavior in the first place, or it can simply appear to ignore deterrent threats while not changing its behavior. In changing behavior, one barrier to success is that it usually requires the adversary's overt submission. An adversary can resist coercive attempts in imaginative and unexpected ways even when the state has substantial leverage. The state can find the difference between the application of force and the achievement of the objective, anything but direct, linear, and mechanical. In practice, coercing behavior instead of imposing an outcome requires a favorable decision by the adversary, thus making the next step of the contest a function of the adversary's decision making. The adversary loses standing and a sense of honor when under pressure; it reverses a policy to which it has committed its prestige and devoted resources compared with when it simply persists in the same behavior. Finally, coercing behavior enthralls the passions of the adversary. Due to the external humiliation inflicted upon the adversary, elicited passions can produce effects antithetical to the state's objectives. These emotional responses can cause the state to mobilize domestic support for the adversary's government. The risk and irony being the adversary becomes less susceptible to coercion. This risk is part of a complex OE, and convincing or leveraging an adversary to make choices favorable to the state is the essence of competition and art of countering coercion. The deliberate decision by an adversary to cease an antagonistic behavior or policy characterizes and distinguishes successful coercion from more direct use of power, such as forcible action.

(4) Long-Term Credibility, Legitimacy, and Power Are the Actual Stakes

(a) Coercing an adversary's behavior and choice is normally more than a matter of one-time acquiescence for the adversary. Accepting a demand is difficult, as the adversary must worry about the effects of a failed confrontation on its internal and external credibility and its power stakes. An adversary's perception of its legitimacy and credibility concerning its reputation, power stakes, and capabilities are difficult to discern, but the adversary contemplates all these considerations in its decision to stand firm or give way to a competitor state. The adversary's deliberation of credibility and legitimacy make compromise difficult and acquiescence demanding because the compromise may involve long-term national issues and consequences. The adversary may see any capitulation as a sign of weakness, which could encourage its rival to demand a long series of concessions and take more aggressive action. Actions in the present set precedent and expectations for the future. The adversary can never ignore how its reactions to pressures from others will affect its reputation regarding legitimacy and credibility.

(b) Perceptions of power now and in the future are equally at stake. Giving way to the United States may come with an opportunity cost to an adversary's relative strength. If, in deciding to accept the state's demands, the adversary perceives its range of future choices can significantly diminish, its natural incentives will be to stand firm.

Acquiescing to a competitor presents more than a discrete issue for the adversary because a capitulation undercuts both its reputation for resolve and its ability to stand firm in the future.

(5) **Encroachments Are Vulnerable to Information.** An adversarial encroachment is a manifestation of coercive intent that breaks laws, violates treaties, and trespasses upon matters of sovereignty. These actions can be intimidating but vulnerable to a state's manipulation and exploitation of information, regardless of the adversary's narrative's sophistication and method. These vulnerabilities have several facets. An encroachment creates victims or "net losers." Information can create sympathy for the victims, expose the adversary's actions and delegitimize their narrative. Additionally, information can dilute the adversary's commitment, cast doubt on whether the coercion will succeed, steer the adversary's power base's perceptions, provide a voice to the disaffected, and articulate a better alternative for the future. The adversary's competitive pursuit serves their interests, of course, but one opportunity cost of implementation and initial success is it creates a set of net losers or victims. In the context of the encroachment, these victims may be geographically dislocated or isolated but likely have a broader ethnic or religious constituency and connection with a larger regional or even global community of interest.

(a) JFCs use information to create sympathy and supporting sentiment from a broader community. JFCs recognize that sentiment can cascade across regions and boundaries and create international pressure against the adversary's policy and actions. JFCs use of information highlights the injustice and perpetually keeps the topic in the global media's headlines across the victims' associated communities. Ultimately, this helps alienate and isolate the adversaries from the rest of the world. This isolation can ultimately constrain the adversary's other foreign and domestic policy objectives as well as economic opportunities.

(b) Information activities can create separation between the adversary leadership's power base and the general population regarding the adversary's coercion and subversion. In most cases, the association between the general population and a nation's leadership is indirect but influential. Over time, the separation provides influence and requires unanticipated effort and resources to manage the coercive policy.

(c) Information can segregate the adversary's decision makers who generated the encroachment from their base of support. The regime's power base has many interests and equity at stake in the adversary regime's success and viability. Information can convince the power base the regime's endeavor puts their interests at risk. Once convinced of the risk, the power base's influence will begin to pressure the regime to modify its behavior regarding the coercion.

(d) Information activities can create doubt in the mind of the adversary's decision makers, as to the encroachments' viability and efficacy. Regarding the victimized population, information provides a global voice and platform to the disaffected persons and solidifies and advances the perception of illegitimacy, injustice, and grievance. Providing a voice to the disaffected group is another form of exposure. Information does more than

merely counter the adversaries' narrative; it also provides a more compelling alternative vision for the future.

(6) Adversaries Seek to Counter the Coercive Measures

(a) As the state employs coercive measures, the adversary will likely seek to counter the move. If the adversary believes it can foil or significantly mitigate these measures it will respond through counter-coercion techniques. The adversary can implement these actions using any form or combination of national power and may signal that the adversary is not likely to give way easily. Rather than simply seeking to minimize the effect of the competitor's coercive threats, an adversary may try to impose additional costs on that state. The adversary can escalate militarily or attempt to drive a diplomatic wedge between nations aligned against it. The adversary's reasoning is that it can convince the state to back down and withdraw its imposition. An assessment of the United States' approach should focus on the perceived costs the action creates. In examining a coercive interaction as a continual and dynamic exchange, the United States' assessment should consider the adversary's ability to neutralize those costs, or at least its perception that it can, as well as the effect of other threats bearing down on the adversary at any point in time.

(b) The state prepares for the adversary's likely counter-coercion methods to undermine the coercive measure once it begins. If the adversary adapts and responds in kind; both actors will likely persist in their responses, pouring more into their respective efforts. In short, the dynamics of crisis behavior take over, and the confrontation can escalate from threats and exemplary uses to armed conflict. Thus, when an adversary believes that it possesses effective counter-coercion techniques, it will not immediately respond to the state's threats or actual use of force short of war. Matters become even more vexing in situations where the adversary does not reveal its counter-coercion methods for fear that doing so will negate their effectiveness. Foreknowledge does not necessarily undermine the adversary's counter-coercion capabilities. There are often strong incentives to make such measures known ahead of time if doing so will deter the state from undertaking such actions.

(7) States Can Fail to Understand the Competition's Context and Means

(a) USG leaders and JFCs recognize that knowing the adversary is essential but anticipating how the use of force affects adversary behavior is more demanding. How effectively the state diplomatically and informationally shapes the international landscape is an essential consideration of forming a viable approach and indicator of how well joint force activity might influence an adversary's choices. Considering the military, diplomatic, and informational efforts as distinct and separate makes for easy but flawed calculations of success or failure. Civilian and military leaders avoid trying to determine success in narrow terms of the quantity of military force used and when. Instead, they examine and anticipate the likelihood of success in how the multiple instruments of national power work together and why. A tenuous assumption is that the greater

demonstration of force overall, especially sooner in the confrontation, actually sends a stronger signal of US resolve. Absent a broad diplomatic effort, this may not be valid.

(b) A second consideration is whether less force ultimately can be effective overall. A third consideration for a state is whether it can avoid the risk of violence entirely, and if not, then at least minimize the risk of armed conflict and still achieve its objectives.

(c) A key disconnect can occur when a state fails to recognize a mismatch of interests with an adversary. The state may have only modest interests regarding a contested issue, while the adversary's perceptions may be that the issue is existential. These examples serve as a reminder that messages filter through the actor's strategic culture; domestic political culture; and their leadership's temperament, experiences, and predispositions. Messaging is inherently vulnerable to misinterpretation. The likelihood of success decreases when an adversary perceives the state's principal narrative is inconsistent or lacks specific demands.

(d) JFCs know success begins with recognizing how any military approach inextricably links with the nation's ability to create the international and domestic political conditions to signal resolve. Just as importantly, JFCs link these conditions to the military approach. Together, the international diplomatic efforts, domestic consultation, and sound approach send a strong signal of commitment, resolve, and willingness to accept costs as well as impose them.

(8) Adversaries Can Employ Surrogates. Adversaries often employ surrogates in adversarial competition to indirectly achieve their objectives when direct involvement is infeasible, inappropriate, or unacceptable. The adversary will work indirectly through its agent, or surrogate, to achieve an objective in pursuit of the principal's interests. A surrogate works or acts on behalf of, and in the direction of, the principal to accomplish tasks the principal cannot perform or chooses not to perform. The principal-surrogate relationship is dynamic because the principal and surrogate typically cooperate not as a partnership with shared objectives but for divergent reasons. This divergence often generates problems associated with agency and risk sharing. Problems occur when ulterior objectives of the principal and surrogate come into conflict with one another. Risk-sharing problems occur when one party wants the other party to accept more risk than the other party is willing to accept. Changes in strategic and military risk affect the relationship differently, depending on the relationship's strength and character. The unacceptable strategic risk may cause the principal to sever the relationship with the surrogate, or unacceptable operational risk may cause the surrogate to sever the relationship with the principal.

(9) Multiple States and Multiple Adversaries Complicate Coercion. Coercion becomes even more demanding in situations in which more than a pair of states compete against each other. Often, a multinational force is united in their overall view of a needed response against an adversary, but members may disagree over the approach to achieve their shared objectives. Sometimes the multinational force will even disagree on the objective itself. This is where commanders can leverage interest mapping. If either is

the case, then the multinational force members with the most power or stake relative to the circumstance will have to exert energy to keep other members united in their effort. The multinational force must balance the actions required to hold the multinational force together and to counter the adversary's coercive action. On the other hand, the joint force may find that countering the coercive action is infeasible without the multinational force. Likewise, a multinational force of adversaries can face similar difficulties. However, if several adversaries are present, it becomes more difficult to design actions that counter all their activities. Sometimes steps that coerce one of the parties can encourage the other adversaries to resist. Other times it may be necessary to favor one of the adversaries to induce the others to cooperate. Success in these types of situations requires finesse, diplomacy, patience, compromise, and often, duplicity.

b. Determinants of Success

(1) The United States can align appropriate instruments of national power, demonstrate effectively the extent of its commitment to policy objectives, and make believable the tacit and overt threats of military force. Typically, the United States assesses situations, takes counsel of collective wisdom, and endeavors to use all available foreign policy tools to reinforce its credibility and convince adversaries of its resolve. However, other states have attempted to convince an adversary of its resolve without the benefit of information about whether the chosen tools are the right ones, for use in the right ways, in the right combinations, or at the right times. These other state's leaders likely made choices based on many inputs and advice, and perhaps, intuition. Subjective assessments of risks, resource constraints, and ethical considerations, which seem outwardly reasonable, do not always speak how best to create positive coercive effects. In these circumstances, the result can be an inadvertent use of foreign policy tools at times and in combinations that work at cross-purposes, muddle communications, and provide inadequate context to the characteristics and values of the adversary.

(2) When the adversary understands the state's position, their choices of submission, defiance, or something in-between are a function of its calculation of the costs, benefits, and risks of the set of actions available. When the adversary does not accurately understand the state's position or commitment, the action or inaction distorts the state's calculation of the probabilities of the adversary choosing further defiance or capitulation. This distortion makes it much harder to predict what the adversary will do and, after the fact, to understand why it did so. An adversary's defiance, for example, may certainly be by design, or it may be unintentional if it did not understand what the state is demanding or what the state was threatening. In practice, when its demands are highly specific, the state has a greater likelihood of success than when its demands are vague. At the very least, clarity minimizes the adversaries' potential to misunderstand the state's preferences and so to behave defiantly by accident. At the very most, a lack of clarity might suggest to the adversary that the state's position is not mature, much less firm. A state's ambiguity may be due to a lack of internal political consensus or apprehension that the public is not prepared to support a military intervention. This perception of a tenuous and weak commitment may encourage the adversary to continue the encroachment, pressure the state through noncompliance, or exploit other possible vulnerabilities.

COERCIVE ACTION IN HISTORY

In many cases, the United States has successfully applied coercive action to advance and protect its interests. Three major examples follow. In each case, the adversaries were capable and even the preeminent great powers of the era. There are many cases where the United States has prevailed.

a. During the Civil War, President Lincoln sidelined Great Britain and France from trading with the Confederacy through a deft combination of international law, information, and widening the Civil War's aims.

b. During the 1962 Cuban Missile Crisis, the United States convinced the Soviets to remove their nuclear weapons from the western hemisphere in exchange for a similar compromise within the Soviet sphere.

c. Over the decade of the 1980s, the United States cooperated with a diverse set of states, each with little in common with one another to sponsor and support a surrogate, the Afghan rebels, to frustrate and disrupt the Soviet invasion and occupation of Afghanistan.

Various Source

(3) In many cases of US efforts at coercing behavior or countering an adversary's coercive action, the joint force operates in a supporting role to enable, protect, and provide credibility to other instruments of national power. In adversarial competition, civilian and military leaders rarely employ military efforts by themselves. When military force does not underpin other instruments of national power, these tools can be just as irrelevant or ineffective. The United States' most effective pursuits in countering coercion include actions that weave together informational, economic, diplomatic, and military efforts. When coercive action includes military force, JFCs must consider and recommend how to organize around the adversaries' coercive mechanism and their associated decision making. Along with demonstrating the commitment and resolve to prevail, the combination of tools and measures implemented together with military force that provide the highest probabilities for success are:

(a) Lead with a deliberate narrative that discredits the adversary's narrative and articulates the importance and significance of the event or circumstance relative to US values and interests. Once the narrative establishes intent, it can credibly levy highly specific demands compared with when the interests are unclear and demands are diffused or weak. Vague and nonspecific demands decrease the likelihood of coercive success. This decrease in the likelihood of success may be because unclear demands increase the likelihood of misinterpretation, confusion, and, therefore, inadvertent defiance. Even worse, they suggest the state's policy position is not firm but potentially moveable under the pressure of intentional defiance.

(b) Determine the objectives and decisions for implementation based on a sound, accurate understanding of why the adversary is behaving in a malign or antagonistic manner. A sophisticated diagnosis and estimate of the adversary should drive the decision making and approach. A poor understanding of what is motivating the adversary decision maker's behavior reduces the likelihood of coercive success. When implementing policy and military support of the action, commanders often must begin with incomplete knowledge about possible outcomes. It may be that only through US and joint force interaction with the adversary increases the knowledge increase surrounding a circumstance. JFCs cannot predict perfectly what they can achieve in advance; however, commitment to sound diagnosis is essential. Sometimes, JFCs can accumulate more information only through maneuver and action. Many key aspects of information can only become known in the process of the coercive act, where the United States attempts to get the most out of a situation. In setting objectives, the opportunities for and risks to success will wax and wane throughout the coercive event, and commanders should expect the policy guidance to evolve. As the situation dictates modifications to the approach and its expectations, a state must counter tendencies to steer toward an overly conservative approach and avoid a reluctance to push for relevant gains against seemingly difficult odds. The state should resist the tendency to pursue only objectives that seem highly feasible and likely achievable. The risk is that minimalist objectives may be achievable but irrelevant. The risk of timid and cautious action can portray a lack of commitment and conviction and may miss cultural-specific signals. In the end, the state compels through the manipulation of anticipated costs, and it is the target's perception of costs that matters.

(c) Create leverage and solidarity with like-minded multinational partners to build commitments and overt effort where and when possible, to leverage treaties and other diplomatic efforts. Solidarity can also be a function of legitimacy, which is an important factor in both exposing and countering an adversary's unwanted behavior.

(d) Project military forces from outside the theater to address the adversary's unacceptable behavior. Attempting to solve the problem with only in-theater forces often provides a reduced probability of success. Moving in forces from outside the theater of contest significantly increases the likelihood of success, as it is a good indicator of resolve. This characteristic is true regardless of other factors, such as the level of forces permanently assigned or already deployed in the region at the time. Experience shows that moving forces from outside the AOR into the contested region has a positive effect regardless of the composition of those forces. This dynamic global employment gives policymakers considerable flexibility when designing force packages for coercive operations.

(e) Create a sense of asymmetry in the joint force's favor or strive to reduce or equalize the asymmetric advantage in motivation over the contested interest. In some situations, the state may create an asymmetry of motivation in its favor in four ways. First, the United States should demand the adversary do what is essential to qualify as no longer threatening its vital interests. Second, the state should balance that demand to avoid making demands that encroach upon the adversary's vital interests. Third, the state should offer incentives that reduce the adversary's motivation to resist the demands and make it easier to comply. Fourth, to increase the probability of success, the state should craft demands that allow the adversary to maintain a perception of status and legitimacy while

giving in. Effective commanders try to use all four levers to create an asymmetry of motivation in their favor. The success of coercive threats depends upon an understanding of how mixing these influences creates this type of leverage.

(f) Align the military actions against values and interests of higher priority to the adversary than the values and interests in the dispute. In coercing behavior, success depends on making the costs of nonperformance undesirable enough to convince the adversary to adjust. Telegraphing to the adversary the intended military action is not compromising but necessary. The uncertainty and vagueness about the nature and extent of potential costs are not reinforcing and can be counterproductive. The misperception of an adversary's motives and incentives can negatively affect our ability to manipulate its cost-benefit analysis. When the state does not target important interests, the costs of defiance are acceptable to the adversary. This miscalculation can result in failure, prolonging the coercive exchange until the state modifies the approach and shifts the adversary's calculation of the balance of costs or worse, an unnecessary escalation to armed conflict.

(g) Leverage information effectively for situational awareness and efficiency. An adversarial encroachment is usually vulnerable to manipulation and exploitation of information, regardless of the adversary actions' level of sophistication and methods of employment. These vulnerabilities have several facets. Information can create sympathy for the victims, expose and discredit the adversary's actions and delegitimize their narrative. Furthermore, information can also dilute the adversary's commitment, cast doubt on whether the coercion will succeed, steer the adversary's power base's perceptions, provide a voice to the disaffected, and articulate a better alternative for the future.

(h) Build, leverage, and sustain networks of interorganizational partners to add diplomatic, economic, and military weight to coercive or defensive demands. The participation of NATO Allies and regional partners in a military coalition is far preferable to undertaking a coercive or defensive military action unilaterally. The key to success is an accurate assessment of partner authorities, capabilities, posture, limitations, and will.

(i) Ensure continuity and consolidation for follow-on missions. Effective follow-through of joint force success against an adversary does not normally lead to the conclusion of the overall competition. Following through on the gains and adjusting to the setbacks is a fundamental requirement. The result may change the overall character of the competition. JFCs should anticipate the continual ebbs and flows of adversarial competition over time. Joint forces capitalize on success by consolidating the gains. As no accomplishment in competition has permanence, commanders ensure continuity of effort through activities to secure and protect the coercive action's success and maintain the behaviors and conditions to perpetuate the advantage or interest. Consolidating gains is an integral part of succeeding in competition and winning in armed conflict.

8. Considerations for Countering Coercion and Malign Influence

a. When directed, the joint force has traditionally exercised influence over key territories in conditions less than armed conflict to maintain and advance US national

interests. Now, the situation can become more complex as threats have challenged the United States in orbital and cyberspace. Within enduring competitions, actors continually probe and seek to gain an advantage. Previous strategic guidance has directed military forces to counter these provocations on many occasions. The US and joint force experiences have exceeded the scope of most anecdotal coercion theories. For example, some situations include more than two actors that bear on the situation and its outcome. With the inclusion of multiple actors, an effective response requires a holistic framework where multiple power struggles may be in play concurrently. In the US experience, general deterrence is broad and continuous throughout the competition continuum. Alternatively, the United States normally tailors its use of force to compel behavior short of war only in specific circumstances.

b. The impact of the use of military force in these circumstances reinforces and empowers current narratives, expands and leverages existing treaties and partnerships, and provides credibility and teeth to other elements of national and allied power. In almost every case, the joint force provides the backbone and connective tissue to bring to bear other instruments of national power effectively. Civilian leaders have depended upon the joint force in the wake of military victory to determine, create, and enforce a new and preferred international landscape. When militaries do not effectively enable this political leverage, abstract but real and powerful forces, previously unforeseen, dormant, or sidelined, emerge and bring to bear new and expanded political stakes and circumstances. In these cases, there is no readily apparent finality or conclusion for the military.

c. When the existing character of relations between two nations regarding a specific contested interest is hostile, nations can call upon armed forces to coerce behavior. Nations use military force in conjunction with the other instruments of national power to present a threat to an adversary to:

(1) Deter the adversary from taking an undesired action or from stopping or preventing a desired action. There may be actors that are currently not complicit in or supportive of the antagonistic behavior but that could make the situation far worse or complicated. The joint force may contribute to actions that ensure those actors remain neutral or not involved.

(2) Compel the adversary to do or to stop doing an action. Armed forces are used to organize around the problem by providing support to a neutral actor(s) or potential ally.

(3) Assure or reinforce other relevant actors so they will continue positive behavior or begin to make positive contributions. Another aspect of assurance is in signaling that compliance by the adversary will not lead to further demands.

(4) Induce a hesitant actor to either initiate positive contributions or refrain from harmful behavior. Policy formulation should consider, and JFCs account for, all the actors involved that can substantially bear on the situation.

d. Regardless of the circumstance, joint forces can coerce behaviors either directly or indirectly. Direct use of military force occurs when the activities orient on an adversary

without intermediaries. Sometimes, JFCs compel behavior indirectly through partners. In these cases, the joint force does not confront the primary adversary with action; only the adversary's allies feel pressure directly. JFCs can coerce an adversary indirectly to the degree that they are concerned with their client's well-being if they find the US action credible. For example, the United States deployed a Marine expeditionary brigade to Thailand in 1962 to induce the Soviet Union and China to compel their indigenous Laotian surrogates to change their antagonistic behavior.

e. Civilian leaders can use the joint force indirectly to achieve strategic objectives. In such instances, the signaling to the adversary may include changes in the disposition of military units. While these actions may demonstrate US concern to all parties, US civilian leaders may make no specific attempt to communicate the relationship between the military activity and the desired behavior of an adversary within the circumstance. Success requires the adversary to anticipate, observe, or otherwise become aware of the military activity.

f. Precipitation of Coercion

(1) Coercive circumstances begin to unfold when an actor disrupts an established framework of relations among several nations or an internal domestic political configuration, by injecting sentiment, attitudes, or overt action that is unexpected or at least unwelcome. Once the actor or adversary identifies an opportunity or vulnerability, they pursue and exploit it through unattributable, nuanced, or overt coercive measures, while violating principles of sovereignty. The adversary leverages ambiguity and deliberately blurs truth from fiction. These encroachments may manifest themselves as a domestic upheaval, a new departure in a major power's foreign policy, or perhaps an unexpected armed clash between the military units of hostile states. Regardless of the cause, the encroachment often creates uncertainties and a distinct and pervasive psychological unease among interested parties. The adversary's objectives can be subtle or surprising—modest or bold.

(2) The choices made by foreign decision makers have their own domestic and external limitations. As a group of variables, the perceptions, sources of motivation, strength of commitment to an interest, and many other influences significantly impact those decisions. Although a state might want to clearly signal a willing or imminent threat of the use of force, a foreign leader may perceive only a weak commitment. Domestic considerations and internal pressure may drive an adversary to act against their better judgment. Different scenarios present different degrees of difficulty. The degree of success of the joint force and other US policy efforts depends upon how effectively the designed effort penetrates the complex and layered set of variables driving an adversary's decision making.

(3) In implementing a mechanism to counter the adversaries' advances, JFCs must consider how to organize against the adversaries' decision-making mechanisms. One method is to identify all the actions and behaviors needed to confront the encroachment. These fall largely into two categories. First, the behaviors that the joint force's efforts need to ensure, and second, the behaviors the joint force must change. For example, for any

single problem set, there are probably several behaviors the joint force needs to help continue and several behaviors commanders will need to stop.

g. Determining the Approach and Objectives for a Specific Interest/Adversarial Behavior

(1) In developing an approach, national leaders will likely have to consider and decide five questions. The first is what to demand of the adversary regarding curtailment of the encroachment. The second is how to create a sense of necessity for the adversary to comply with the demand. The third is how to determine what measures will be effective against the adversary's existing encroachment and convey relevant and increasing costs for continued noncompliance. Fourth, how the US and joint force will recognize whether the implemented approach is working. Fifth and finally, how to communicate an assurance of settlement when the adversary complies. Together, these five decisions lead to formulating a demand that is credible and potent enough in the adversary's mind that they choose compliance rather than noncompliance and its consequences. The more far-reaching the demand on the adversary, the stronger its motivation to resist and the more difficult the task of the coercive diplomacy. The point is in striving to know the adversary and avoiding the tendency to mirror-image how we might react given a reversal of roles.

(2) Depending on the answers the policymakers provide, there will be different variants of the approach. There are three major variants and JFCs can provide essential contributions for each. The first is the ultimatum, which is a deadline that the state gives for compliance, backed by actions associated with denial or imposing costs for noncompliance. The second is gradualism, which pushes for compliance backed only with the threat of incremental increases of military force over time. The third type of approach is through experimentation. Initially, this may be a minimalist approach that may not have a substantive opportunity cost but likely lack mechanisms for both creating a sense of urgency for compliance and a clear threat of military force for noncompliance. Only on rare occasions will an adversary respond to incentives or promises of beneficial overtures.

(3) The purposes of these different approaches are typically:

(a) **Denial** approaches seek to change an adversary's behavior by thwarting its approach or denying implementation. Denial focuses on the actual conduct or implementation of the encroachment. Denial confronts the actual coercive mechanism to undercut its effectiveness, seeking to stalemate these forces rather than bring outright military victory over them. A successful denial approach is one that prevents the adversary from achieving their objectives with its approach.

(b) **Forfeiture** or cost-imposing approaches seek to change an adversary's behavior by raising the costs of its continued antagonistic behavior. Forfeiture imposes costs, either directly to the adversary's power base or population, or pressures assets that are important for the population's or to the leadership's values or quality of life. A successful approach is one that causes the adversary to give way, not because the competitor thwarts the military approach but because the opportunity costs of continuing

are too great or the impact on the adversary's internal structures or population has become too negative.

(c) **Risk-based** approaches seek to change an adversary's behavior by raising the probability that it will suffer increasing costs in the future if it fails to comply. Risk means escalation and threatens greater costs to the adversary's valued power base and key assets.

1. A successful risk-based approach causes the adversary to acquiesce because it becomes convinced the costs it will suffer from looming coercive action are not worth the objectives it seeks. To the extent force produces risk, coercive action can be inherently difficult to pull off because risk-based approaches are inherently complex. Risk-based approaches can be successful to the extent that they create, in the adversary's mind, the fear that future military actions will be sufficiently costly that the adversary changes its behavior. However, costs suffered from coercive measures in the present carry more influence than the potential costs imagined from coercion in the future.

2. JFCs should calculate and conceive risk as anticipated future costs. Imagined future opportunity costs hurt less than present costs. Based on the circumstances, JFCs may apply a risk-based approach incrementally, gradually ratcheting up the costs. However, this can produce contrary effects. Especially if the adversary has time to adapt its tactics to reduce the damage, adjust to the costs, and mobilize domestic opinion against the United States—all of which make the adversary better able to tolerate the imposed costs. Finally, a coercive risk approach is less effective when the state only threatens or severely limits the action against the adversary.

3. For similar reasons, denial approaches are difficult to execute with coercive diplomacy. After all, it is hard to inflict much damage with coercive diplomacy: the limited use of force produces only limited results. Delivering limited military actions is not likely to cause an adversary that cares deeply about its objectives to change course. Similarly, the threat to deny is not actual denial, and limited use of force can produce only limited denial. Strictly speaking, coercive diplomacy cannot employ denial in the sense that it cannot use enough force to stalemate an adversary. Through limited military action, the joint force can, if it chooses, undercut the effectiveness of the adversary's encroachment but without making it stop.

4. Whether the state intends to employ its military power to manipulate risk, impose costs, or execute denial, all three goals can be difficult to achieve with only limited employment of military force. For the state, it expects its threats and measures signal firm resolve to escalate the use of force unless the adversary bends. However, the adversary, especially a highly motivated one, can just as easily perceive the threats and limited use of force as signaling weakness. A demonstration of determination can actually appear as an unwillingness or inability to employ large forces or engage in armed conflict. Threats and limited use of force are not unequivocal in their meaning; the adversary can interpret either firmness or weakness in resolve, depending upon their perspective and gathered information.

(4) Regional partners may welcome an imminent change in US policy or overt indications of enforcing an existing one because the US action protects or advances their national interests. In these instances, these partners may be willing participants. The challenge and opportunity are to create solidarity regarding the interests at stake with multiple like-minded actors. This unity requires precisely aligning a common view of the encroachment, the combined interests of countering the adversary, and the individual efforts and goals between the United States and all the participants. Other actors may be inclined toward or favor the interests of the adversary. Their involvement or participation can complicate the situation, increase the effort the United States has to exert, and reduce the probability of success. In these instances, the joint force and interdepartmental leaders take measures to ensure these actors refrain from action that supports the adversary. These aspects of the effort may be heavy-handed and even coercive. The efforts must sideline these potentially harmful actors and incentivize them to at least remain neutral. Together, these actions prepare the international framework that favors the United States and isolates the adversary.

(a) Successful coercion causes the adversary to choose to change or modify its behaviors. For example, a nation may initially take a neutral position or seek to remain uninvolved. However, that nation's participation may be essential to the CCDR's campaign design and maneuver, such as providing essential access, basing, or overflight permissions, as well as denying those to the adversary. The United States may well have to provide cooperative incentives, many being military, such as SC investments. These incentives are another aspect of isolating the adversary and its encroachment.

(b) Next, the national leadership can direct departmental, agency, and joint force actions to organize around and against the adversary's encroachment with the intent of coercing a change in that behavior and then rolling back its gains through a mix of activities and measures. Senior military leaders form and apply discrete mixes against specific actors and narrow, but relevant, aspects of the overall circumstance. Across regions, the campaign design may require numerous, precise applications of blended US powers to pursue and achieve the operational-level behavioral objectives, either reinforcing or compelling action. In most cases, these contested interests are transregional and require contributions of several CCMDs. For example, one CCMD may have to initiate and align efforts to maintain solidarity and assure two or three partners and take action to keep an unhelpful actor on the sidelines. Another CCMD may work with partners to facilitate a behavior necessary for success with irregular and conventional force. At the same time, a third CCMD focuses on multiple forms of military force to compel alongside other coercive diplomatic, informational, and economic instruments of national power to compel the adversary to acquiesce to US demands. A fourth CCMD's actual contribution may be establishing an exclusion zone, interdicting LOCs, or supporting a violent surrogate.

(c) When countering an adversary's coercive actions, JFCs should account for specific friendly and adversary behaviors: those that should continue and those that should change. The approach must organize around the problem and contested interest(s) by employing combinations of activities and measures toward multiple instances of the desired behaviors. The campaign design and execution may have to present and leverage unique combinations of US national power. For each necessary behavior, the campaign

should employ actions and measures consisting of diplomatic incentives or pressures, irregular and traditional warfare, and economic measures that promote or constrain a competitor. The combination of actions and measure can be rich with incentives; light pressures for hesitant, but needed, contributors; and a full and complex array of strong pressures aimed at the adversary. The importance of making decisions and choices based on understanding the adversary's perspective and developing a causal link between action and behavior for each actor is essential. These incentives and light pressures must resonate and impact all the involved parties' perception of options and subsequent decision making.

(d) Finally, policy guidance will likely drive the operational objectives. Initially, the level of effort may be minimal. The policy intentions and corresponding military approach may only seek to limit the adversary's actions. Based on the evolving situation, this level of effort and the goals may scale up or down. Of course, the joint force's actions toward coercing a single antagonistic behavior by a single actor occurs within global integration's systematic decision making and recommendation process. Potential policy goals include counter, enhance, contest, and limit. These can change rapidly throughout the GCP or CCP.

1. Counter. Proactively challenge and prevent the adversary from achieving incompatible objectives without causing an escalation to armed conflict but seeking to roll back the adversary's gains and coerce the adversary to abandon the behavior and policy.

2. Enhance. Actively seek to achieve strategic objectives; improve relative strategic or military advantage.

3. Contest. Maintain relative strategic or military advantage to ensure the adversary achieves no further gains; only seek to improve the US advantage as much as possible with existing resources and in a manner that does not jeopardize interests elsewhere.

4. Limit. Minimize the adversary's gains. Achieve the best possible strategic objective within given resources or policy constraints, recognizing that this lesser objective entails the risk that the competitor will achieve further gains.

h. Joint Operations, Tasks, and Investments in Adversarial Competition. The clearest signal of US commitment is the deployment and employment of military forces in response to the unacceptable behavior of an adversary. The most effective means of communicating to an adversary the seriousness of US intent is the visible commitment of resources: spending the money required to project power, accepting the opportunity costs of not using capabilities in other ways, and putting military assets and Service members in potentially dangerous environments. When the principal narrative makes clear the United States values the object and stakes surrounding the contested interest, the decision to move forces from outside the region into the AOR is an effective signal of US resolve. This type of signaling is effective for many situations, across many types and sizes of deployments, despite differences in the size and longevity of any prior permanent presence. Cost is a

good indicator of value, and vulnerability is a good indicator of commitment. The United States has considerable flexibility in selecting which combinations of air, maritime, land, space, and cyberspace forces to use when it wishes to demonstrate its resolve. The types of joint operations associated with adversarial competition include:

(1) **Sanction Enforcement** is any operation that employs coercive measures to control the movement of designated items into or out of a nation or specified area. Maritime interception operations can be efforts to monitor, query, and board merchant vessels in international waters to enforce sanctions against other nations, such as those in support of the UN Security Council or other legitimate sanctioning body's resolutions, and prevent the transport of restricted goods. The strategic objective is to compel a nation or group to conform to the objectives of the initiating body, while the operational objective focuses on establishing a selective barrier that allows only authorized goods to enter or exit. Depending on the terrain, sanction enforcement normally involves some combination of forces operating in multiple domains across AORs. Assigned forces should be capable of complementary mutual support and full communications interoperability.

(2) **Establishing/Enforcing Exclusion Zones.** A sanctioning body establishes an exclusion zone to prohibit specified activities in a specific area. With appropriate authorization and subject to law and policy, joint forces may monitor and enforce exclusion zones for breaches or flagrant violations of international law regarding the conduct of nations, treaty compliance, protection or safety of civilians, or force protection. There are different types of exclusion zones that the JFC can establish. These zones can emanate from the air, on the water, or the land. An exclusion zone's purpose may be to persuade nations or groups to modify their behavior to meet the desires of the sanctioning body or face the continued imposition of sanctions, or signal a credible threat of the use of force. Such measures can be resolutions by the UN or mandates by another international body of which the United States is a member, although the United States may unilaterally impose them (e.g., Cuban Missile Crisis Oct 1962, Operation SOUTHERN WATCH in Iraq, initiated in August 1992, and Operation DENY FLIGHT in Bosnia, from March 1993 to December 1995).

(3) **Interdiction.** In adversarial competition, with proper authorization, interdiction can include activities to support law enforcement and divert, disrupt, delay, intercept, board, detain, or destroy with lawful authority, vessels, vehicles, aircraft, people, cargo, and money. For example, joint forces have much experience in conducting air and maritime interception operations in support of a wide range of UN Security Council resolutions. Additionally, Title 10, USC, and state NG military forces also provide DSCA to USG departments or agencies responsible for domestic law enforcement interdiction activities when requested and approved by SecDef or the President.

(4) **Peace Enforcement and Peacekeeping.** Peace enforcement operations (PEO) and peacekeeping operations (PKO) are important coercive actions that orient on adversarial behaviors. They are important tools and can make significant contributions in adversarial competition. PEO and PKO can be multiagency and multinational operations. PEO and PKO can provide a humanitarian response or coerce a cessation of violent actions.

They can involve all instruments of national power—including international humanitarian and reconstruction efforts and military missions—to contain armed conflict, force a change in antagonistic behavior, create an environment of reconciliation and rebuilding, and facilitate the transition from fragile to effective governance. For the joint force, this typically includes PKO, PEO, and deterrence. JFCs conduct PKO or PEO in conjunction with various diplomatic activities and humanitarian efforts to achieve strategic objectives. JFCs tailor PKO/PEO to each situation and may support diplomatic activities before, during, or after conflict. PKO/PEO support national/multinational strategic objectives. Military support improves the chances for success in the negotiation process by lending credibility to diplomatic actions and demonstrating resolve to achieve viable political settlements.

For additional guidance on peace operations, refer to JP 3-07.3, Peace Operations.

(5) **Freedom of Navigation and Overflight.** Freedom of navigation operations protect US navigation, overflight, and related interests on, under, and over the seas, against excessive maritime claims. Freedom of navigation is a sovereign right accorded by international law.

(a) International law recognizes that a coastal nation may exercise jurisdiction and control within its territorial sea in the same manner it can exercise sovereignty over its land territory, subject to the right of “innocent” passage, which permits ships to pass continuously and expeditiously through another nation’s territorial waters. The passage is “innocent” if it is not prejudicial to the stability, good order, or security of the coastal nation. All ships and aircraft enjoy complete freedom of movement and operation on and over the high seas, subject only to the requirement to have due regard for the rights of other nations and safe conduct and operation of other ships and aircraft.

(b) Freedom of navigation by aircraft through international airspace is a well-established principle of international law. Aircraft threatened by nations or groups through the extension of airspace control zones outside the established international norms will result in a measured legal response, appropriate to the situation. The International Civil Aviation Organization, a specialized agency of the UN, codifies the principles and techniques of international air navigation and fosters the planning and development of international air transport to ensure safe and orderly use of international airspace.

(6) **Freedom of Overflight.** Space is the only physical domain that allows a globally persistent and legal overflight of any location on the Earth. This global persistence is achieved by combining the high-altitude perspective of space with the enduring longevity of spacecraft, and an international legal regime affords unique opportunities for military power. Orbital flight extends LOCs into the most desolate and remote OAs. Joint forces at every echelon capitalize on this capability to share information beyond their line-of-sight, synchronizing global power projection. Space operations can overcome denied area access in that space-based ISR provides the foundational intelligence to analyze adversary capabilities, COAs, and intent to deliver predictive intelligence for space domain awareness and JFC decision making. With this positional advantage, military forces can

monitor and begin response to contingencies around the world before establishing an in-theater footprint.

(7) **Protection of Shipping.** When necessary, US forces protect US-flag vessels, US citizens (whether embarked in the United States or foreign vessels), and US property against unlawful violence in and over international waters. This protection may extend to foreign-flag vessels under international law and with the consent of the flag state (such as Operation EARNEST WILL, in which Kuwaiti ships reflagged under the US flag in 1987). Actions to protect shipping include coastal sea control, harbor defense, port security, countermine operations, and environmental defense, in addition to operations on the high seas, including escort duties and area operations. JFCs may decide to execute these operations individually or in combination. Protection of shipping, which is a critical element in the fight against piracy, requires the coordinated employment of surface, air, space, subsurface units, sensors, weapons, and a command structure both ashore and afloat with a logistic base.

(8) **Show of Force.** Commanders conduct show of force operations to demonstrate the US resolve. They involve the appearance of a credible military force to attempt to modify a specific actor's behavior or defuse a situation that, if allowed to continue, may be detrimental to US interests. These operations also underscore US commitment to our multinational partners.

(a) The United States deploys forces abroad to lend credibility to its promises and commitments, increase its regional influence, and demonstrate its resolve to use military force if necessary. SecDef may order a show of force to bolster and reassure friends and allies. Show of force operations are military but often serve both diplomatic and military purposes. These operations may influence other governments or political-military organizations to change or modify antagonistic behavior or refrain from belligerent acts.

(b) Diplomatic concerns influence a show of force operation, and as such, military forces are often under significant legal and diplomatic constraints and restraints. The military force coordinates its operations with the country teams affected. A show of force can involve a wide scope of military forces, including joint US or multinational forces. Forces conducting a show of force operation are also capable of FDOs, FROs, and transitioning to humanitarian response or limited contingency activities.

(9) **Joint Campaigns and Operations Against Irregular Threats**

(a) **Irregular Threats.** Adversaries may use irregular approaches indirectly through surrogates to gain the advantage over a targeted government or international audiences and organizations. These adversaries balance the appropriate level of resistance and violence, striving for substantive effects while avoiding armed conflict by design. In this context, irregular threats challenge and compete against US and partner interests and others in the international community by threatening stability, norms, and the rule of law.

1. Irregular threats employ techniques of resistance, influence, and violence against vulnerable US allies and partners while purposefully avoiding armed conflict with the United States. Irregular threats can promote both nonviolent and violent resistance among the populations they aim to influence. Irregular threats use many forms of unlawful violence or threats of violence to further a variety of political, social, criminal, economic, and religious ideologies. Terrorists threaten the national power, sovereignty, and interests of the United States and our allies. The JFC should expect an array of actions and activities that challenge USG policy, counter-information efforts to erode legitimacy, and influence local groups and populations to protest US intervention. Irregular threats often avoid conflict and war with the USG but will utilize violence to counter US influence and policy. Increasingly, nation-state adversaries employ traditional and irregular strategies or work through surrogates or partners to compete against US policy and wield influence. Non-state actors primarily employ irregular strategies to achieve the same results through aggressive competition activities and violent opposition to US interests. Irregular threats operate clandestinely to avoid detection, foster and promote deniability, or blur and veil encroachments of norms and laws to create political and legal dilemmas for the USG and joint force.

2. An adversary's use of irregular threats can frustrate and contest US policy and the joint force actions. Irregular threats can engage and operate across the competition continuum, from cooperation through armed conflict. Irregular threats include surrogates, mercenaries, insurgents, subjugated or disenfranchised supporters, and criminal networks that support smuggling, illicit trafficking, and finance networks. These threats often operate in weak, failing, or failed states, illicitly around the world and nation-states that sponsor threats or provide sanctuary.

(b) Considerations for Campaigning Against Irregular Threats

1. Design campaigns around US, allies, and partner interests. CCDRs evaluate threats and opportunities by how they impact the United States, our allies, and our partners' interests. CCDRs advance and protect US interests by translating them into operational objectives within the GCPs mission areas and CCPs. CCDRs promote the interests of intergovernmental partners and allies through coordination and integrating strategies, plans, and actions to increase the probability of success. JFCs identify mutual concerns, interests, and goals. JFCs characterize how actors threaten those interests or efforts to exploit opportunities for advancing the US, allied, and partner interests relative to the actor. JFCs orient objectives on maintaining or creating an environment more favorable to shared interests. As the JFC visualizes a favorable or acceptable environment, one critical element for influence is an objective focused on the population and measures of the effects of information activities. JFCs consider allied and partner interests, especially where they align and inform the development of coalitions and shared responsibilities. This type of approach is a challenge for the joint force in balancing requirements between US global and theater interests. This balancing requires a coordinated prioritization process to manage potential constrained resources and capability.

2. Employ irregular and unorthodox methods. Irregular and unorthodox methods do not follow past practices or traditions of military activities or actions. When the threat applies irregular or asymmetrical methods against the United States or allies, they are attempting to thwart and challenge traditional approaches to competition, stability, and security. The JFC can implement an irregular or nontraditional approach to challenge the actions of the adversary and frustrate their plans and goals. Employing nontraditional methods against irregular threats includes countering their surreptitious movements, revealing or exposing their concealment in sanctuaries, refuting and opposing their information narrative or efforts, and, on rare occasion, violent actions. Employing irregular and nontraditional methods can frustrate the threat's ability to identify or anticipate the JFC's plans and degrade the threat's efforts to counter future US military activities. Plan for the development of operational infrastructure early in the campaign to support future actions and the flexibility to employ multiple capabilities against the adversary. In areas at risk without operational infrastructure, JFCs coordinate with multinational partners and allies to expand opportunities through their assistance and influence. During competition, subject to proper authorization, SOF may focus on employing unorthodox methods to influence local conditions, enhance integrated deterrence, or provide the JFC with risk-sensitive offensive options to advance US interests short of armed conflict.

3. Exploit asymmetries and leverage indirect approaches. Campaigns should incorporate a strategic and operational understanding of asymmetries that exist between US and adversaries' interests, strategies, cultures, postures, capabilities, and relationships. This analysis will illuminate adversary strengths, vulnerabilities, decisions, and red lines to help identify cost- or risk-sensitive opportunities to build advantage and create dilemmas. One tool for the JFC is to develop understanding through the preparation and ongoing assessment of the OE. A campaign plan can direct efforts against the threat's asymmetries through sequencing joint force actions and activities to frustrate or stall the operational momentum of the adversary.

4. Coordinate information to influence both globally and locally. Information is a powerful tool that can garner global support for US and partner efforts, build trust and address concerns for legitimacy, and influence local opinion against the adversary and counter its propaganda. The campaign should integrate the employment of credible global messaging and counter-messaging capability that is iterative; is repeatable; and promotes cross-CCMD, interorganizational, and multinational coordination to leverage overwhelming influence against the adversary. The JFC's information approach should promote legitimacy through activities directed against those areas and populations where irregular threats leverage economic, ideological, and logistical support. The JFC analyzes the OE to identify US resource requirements and areas where populations may be vulnerable to radicalization to support violence and terror. The JFC anticipates an adversary's operations and activities, while counter-messaging continuously throughout the campaign to frustrate the adversary's ability to influence opinion or increase support. JFCs integrate information fluency to strengthen the joint force advantage through knowledge of the joint force information capabilities and those information capabilities of its enemies and adversaries. Commanders assess the effectiveness of targeted influence

efforts to plan future information actions and can modify or continue future efforts depending on the assessment results.

5. Conduct global campaigning. Actions against irregular threats should reflect the relationship of SOF and conventional forces with the joint force to achieve an optimized effort through multifunctional capabilities employed throughout the OE. The two integral aspects of this method are how SOF and other forces enable the core joint warfighting functions. Irregular threats require expanded interorganizational cooperation, combined with efforts to create powerful influence at the right time and place. CCDRs integrate campaigns by coordinating with other collaborating CCMDs and recommending sequencing USG actions and activities throughout the competition continuum, emphasizing cooperation and adversarial competition. A globally integrated force campaigns across multiple theaters against irregular threats. As the joint force campaigns in cooperation, success requires a partner-building methodology that contests threat networks through prioritizing how and when to assist allies and partners. The CCDR and staff plan to maintain those current partners with mutual interests affected by irregular threats and advance selected partners in capability, interoperability, and desired US access. During competition, the JFC envisions how to improve the US and allies' strategic position, contest adversary gains, and employ actions to impose costs and create dilemmas for the irregular threats and their sponsors.

(c) Operations and Activities for Countering Irregular Threats

1. FID. FID is the participation by civilian agencies and military forces of a foreign government or international organization in any of the programs and activities undertaken by an HN government to free and protect its society from subversion, lawlessness, insurgency, terrorism, and other irregular threats to its internal security and the strategic interests of the sponsoring party.

For further guidance on FID, refer to JP 3-22, Foreign Internal Defense.

2. CTN. CTN is a subset of network engagement. CTN consists of the aggregation of activities across the DOD and USG departments and agencies that identifies and neutralizes, degrades, disrupts, or defeats designated threat networks. Irregular threats use licit and illicit networks to increase their operational reach and conduct, direct, support, and inspire malign activities directed against the interests of the United States and its allies and partners. In cooperation with interagency, intergovernmental, and foreign partner law enforcement and intelligence organizations, the joint force conducts CTN activities to dismantle these threat networks. CTF is a component of CTN. CTF encompasses activities conducted to degrade, disrupt, destroy, or defeat the generation, storage, movement, and use of assets to fund activities that support an adversary's ability to affect US interests negatively. Joint forces conduct CTF activities to interdict the clandestine transfer and storage of funds to finance malign activities.

For additional guidance on CTN, network engagement and CTF activities, refer to JP 3-25, Joint Countering Threat Networks.

(10) Support to Resistance Partners/Insurgency

(a) Support to resistance is a USG policy option to support a foreign resistance movement that offers an alternative to a direct US military intervention or formal political engagement in a conflict. The USG may determine to support the resistance in various situations and under many different conditions. Once USG sponsorship is determined, the resistance becomes a partner where the USG shares policy and resistance goals. Resistance activities can remain nonviolent in the early stages and progress to violence to coerce or disrupt the oppressive government or occupying power's behavior if it does not change or adapt.

(b) A resistance partner has mutually established agreements with the USG to cooperate for some specified time in pursuit of specific objectives. A resistance partner acts on their own accord. They are not subordinates under formal command. A surrogate is someone who acts on behalf of another. A surrogate is an employee or subordinate that a friendly force commands and controls and whose actions the friendly force bears some legal and moral responsibility. While the terms surrogate and proxy are terms of international relations taxonomy as a policy perspective, such usage does not obviate the importance of the proper distinction for UW regarding support to resistance partners versus employment of surrogates. JFCs emphasize that decision makers' and practitioners' expectations of "control" over a resistance partner is not a guarantee.

(c) The United States may support insurgencies that oppose oppressive regimes or resistance movements that oppose an occupying power. The United States coordinates this support with its allies and partners. US military support in this manner is through UW. UW is an effort by the USG to enable an indigenous resistance movement or insurgency in denied areas. UW can enable resistance movements to disrupt, coerce, or overthrow a hostile government or occupying power through auxiliary, underground, and guerrilla elements to protect or advance US interests. SOF are well-suited to conduct UW but require joint, interagency, and multinational support to be successful. Within SOF, United States Army Special Operations Command is CDRUSSOCOM's lead proponent for UW and Army Special Forces are specifically organized, trained, and equipped to conduct special operations with an emphasis on UW capabilities. Conventional forces have functional specialties that also may contribute to or enable the UW mission.

(d) US forces may sponsor and support resistance forces providing logistic and training support, as they did for the Mujahidin resistance in Afghanistan during the Soviet occupation in the 1980s. In certain circumstances, the United States can provide direct combat support, such as support to European and Chinese resistance movements in World War II, the NATO support to Kosovo separatist insurgents in 1999, and the insurgent Afghanistan Northern Alliance to remove the Taliban in 2001-2002.

(e) UW is activities conducted to enable a resistance movement or insurgency to coerce, disrupt, or overthrow a government or occupying power by operating through or with an underground, auxiliary, and guerrilla force in a denied area. Joint forces support friendly insurgent and resistance organizations opposing a government or

PRINCIPAL AND SURROGATE RELATIONSHIPS

As an adversary, Iranian surrogates throughout the Shia Crescent are an example of this type of relationship. Iran uses cultural ties. Generally, the Shiite branch of Islam, seeks to build strong-bonded surrogates throughout the Middle East. Today, Iran's most notable surrogates are Lebanon's Hezbollah and Iraq's Kata'ib Hezbollah. However, Iran also supports Houthi rebels in Yemen, Hamas throughout the Middle East, and Shia militia groups in Syria and Iraq. The tight cultural bond between principal and agent results in a strong principal-surrogate relationship resilient to high levels of risk.

Various Sources

occupying power hostile to US national interests. In adversarial competition, USG UW efforts will normally be clandestine and US personnel may be restricted from operating in the targeted country. Instead, they may operate from outside the OA to assist partner forces.

For further guidance on UW, refer to JP 3-05, Joint Doctrine for Special Operations.

(11) **Support for CD Operations.** The joint force supports federal, state, and local LEAs in their effort to disrupt the illicit transport and transfer of illegal drugs into the United States. Specific DOD authorities that pertain to CD operations are in Title 10, USC, Sections 124 and 271-284. Discussion of similar authorities is in DODI 3025.21, *Defense Support of Civilian Law Enforcement Agencies*.

For additional guidance on CD operations, refer to JP 3-07.4, Counterdrug Operations.

CHAPTER VII JOINT CAMPAIGNS AND OPERATIONS IN ARMED CONFLICT

SECTION I

1. Introduction

a. Armed conflict or war is a violent conflict between nations, state-like entities, or armed organizations. A nation with a central government or occupying power opposed by insurgent, separatist, or resistance groups engage in armed conflict. Additionally, armed groups that do not recognize national borders may fight wars in semiautonomous regions. The situation presented by an enemy often drives CCDRs' conduct of joint warfighting to pursue a complex array of overlapping operational objectives across numerous AORs. Along with conventional forces, the enemy may employ coercion, irregular tactics, terrorism, criminal activity, and information warfare to complicate operations. Joint campaigns and operations in armed conflict can be an extensive and comprehensive effort in terms of scale, tempo, and scope of capabilities. Prevailing against the enemy requires senior military and civilian leadership to transition the force's posture optimized for the global campaign to a disposition for joint warfighting. Additionally, commanders integrate capabilities from across the CCMDs to conduct joint warfighting and defeat the enemy's will, strategy, and capabilities. CCDRs synchronize their campaigns' operations and activities with other CCDRs over time and across multiple AORs. Success requires JFCs to adapt continually based on evolving situations and opportunities presented by the enemy.

b. The transition to armed conflict presents a significant challenge for the joint force. The CCDRs prepare for rapid transition from global campaigning to campaigns that include large-scale combat operations. The transition often requires assessment and reallocation of forces across the globe. As the situation evolves, JFCs expand their efforts to prevent aggression alongside allies and partners. This will likely increase as multinational forces begin operating against the common enemy. CCDRs may expand their competitive activities to neutralize irregular threats and coerce other adversaries from supporting the enemy. Joint warfighting often requires multiple supported commands operating together in numerous AORs and across all domains. Against a peer enemy, unity of effort may be more important than unity of command. Warfare against a peer enemy may not be the purview of a single JTF operating in one JOA. Success requires the CCMDs to cooperate through integrated and mutually supporting campaigns executed across multiple AORs and functions based on strategic direction from the President and SecDef. Effective joint warfighting requires joint forces to avoid and survive the enemy's strengths and employ capabilities through cycles of offensives, counteroffensives, and transitions. CCDRs seek to avoid protracted periods of inconclusive warfare or stalemate. At some point, CCDRs conduct counteroffensive operations to regain the initiative and defeat the enemy militarily through attrition, exhaustion, or annihilation. CCDRs either impose or help negotiate a settlement, but the wartime effort will be far from over. Defeating the enemy militarily is necessary, but insufficient to achieve strategic objectives. Influencing the enemy's behaviors and establishing conditions for strategic objectives typically requires CCDRs to continue campaigning long past the cessation of sustained hostilities.

Throughout the aftermath and consequences of armed conflict, JFCs recognize the opportunities to cooperate with new partners and necessity to counter coercion in the new and re-characterized competitions. These competitions can emerge and complicate the United States' vision for the future. JFCs maintain preparedness to employ force short of war or occasional episodes of violent action to secure and perpetuate the gains after the cessation of hostilities.

c. **The Challenges of Armed Conflict.** The most demanding scenario is an attack on the United States homeland. Another challenge may begin with the enemy's miscalculation regarding the commitment of the United States to defend another nation. When a significant asymmetry of interest or commitment exists, such as fighting within the enemy's sphere of influence, the enemy will likely endure a great deal of hardship and casualties before modifying their ambition and actions. One daunting challenge the joint force could face would be to absorb an initial enemy offensive on another continent, protect other threatened forces and infrastructure, commit additional forces from across the globe, and simultaneously secure the US homeland. As difficult as this scenario may seem, the joint force would be fighting with only forward and initial response forces. Those forces would have to deny the enemy offensive's initial operational-level objectives and transition to the counteroffensive at the first opportunity. A counteroffensive is an attack made in response to an enemy, typically on a large scale or for a prolonged period. JFCs initiate counteroffensives with forces previously in a defensive or deterrence posture. The JFCs orient on establishing the initiative and disrupting the enemy offensive. Then, JFCs aim on controlling or seizing areas or terrain and creating a cycle of deterioration that can force the enemy to abandon their objectives or even lead to their disintegration.

d. JFCs of forward forces avoid the enemy's strengths and maneuver to attack vulnerabilities to defeat the enemy. As the counteroffensive progresses, JFCs continually transition and adapt to the situation and the enemy's reactions for as long as required to defeat their capability and will to wage armed conflict. This offensive-counteroffensive-transition cycle is demanding and may repeat itself many times throughout the conflict and before a cessation of hostilities. The joint force has a tradition of persevering through the initial enemy assault, then projecting and sustaining substantial combat forces across the globe to fight the enemy close to their geographic periphery. Adaptation to dynamic change in the OE is essential. Military institutions can fail to anticipate the changing character of warfare because new information and experiences that should prompt reconsideration of methods and organizations are not compelling enough. Cultural ideas about warfighting can serve as barriers to adaptation and remain intact even after costly interactions with the enemy make the requirement to change obvious. The French failure to anticipate and adjust to the German blitzkrieg is a classic example. JFCs expect and anticipate all this as today's joint force would have to overcome significant challenges to prevail in armed conflict against a peer enemy.

e. **Global Integration Enables Multiple Supported and Supporting CCMDs.** In armed conflict, CCDRs integrate the full range of capabilities and expertise through multiple supported and supporting CCMDs in multiple AORs. The foundation of US joint warfighting capability is the joint force's ability to integrate capabilities throughout the OE

to create military advantages. The joint force campaigns as a globally integrated force, not as individual CCMDs. CCDRs conduct operations by using common approaches. Globally integrated C2 and responsiveness increases the ability for JFCs to successfully integrate many capabilities to improve the effectiveness of campaigns and major operations.

f. JFCs synchronize forces and effects to defeat the enemy's initial offensive and then seek to penetrate the enemy's layered defenses, first with nonlethal and then lethal capabilities to disrupt the redundancy and resilience of the enemy's confederated systems. JFCs can then establish limited freedom of maneuver to consistently bring to bear combat power against the enemy for longer durations. Afterward, JFCs begin to exploit the advantages to defeat the enemy's capabilities and will. In waging warfare, JFCs adapt continuously to the enemy and the dilemmas they present. Timely adaptation is essential to effective joint warfighting. While this may appear straightforward, JFCs do not expect to initially have freedom of maneuver, control over where and when the fight occurs, complete influence over the fight's tempo, or uncontested force deployments and sustainment. To successfully defeat the enemy, JFCs ensure joint forces:

(1) **Forward-deployed survive the enemy's initial attack.** Commanders protect and conserve the fighting and enabling capabilities of the force. Forward-positioned forces may have to quickly transition to armed conflict and survive the concentrated assault. These forces must deny the enemy their objectives and protect infrastructure and LOCs. Forward-deployed forces include other capabilities such as basing, operating locations, and logistic networks, which must continue to perform their missions even under heavy and sustained enemy attacks. Allied and HN infrastructure, logistic support, and contracted support are key to force projection and sustainment of the force.

(2) **Prioritize joint warfighting across multiple AORs and all domains.** An operational approach that focuses on a single region or alternates among domains allows the enemy to adapt or react and is unlikely to overwhelm its capacity. JFCs prepare and employ measures of traditional warfare and IW along with the use of information activities and expertise from multiple CCMDs. These measures will include enabling activities such as OCO, space operations, deception events, and EW. JFCs may converge complementary effects from across all domains at decisive points to create temporary avenues of approach and assailable flanks in the enemy's attack. Leveraging joint synergy enables the joint force to isolate critical enemy elements and create local overmatch. Joint forces then maneuver through these temporary breaches in the enemy's defenses and attack to disrupt the enemy offensive.

(3) **Defeat enemy intelligence, surveillance, reconnaissance, and targeting systems.** Joint forces reduce the effectiveness of enemy long-range surveillance and reconnaissance by employing deception and dispersion measures. An enemy's national-level ISR collects targeting information on fixed sites, detects predictable friendly patterns of operations, and monitors changes to friendly force posture. The enemy depends upon its space-based ISR in cyberspace, SOF sympathizers, open-source collection, ground-

based signal intercept platforms, and the communications networks that link these sensors to their HQs. The enemy maintains these capabilities at the national and regional levels. Together, these systems enable long-range strikes and attacks with ballistic missiles, cruise missiles, cyberspace attack capabilities, and SOF. Joint forces develop intelligence and targeting data to attack not only the enemy's command, control, communications, computing, and ISR infrastructure but also the links that enable their associated kill chains. Once degraded, commanders identify and exploit specific vulnerabilities of the enemy's sensors and networks to continue to deny the enemy's intelligence and training capabilities. Identification and exploitation of these vulnerabilities enable joint forces to attrit the enemy's protection past the point of enemy re-organization. Finally, practicing OPSEC by identifying and controlling publicly available information and operational indicators defeats the enemies' open-source collection efforts that provide the pieces of the puzzle for intelligence users to derive our intent.

(4) **Disrupt C2 systems.** Joint forces exploit weaknesses in the enemy's C2 systems, facilities, and logistics to isolate the enemy for two reasons. The first is to disrupt them and make it easier to attack. The second is to disrupt the enemy's ability to attack (e.g., execute fires, move forces). JFCs employ joint fires (e.g., interdiction, strategic attack) and information activities (e.g., OCO and EW) to affect enemy C2 and information systems. The purpose of attacking the enemy's C2 and information systems is to influence, disrupt, corrupt, or usurp the enemy's decision-making processes. The objectives include casting doubt in the adversary's mind.

(5) **Defeat elements of A2/AD systems.** Peer enemies protect their forces and capabilities with redundant A2/AD capabilities to prevent the joint force from gaining operational access and closing with their formations. These systems safeguard their operational forces and critical infrastructure. Even if these systems fail to deter the United States from intervening, they are valuable and provide an advantage. These systems would at least disrupt, degrade, and delay any US response for long enough that the enemy could seize its objectives before the United States and its allies and partners respond effectively. Additionally, the enemy's deployment of these systems seeks to create the perception that the necessary effort and cost of defeating these capabilities outweigh the benefit of intervening. To prevent the enemy from achieving their objective, JFCs identify and defeat the necessary nodes of the enemy's A2/AD systems. JFCs recognize defeating an enemy's A2/AD systems is key, but it is only a prerequisite. After defeating necessary aspects of the enemies' A2/AD capabilities, JFCs attack critical enemy vulnerabilities to disrupt their warfighting capabilities.

(6) **Attack operational COGs and critical vulnerabilities and capabilities.** The joint force attacks COGs prior to the enemy achieving their operational objectives. Against peer enemies, JFCs do not assume the joint force can control the tempo at all times or has the capability to establish superiority in any domain for lengthy time intervals. JFCs target the enemy's operational forces and critical infrastructure as soon as possible to degrade its capability, erode their will and commitment to fight, and disrupt the cohesion of their military. Penetrating A2 systems is necessary but is only an enabling step. The

purpose of penetrating the layers of enemy A2 capabilities and attriting redundant AD systems is to attack and defeat the enemy's operational capabilities or other COGs.

(7) **Maintain freedom of action in space.** More than most nations, the United States relies on space-based capabilities to project and employ power on a global scale. Threats may seek to deceive, disrupt, degrade, destroy, or deny access to space-based capabilities to gain an advantage at the outset of conflict. Adversaries are developing, testing, and fielding capabilities to deny the US advantages gained from space systems. Space capabilities provide JFCs ISR data, missile warning, satellite communications, and PNT, in addition to several other critical capabilities. These space systems consist of three related segments: terrestrial, link, and orbit, which are all vulnerable to attack. Enemies can gain an advantage using conventional and unconventional forces, DE weapons, cyberspace attack, or a combination to attack one or more of the space segments. The loss of any segment will degrade the joint force's technological advantages, adding friction to operations. The challenge increases because ground, space, and link segments cut across multiple AORs. To retain freedom of action in space, JFCs understand the capabilities and vulnerabilities of space-based systems and how these systems synchronize and integrate with the rest of the joint force.

(8) **Continue to campaign after the cessation of hostilities.** Campaigns that achieve war objectives require a great deal of effort and continuity long past military victory or cessation of hostilities. In most cases, the continuing effort goes on for years, even decades. JFCs do not view armed conflict's aftermath as something distinct from armed conflict. The consequences of even the most successful examples of joint warfighting are enduring and inseparable from armed conflict. As much as strategy, plans, and institutional concepts seek to define and orient on a moment of clear conclusion, commanders know that the situation that follows war could be volatile, success can be fragile, and completion is often illusory. Successful campaigning is more a long series of informed and deliberate transitions and adjustments. How effectively the joint force consolidates gains determines, in large part, how enduring the overall results of all campaigns and major operations will be and the duration and cost of attaining them. Failure to effectively consolidate gains and react to the enemy's continuing pursuits reduces options for senior military leaders and policymakers and contributes to inconclusive long-term results.

2. Joint Force Preparation and Transition to Armed Conflict

a. **Preparation.** While commanders conduct activities of cooperation and adversarial competition, they are still preparing for armed conflict. In many cases, the preparations enhance bonds between multinational partners, increase understanding of the AOR, help ensure access when required, and strengthen the capability for future multinational operations. All these qualities can help deter armed conflict. As CCDRs compete for access and influence across their AORs, they simultaneously set conditions to avoid armed conflict and ensure the joint force postures to respond to adversary actions and execute operations. CCDRs' GCPs' "prepare/respond to threats" mission area provides considerations for setting the theater for armed conflict. Preparing multiple geographic theaters or regions for armed conflict requires investment in leadership, diplomacy, and

long-term programming, which includes institutional planning, resources, and activities. JFCs consider how these investments will enable arriving forces, maintain operational access to key infrastructure, provide logistics and contractor support, maintain awareness and disseminate intelligence, and protect an expanding operational posture.

(1) Organizing and Training Forces. Leadership in organizing and training of forces to conduct armed conflict is foundational. CCMDs, JTFs, and components should exercise their wartime missions and roles frequently IAW their joint mission-essential task list (JMETL). JFCs certify their subordinate organizations, leaders, and staff. Staff should train for planning, preparing, and controlling joint and multinational operations. The composition of joint force staffs should reflect the assembled force. The reason is to ensure JFCs employing joint forces have a thorough knowledge of their capabilities and limitations. When possible, CCMDs and their staff should invite non-DOD agencies to participate in training to facilitate a common understanding and build a working relationship before actual execution. Commanders must continue to refine interactions with interagency partners they work with most often and develop common procedures to improve interoperability. When it is not possible to train forces in the theater of employment, as with US-based forces with multiple tasks, commanders should make maximum use of regularly scheduled and ad hoc exercise opportunities. The training focus for all forces and the basis for exercise objectives should be from the CDR's JMETL.

(2) Joint Reception, Staging, Onward Movement, and Integration (JRSOI). When possible, the commander and staff may incorporate theater-specific or operationally relevant training into JRSOI. This training provides an opportunity for forces that may not operate together on a recurring basis to familiarize and establish SOPs. In situations with multiple partners, a multiple partner environment familiarization is critical to enhancing interoperability. JRSOI activities frequently leverage commercial capabilities. The joint force deconflicts requirements with partners to promote access to infrastructure and ensure sufficient capacity.

(3) Train Forces. Leaders should exercise JTFs and components for large-scale combat operations regularly. Equally important, leaders design multinational exercises to enhance interoperability between disparate forces. CDRs and JFCs should develop robust, operational-level, multinational exercise programs. Multinational exercises are key components within developmental activities of SC and can inform ICB efforts.

(4) Rehearsals. Rehearsals provide an opportunity to learn, understand, and practice a plan or parts of the plan before actual execution. Rehearsing key combat and sustainment actions allows participants to become familiar with the operation, visualize the plan, and identify possible friction points. This process orients joint and multinational forces to surroundings and other units during execution. Rehearsals also provide a forum for subordinates to analyze the plan, but they must exercise caution in adjusting the plan. The commander's staff must coordinate changes throughout the chain of command to prevent errors in integration and synchronization. HQs at the tactical level often conduct rehearsals involving the participation of maneuver forces positioned on terrain (physically or virtually) that mirror the OE. HQs at the operational level rehearse key aspects of a plan

using command post exercises, typically supported by computer-aided simulations. While the joint force may not be able to rehearse all aspects of armed conflict, JFCs should identify essential elements for rehearsal.

(5) **Establishing and Maintaining Operational Access.** JFCs establish operational access for the most demanding wartime scenarios by establishing and maintaining freedom of action in all domains. The state or level of operational access is usually a work in progress. Maintaining the existing level of operational access to key infrastructure, logistics, and communications nodes is the greatest priority for the CCDR and JFC before the initiation of armed conflict. Access to commercial capabilities is not assured. The joint force competes with partners, civil use, and adversaries for commercial capabilities

(6) **Conditions.** An essential step in setting the theater's conditions for armed conflict involves organizing assigned and allocated forces for employment. Clear command relationships between current and projected units are essential. CCDRs expect the relationships between supporting and supported commands may change based on evolving situations.

b. Transition to Armed Conflict

(1) **Remain vigilant and ready: recognition.** The joint force and interagency partners must remain ready to defeat an initial enemy offensive, overcome surprise, and recover from loss of initiative. The enemy can employ a mix of irregular, traditional, and informational activities that may not present a triggering event until their operation or campaign is well underway. An enemy may leverage nonmilitary aspects of power and covert, clandestine, and coercive activities to confound assumptions of warning intelligence. If successful, the enemy may achieve its initial objectives without resorting to armed conflict and tilt the probability of overall success in their favor. JFCs continually fight for and collect relevant intelligence and focus on clear indications to determine whether an attack is imminent or underway. JFCs could simultaneously have to combat forms of enemy IW measures and counter misinformation, propaganda, and deception, and determining when to transition to armed conflict is essential.

(2) **Establish command relationships.** Armed conflict may require multiple supported CCMDs quickly shifting main efforts between them. Command relationships have trade-offs, but proper balance is essential. When command relationships are less than optimal, they can create operational gaps and unnecessary risk. CCDRs organize forces to implement strategic direction and pursue campaign objectives. JFCs should provide direction and guidance to subordinate commanders and establish command relationships to enable an effective span of control, responsiveness, tactical flexibility, and protection. CCDRs direct C2 architectures for their component commanders and supporting organizations. The CCDRs' subordinate organizations' C2 provide for unity of command and flexibility. JFCs have full authority, within established directives, to assign missions, redirect efforts, and direct coordination among subordinate commanders. JFCs task-organize their forces and generally allow Service, SOF, and cyberspace tactical and operational units

to function as they were designed and organized. However, initial C2 designs and purposes may prove incomplete or insufficient and commanders should expect to adapt.

(3) **Local Superiority.** Air and maritime commanders have a key role in the transition to armed conflict. By maintaining control of the air and sea in the transition to armed conflict, the JFC is able to set the conditions for successful engagements early in a conflict. In particular, the JFACC has significant roles in the ACA and AADC.

(4) **Other Considerations**

(a) **Littoral areas offer positions from which to begin, sustain, and support joint operations.** Even when joint forces are firmly established ashore, littoral operations provide JFCs with opportunities to gain leverage over the enemy by operational maneuver from the sea. JFCs can gain and maintain the initiative through the ability to project fires and employ forces from sea-based forces. Maritime forces operating in littoral areas can dominate coastal areas and rapidly generate combat power at times and in locations required by JFCs. Maritime forces' relative freedom of action enables JFCs to position these forces where they can strike enemy forces.

(b) **JFCs can operate from an HQ platform at sea.** Depending on the nature of the joint operation, a maritime commander can serve as the JFC or JFACC. A sea base provides JFCs with the ability to C2 forces and conduct select functions and tasks at sea without dependence on infrastructure ashore.

(c) **Transferring C2 from sea to shore** requires detailed planning, active liaison, and coordination throughout the joint force. Such a transition may involve a simple movement of commanders and supporting personnel, or it may require a complete change of joint force HQ. The new joint force HQ may use personnel and equipment, especially communications equipment, from the old HQ, or it may require augmentation from different sources. One technique is to transfer C2 in stages. Another technique is for the JFC to use the capabilities of one of the components ashore until the new HQ is fully prepared. However the transition occurs, staff should develop checklists to address the C2 requirements and timing of the transfer.

(d) **SOF-conventional force integration.** The JFC, using SOF independently or integrated with conventional forces, gains an additional and specialized capability to achieve objectives that might not otherwise be possible. The integration enables the JFC to take the fullest advantage of conventional and SOF core competencies. SOF provide an array of C2 options that enable effective mission command throughout the competition continuum, which spans daily activities supporting a GCP, competitive activities against adversaries, and conflict. Special operations commanders also provide liaison to component commands to integrate, coordinate, and deconflict SOF and conventional force operations. Exchange of SOF and conventional force LNOs is essential to enhance situational awareness and reduce the risk of friendly fire incidents.

(e) **Stabilization activities.** Stabilization activities provide an opportunity to support objectives and create the conditions to achieve strategic- and operational-level objectives. Allies and partners may offer support. Stabilization activities can take place during all military operations, in contested spaces and conflict-affected areas. The largest benefits to the USG from stabilization activities accrue before conflict in contested spaces and potentially prevent conflict. In armed conflict, stabilization activities occur in liberated and occupied territories and in conflict-affected friendly areas. JFCs plan and prepare for a stabilization level of effort appropriate for the circumstances. Stabilization efforts may include delivering targeted basic services, removing explosive remnants of war, repairing critical infrastructure, and other activities that establish a foundation for the return of displaced people. The joint force will lead USG stabilization efforts in combat areas until it is feasible to transition lead responsibility to civil authorities. Civil affairs can coordinate stabilization projects and humanitarian assistance to support military and strategic objectives as funding and policy permit. Civil affairs gather and integrate information on civil considerations such as various elements of the local populace, their potential vulnerabilities, and humanitarian needs in support of the JFC's planning and decision making. Civil affairs conduct engagements with government, intergovernmental, and nongovernmental organizations to coordinate and deconflict US stabilization efforts. MISO used to influence the behavior of approved foreign target audiences in support of operational-level objectives can ease the situation encountered when armed conflict transitions to competition. In coordination with interorganizational participants, the JFC must arrange for necessary financial support of these operations well in advance. Additionally, OCS can leverage contracts to help build the local economy, promote goodwill with the local populace, and contribute to long-term HN economic growth and stability. But it requires active participation and ownership of requirements from concept to creation of effects.

For more information, see JP 3-07, Joint Stabilization Activities, and DODD 3000.05, Stabilization.

(f) **Protection Considerations.** The JFC may designate a JSA as the operational footprint expands to accommodate the forces required for armed conflict. The JSA should include key logistics nodes and infrastructure such as aerial ports of debarkation and seaports of debarkation. Additionally, a JSA should provide JRSOI facilities, sustainment bases, and life support facilities for the US and multinational forces. The JSA activities should seek to protect the force from the threat of long-range enemy fires and special purpose forces. The JFC may assign a joint security coordinator (JSC) to manage the overall security of the JSA. The JSC may need to leverage PN or HN assets and capabilities to aid in securing the JSA.

(g) **Prevention of Friendly Fire Incidents.** Without limiting boldness or initiative, JFCs should make every preparation and effort to reduce the potential for the killing or wounding of friendly and neutral personnel, damaging friendly and neutral property, and degrading friendly and neutral capabilities. Airspace control and air defense are no less critical than the focus on ground-based friendly fire. Commanders should be aware of situations that increase the risk of friendly fire incidents and institute appropriate preventive measures. The primary mechanisms for reducing friendly fire incidents are

command emphasis, disciplined operations, close coordination among component commands and multinational partners, SOPs, training and exercises, technology solutions, rehearsals, effective CID, and enhanced awareness of the OE. CCMDs should consult with USAID when it has a mission presence to determine locations of friendly international organizations, NGOs, and local partners operating in the targeted area to avoid friendly fire incidents.

(h) **Logistics Support and Sustainment.** The scale of operational-level warfare traditionally requires significant logistics and sustainment support. CCDRs and subordinate commanders identify logistical and sustainment requirements and shortcomings for forces assigned and allocated to the theater. This identification includes planning for the sustainment needs of multinational partners. The sustainment demands of armed conflict may exceed the capacity of DOD, and CCDRs may need to utilize contractors and multinational partners to sustain the force. As such, commanders and staffs should review and update contracts as early as possible in the planning cycle to ensure resources are available as forces enter the theater. The CCDR and JFC must also review applicable acquisition and cross-servicing agreements (ACSAs) as they coordinate with PNs to support the joint force. An ACSA is an agreement that allows US forces to exchange the most common types of support, including food, fuel, transportation, ammunition, and equipment, with countries or international organizations. If existing ACSAs are insufficient, the CCDR may work with interagency staff or mission partners to update existing or draft new agreements. Finally, CCMDs should review, inspect, and prepare DOD prepositioned stocks for use, with shortcomings or deficiencies addressed through the J-4 [logistics directorate of a joint staff] to the JS as appropriate. JFCs must maintain access to OAs where they are likely to operate, ensuring forward presence, basing, the resiliency of combat power after enemy action, freedom of navigation, and cooperation with allied and multinational force nations to enhance operational reach. In part, this effort is national or multinational, involving maintenance of intertheater LOCs. Supporting CCDRs can greatly enhance maintaining intertheater LOCs.

(i) **Space Considerations.** Space is a contested environment where commanders anticipate and mitigate hostile actions that may affect friendly space operations and impact the ability to create effects from space. Commanders should also anticipate enemy and adversary use of commercial space capabilities. CCDRs may request CDRUSSPACECOM assistance in integrating space forces, capabilities, and considerations in preparation for armed conflict. Due to the limited resources in space, coordination between CCDRs is critical to deconflict the competing requirements in various AORs. Integrating space operations into the campaign is essential as they provide essential capabilities to JFCs (e.g., PNT, ISR, missile warning, and communications). Space operations can also negate some enemy or adversary advantages gained from their access to space. Space operations require robust planning and skilled employment to synchronize and integrate space operations effectively within the campaign. Therefore, it is incumbent upon the CCDRs to request space support early in the planning process to allow USSPACECOM to deconflict competing requirements. Space capabilities help shape the OE in a variety of ways, including providing intelligence and communications necessary to keep commanders and leaders informed worldwide. JFCs and their

components should request space support as early in the planning process as possible to ensure effective and efficient use of space assets. Timely planning helps ensure the effective and efficient use of limited space assets.

For further guidance on space operations, refer to JP 3-14, Joint Space Operations.

(j) **JEMSO.** The joint force is critically dependent on the EMS for operations across all joint functions and throughout the OE. For example, modern C2 requires the operation of EMS-dependent sensing and communication systems, while advanced weapons rely on PNT information transmitted through the EMOE. The joint force should strive for local EMS superiority before executing joint operations, but it should not be an expectation. EMS superiority is the degree of dominance in the EMS that permits the conduct of operations at a given time and place without prohibitive interference while affecting an enemy's ability to do the same. Against capable enemies, EMS superiority is difficult and temporary. Achieving EMS parity and short intervals of superiority is achievable but complicated by increasing joint EMS-use requirements, EME congestion, and proliferation of EMS threats. Joint forces execute JEMSO, facilitated by EM battle management, to achieve the necessary unity of effort for EMS opportunity.

For further information on EMS/JEMSO, see JP 3-85, Joint Electromagnetic Spectrum Operations.

(k) **Cooperative Activities.** Activities before armed conflict may focus on continued planning and preparation for anticipated stabilization activities. These activities should include conducting collaborative interagency planning to synchronize the civil-military effort; confirming the feasibility of pertinent objectives; and providing for adequate intelligence, an appropriate force mix, and other capabilities. Joint force stabilization activities may be a part of the USG's SSA to restore security and infrastructure eventually. Stabilization activities can also provide humanitarian relief in select portions of the OA to dissuade further adversary actions and help gain and maintain access and future success.

(l) **Targeting.** As the CCDR and JFC define the JOA, establish a JTF, and set the theater for potential armed conflict, they must refine or begin target identification, prioritization, and analysis per existing contingency plans, guidance, and the situation. Given the complexities, scale, and scope of armed conflict, target identification and prioritization cannot wait until combat has commenced. Updating or drafting a joint integrated priority collection list will facilitate the rapid development of a joint integrated priority target list and will aid in prioritizing collection assets across the theater. These early efforts should seek to identify the enemy's COG, critical requirements, and critical vulnerabilities. Target development may focus on the enemy's C2 mechanisms, A2/AD capabilities, or their sustainment infrastructure.

(m) **Informational Considerations.** Leveraging the IE to set conditions for success during armed conflict begins with the JFC and staff identifying relevant platforms for information dissemination in the OE. Also, JFCs identify the essential information the

force must protect to ensure mission success. The staff should identify key information outlets in the OE and then establish relationships with these entities. Before initiating armed conflict, JFCs may use these key information outlets to facilitate civil IM operations to mitigate the effects of combat on the civilian population and enable joint operations. Early considerations for planners for capabilities such as CMO, PA, and MISO may include reducing the adversary's will to fight and identifying and directing civilians to potential shelters, evacuation routes, medical treatment facilities, and humanitarian aid centers. Identifying and obscuring indicators or the aspects of transition (e.g., timing, methods, and locations) maintains surprise and protects future operations.

c. Preparing the OE

(1) JIPOE products facilitate the joint force in preparing the OE for operations. Conventional forces conduct, promote, and anticipate enduring preparations and readiness based on JIPOE. The objectives may or may not be threat-specific. Of course, the responses are all scalable and employed in the context of the specific situation.

(2) Special Operations. SOF may contribute to preparing the environment by creating conditions that mitigate risk and facilitate successful operations. The regional focus, cross-cultural/ethnic insights, language capabilities, and relationships of SOF provide access to and influence in nations where the presence of conventional US forces is unacceptable or inappropriate. SOF contributions can provide operational leverage by gathering critical information; undermining an enemy's will or capacity to wage war; and enhancing the capabilities of conventional US and multinational forces, indigenous resistance organizations, and employed surrogate forces. CDRUSSOCOM synchronizes planning for global operations against terrorist networks in coordination with other CCMDs, the Services, and, as directed, appropriate USG departments and agencies. In coordination with CCMDs and the supported JFC, CDRUSSOCOM plans and executes or synchronizes the execution of activities related to preparing the OE or provides SOF to other CCMDs.

For further guidance on special operations, refer to JP 3-05, Joint Doctrine for Special Operations.

(3) Cooperative Activities. In the transition to armed conflict, commanders prepare to employ SC activities to reinforce and restore partner capacity. On the other hand, cooperative stability activities may play a different role in armed conflict and the subsequent competition against an enemy. Assumptions based on recent experiences in stabilizing and reconstituting a defeated force may prove inadequate in waging armed conflict against a different enemy. Planning and execution of SC operations conducted before the commencement of hostilities can help establish a sound foundation for the resilience of allied nations and PNs.

d. Considerations for Isolating a Peer Enemy

(1) As guided by strategic direction, the United States and the joint force strive to isolate enemies by denying them access to allies and sanctuary. The purpose of isolation is to strip away as much of the enemy's external support or freedom of action as possible. Isolating an enemy is an important aspect of waging warfare at the strategic level. These actions can limit the enemy's potential for horizontal or vertical escalation and enable joint force freedom. CCDRs may support diplomatic, economic, and informational actions. US senior civilian leaders accomplish isolation of an enemy through narrative, diplomacy, and multinational coalitions, alliances, and partnerships. However, peer enemies have strategic depth and global reach. The issue is that a peer enemy can match the United States' informational, economic, and diplomatic influence. These enemies can intertwine with adjacent nations and enjoy more levers of relevant influence than the United States does. In either case, peer enemies have a variety of economic and diplomatic tools to offset US and multinational nonmilitary strengths. First, a peer enemy is likely a member of the UN Security Council, giving them veto power over any attempt by the United States or other members of the UN Security Council to invoke the powers of the forum to address and delegitimize their actions. While hurdles in the UN might not directly constrain US actions, they dilute legitimacy and excuse states that wish to remain on the fence during a conflict. Second, capable enemies maintain deep economic, diplomatic, and cultural ties with states on their periphery, which they could use to deny US forces access and overflight. In leveraging these advantages, a peer enemy could use various incentives and punitive measures to induce or coerce regional states to stay on the sidelines, delegitimize US actions, or even support their operations. A lack of support from these key states might call into question the willingness of the United States to intervene in regional disputes. The United States may use economic coercion such as sanctions, trade embargoes, or exclusion zones to pressure the enemy. The cost of this coercion could also fall on the US economy and economies of key US allies and partners. These facts do not invalidate such an approach, but they may significantly complicate and reduce the effort's potential impact, as other states may avoid aligning with the United States. For example, an enemy could threaten to curtail energy exports to susceptible peripheral states. Such a strategy may not stop a US-led intervention, but it would weaken the multinational force and raise the costs of intervening.

(2) Often possessing the most robust presence and resources within a given theater, the CCDRs can maneuver and uniquely position the force to assure allies or partners and influence nonaligned governments. As such, the CCDR or JFC may be the primary leader for creating new partnerships and influencing existing ones. These relationships are often necessary to enable nonmilitary measures such as economic sanctions and informational support to campaigns. In this capacity, the CCDR or JFC performs an integrating function across the instruments of national power. These relationships may prove critical by providing access, basing, and support requirements to commence armed conflict.

(3) Joint forces also seek to isolate the main enemy force from its strategic leadership and supporting infrastructure. Such isolation can be successful in using information and the physical interdiction of LOCs or denying resources affecting the enemy's ability to conduct or sustain military operations. This step serves to deny the

enemy both physical and psychological support and may separate the enemy leadership and military from their public support.

(4) Rather than enjoying a significant asymmetric advantage in strategic information, the United States might be at a relative disadvantage. While this disadvantage may have a direct impact on the force, the indirect impact may be larger and more challenging. By targeting the governments and populations of allies and partners in the multinational force, an enemy's aggressive information activities could deny US forces access or support. The solutions to many of these nonmilitary aspects of power may lie outside the military sphere. Nevertheless, the transition to armed conflict should proceed with the assumption that the main challenge is bringing our absolute advantage across all instruments of national power to bear through a whole-of-government strategy. Isolating an enemy is not a given, but it is a worthwhile pursuit. The impact is that in some scenarios, the isolation effort will place an added burden on JFCs.

e. Initial Response and Employing FDOs and FROs. The joint force executes FDOs and FROs to respond to situations by leveraging capabilities and options to counter coercion or disrupt, deny, degrade, destroy, or deceive as appropriate. Both provide the ability to escalate or de-escalate based on continuous assessment of an adversary's actions and reactions. CCDRs employ FDOs to prevent the situation from worsening and allow for de-escalation. Whereas FROs are generally reactive and punitive. However, in heightened situations where armed conflict with an adversary is possible, the leaders do not expect that an individual or single response options will influence the adversary or resolve the situation. Rather, supporting CCDRs use multiple and flexible options to influence the adversary and provide additional protection and joint combat power to the supported CCDR.

(1) FDOs. FDOs can be extemporaneous or preplanned, deterrence-oriented actions tailored to help resolve an issue without armed conflict. CCDRs use both military and nonmilitary FDOs to dissuade an adversary before an anticipated crisis arises or to deter further aggression during a contingency. Senior military and civilian leadership develop FDOs from across each instrument of national power, but they are most effective when used in combination. FDOs should provide the ability for both sides to de-escalate while establishing conditions that allow the United States to escalate if required.

(a) Military FDOs. CCDRs can initiate FDOs before or after unambiguous warning of adversarial actions. Deployment timelines, combined with the requirement for a rapid, early response, generally require an economy of force; however, military FDOs should not increase the risk to the force that exceeds the potential benefit of the desired effect. CCDRs seek to optimize the timing, efficiency, and effectiveness of military FDOs. They can rapidly improve the military balance in the OA, especially in terms of early warning, intelligence gathering, logistic infrastructure, air and maritime forces, MISO, and protection without precipitating armed response from the adversary. Commanders should avoid measures resulting in undesired effects such as eliciting a violent and destabilizing response. An adversary may perceive that friendly military FDOs as preparation for an attack. FDOs should identify the opportunity cost and expected reaction from both allies and partners and the adversary to conduct risk analysis and make informed decisions.

(b) Nonmilitary FDOs are preplanned, preemptive actions the United States takes to try to dissuade an enemy or adversary from initiating hostilities. Senior military and civilian leadership coordinate and synchronize military and nonmilitary FDOs to present a consistent message. In some situations, commercial support may provide support to a nonmilitary FDO. Alternatively, ad hoc identification of requirements for commercial support, at the point of need, will limit value to tactical forces support, increase cost, and create risks for adversary exploitation. Military leaders may align their efforts with nonmilitary partners to degrade an enemy's alliances, partnerships, and sources of support, while safeguarding and strengthening those that enable the friendly effort.

(2) FROs. Military and civilian leadership use FROs to respond to an enemy's action. The purpose of a FRO is to preempt, respond to, or prepare for additional attacks against US interests and signal US resolve. Military and civilian leaders develop FROs to facilitate early decision making by developing a wide range of prospective actions carefully tailored to produce desired effects, congruent with national security policy objectives. A FRO can be various military capabilities available to the President and SecDef, with actions appropriate and adaptable to existing circumstances, in reaction to any threat or attack.

(3) CCDRs can employ response activities with capabilities from across the force to present unique challenges and opportunities to influence the enemy through military FDOs.

For further guidance on planning FDOs and FROs, refer to JP 5-0, Joint Planning.

(a) Maritime Considerations. Maritime FROs and access to key littoral areas are often critical in the transition to armed conflict. Positioning forces off a belligerent's coast can have a powerful deterrent effect while simultaneously offering the national command authority a variety of FROs. CCDRs can also rapidly scale back maritime operations without high cost as the situation de-escalates. Examples of potential maritime operations include show-of-force actions, airborne ISR operations, multinational exercises, and increased active protection measures.

(b) Land Considerations. FROs conducted with land forces present the greatest resolve and commitment; however, deploying and sustaining an expeditionary land force not only exposes that force to risk but also incurs the greatest cost. These operations generally require access, basing, and sustainment arrangements with HN and partners, making them contingent on diplomatic agreements. Because of this, these FROs may not always be available or may prove too unresponsive to create the desired effect. Commanders must also consider the unintended consequences of deploying a land force into a volatile region. However, multinational exercises and rehearsals are often necessary.

(c) Air Considerations. Like maritime FROs, air FROs offer rapid and responsive ways to position the force to transition to armed conflict and communicate US intent. Given the joint force's global reach, these FROs may be the only way of demonstrating US resolve and commitment in highly contested or denied areas. However, like other FROs, air operations may be contingent on overflight permissions and support

agreements with other nations, making them difficult in some situations. They also offer the greatest risk of misinterpretation and may inadvertently escalate a situation beyond the desired threshold.

(d) Information Considerations. A defining feature of the security environment is how competitors, adversaries, and enemies use information to compete to gain relative advantage over the joint force. JFCs execute a communication strategy that facilitates the transition to armed conflict within the strategic context and supports the USG's policy aims, overarching narrative, and objectives. Key to this transition is the joint force's ability to maneuver in the IE through the integrated employment of informational capabilities in concert with other LOOs and LOEs to influence, disrupt, corrupt, or usurp the decision making of adversaries and enemies. The joint force looks for opportunities to mass informational effects at decisive times and places. Although targeted at specific audiences, planners should recognize that all joint force activities produce inherent informational aspects that shape the perceptions, attitudes, and other drivers of various audiences and relevant actor behavior. Leveraging information expands the JFC's range of options. These options include the ability to operate in environments where the use of lethal force is not appropriate or authorized. Commanders can use information to communicate and reinforce the intent and capabilities of joint force activities, enhance the psychological effects of physical force, and avoid or mitigate any undesired psychological effects of physical force. Commanders at all levels should deconflict messaging. The JFC combats the enemy's narrative by providing a viable alternative narrative that dispels misinformation or rumors and contributes to shaping the OE for continued friendly operations. To the wider audience, OIE should build credibility through transparency, demonstrating consistency in actions and messages.

(e) Cyberspace Considerations. The pace of CO requires significant collaboration during preparation and constant vigilance after initiation for effective coordination and deconfliction throughout the OE. Keys to this synchronization are maintaining cyberspace situational awareness and assessing the potential impacts to the joint force of any planned CO, including the protection posture of the DODIN, changes from normal network configuration, or observed indications of malicious cyberspace activity. The timing of planned CO should be determined based on a realistic assessment of their ability to create effects and support operations throughout the OE. This may require the use of cyberspace capabilities earlier than the use of other types of capabilities. Planners and operators should also understand how other operations within the OE may impact CO. For example, the joint force uses fire support coordination measures in air, land, and maritime operations to facilitate the rapid engagement of targets and simultaneously provide safeguards for friendly forces. CO deconfliction and coordination efforts with other operations should include similar measures.

(f) Space-based Intelligence Considerations. Space-based intelligence collection synchronizes and integrates sensors, assets, and systems for gathering data and information on an object or in an AOI on a persistent, event-driven, or scheduled basis. Intelligence collection managers conduct space-based ISR tasking and collection to ensure the effective operations of high-demand assets. These tasks include warning (to include

ballistic missile activity), targeting analysis, threat capability assessment, space domain awareness, BDA, and characterization of the OE. Space assets are capable of collecting diverse information that supports military, diplomatic, and economic intelligence. Space-based collection platforms, delivering globally persistent and legal overflight of any location on Earth, increase the probability of attributing nefarious activities. While space-based systems may be able to provide worldwide coverage, the demands on individual space-based systems may exceed their capacity and their associated orbital characteristics may limit the ability to meet operational requirements.

f. **Protection.** CCDRs and staff should consider introducing protection assets into the theater early and integrate with HN defenses. The additional protection assets enable expanding the JSA and mitigate the threat of enemy actions.

g. **Preparation to Execution.** The circumstances surrounding armed conflict rarely unfold as imagined. Regardless of how much time and effort went into anticipating, planning, and wargaming wartime scenarios, commanders recognize that the existing plan will likely need changes as the force transitions from competition to armed conflict. The context of the decision to employ military force will often be significantly different from the original planning guidance or assumptions. Planning provides a significant head start prior to orders to deploy the military. Assessments should recognize the nuance and reality of the problem if required and inform the applicability of, or necessary modifications to, the plan in response to changes in the environment.

(1) Effective preparation enables transition. During planning, an integrated staff effort ensures the plan is a team effort and shares the knowledge gained across the staff. Integrated staff work assists in identifying changes in the environment and guidance, speeding transition to execution.

(2) Detailed planning provides an analysis of the threat. The knowledge and understanding gained enable a well-trained staff to quickly identify the difference between their plan and current conditions and make recommendations based on their prior work.

(3) Detailed concept plans (CONPLANS) or OPLANs (Level 3 or 4) may require more significant changes due to their specificity. Forces identified in the plan may not be available, assumptions may be invalid, and policy decisions (and the decision timeline) may change or not support the original concept. The extra time spent on analysis provides a deeper understanding of the deploying forces' OE, threats, and technical issues.

(4) Less-detailed plans (Level 1 or 2) may be more readily adaptable to execution due to their generality. However, they may require significantly more analysis to provide the detail required to enable decisions at the strategic level and ensure the plan's relevance for the problem at hand.

(5) Exercises, Rehearsals, and Transition Drills. Actions and measures preparing the commanders and staff certify subordinate units, increase the situational awareness of

subordinate commanders and the staff, and instill confidence and familiarity with the plan. Sand tables, map exercises, and rehearsals are examples of transition drills.

(6) Plan Implementation. Military plans and orders should be prepared to facilitate implementation and transition to execution. For plan implementation, the following products and activities must occur:

(a) Confirm assumptions. Analyze the current OE and establish as fact any assumptions made during plan development.

(b) Model the TPFDD to confirm mobility force sourcing and transportation feasibility assessment. Validate that force and mobility resources used during plan development are currently available. Many critical capabilities reside in the reserve components (e.g., port opening), so planners need to know the mobilization authorities as they relate to deployment timelines. As reserve units deactivate due to force structure changes, CCMD staffs must revalidate TPFDD requirements.

(c) Establish execution timings. JFCs must set timelines to initiate operations to enable synchronization of execution.

(d) Conduct execution sourcing with assigned forces. If force requirements exceed the capability and capacity of assigned forces, submit an emergent request for forces through the GFM process which facilitates a risk-informed SecDef decision to allocate forces IAW the current CJCSM 3130.06, *Global Force Management Allocation Policies and Procedures*, and GFMIG. Develop new assumptions, if required.

(e) Issue necessary orders and authorities for execution. The CJCS issues orders implementing the directions of the President or SecDef to conduct military operations. CDRs subsequently issue their orders directing the activities of subordinate commanders.

(f) The decision for execution resides with civilian administration officials based on senior military officials presenting and examining a range of options in response to a developing crisis or actions by a competitor state or threat (state or non-state) rather than a specific directive to execute a specific CONPLAN or OPLAN.

1. If an existing plan is appropriate, the commander and staff should review and update the plan.

2. If no existing plan meets the guidance, the commander and staff initiate and conduct planning. Often, the commander and staff have conducted some previous analysis of the OE, which will speed the planning process.

h. **Types of Transition.** There are three likely circumstances for transitioning from competition to armed conflict.

(1) Contingency Plan Execution

(a) Contingency plans typically address a demanding, anticipated scenario. If an approved contingency plan closely resembles the emergent scenario, leaders can refine or adapt that plan as necessary for execution.

(b) The planning team should be a key participant in updating the plan for the current (given) conditions. Being a participant enables the command to make effective use of the understanding gained by the staff during the planning process. The operations team should be the co-lead for the plan update to ensure they understand the decision processes and reasoning used in the development of the operational approach and COAs. The understanding will speed plan updates, ease the transition, and minimize the time required to revisit the issues that arose during the initial plan development.

(c) GIF. When the contingency plans are associated with a GIF, initial planning identifies decisions the SecDef may have to make, including requirements to reallocate and reassign forces. These forces may reposition from across the globe to meet the contingency execution requirements. The reallocation will impact executing the contingency plan along with the ongoing GCPs. Even with this preparation, all CCDRs and their planners must assess the risk associated with changes to ongoing global campaign activities and ensure the DOD senior military and civilian leadership recognizes the opportunity costs. The CJCS, in his role in global integration, recommends to SecDef and the President any changes to ongoing operations, activities, and investments and prepares orders directing the movement of forces.

(2) Planning to Execution. CCDRs and staffs conduct planning when an emergent situation arises. The planning team analyzes approved contingency plans with like scenarios to determine if an existing plan applies. If a contingency plan is appropriate to the situation, SecDef can direct execution and tailor unique authorizations through an EXORD or fragmentary order to initiate movement. In a contingency, planning usually transitions rapidly to execution, so there is a limited deviation between the plan and initial execution. CCDRs assist the planning through their planning expertise and knowledge gained in other situations and from the OE during similar planning efforts.

(3) During execution, commanders often must consider updating the operational approach. Significant events can drive changes to the understanding of the OE and problem, validation or invalidation of assumptions made during planning, identifying (through continuous assessment process) that the tactical actions are not resulting in the expected effects, and changes in the conditions of the environment. The commander may determine one of three ways ahead:

(a) The current contingency plan is adequate, with either no change or minor change; the existing operational approach remains feasible.

(b) The contingency plan's mission and objectives are sound, but the operational approach is no longer feasible or acceptable—the situation requires a new operational approach.

(c) When the mission and objectives are no longer valid, CCDRs require a new operational approach to support further detailed planning.

(4) An assessment could cause the JFC to shift the focus of the operation, which the JFC would initiate with a new visualization manifested through new planning guidance for an adjusted operation or campaign plan.

i. Gain Operational Access

(1) US forces may gain operational access to areas through invitation by an HN to establish an operating base in or near the conflict or using forcible entry operations. Treaties, agreements, and activities that occur may aid in the invitation to establish a base or support facility. CCDRs can introduce forces during cooperative activities such as SC, military engagement, establishing an expeditionary advance base, or bilateral exercises. The CCDRs employ immediately available forces and request appropriate FROs. When these forces and actions are not enough, additional forces may ensue and deploy and integrate from across the globe. Consequently, the CCDR sequences, enables, and protects the deployment of these additional forces. A peer enemy may affect the deployment of combat and logistic forces from bases to ports of embarkation. The CCDR may have to adjust the TPFDD to meet a changing OE. The enemy will likely contest deployment of forces from across the globe and oppose entry to the OA.

(2) JFCs may have to rely on strategic attack, global strike, interdiction, and maritime fires to set conditions for joint forcible entry operations. Gaining operational access in contested or denied environments may require JFCs to seize and defend lodgment areas by amphibious, airborne, or air assault forces. The purpose of the access is to establish initial entry points for the continuous and uninterrupted flow of follow-on forces and material into the theater. As such, the JFC must analyze and adjust the TPFDD accordingly to ensure enabling assets, such as port opening, engineer, and specialized logistics units, are available to exploit these initial seizures. However, these operations rest on neutralizing long-range enemy fires to provide the time and space necessary to gain operational access. Joint forcible entry operations require a versatile mix of forces organized to operate in a high-threat environment. When these forces and actions are inadequate, follow-on strikes and the deployment of forces from CONUS or another theater and the use of multinational forces may be necessary.

j. Force Projection

(1) Projecting US military force invariably requires extensive use of the international waters, international airspace, orbital space, the IE (which includes cyberspace), and the EMS to gain operational access. The ability to freely maneuver to position and sustain our forces is vital to our national interests and those of our PNs. US

forces may gain operational access to areas through invitation by an HN to establish an operating base in or near the conflict or use forcible entry operations. Treaties, agreements, and activities that occur may aid in the invitation to establish a base or support facility.

(2) For example, the ability to generate enough combat power through long-range air operations or from the sea can provide for effective force projection in the absence of timely or unencumbered access. Other opposed situations may require a forcible entry capability. In other cases, CCDRs and staffs can project force rapidly by forcible entry operations coordinated with strategic air mobility, sealift, and pre-positioned forces. For example, amphibious forces' seizure and defense of lodgment areas would then serve as initial entry points for additional follow-on forces. Both efforts demand a versatile mix of forces to respond quickly.

(3) During force projection, JFCs protect US forces and ports of debarkation. JFCs should introduce forces in a manner that provides security for rapid force buildup. Early entry forces should deploy with necessary organic and supporting capabilities to preserve their freedom of action and protect personnel and equipment from potential or likely threats. Early entry forces should also include a deployable joint C2 capability to rapidly assess the situation, make decisions, and conduct initial operations.

(4) JRSOI occurs in the OA and comprises the essential processes required to transition arriving personnel, equipment, and supplies into forces capable of meeting operational requirements. Forces are vulnerable during JRSOI, so planning must include force protection requirements.

For further information on JRSOI, refer to JP 3-35, Joint Deployment and Redeployment Operations.

k. While access operations focus on enabling access to the OA, entry operations focus on actions within the OA. Joint forces conduct entry operations for various purposes, including to defeat threats to the access and use of portions of the OE; to control, defeat, disable, and dispose of specific WMD threats; to assist populations and groups; to establish a lodgment; and to conduct other limited-duration missions.

l. Entry operations may be unopposed or opposed. Unopposed entry operations often, but not always, follow unopposed access. These circumstances generally allow orderly deployment into the OA in preparation for follow-on operations. Forcible entry is a joint operation to seize and hold a military lodgment in the face of armed opposition for the continuous landing of forces. Forcible entry operations can strike directly at the enemy COGs and open new avenues for other military operations.

(1) Forcible entry operations may include amphibious, airborne, and air assault operations or any combination thereof. Forcible entry operations can create multiple dilemmas by creating threats that exceed the enemy's capability to respond. Commanders employ distributed, yet coherent, operations to attack the objective area or areas. The net result will be a coordinated attack that overwhelms the enemy before they have time to

react. A well-positioned and networked force enables the defeat of any enemy reaction and facilitates follow-on operations if required.

(2) Forcible entry is normally complex and risky and should be as simple as possible in concept. These operations require extensive intelligence, detailed coordination, innovation, and flexibility. All the participants understand the schemes of maneuver and coordination between the various forces. JFCs tailor echeloned forces for the mission and to permit simultaneous deployment and employment. When JFCs decide to combine airborne, amphibious, and air assault operations, unity of command is vital. Rehearsals are a critical part of the preparation for forcible entry. Participating forces need to be prepared to fight immediately upon arrival and require robust communications and intelligence capabilities to move with the forward elements.

(3) JFCs prepare the forcible entry force to transition to follow-on operations immediately and should plan accordingly. Joint forcible entry actions occur in both singular and multiple operations. These actions include establishing forward presence, preparing the OA, opening entry points, establishing and sustaining access, receiving follow-on forces, conducting follow-on operations, sustaining the operations, and conducting offensive operations.

(4) Successful OPSEC and MILDEC may confuse the enemy and ease forcible entry operations. OPSEC helps foster a credible MILDEC. The actions, themes, and messages portrayed by all friendly forces must be consistent if MILDEC is to be believable.

(5) SOF may precede forcible entry forces to identify, clarify, establish, or modify conditions in the lodgment. SOF may conduct the assaults to seize small, initial lodgments such as airfields or seaports. They may provide or assist in employing fire support and conduct other operations in support of the forcible entry, such as seizing airfields or conducting surveillance of landing zones or amphibious landing sites. They may conduct special reconnaissance and DA well beyond the lodgment to identify, interdict, and destroy forces that threaten the conventional entry force.

(6) The sustainment requirements and challenges for forcible entry operations can be formidable, but JFCs must not let them become such an overriding concern that it jeopardizes the forcible entry operation. JFCs must carefully balance the introduction of sustainment forces needed to support initial combat with combat forces required to establish, maintain, and protect the lodgment, as well as forces required to transition to follow-on operations.

For additional and detailed guidance on forcible entry operations, refer to JP 3-18, Joint Forcible Entry Operations.

3. Joint Warfighting – Offensives, Counteroffensives, and Transitions

a. The Enemy Offensive

(1) Commanders posture forces and their enabling capabilities so they are able to survive the enemy's anticipated initial attack. This posture should have support from sustainment and replacement forces through HN and allied infrastructure and logistic support. Forward forces and survivable infrastructure cast doubt on the viability of the enemy's approach. Enemy A2 capabilities limit the joint force's flexibility to initiate the offensive but can interdict forces entering an OA. Enemy A2 systems provide multiple layers of stand-off defenses that seek to deny the joint force access to the JOA. Therefore, the joint forces' successful penetration of the initial layer of A2 systems is just a first step. Initial penetration requires the joint forces to create temporary geographic and temporal avenues of approach to attack a series of high pay-off vulnerable A2 enabling capabilities, such as C2 and intelligence capabilities. The challenge for JFCs is the enemy's A2 enabling intelligence, and collection systems may be a confederated network of both military and civilian aviation, maritime, cyberspace, and space systems. Civilian systems may include civil aviation traffic control networks and other dual-use capabilities. They can pose threats to the joint force. Friendly civilian airports and seaports will most likely be the first areas an enemy will target. The enemy will simultaneously employ a full range of capabilities to achieve its objectives.

(2) Attack operational COGs and supporting structures. Essential to joint warfighting and prevailing in armed conflict, the JFCs attack the COGs prior to the enemy seizing their geographic objectives. Engaging and defeating multiple operational COGs are challenges the joint force should expect. Enemies protect these COGs with redundant integrated air defense systems (IADSs) and long-range fires to prevent the joint force from attacking operational COGs. As difficult as it may be, joint forces must attack the enemy's operational forces and critical infrastructure to degrade its capability, erode its will and commitment to fight, and disrupt the cohesion of its military. Penetrating A2 systems and networks is necessary but is not an end to itself. The purpose of penetrating the layers of enemy A2 capabilities and attrit redundant AD systems is to attack to defeat the enemy's offensive and initiate the counteroffensive as soon as possible. JFCs prepare the force to defeat an enemy's strategy and plans by striking and suppressing key enabling nodes and operational COGs, while withstanding the first strike and continue fighting effectively.

b. Drive the Enemy to Culmination

(1) **Create Local Air and Maritime Freedom of Movement.** Achieving local air and maritime superiority allows joint forces to penetrate the enemy's A2/AD systems, secure a JSA or lodgment, and close the strategic and operational distance. Control of the air is a critical enabler because it allows joint forces freedom from attack and freedom to maneuver. JFCs employ complementary weapon systems and sensors to achieve air and maritime superiority using both defensive and offensive

(2) **Disrupt Portions of Enemy IADSs and A2/AD Systems.** JFCs, through their JFACCs and JFMCCs, cannot achieve necessary air and maritime superiority without

neutralizing some aspects of enemy A2/AD systems and IADSs. Early in the transition to armed conflict, CCDRs employ joint fires throughout multiple AORs to begin neutralizing the enemy's multi-layered standoff capabilities. The joint force accomplishes this by receiving targeting information for high-priority enemy long-range systems from orbital space, high-altitude surveillance or low-observable air platforms, and cyberspace, enabling rapid strikes to eliminate critical A2/AD capabilities and IADS assets. Joint fires may originate from multiple platforms to present the enemy with multiple dilemmas and prevent their effective response.

(a) In armed conflict, superiority within any portion of the OE is by no means a certainty. JFCs expect to spend effort and resources to create sufficient times and areas of local and temporary superiority.

(b) Land forces must move as quickly as possible into an area to prevent the enemy from inserting forces, thereby precluding the enemy from gaining an operational advantage. The rapid deployment and employment of land forces (with support of other components) is essential.

(c) Space operations and capabilities must support creating freedom of action. Achieving space superiority sets the conditions to prevail in armed conflict by enabling a JFC's freedom of action. To win against increasingly capable threats, USSPACECOM provides combat power by fully integrating offensive and defensive operations alongside our longstanding allies and partners. USSPACECOM conducts offensive space and counter-space operations to deny the enemy its primary means of long-range surveillance. Proactively countering enemy space surveillance is particularly important during the transition to armed conflict as the large number of targets spread throughout the JOA may exceed the enemy's strategic reconnaissance capabilities. There are threats that can contest the joint force in the space domain. These threats will seek to prevent our unfettered access to space and deny our freedom of action with their capabilities. Cyberspace attacks, antisatellite weapons, rapidly developing laser technology, and other new technologies can place US assets and forces at risk. Terrestrial forces that rely on space platforms for a variety of critical support may become vulnerable if the enemy interrupts or destroys vital space systems. Effectively countering the enemy's space-based ISR capabilities causes the enemy to either accept more risk with strategic reconnaissance assets or shift to commercial space surveillance. The JFC can exploit both actions. During armed conflict, a CCMD may be a supported command, with USSPACECOM in a supporting role providing requested regional effects in and from space. However, USSPACECOM will continue to be the supported command for space operations across the rest of the globe. The protection and continuity of US, allied, and partner space activities is critical to terrestrial operations. Ensuring temporary periods of space superiority is critical to denying a threat's prohibitive interference with JFC access to communications, environmental monitoring, PNT, strategic and theater missile warning, and intelligence collection assets. CDRUSSPACECOM plans and executes global space operations activities and missions as directed and in coordination with other CCMDs, the Services, DOD agencies, allies, and partners. All other CCMDs should coordinate desired

space effects with CDRUSSPACECOM by providing temporal and spatial requirements for the creation of those effects.

(d) OIE (which includes CO) are vital in defeating A2/AD capabilities. OIE degrades the enemy's C2 while enabling the joint force to maximize friendly C2 capabilities. Information also enables the JFC to understand the enemy's intentions, capabilities, and future actions. Additionally, OIE can influence foreign attitudes and perceptions of the operation.

(e) **JEMSO.** Commanders employ EA capabilities, including DE, to disrupt, degrade, and destroy targeted enemy personnel, facilities, or equipment. Key targets that enable and protect enemy offensive operations are sensors and C2 nodes because their destruction strongly influences the enemy's perceptions and ability to coordinate actions. Additionally, enemy space and cyberspace assets are potential targets. EW, through EM support, enables destruction by providing actionable target locations and/or information. Just as important, commanders employ DE weapons, devices, and countermeasures to incapacitate, damage, disable, or destroy enemy equipment, facilities, and/or personnel; or determine, exploit, reduce, or prevent hostile use of the EMS. Commanders integrate radio frequency countermeasures that employ technology to impair the effectiveness of enemy activity (e.g., precision-guided or radio-controlled weapons, communications equipment, and sensor systems). Furthermore, JEMSO facilitates joint force C2 while simultaneously denying EMS access to enemies. This facilitates efforts to dictate operational tempo in support of commander's objectives. Based upon accurate, timely, and shared understanding of the EMOE, coordinated operational-level JEMSO can more effectively target enemies while minimizing mutual interference of friendly and neutral systems within a congested and contested EMS.

For more information on JEMSO, see JP 3-85, Joint Electromagnetic Spectrum Operations.

(3) **Close the Strategic and Operational Distance.** Closing the strategic and operational distance requires contesting enemy maneuver forces to deny their objectives and degrade enemy long-range ISR capabilities. As the joint force achieves all-domain parity and degrades enemy ISR, the JFC must capitalize on these gains by closing the strategic and operational distance. Closing the strategic and operational distance negates the enemy's multi-layered standoff and facilitates the introduction of additional forces into the theater. Mitigating the enemy's standoff capabilities enables freedom of action and sets conditions for the suppression of enemy air and maritime defenses and denial of enemy A2/AD systems and long-range fires.

(a) **Neutralize Enemy Long-Range Fires.** Enemy long-range fires present a direct threat and can interdict joint forces from gaining and maintaining operational access. The JFC must leverage ISR and long-range joint fires to identify and destroy enemy intermediate and short-range ballistic missiles, long-range rocket artillery, and cruise missiles. Attacking long-range enemy fires requires resilience in C2 across all components, provided through redundant means of communication, flexible command

relationships, and control measures designed to withstand degraded communications. The JFC may also rely on SOF to identify and neutralize key elements of the enemy's integrated fires complex. SOF may operate deep beyond the range of conventional forces to conduct DA, special reconnaissance, intelligence operations, target identification, and airspace control to coordinate joint fires.

(b) **Leverage Accurate and Precise Intelligence.** Identifying and neutralizing long-range enemy fires is not possible without current and accurate ISR to enable targeting. In a denied, disconnected, intermittent, or limited environment, the JFC and staff must develop a layered ISR plan, which accounts for the enemy's ability to contest friendly ISR in various domains, times, and locations. The ISR plan should leverage capabilities across the joint force to ensure redundancy and provide component commanders an accurate COP and common intelligence picture.

(c) **Contest Enemy Maneuver to Deny Objectives.** The JFC must contest the enemy attack by immediately imposing losses on the enemy to delay its objectives and prevent its consolidation of gains. Through reconnaissance, prepared defenses with forward-positioned forces, JFCs delay the enemy's arrival of follow-on forces. The JFCs employ joint fires, deception activities, and CO to present the enemy with multiple dilemmas and prevent the massing of lethal effects on the joint force.

c. Protect and Expand the JSA. The JFC must exploit the advantages achieved by closing the strategic and operational distance to protect and expand the JSA. This exploitation enables the deployment and sustainment of expeditionary forces to support follow-on operations and secures operational access within the theater. The JFC and the JSC protect and expand the JSA through dispersion and deception operations and by hardening key nodes and infrastructure.

(1) **Dispersion.** Expanding the JSA protects the joint force by dispersing assembly areas, sustainment bases, and prepositioned stocks that remain within the range of long-range enemy fires and A2/AD systems. The JFC can use the enlarged JSA to conduct JRSOI of expeditionary forces arriving in theater at multiple points and can then disperse these forces to multiple assembly areas. Dispersion and expansion in joint forcible entry operations can open additional LOOs or initial entry points within the theater. By appearing operationally unpredictable, JFCs' joint forcible entry operations present the enemy with multiple dilemmas.

(2) **Deception Operations.** Although employed throughout the OA, the JFC and JSC protect the JSA by developing a deception plan that conceals the JSA's footprint. The deception plan should employ multiple means to present a combination of real, false, and exaggerated capabilities throughout the OE. Deception operations intend to mislead the enemy's ISR capabilities or assessments to identify the JSA's actual footprint and capabilities.

(3) **Protect Key Nodes and Infrastructure.** As additional assets arrive in theater, the JFC and JSC, using the CAL/DAL, protect critical nodes and infrastructure across the

JSA. This protection can include local/HN resources that the joint force/HN will use, which may include private, commercial, and government property. The JSC protects these key assets and locations from long-range enemy fires, special-purpose forces, and A2/AD systems in concert with the AADC. However, they balance this enhanced protection with the need to rapidly field or issue equipment and supplies to arriving units. JFCs ensure protection measures do not impede combat demands.

(4) C2. Controlled littoral areas often offer the best position from which to C2 the early stages of joint operations, especially in JOAs with limited or poor infrastructure for supporting operations ashore. Depending on the situation, a maritime commander can serve as the JFC or function as a JFACC. Initially, the operation may be primarily maritime, but commanders should prepare the command structure to shift that command ashore if the operation shifts landward IAW the JFC's CONOPS. In denied or contested environments, maritime or littoral areas may be the only option for JFCs to establish and conduct C2. However, as the joint force gains operational access in the land OA, the JFC may need to transition C2 from ship to shore.

(5) Protection. JFCs strive to conserve the fighting potential of the joint/multinational force at the onset of armed conflicts. Further, HN infrastructure and logistic support are key to force projection and sustainment and critical to protection. JFCs counter the enemy's fires and maneuver by making personnel, systems, and units difficult to locate, strike, and destroy. They protect their force from enemy maneuver and fires by using various physical and informational measures. OPSEC and MILDEC are key elements of this effort. Protection includes activities to gain air, space, maritime, and EMS parity. Protection of airports and seaports, LOCs, and friendly force lodgment also contribute significantly to force protection at the onset of armed conflicts.

d. Counteroffensive

(1) Synchronizing and integrating joint functions. As soon as possible, JFCs initiate offensive operations; when conducted in response to enemy attacks, they are referred to as counteroffensives. Counteroffensives are broad cycles of iterative attacks conducted to defeat and destroy attacking enemy forces. The counteroffensive may seek to penetrate enemy formations; seize terrain; or control geographic areas, resources, and population centers, but the primary orientation is on the enemy. Against a capable and adaptive enemy, an offensive or counteroffensive is the most direct and sure means to seize, retain, and exploit the initiative to achieve operational-level objectives. Executing an offensive or counteroffensive compels the enemy to react, creating or revealing weakness the entire attacking joint force can exploit. A successful counteroffensive or offensive can place tremendous pressure on the enemy forces, creating a cycle of deterioration that can lead to their disintegration. Long-range joint fires and capabilities unique to Service components, including land- and maritime-based missiles and strike aircraft, should provide cross-boundary offensive action to protect and enable continuous attacks. Protection remains critical and includes certain defensive measures to continue throughout the duration of the counteroffensive. Counteroffensives (and offensives) can include flanking attacks and envelopments, leading to a penetration(s). Successful

counteroffensives create and sustain penetrations and transition to exploitations and pursuits. Effective exploitation can begin to fracture the enemy's coherence and ability to respond but only temporarily. Successful counteroffensives can force the enemy to abandon their objectives or even lead to their defeat. JFCs recognize that defeating an enemy is a temporary condition where the enemy force cannot achieve its operational-level objectives due to loss of capability or will. JFCs achieve these conditions through combinations of successful tactical and operational-level actions against an enemy. During this transient period, the enemy cannot significantly interfere with the actions of a friendly force. JFCs recognize defeating an enemy is not an end unto itself but provides the opportunity to continue to pursue strategic objectives that extend far beyond the battlefield.

(2) During a counteroffensive within a specific theater, JFCs simultaneously employ conventional forces, SOF, information, orbital space, and cyberspace capabilities. Over time, the JFC may prioritize one LOE or LOO over others. As the situation unfolds and the enemy reacts, the JFC will likely shift prioritization. Regardless of the prioritization or designation of a main effort, other operations must continue simultaneously to deny the enemy sanctuary, freedom of action, or informational advantage. Shifting some operations as appropriate while executing other concurrent missions can degrade enemy morale and physical cohesion. When joint operations prevent the enemy from concentrating forces, JFCs can isolate critical capabilities. At other times, JFCs can take actions to cause the enemy to concentrate their forces, facilitating the attack by friendly forces. Regardless of the shifting priorities, JFCs must orient joint warfighting on enemy COGs. In attacking enemy COGs, JFCs should time their actions to coincide with actions of other operations of the joint force and vice versa to degrade not only the enemy's capabilities but also their conviction to continue to wage war. The integration of the joint functions supports all military operations.

e. Joint Warfighting - Integrating Capabilities and Synchronizing Action

(1) Commanders must integrate the capabilities and synchronize the operations of air, land, maritime, space, and cyberspace forces, along with JEMSO, to defeat peer enemies. JFCs should consider intelligence collection, providing joint fire support, maneuvering to close with the enemy, and protecting the force, for example, as separate operations but complementary joint actions executed to create necessary effects against the enemy. Potential enemy responses to integrated and synchronized joint warfighting can create multiple dilemmas. If the enemy attempts to counter the capabilities of intelligence or maneuver, enemy forces may expose themselves to unacceptable losses from interdiction. If the enemy employs measures to reduce such losses from joint fires, enemy forces may not be able to evade intelligence or counter the maneuver. All components can conduct intelligence collection, maneuver, and employ fires to close with enemy forces, interdict enemy capability before, and protect the force from enemy attack. The synergy assists commanders in conducting joint operations by integrating and synchronizing all joint functions and unique capabilities from across the force.

(2) The JFC's objectives, intent, and priorities reflected in mission assignments and coordinating arrangements enable subordinates to fully exploit the military potential

of their forces while minimizing the friction generated by competing requirements. Effective targeting procedures in the joint force also alleviates such friction. As an example, JOA-wide requirements for cyberspace, space, and airborne ISR support will often exceed the means available, requiring JFCs to prioritize requirements. The JFACC will have to balance priorities for protection and counter-air with delivering joint fires. Commanders responsible for integrating and synchronizing joint functions within their OAs should prosecute the JFC priorities and work to synchronize and balance operations with commanders designated by the JFC to execute theater- and JOA-wide functions. JFCs can effectively synchronize efforts across the JOA through the CONOPS and clear statements of intent for JOA-wide operations conducted in concert with joint operations specific to an OA. In doing this, JFCs rely on their vision as to how the major elements of the joint force contribute to achieving objectives. JFCs then employ a flexible range of techniques to identify requirements and apply capabilities to meet them. JFCs must exercise command relationships, establish effective joint targeting procedures, and make apportionment decisions.

(3) Within the JOA, all joint force component operations must contribute to the achievement of the JFC's objectives. To facilitate these operations, JFCs may establish OAs for subordinate commands. Integration and synchronization of intelligence, joint fire support, and maneuver are essential to successful armed conflict. Synchronization and integration of the joint functions are critical within the land or maritime AOs, especially when JFCs task other component commanders to execute JOA-wide functions.

(a) JFCs establish land and maritime AOs to decentralize the execution of land and maritime operations. The JFC bases the size, shape, and positioning of land or maritime AOs on the operational requirements. Within these AOs, the JFC designates the land and maritime commanders as the supported commander for integrating and synchronizing maneuver, fires, and other joint functions and capabilities. Accordingly, land and maritime commanders designate the CONOPS, which includes the target priority, effects, and timing for combat operations within their AOs. Further, in coordination with the land and maritime commander, commanders designated as the supported commander for a theater/JOA-wide responsibility have latitude in planning and executing JFC prioritized missions within a land or maritime AO. If theater or JOA-wide operations would have adverse effects within a land or maritime AO, then the commander conducting those operations must adjust the plan, resolve the issue with the appropriate component commander, or consult with the JFC for resolution.

(b) Contiguous and Noncontiguous Operations. The battlefield framework for armed conflict is usually either contiguous or noncontiguous. Contiguous operations are those where subordinate forces' AOs share one or more common boundaries, and a forward line helps identify friendly forces. Noncontiguous operations are those where one or more of the JFC's subordinate forces' AOs do not share a common boundary. JFCs conduct simultaneous operations from multiple bases or base clusters, either ashore or afloat.

1. In contiguous operations, the JFLCC or the land component commander emphasizes maintaining the position of the land force in relation to other friendly forces. This relative positioning of forces enhances security and facilitates the massing of forces. Also inherent in contiguous operations is the security of the JSA, especially LOCs between support bases and fighting forces.

2. In noncontiguous operations, joint forces with AOs that often do not share a common boundary orient more on assigned objectives (e.g., destroying an enemy force, seizing and controlling critical terrain or population centers) and less on their geographic relationship to other friendly forces. To protect themselves, forces operating in a noncontiguous framework rely more on situational awareness, mobility advantages, and freedom of action than mass. Noncontiguous operations place a premium on C2, mobility, and nonstandard means for sustainment.

(c) The land or maritime component commander's intent and CONOPS should clearly state how joint functions will enable or enhance their operation in the AO. Once adjacent commanders understand the concept, other commanders with JOA-wide responsibilities can normally plan and execute operations with only that coordination required with the land or maritime commander. However, the land or maritime commander should provide commanders with cross JOA responsibilities as much latitude as possible in the planning and execution of their specific function within the AO. For example, joint fires with a near-term effect on air, land, and maritime operations normally support maneuver. Successful operations in the aggregate may depend on successful interdiction; for instance, to isolate a battle or weaken the enemy force before it is within direct fire contact or indirect fires range of friendly forces.

(d) Joint force operations in maritime or littoral AOs often require additional coordination among the maritime commander and other commanders because of the highly specialized nature of some maritime operations, such as antisubmarine and mine warfare. This type of coordination requires that other commanders of an AO or JOA-wide function maintain communication with the maritime commander. As in all operations, a lack of close coordination among commanders in maritime AOs can result in friendly fire incidents and failed missions. The same principle applies concerning air component mining operations in the land or maritime AOs.

(4) Land, maritime, and special operations commanders may use joint fires to attack targets with the support of commanders with JOA-wide missions. Target nomination procedures should include through which land or maritime force commanders can specifically identify emerging targets that could affect planned or ongoing operations that they are unable to engage with organic assets. Commanders with JOA-wide missions depend upon the AO-specific commanders to support the JOA-wide efforts—sometimes by action within their AOs and sometimes by support to adjacent commanders. Special operations, land, or maritime commanders employ the capabilities of one another through cross-boundary actions. Commanders may identify these targets individually or by category, specified geographically, or tied to the desired effect or period. The JFACC considers interdiction target priorities within the land, maritime, or special operations OAs

along with theater and JOA-wide interdiction priorities by JFCs and reflected in the air apportionment decision. The JFACC uses these priorities to plan, coordinate, and execute the theater- and JOA-wide air interdiction effort. The purpose of these procedures is to afford added visibility to and allow JFCs to give priority to targets supporting air, land, or maritime commanders' operations.

(5) Effective coordination of intelligence, maneuver, and joint fires supports defeating critical portions of the enemy A2/AD systems' coverage, maneuver forces, C2 networks, and integrated fires complex. The JFC relies on both airborne ISR and information to identify high-value targets within the JOA and then maneuvers forces to seize key terrain, isolate enemy forces, stimulate the enemy's mid-range or short-range fires systems, or force the enemy to reposition. These operations expose the enemy to additional intelligence, maneuver, and fires efforts. The result of synchronization and effective employment is to increase freedom of movement.

(6) Converging intelligence, maneuver, fires, EW, and deception, the JFC can isolate and defeat enemy forces by massing the fires to create lethal and nonlethal effects. Success is a result of creating the right effect at critical times and locations. The JFCs concentrate effects at enemy LOCs, sustainment, reserves, and enablers to further isolate enemy forces. The result is an enemy force that is isolated and vulnerable to sustained attack by joint forces. The JFC then exploits the freedom of action to defeat the enemy's operational COG or fix and destroy remaining forces.

(7) Sustainment and Operational Reach. Campaigns and major operations in armed conflict place great demands on intertheater and intratheater logistics and sustainment systems. Prolonged combat has the potential to exhaust sustainment reserves within theater, thereby restricting the JFC's freedom of action and operational reach. To avoid this, the JFC and staff must plan for the provision of personnel, logistics, and other support to enable prolonged combat until operations are successful or the CDR revises the objectives. Unique to armed conflict, the JFC and staff must also plan for reconstitution operations as forces and equipment availability drops. Sustainment plays a pivotal role in both offensive and defensive operations; however, the demands on personnel replacement, Class III (e.g., petroleum, oils, and lubricants), and Class V (e.g., ammunition) will be more severe during offensive operations. As with achieving air and maritime superiority, sustainment provides JFCs with the flexibility and operational reach to develop required branches and sequels as the operation evolves.

(8) CWMD. JFCs should prepare to conduct activities to curtail the development, possession, proliferation, use, and effects of WMD. When planning or executing operations and activities to counter WMD, JFCs coordinate and cooperate with not only other USG departments and agencies but also local, tribal, and state organizations, in addition to multinational partners. With numerous stakeholders in the CWMD mission area, it is critical JFCs understand and consider the capabilities and responsibilities of various interorganizational partners when defining command relationships and coordinating interorganizational activities. Operations to counter WMD may require the formation of a functional JTF for that purpose.

(9) Stabilization activities provide security, food, water, shelter, and medical treatment. If no civilian or HN agency is present, capable, and willing, then JFCs and their staffs resource essential stabilization tasks. When demand for resources exceeds the JFC's capability, higher-level joint commanders should provide additional resources. JFCs at all levels assess resources available against the mission to determine how best to conduct essential stabilization tasks and what risk they can accept in accomplishment of the tasks.

For more information, see JP 3-07, Joint Stabilization Activities, and DODD 3000.05, Stabilization.

(10) IAW the law of war, detention operations involve the detainment of certain categories of persons, to include prisoners of war and civilian internees. These operations control the movement and activities of a specific population for reasons of security, safety, or intelligence gathering. The Secretary of the Army is the DOD executive agent for detainee operations and long-term confinement. Detention operations may also include supporting HN correction reform.

(a) During armed conflict, enemy units, separated and disorganized by the shock of intensive combat, may fall capture to US forces. The numbers involved may place a tremendous burden on friendly forces as they divert tactical units to handle detainees. The term detainee includes any person captured, detained, or otherwise under the control of DOD personnel.

(b) Detainee operations is a broad term that encompasses the capture, initial detention, screening, transportation, treatment, protection, housing, transfer, and release of the wide range of persons categorized as detainees. Actions at the point of capture, custody, and beyond can directly affect mission success and could have a lasting impact on the pursuit of strategic objectives.

(c) International law requires the safe and humane treatment of detainees. Commanders ensure all detainees are treated humanely and with respect for their dignity, IAW applicable US law, policy, and the law of war. Failure to conduct detainee operations humanely and lawfully can result in significant adverse strategic impacts for the joint force.

For more information, see DODD 2310.01E, DOD Detainee Program; DODD 2311.01, DOD Law of War Program; and CJCSI 5810.01, Implementation of the DOD Law of War Program.

f. Transition and Adaptation

(1) Commanders adapt continuously and transition as necessary as they anticipate the enemy's future actions. At some point during the joint force's initial offensive or counteroffensive, the attack will culminate or pause. This action will be by design or enemy response. Still, there should be no reason to believe the enemy will abandon their objectives after the first iteration of offensive-counteroffensive. Commanders expect to transition through multiple iterations where the side that adapts to the enemy and adjusts to the OE quicker realizes an advantage. Commanders know that

on every occasion the United States has engaged in sustained armed conflict against a peer enemy; the joint force has had to change warfighting methods, organizations, and capabilities to succeed in the new environment. Until this adaptation occurred, the military could not bring effective force to bear against the enemy. Essential to joint warfighting, adaptation is identifying and taking full advantage of the opportunities offered by enemy actions, recognizing chance combinations of circumstances to prevail or taking necessary action to prevent stalemate, protraction, or failure. Commanders recognize the difference between the anticipated enemy method of warfare with the actual manifestation and adjust to reality. JFCs may not be able to anticipate environmental changes perfectly or predict the precise actions of an enemy, but the pursuit is continuous. Every campaign presents unforeseen challenges or circumstances. Joint leaders and military organizations must be able to adjust to warfighting challenges in a timely manner to effectively exploit, or seize, opportunities presented by the enemy's lapses in anticipation. One of the most powerful expressions of operational art is the ability to adapt to new and changed circumstances. Observations and interactions will likely include changes to specific tactics, techniques, and procedures as well. Military leadership should consider this required transformation while waging armed conflict, not as a phenomenon, but a normal characteristic and necessary aspect of warfare. The side that adapts its warfighting concepts and capabilities more quickly and effectively once conflict begins will have a decided advantage.

(2) Commanders who understand the results of recent actions and adapt the quickest will gain the advantage for follow-on actions. The important aspects of adapting are in preparing for the threat's reaction, adjusting to the most recent battle, consolidating the gains, and transitioning to follow-on offensive or other appropriate action. The initial assumptions may have been insufficient; therefore, JFCs adjust their CONOPS with branches to meet the enemy and situation. These advantages accumulate across the OE and commanders maintain awareness of how they interact to support their scheme of maneuver. At some point, JFCs may drive the enemy to a cessation of hostilities, but the conflict may not be over; therefore, JFCs create and implement sequels.

(3) As the joint force continues to campaign, JFCs begin to impose their will through some combination of exhaustion, attrition, and annihilation as diplomats seek to negotiate a settlement. Regardless, JFCs maintain a long-term view toward the transition following armed conflict. Rarely do wars end with a cessation of armed conflict. Wars disrupt political, social, and economic structures, networks, and institutions to a point where it is often impossible to return to the previous international order. Armed conflict's destruction of government and societal institutions can create conditions for intense competition among internal, regional, and global actors seeking to retain, reestablish, or gain power, status, or strategic advantage within a new order. Global or regional competitors can then exploit these conditions by supporting these groups as resistance partners or surrogates to continue to pursue their objectives in other ways. The transition period requires the joint force to campaign through a mixture of cooperation, competition below armed conflict, and armed conflict.

4. The Transition from Armed Conflict into the New Competition

a. Introduction

(1) Clear conclusion and finality to armed conflict can be elusive. To make a military victory meaningful, CCDRs take on the timeless challenge of translating the military success in the OE into enduring and favorable outcomes. There is no strict rulebook for translating military achievement into favorable strategic objectives. Still, there are recognizable patterns for navigating the difficulties. Regardless of the impetus of the transition away from armed conflict toward new opportunities for cooperation and challenges for competition, CCDRs must ensure continuity of effort long after the cessation of hostilities to achieve and perpetuate the strategic objectives. To successfully transition from armed conflict to address and influence the new competition, CCDRs must avoid characterizing the continuing effort as merely a minimalist endeavor. Successful transition requires a mindset, posture, and readiness to continue offensive operations, if necessary. JFCs continue to orient on the enemy and new adversaries.

(2) As a function of the cessation of armed conflict with an enemy, the United States may impose terms, negotiate a settlement, or accept nothing short of regime change. Forcing an imposed settlement may occur through the selective destruction of critical functions or assets, such as C2, infrastructure, or otherwise making the enemy unable to resist the US will and resolve. Even for limited objectives, this can be by the threat of or actual occupation of a portion of an enemy's land, resources, or people. Second, a negotiated settlement through coordinated political, diplomatic, military, and economic actions convinces an enemy that yielding will be less painful than continuing to resist. In addition to imposed and negotiated settlement, there may be an armistice or truce, which is a negotiated intermission of armed conflict, not a reconciliation. In effect, it provides a way to gain time pending negotiation of a permanent settlement or resumption of operations. Senior military and civilian leaders must weigh the efficacy of an armistice or truce against the potential damage done by relieving pressure on the threat. Whether the United States imposes or negotiates a settlement, or the warring parties merely reach an armistice, the CCDRs' continuity of effort will have different characterizations depending on the situation. For example, in the case of an imposed settlement, the joint force will likely have to maintain an offensive-like posture and coercive action while communicating both compellence and deterrence type threats. CCDRs maintain a similar mindset for an armistice, which in many cases may endure but evolve into a contentious cease-fire. In a negotiated settlement, over time, the joint force may be able to transition to a more defensive posture; however, continuing to confront the enemy may require maintaining significant combat forces forward. Even when the war's objectives only constitute a minor adjustment to the international order, success requires a great deal of effort, persistence, and legitimacy. In the case of regime change, only a comprehensive, long-term effort and committed follow-through can deliver strategic objectives. For each of these impositions, new competitions will emerge and challenge all operational and strategic accomplishments; the joint force cannot simply walk away or expect any level of permanence. JFCs should expect the moment that the joint force ceases protecting the wartime gains, enemies, and adversaries alike will begin to probe, assault, and undo the hard-won achievements.

(3) Consolidating and maintaining gains is an integral part of succeeding in armed conflict. Consolidating gains is not a phase, it is continuous during the conduct of operations. For joint warfighting, JFCs see it as essential to retaining the initiative over enemies and adversaries. Success requires a continuing opportunity cost of military effort. Any notion of completeness or resolution suggested by a military victory can be completely irrelevant. CCDRs anticipate the magnitude and attributes of effort required to achieve the appropriate measures of success, translate success into national policy outcomes, and prepare for future repercussions. Recognizing that no success is permanent, JFCs view consolidating gains as making temporary operational success enduring to the degree possible and setting the conditions for a stable and sustainable environment. JFCs know consolidating gains is an integral part of prevailing in armed conflict.

(4) Joint forces deliberately plan and prepare for the transition to capitalize on operational success. Planning considerations can include changes to the task organization and the additional assets required. These assets may include engineers, military police, civil affairs, and medical support, especially those assets required for the potential increase in stabilization tasks. In some instances, JFCs lead the integrating and synchronizing activities. In other situations, the joint force will be in support. The CCDRs' capability and capacity enable the conduct of critical activities associated with consolidating gains.

(5) When leading and directing actions during the transition, commanders establish and sustain security throughout the transition. Joint forces conduct continuous reconnaissance and, if necessary, gain or maintain contact with the enemy to defeat or preempt enemy action and retain the initiative. Consolidating gains may include eliminating or neutralizing isolated or bypassed threat forces to increase area security and protect LOCs. Commanders must ensure forces organize and prepare to confront enemy forces while simultaneously consolidating gains. Commanders maintain communication with the population to assist in understanding the overall goal of military actions and how those actions benefit the population. Psychological operations forces, PA, civil affairs forces, CMO, and COMCAM can assist in this effort.

(6) JFCs should understand that activities for consolidating gains may occur over a significant time. Gradually, JFCs shift emphasis from ensuring the defeat of remaining threat forces to measures that address the needs of the urban population and manage their perceptions. This shift could allow the responsibility to shift from joint forces to organizations such as local governing groups, interorganizational groups, or interagency partners. There may be interim transitions during consolidating gains when joint forces may transition various tasks to another military force that task-organizes to sustain consolidating gains or to a civilian agency to conduct various tasks. If joint forces occupy territory and governmental institutions are dysfunctional, belligerent, or nonexistent, commanders may organize and execute governance operations. Over time, overall control of the joint force may transfer responsibility to an interim civilian government or a form of reconstituted government.

(7) During the transition, JFCs are responsible for accomplishing both the minimum-essential stabilization tasks and the joint primary stabilization tasks.

Commanders must quickly ensure the provision of minimum-essential stabilization tasks of security, food, water, shelter, and medical treatment. Once conditions allow, these tasks are a legal responsibility of joint forces. However, commanders may not need to have joint forces conduct all essential tasks if a military unit or appropriate civilian organizations exist that can adequately conduct those tasks. For example, there may be enough civilian or military governance in place to ensure the population has adequate food and medical care. However, joint forces will continue consolidating gains by conducting the joint force's primary stabilization tasks: establish civil security, establish civil control, restore essential services, support to governance, and support economic and infrastructure development. The tasks associated with primary stabilization tasks will evolve. The military will continue to establish civil security through the conduct of SFA.

b. Operations, Activities, and Investments

(1) To effectively campaign throughout the transition from armed conflict to competition, joint forces take specific actions that:

(a) Establish security from external threats. These threats include the previous enemy combatant. Commanders use coercive force to allow a transition to occur without disruption from previous or nascent threats. To demonstrate and communicate these threats, the joint force may maintain a posture and overt orientation on continuing the offensive, if necessary. Commanders maintain and employ the necessary capabilities to defeat all potential forms of enemy resistance as a fundamental part of any operational approach seeking to achieve enduring strategic objectives.

(b) Execute governance over occupied territories to establish a military government in occupied territory (e.g., The Hague Conventions, the Geneva Conventions, the law of war). The execution of military governance has proven an inescapable, crucial aspect of warfare that senior military and civilian leaders must consider. JFCs plan and prepare for the execution of military governance before, during, and after armed conflicts. As required, joint forces implement organizational and command structures to enable leaders to conduct the governance operations that can inevitably become their responsibility and necessary to link military actions to strategic objectives. This type of planning deserves the same level of preparation as waging armed conflict as it is an essential aspect—a leadership failure to prepare results in the type of ad hoc approach that characterized previous US experiences. Although difficult, it may be necessary for US forces to establish a military government in the absence of governing entities by providing support to civil administration or asserting transitional military authority. Various international agreements outline the US obligations to take all measures in its power to restore public order and safety while respecting the laws and governments in the occupied territories.

(c) Coerce adversaries from behaving in a malign or detrimental manner by rewarding appropriate behavior and imposing costs for malign or antagonistic behavior.

(d) Influence the perceptions, attitudes, objective reasoning, decision making, and behavior of adversaries' leadership, security forces, and civil society and other foreign audiences and inform domestic audiences to create desired psychological effects.

(e) Influence adversaries' risk assessments to reduce their willingness to engage in malign or antagonistic behavior.

(f) Counter or contest adversaries' operations, activities, and investments to deny or delay their operational success.

(g) Continually seek to gain and sustain long-term competitive advantages as the new adversarial competition will go on indefinitely or until the former combatants, now competitors reach a mutually acceptable political settlement. Commanders must recognize that former combatants do not always arrive at mutual settlements.

(h) Conduct security tasks to protect friendly forces, installation routes, critical infrastructure, populations, and actions within an assigned OA.

(i) Execute stabilization activities. Against the enemy, stabilization efforts surrounding infrastructure reconstruction will likely go toward allies and partners in need. In occupied territory, forces first conduct minimum-essential stabilization tasks, then provide essential governmental services, emergency, and humanitarian relief IAW the law of war.

(j) Establish influence over local and regional audiences (as authorized). Commanders develop and communicate supporting and credible narratives to the intended population to assist them in understanding the overall goal of military actions and the benefits of those actions for the population.

(k) Establish, maintain, and sustain large-scale detention compounds and sustain enduring detainee operations.

(l) Execute PEO. PEO and PKO are coercive actions that orient on adversarial behaviors. In at least one theater or JOA, the transition from armed conflict to competition may involve ongoing operations that have a significant combat component, including COIN operations, antiterrorism, and countering adversarial competition. As the campaign continues, some operations may include a large stabilization component that is essentially a PEO mission. PEO provides the reconstruction and societal rehabilitation that offers hope to the HN populace. Joint force coercive and persuasive measures establish the conditions that enable PEO to succeed. PEO promotes reconciliation, strengthens and rebuilds civil infrastructures and institutions, builds confidence, and supports economic reconstruction and an environment favorable to US interests.

(2) After protecting vulnerable states from external influences and threats, reestablishing internal stability can increase in priority. In many cases, stabilization effort must help capitalize on the direct effects of other types of military operations. Integrating stabilization activities into the execution of other joint operations helps avoid unintended

consequences, helps translate short-term gains into enduring progress, and provides a bridge linking operational objectives with broader strategic goals. Maintaining or reestablishing stability in friendly nations and occupied territories in the aftermath of armed conflict is often integral to the overall campaign's pursuit of strategic objectives. In reconstituting the capacity of partners to protect themselves from hostile foreign influence, JFCs must contain adversarial states and follow through armed conflict against a hostile regime, achieving strategic objectives.

(3) Legal issues may require commanders to account for and provide for the protection and well-being of the civilian populations in the area they control for extended periods. Generally, the responsibility for providing for people's basic needs rests with the government institutions of the occupied territories. When not possible, military forces may need to provide necessary levels of civil security and restoration of essential services to the local populace until a civil authority or the HN is able. These actions provide minimum levels of security, food, water, shelter, and medical treatment. JFCs should make every effort to ensure that if no civilian or HN agency is present, capable, and willing, then the military forces under their control conduct these actions.

(4) JFCs must continually assess resources available against the mission to determine how best to conduct these stabilization tasks and what risk they can accept. If unable to resource these stabilization tasks, then JFCs should seek additional capabilities or capacities, including leveraging the capabilities and resources of interorganizational stakeholders to achieve the objectives.

SECTION II

5. Joint Campaigns and Operations Against Violent Extremist Organizations

a. **Introduction.** IW is a struggle among state or non-state actors to influence populations and affect legitimacy. The term **irregular** highlights the nontraditional methods that state and non-state actors incorporate through their actions, information efforts, activities, and operations to gain the broadest and most impactful influence and effects. Nontraditional methods coalesce political ideology, propaganda, nonviolent, and violent efforts to establish or promote regional and international sympathies and garner legitimacy for their actions. They strive to create dilemmas, influence targeted groups, or coerce leaders through various means other than the use of military dominance. These nontraditional methods, often used by weaker adversaries such as non-state actors, can disrupt, influence, or neutralize a more capable military or the security forces of a recognized political authority.

b. **VEOs.** VEOs include individual terrorists that align with a group, terrorist organizations, and ideologically driven groups that promote violence. A sound global approach for countering terrorism outlines a strategic vision built around an international effort. The aim orients on defeating violent extremism, which threatens the way of life for free and open societies and creating a global environment inhospitable to violent extremists and their supporters. VEOs challenge the joint force by promoting their ideology transregionally across CCMD boundaries, responsibilities, and functional seams. VEOs

conduct activities transregionally and in the OE to disrupt US and international interests to cultivate legitimacy, credibility, sympathy, and influence to achieve their strategic objectives. VEOs employ violent methods, but they also conduct competitive activities and messaging to gain sympathies for their ideology and challenge or discredit their enemies' legitimacy, credibility, and influence.

c. **Combating Terrorism (CbT).** CbT involves actions to oppose terrorism from all threats. CbT encompasses antiterrorism, which is defensive measures taken to reduce vulnerability of individuals and property to terrorist acts. These actions include rapid containment by local military and civilian forces and CT, which are activities and operations taken to neutralize terrorists and their organizations and networks. CbT activities include operations to render terrorists incapable of using violence to instill fear and coerce governments or societies. CT is primarily a special operations core activity, which includes DAs against terrorist networks, indirect actions to influence global and regional environments, making them inhospitable to terrorist networks. Normally, CT operations require specially trained and equipped personnel capable of swift and effective action. IAW DODD 3000.07, *Irregular Warfare (IW)*, CT is a DOD activity or operation associated with IW. However, terrorists also operate during large-scale traditional combat, forcing commanders to integrate CT with these operations. Enemies using irregular methods often will use terrorist tactics to wage prolonged operations to break the will to fight and influence relevant populations. At the same time, terrorists and insurgents also seek to bolster their legitimacy and credibility with those same populations. CbT efforts should include all instruments of national power to undermine enemy power, will, credibility, and legitimacy, thereby diminishing its ability to influence the relevant population. COIN operations can become much more extensive than a limited contingency and may involve major operations.

For further details concerning CbT and special operations, refer to JP 3-26, Joint Combating Terrorism, and JP 3-05, Joint Doctrine for Special Operations. For US policy on CT, refer to the National Strategy for Counterterrorism of the United States of America.

For more information on IW, see JP 1, Volume 1, Joint Warfighting, and for more information on threat networks or VEOs, see JP 3-25, Joint Countering Threat Networks, and JP 3-26, Joint Combating Terrorism.

d. **Understanding the Contemporary Environment.** Radicalism, extremism, and the associated violence they foster have become commonplace and a globally persistent condition. Radicalization and extremism are trends that can frustrate US strategy, policy, and DOD security efforts but also are precursors to violence and conflict. Commanders and planners anticipate when joint forces transition from armed conflict to competition. As the transition unfolds, VEOs may continue to resort to coercion and violence to exploit a newly formed transitional government's fragility. The JFC also anticipates enemy trends that either surge or reduce extremist behavior and activities incorporating violence and conflict. The JFC assesses the OE before, during, and after campaign development, identifying trends and informing operational approaches and supporting efforts. The JFC leverages unified action through interorganizational cooperation with international

organizations and HN partners for the US, multinational, and HN security actions. Friendly information efforts coalesce and transmit the USG and international condemnation to counter threat trends. The JFC analyzes and assesses the OE influenced by urbanization, demographic insecurity, and competition for diminishing resources. The leaders of the VEO will promote civil unrest through the expansion of ideological radicalization and fuel extremism to encourage violence. JFCs and their staff must assess VEO motives, means, and innovations to understand and address extremism trends:

(1) VEOs will continue to operate during armed conflict. They may increase the tempo and scope of their activities to exploit the root causes of the armed conflict. These activities can force JFCs to divert resources to the CT mission and integrate CT with traditional warfare activities and operations against an enemy cooperating with VEOs.

(2) Enemies using irregular methods often will use terrorist tactics to wage prolonged operations to break the US political will and influence relevant populations. At the same time, terrorists and insurgents also seek to bolster their legitimacy and credibility with those same populations. Therefore, CT efforts should include the application of all instruments of national power to the struggle for legitimacy, credibility, and influence.

(3) Antagonize, induce, and exploit existing grievances to mobilize support for violent change.

(4) Find, influence, and mobilize populations locally, regionally, and globally.

(5) Spread information and disinformation to elicit tacit and active support or acceptance of their views and actions.

(6) Conduct, direct, support, or inspire a mix of lethal and nonlethal actions to achieve physical and psychological objectives, gain notoriety, garner attention, sustain, increase their base, finance and advance their cause.

e. Joint Campaigns and Operations Against VEOs. Successful campaigns and operations against VEOs require an integrated USG strategy that establishes relevant strategic objectives. A GCP for countering VEOs translates USG policy and strategy into a set of strategic- and operational-level military objectives necessary to establish the conditions necessary to achieve the desired strategic objective. Planning involves identifying strategic and operational objectives and developing supporting LOEs and LOOs that achieve operational-level objectives. The CJCS and coordinating authority integrate and synchronize transregional campaigns and operations to ensure unity of effort with other CCDRs, affected COMs, and other interorganizational partners. The CCP requires a more extensive framework than those employed for tactical operations, particularly in situations where the United States is in long-term competition with global or transregional adversaries. The CCDR coordinates transregional and theater activities that clearly understand the OE and wield greater influence over affected populations. The assessment of the OE informs campaign development, and continuous monitoring leads to adapting the operational approach against identified VEOs. Campaigns can include

aggressive and lethal actions against the threat itself while incorporating less aggressive activities against supporting cultural groups, sympathetic local and international populations, or a nation-state threat sponsor.

f. **Address threats globally, transregionally, and over time.** VEOs operate from sanctuaries, move, and conduct actions surreptitiously while employing information and disinformation. A global campaign approach requires an agile and more capable (synchronized lethal and nonlethal) force to support a requesting CCDR with a full spectrum of options. A CCP may require the CCDR to employ forces and functional capabilities for each region synchronized with information activities to ensure the appropriate impact across different populations and relevant actors. The distribution and activities of the joint force should reflect a comprehensive understanding of campaign objectives with implementing forces employed in time and space. The OE is subject to influence by transregional or global features that enable the movement of VEOs. A campaign may incorporate supporting plans that promote the long-term development of human and operational infrastructure to support competition activities, challenge the threat's agility, and impede a potential escalation to violence.

For more information on VEO, see JP 3-24, Counterinsurgency.

6. The Limited Contingency

a. **Introduction.** CCDRs tailor and conduct operations within a limited contingency to achieve a specific objective. Limited contingency operations have a unique and typically narrow scope, scale, and focus. Under the authoritative direction of the CCDR, a subordinate command or JFC may execute a limited contingency as a stand-alone operation or reflect the initial effort of an expanding or greater, more complex effort.

b. Limited Contingency Operations

(1) CCDRs prepare for various responses to situations that require military actions, activities, and operations. Through competition, commanders seek to improve positions of advantage to counter adversary and enemy actions or activities or to impose costs. Additionally, commanders create dilemmas for our adversaries, terrorists, subversives, or other contingencies as directed by an appropriate authority. The level of complexity, duration, and resources depends on the circumstances. Limited contingency operations ensure the safety of US citizens and US interests. Many of these operations involve a combination of military forces and capabilities operating in close cooperation with interorganizational participants. Commanders seek to integrate and execute within one unified construct to facilitate unity of effort. The timing of the transition from planning and preparation to execution can change rapidly, as necessary.

(2) When contentious situations develop, and the President or SecDef directs action, CCDRs respond. If internal forces within a nation create threats to sovereignty or regional stability, US forces may intervene to restore or guarantee stability. Prompt deployment of necessary forces can preclude the need to deploy larger forces later. Effective early intervention can also deny an enemy time to set conditions in their favor

and achieve their objectives. Deploying a credible force is one step in countering coercion or responding to aggression. However, deployment alone will not guarantee success. Successfully countering coercion involves convincing the adversary that the deployed force can conduct offensive operations. Additionally, the perception that the national leadership is willing to employ that force and deploy more forces if necessary is critical.

(3) Two important aspects of limited contingency operations stand out. CCDRs must provide an initial focus for the effort but remain vigilant of the evolving circumstances. First, understanding the purpose of the use of force and objective helps avoid actions that have adverse diplomatic or political effects. It is not uncommon in some operations, such as compelling compliance in peace enforcement, for subordinate commanders to make decisions that have significant implications. Second, commanders remain aware of changes in the operational situation and at the strategic level that may warrant a change in military operations. These changes may not always be obvious, much less directed. Commanders must strive to detect subtle changes, which may eventually lead to disconnects between evolving strategic objectives and military operations. Failure to recognize changes within implied strategic direction may lead to ineffective or counterproductive military efforts.

(4) Strategic direction and the evolving OE may require JFCs to simultaneously maintain and prepare capabilities for limited contingency operations and support other joint campaigns and operations. JFCs recognize these operations will vary in duration, frequency, intensity, and the number of personnel required. The burden of limited contingency operations may lend itself to using small elements like SOF in coordination, preferably in concert with allies and PNPs. Initially, SOF may lead these operations as an economy of force measure to enable continuity of effort.

7. Direct Action

a. **DA.** DA entails short-duration strikes and other small-scale offensive actions conducted in hostile, denied, or diplomatically sensitive environments. DA employs military capabilities to seize, destroy, capture, exploit, recover, or damage designated targets in hostile, denied, high-risk, or diplomatically and politically sensitive environments. DA differs from other offensive actions in the level of diplomatic or political risk, the operational techniques employed, and the degree of precise use of force to achieve specific objectives. JFCs may take DA through raids, ambushes, or other direct assault tactics; standoff attacks by fire from the air, land, or maritime forces; provision of terminal guidance for precision-guided munitions; independent sabotage; and special anti-ship operations or maritime interception operations.

(1) SOF conducting DA usually withdraw from the planned objective area as quickly as possible to limit the operation's scope and duration. DA can provide specific and often time-sensitive results at operational and strategic levels of warfare.

(2) SOF may conduct DA independently or as part of a larger joint operation or campaign. Although normally considered close combat, DA also includes precision marksmanship and other standoff attacks by fire delivered or directed by SOF. JFCs

employ standoff attacks when the target can be damaged or destroyed from a distance. SOF employs close combat tactics and techniques when the mission requires precise or discriminate use of force.

(3) DA missions may also involve locating and capturing or seizing selected high-value targets or materiel in sensitive, denied, or contested areas. These missions usually result from situations involving diplomatic and political sensitivity or military criticality of the enemy personnel or materiel exfiltrated from remote or hostile environments.

(4) DA supports PR (including unconventional and nonconventional assisted recovery) by use of dedicated land combat elements, unconventional techniques, precise intelligence on isolated personnel, and indigenous resistance or surrogate assistance.

(5) Maritime DA can include across-the-beach operations; near-simultaneous, underway, nighttime ship boarding; underwater attack against ships or other targets; harbor attack; and gas and oil platform assault.

b. Strikes and Raids

(1) **Strikes** are attacks conducted to damage or destroy an objective or capability. Consistent with the requirements of international law, strikes may compel offending nations or groups to desist or prevent those nations or groups from launching attacks. Strikes may punish offending nations or groups, uphold international law, or prevent those nations or groups from launching attacks. Although often tactical concerning the ways and means used and duration of the operation, strikes can help achieve objectives.

(2) **Raids** are operations to seize an area temporarily, usually through forcible entry, to secure information, confuse an enemy, capture personnel or equipment, or destroy an objective or capability. Raids end with a planned withdrawal upon completion of the assigned mission.

8. Counterinsurgency

a. Introduction

(1) COIN consists of comprehensive civilian and military efforts designed to simultaneously defeat and contain insurgency and address its root causes. When the United States conducts COIN, it refers to US military personnel taking the lead in COIN operations. When US forces support an HN or PN, and the HN/PN are in the lead, our support falls under the FID category. While many commanders may not embrace the possibility of waging a future COIN campaign, history has shown repeatedly the folly of abandoning the hard-learned lessons of COIN, in favor of traditional state on state warfare. JFCs are aware they may have to face large-scale combat operations and COIN activities or operations simultaneously. Therefore, the joint operation maintains this capability and prepares the force appropriately.

(2) Insurgencies are the most common form of conflict around the world and often are transnational, not isolated to one state. An insurgency is a political-military struggle by a predominantly indigenous group or movement designed to weaken, subvert, or displace the control of an established government. Insurgencies have always been and are currently a reality within the contemporary OE. Long-standing external and internal tensions tend to create or exacerbate core grievances of a segment of a population, which can result in political strife and instability. Some groups can exploit these grievances to gain political advantage. Some transnational criminals or terrorists with radical political and religious ideologies may intrude in weak or poorly governed states to form a wider, more networked threat. Insurgents will typically solicit or offer external support or sanctuary from state or non-state actors.

For more information on COIN, see JP 3-24, Counterinsurgency.

(3) An effective COIN operation utilizes all instruments of national power to integrate and synchronize political, security, legal, economic, development, and psychological activities carried out by the HN. CDRs also leverage applicable USG and multinational partners to create a holistic approach to resolve core grievances where able and for those irreconcilables remaining in the insurgency, weakening their cause for violence.

(4) The United States could get involved in a COIN operation or campaign in two common ways. The first is at the request of a PN faced with an insurgency, which it cannot control. The second way is after a major conventional conflict whereby the United States disestablishes the standing government of a threat nation and assumes the role of reestablishing a new government and security. In this case, the JFC should prepare for an insurgency from disgruntled former regime members. The joint force can also conduct a COIN operation through foreign assistance and SC activities to prevent or disrupt insurgent threats. SC activities, which include SA, are a part of CCPs. DOD may conduct SC activities in conjunction with a contingency plan involving a PN in a limited contingency. The FID program is an important USG tool to fight insurgencies. Where a friendly nation appears vulnerable to an insurgency, many times it is in the best interest of the USG to help it mitigate that insurgency. In these cases, the USG can support the affected HN's internal defense and development strategy and program through FID efforts.

For more information on COIN, see JP 3-24, Counterinsurgency. For more information about SC, see JP 3-20, Security Cooperation. For more information on FID, see JP 3-22, Foreign Internal Defense.

b. Approach to COIN

(1) COIN Strategy. The JFC and staff develop a population-centric COIN strategy focused on the root causes of the armed insurgency. To develop an effective COIN strategy, the JFC must have a comprehensive understanding of the armed conflict from the perspectives of the insurgents, other armed groups, and the indigenous populations. The strategy must align US interests against the interests of the population

the joint force is defending from the insurgency. COIN seeks to simultaneously protect the population from insurgent violence and isolate the insurgents physically, psychologically, politically, socially, and economically from the indigenous population. Ultimately, the indigenous population will determine whether to provide its loyalty and support to the insurgents or to the United States and its indigenous partners. All efforts are to address the perceived and actual political imbalance the insurgent leadership has exploited. The USG never intends to conduct COIN indefinitely but rather desires to transition responsibility to a legitimate and credible HN government as soon as the situation allows. The HN will require long-term USG support to sustain COIN successes and attain and maintain an acceptable strategic situation or condition.

(2) COIN Mindset. COIN focuses on the protection of the population and addressing the core grievances of both the insurgents and the population from which they draw support and recruits. Both insurgents and counterinsurgents seek to gain or maintain control or influence over the population's support through political, psychological, and economic methods.

9. Global Integration and the Joint Force's Enduring Role in Competition

a. Arranging and accomplishing global integration's actions are essential. For the joint force to prevail against a peer enemy, it is imperative for JFCs to implement the directed prioritization of effort and integrate capabilities that work together to create advantages. If CCDRs are unsuccessful in executing these essential operations, then the war effort could face costly protraction, stalemate, or even worse. CCDRs achieve success by continually denying the enemy's objectives, attriting and dismantling enemy A2/AD defense networks, targeting C2 systems, and isolating the enemy's forces from their strategic infrastructure. Simultaneously, CCDRs continue protecting the force and accumulating combat power from across the globe. As the campaigns and major operations begin to create diplomatic and political leverage and advantage, national leaders can begin to either impose or negotiate a settlement.

b. CCDRs translate military success into acceptable and sustainable strategic outcomes. CCDRs expect the transition to a new competition to occur over extended periods and implement long-term approaches that maintain their campaigns' focus over time. These activities might have to be successful across several AORs and multiple JOAs. Regarding results, whether in circumstances of cooperation, competition, or armed conflict, CCDRs assess results with a cumulative perspective and as decisive when it achieves policy's overarching objectives and provides a footing to accommodate future circumstances. CCDRs effectively guide and influence the competition while creating and enabling the necessary behaviors and conditions to achieve and maintain the strategic objectives. CCDRs continue to guide a stable diplomatic/political situation and an expanding network of like-minded allies and partners on terms that are compatible with and promote US interests. If not, then the war and war's objectives were meaningless. Maintaining this favorable situation within the new competition likely requires a continuing opportunity cost of an enduring military effort. At some point, the United States will likely normalize relations for the political and military affairs of the states previously involved in armed conflict to another authority (e.g., UN

observers, multinational peacekeeping force, or NATO). This normalization will probably occur after an extended period of establishing and protecting a new international dynamic. Normalizing relations can occur quickly but will likely occur in stages as it may include situations across multiple theaters. Either way, the joint force will continue to campaign and prepare for future circumstances.

APPENDIX A

PRINCIPLES OF JOINT OPERATIONS

1. Introduction

The principles are relevant to how the Armed Forces of the United States use combat power across the competition continuum. Classic military study of war traditionally involved nine basic principles, collectively and classically known as the principles of war. While the basic nature of war is immutable, the conduct of warfare continues to evolve, and the methods of warfare will vary based on the situation. Experience in both traditional warfare and IW identifies three additional principles, restraint, resilience, and legitimacy, that together with the principles of war comprise the 12 principles of joint operations. The principles do not apply equally in all circumstances. Most principles, if not all, are relevant in combat. Some principles, such as offensive, maneuver, and surprise, may not apply in some situations like FHA. However, principles such as the unity of command, objective, and legitimacy are important in all situations.

2. Traditional Principles of War

a. Objective

(1) The purpose of specifying the objective is to direct military action toward a clearly defined and achievable goal.

(2) The purpose of using military power is to achieve strategic objectives. Achieving strategic objectives frequently involves the destruction of the enemies' capabilities and their will to fight. The objectives not involving this destruction might be more difficult to define; nonetheless, it too must be clear from the beginning. Objectives must directly, quickly, and economically contribute to the purpose of military action. Ultimately, each action must contribute to achieving strategic objectives. JFCs should avoid actions that do not contribute directly to achieving the objective(s).

(3) Changes to strategic objectives may occur because national and military leaders gain a better understanding of the situation, or they may occur because the situation changes. The JFC should anticipate these shifts in national objectives necessitating changes in the military objectives. The changes may be very subtle, but if not made, the achievement of the operational objectives may no longer support the strategic objectives, legitimacy undermined, and force security compromised.

b. Offensive

(1) The purpose of an offensive action is to seize, retain, and exploit the initiative.

(2) Offensive action is the most effective and determinant way to achieve a clearly defined objective. Offensive operations are how a military force seizes and exploits the initiative while maintaining freedom of action and achieving meaningful objectives. The importance of offensive action is fundamentally true across all levels of warfare.

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(3) Commanders adopt the defensive only as a temporary expedient and must seek every opportunity to seize or regain the initiative. An offensive spirit must be inherent in the conduct of all defensive operations.

c. Mass

(1) The purpose of mass is to concentrate the effects of combat power at the most advantageous place and time to produce results.

(2) To achieve mass, JFCs integrate and synchronize where they can have a forceful effect in a short period of time. Mass must often be sustained to have the desired effect. Massing effects of combat power (lethal and nonlethal), rather than concentrating forces, can enable even numerically inferior forces to produce decisive results and minimize human losses and waste of resources. The joint force maneuvers to mass effects in competitive spaces (i.e., land, maritime, air, and space domains; as well as in the IE, which includes cyberspace; and the EMS) to gain and maintain advantage relative to a competitor, adversary, or enemy. Maneuver and mass are complementary and mutually supporting principles designed to concentrate the effects of overwhelming power at the decisive place and time.

d. Maneuver

(1) The purpose of maneuver is to place an adversary or enemy in a position of disadvantage.

(2) Maneuver is the movement of forces in relation to competitor, adversary, or enemy actions to secure or retain a positional and/or informational advantage, usually to deliver—or threaten the delivery of—the direct and indirect fires of the maneuvering force. Effective maneuver keeps the enemy off balance and thus protects the friendly force. It contributes materially and psychologically in exploiting successes, preserving freedom of action, and reducing vulnerability by continually posing new problems for the enemy.

e. Economy of Force

(1) The purpose of an economy of force is to expend minimum essential combat power (lethal and nonlethal) on secondary efforts to allocate the maximum possible combat power on primary efforts.

(2) Economy of force is the judicious employment and distribution of forces IAW the commander's intent and mission requirements. The measured allocation of available combat power for tasks as limited attacks, defense, delays, deception, or even retrograde operations is to achieve mass at the decisive point and time. Although the principle of economy of force suggests the use of force, it also recommends guarding against overkill. This is particularly relevant when excessive force can diminish the legitimacy and support for an operation—an inherent informational aspect of military activities.

f. Unity of Command

(1) The purpose of unity of command is to ensure unity of effort under one responsible commander for every objective.

(2) Unity of command means all forces operate under a single commander with the requisite authority to direct all forces employed in pursuit of a common purpose. Unity of command may not be possible during coordination with multinational and interagency partners, but the requirement for unity of effort is paramount. Unity of effort—the coordination and cooperation toward common objectives, even if the participants are not necessarily part of the same command or organization—is the product of successful unified action.

g. Security

(1) The purpose of security is to prevent the enemy from acquiring an unexpected advantage.

(2) Security enhances freedom of action by reducing friendly vulnerability to hostile acts, influence, or surprise. Security results from the measures taken by commanders to protect their forces, the population, or other critical priorities. Staff planning and an understanding of enemy strategy, tactics, and doctrine enhance security. Risk is inherent in military action. The application of this principle includes risk management, not undue caution.

h. Surprise

(1) The purpose of surprise is to strike at a time or place where the enemy is unprepared.

(2) Surprise can help the commander shift the balance of combat power and thus achieve success well out of proportion to the effort expended. Factors contributing to surprise include speed in decision making, information sharing, and force movement; effective intelligence; deception; application of unexpected combat power; OPSEC; and variations in tactics and methods of operation.

i. Simplicity

(1) The purpose of simplicity is to increase the probability of success in execution by preparing clear, uncomplicated plans and concise orders.

(2) Simplicity contributes to successful action. Simple plans and clear, concise orders minimize misunderstanding and confusion. When other factors are equal, the simplest plan is preferable. Simplicity in plans allows better understanding and execution planning at all echelons. Simplicity, a common lexicon, and clarity of expression greatly

facilitate mission execution in the stress, fatigue, fog of war, and complexities of modern combat and are especially critical to success in modern operations.

3. Additional Principles of Joint Operations

a. Restraint

(1) The purpose of restraint is to prevent the excessive use of force.

(2) A single act could cause significant military and diplomatic/political consequences, so the judicious use of force is necessary. Restraint requires the careful and disciplined balancing of the need for security, the military necessities of the operation, and the pursuit of the objectives. Excessive force antagonizes those parties involved, thereby damaging the legitimacy of the organization that uses it while potentially enhancing the legitimacy of the opposing party. Nonlethal weapons provide intermediate force, which is an active measure that enables mission success through the creation of proportionate nonlethal effects allowing for effective action consistent with the principle of restraint.

b. Resilience

(1) Resilience is a characteristic of an individual, organization, process, or system that gives it the ability to withstand and recover from disruptions from internal and external factors. For individuals, this quality presents as the ability to adapt to difficult or challenging operational experiences, especially through the mental, emotional, and behavioral flexibility and adjustment to internal and external demands of experiences and pressures created by demanding OEs.

(2) Similarly, resilient organizations exhibit the ability to anticipate, prepare for, and respond to incremental changes and or sudden disruptions to survive and adapt to new environments. Individuals and organizations institute resilience in their processes and systems by ensuring they have can anticipate, cope, adapt, and recover from challenges and disruptions. Commanders work to instill this quality in their force and build institutional and individual endurance that enables the joint force to recover from the inevitable losses or setbacks caused by the trials encountered during joint campaigns and operations.

c. Legitimacy

(1) The purpose of legitimacy is to maintain legal and moral authority.

(2) Legitimacy, which can be a key factor, is based on the actual and perceived legality, morality, and rightness of the actions from the various perspectives of relevant actors, stakeholders, and other interested audiences. These audiences will include our national leadership and domestic population, governments, and civilian populations in the OA and nations and organizations around the world.

(3) Committed forces sustain the legitimacy and cooperation of the host government, where applicable. Commanders balance security actions of the joint force with perceptions of legitimacy. Commanders consider all actions as potentially competing requirements. Legitimacy may depend on adherence to objectives agreed to by the international community, ensuring the action is appropriate to the situation and to perceptions of fairness in dealing with various factions. Restricting the use of force, restructuring the type of forces employed, protecting civilians, and ensuring the disciplined conduct of the forces involved may reinforce legitimacy. The consistent integration of operations, actions, words, and images will support the commander's ability to establish and maintain necessary credibility, legitimacy, and trust with relevant actors.

(4) Another aspect is the legitimacy bestowed upon a local government through the perception of the populace that it governs. FHA and CMO help develop a sense of legitimacy for the supported government. When the populace perceives the government has genuine authority to govern and uses proper agencies for valid purposes, they consider that government as legitimate, especially when coupled with successful efforts to build the capability and capacity of the supported government's institutions. In a situation where perceptions of government legitimacy do not exist, leaders must use extreme caution to avoid inadvertently legitimizing individuals and organizations whose agendas may be counterproductive to the HN and US strategic objectives.

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The development of JP 3-0 considers the following primary references:

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- e. CJCSI 3121.01B, *(U) Standing Rules of Engagement/Standing Rules for the Use of Force for US Forces*.
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- aaa. JP 3-28, *Defense Support of Civil Authorities*.
- bbb. JP 3-29, *Foreign Humanitarian Assistance*.
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- ggg. JP 3-34, *Joint Engineer Operations*.
- hhh. JP 3-36, *Joint Air Mobility and Sealift Operations*.
- iii. JP 3-40, *Joint Countering Weapons of Mass Destruction*.
- jjj. JP 3-41, *Chemical, Biological, Radiological, and Nuclear Response*.
- kkk. JP 3-42, *Joint Explosive Ordnance Disposal*.
- lll. JP 3-50, *Personnel Recovery*.
- mmm. JP 3-52, *Joint Airspace Control*.
- nnn. JP 3-57, *Civil-Military Operations*.

ooo. JP 3-59, *Meteorological and Oceanographic Operations*.

ppp. JP 3-60, *Joint Targeting*.

qqq. JP 3-61, *Public Affairs*.

rrr. JP 3-68, *Noncombatant Evacuation Operations*.

sss. JP 3-85, *Joint Electromagnetic Spectrum Operations*.

ttt. JP 4-0, *Joint Logistics*.

uuu. JP 4-09, *Distribution Operations*.

vvv. JP 4-10, *Operational Contract Support*.

www. JP 5-0, *Joint Planning*.

xxx. JP 6-0, *Joint Communications System*.

4. Allied Joint Publications

a. AJP-01(D), *Allied Joint Doctrine*.

b. AJP-3(C), *Allied Joint Doctrine for the Conduct of Operations*.

5. Multi-Service Publications

a. Army Techniques Publication 3-22.40 (Field Manual 3-22.40)/Marine Corps Tactical Publication 10-10A/Navy Tactics, Techniques, and Procedures 3-07.3.2/Air Force Tactics, Techniques, and Procedures 3-2.45/Coast Guard Tactics, Techniques, and Procedures 3-93.2, *Multi-Service Tactics, Techniques, and Procedures for Employment of Nonlethal Weapons*.

b. Army Techniques Publication 3-01.15/Marine Corps Tactical Publication 10-10B/Navy Tactics, Techniques, and Procedures 3-01.8/Air Force Tactics, Techniques, and Procedures 3-2.31, *Multi-Service Tactics, Techniques, and Procedures for Air and Missile Defense*.

c. Chief of Naval Operations Instruction 3500.38B/Marine Corps Order 3500.26A/Commandant Instruction M3500.1B, *Universal Naval Task List [UNTL]*.

d. Chief, National Guard Bureau Instruction 3000.04, *National Guard Bureau Domestic Operations*.

e. Navy Tactics, Techniques, and Procedures 3-07.11M/Coast Guard Tactics, Techniques, and Procedures 3-93.3/Marine Corps Interim Publication 3-33.04, *Visit, Board, Search, and Seizure Operations*.

f. Navy Warfare Publication 3-07/Commandant Instruction M3120.11/Marine Corps Interim Publication 3-33.02, *Maritime Stability Operations*.

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APPENDIX C

ADMINISTRATIVE INSTRUCTIONS

1. User Comments

Users in the field are highly encouraged to submit comments on this publication using the Joint Doctrine Feedback Form located at: https://jdeis.js.mil/jdeis/jel/jp_feedback_form.pdf and e-mail it to: js.pentagon.j7.mbx.jedd-support@mail.mil. These comments should address content (accuracy, usefulness, consistency, and organization), writing, and appearance.

2. Authorship

a. The lead agent for this publication is the Joint Staff Director for Operations (J-3). The Joint Staff doctrine sponsor for this publication is the Joint Staff Director for Operations (J-3).

b. The following staff, in conjunction with the joint doctrine development community, made a valuable contribution to the revision of this joint publication: lead agent, Mr. Scott T. Kendrick, Integrated Operations Division, Future Operations (J-35), Joint Staff Directorate for Operations (J-3); Joint Staff doctrine sponsor, Mr. Scott Kendrick, Integrated Operations Division, Future Operations (J-35), Joint Staff Directorate for Operations (J-3); Mr. John Gniadek, Joint Doctrine Analysis Branch, Joint Staff J-7; and LtCol Matthew T. James, Joint Doctrine Branch, Joint Staff J-7. Mr. Johnny R. Raney, United States Marine Corps, is also recognized for his invaluable contributions throughout the revision cycle of this publication

3. Supersession

This publication supersedes JP 3-0, *Joint Operations*, 17 January 2017, Incorporating Change 1, 22 October 2018.

4. Change Recommendations

a. To provide recommendations for urgent and/or routine changes to this publication, please complete the Joint Doctrine Feedback Form located at: https://jdeis.js.mil/jdeis/jel/jp_feedback_form.pdf and e-mail it to: js.pentagon.j7.mbx.jedd-support@mail.mil.

b. When a Joint Staff directorate submits a proposal to the CJCS that would change source document information reflected in this publication, that directorate will include a proposed change to this publication as an enclosure to its proposal. The Services and other organizations are requested to notify the Joint Staff J-7 when changes to source documents reflected in this publication are initiated.

5. Lessons Learned

The Joint Lessons Learned Program (JLLP) primary objective is to enhance joint force readiness and effectiveness by contributing to improvements in doctrine, organization, training, materiel, leadership and education, personnel, facilities, and policy. The Joint Lessons Learned Information System (JLLIS) is the DOD system of record for lessons learned and facilitates the collection, tracking, management, sharing, collaborative resolution, and dissemination of observations, best practices, and lessons learned to improve the development and readiness of the joint force. The JLLP integrates with joint doctrine through the joint doctrine development process by providing insights and lessons learned derived from operations, exercises, war games, and other events. As these inputs are incorporated into joint doctrine, they become institutionalized for future use, a major goal of the JLLP. Insights and lessons learned are routinely sought and incorporated into draft JPs throughout formal staffing of the development process. The JLLIS Web site can be found at <https://www.jllis.mil> (NIPRNET) or <https://www.jllis.smil.mil> (SIPRNET).

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GLOSSARY

PART I—SHORTENED WORD FORMS (ABBREVIATIONS, ACRONYMS, AND INITIALISMS)

A2	antiaccess
AADC	area air defense commander
ACA	airspace control authority
ACO	airspace control order
ACP	airspace control plan
ACS	airspace control system
ACSA	acquisition and cross-servicing agreement
AD	area denial
AJP	Allied joint publication
AM&E	assessment, monitoring, and evaluation
AO	area of operations
AOA	amphibious objective area
AOI	area of interest
AOR	area of responsibility
BDA	battle damage assessment
BPC	building partnership capacity
C2	command and control
CAL	critical asset list
CAO	civil affairs operations
CBRN	chemical, biological, radiological, and nuclear
CbT	combating terrorism
CCDR	combatant commander
CCIR	commander's critical information requirement
CCMD	combatant command
CCP	combatant command campaign plan
CD	counterdrug
CDRUSCYBERCOM	Commander, United States Cyber Command
CDRUSSOCOM	Commander, United States Special Operations Command
CDRUSSPACECOM	Commander, United States Space Command
CDRUSSTRATCOM	Commander, United States Strategic Command
CI	counterintelligence
CID	combat identification
C-IED	counter-improvised explosive device
CJCS	Chairman of the Joint Chiefs of Staff
CJCSI	Chairman of the Joint Chiefs of Staff instruction
CJCSM	Chairman of the Joint Chiefs of Staff manual
CJTF	commander, joint task force
CMO	civil-military operation
CMOC	civil-military operations center
CO	cyberspace operations

COA	course of action
COCOM	combatant command (command authority)
COG	center of gravity
COIN	counterinsurgency
CO-IPE	cyberspace operations-integrated planning element
COM	chief of mission
COMCAM	combat camera
CONOPS	concept of operations
CONPLAN	concept plan
CONUS	continental United States
COOP	continuity of operations
COP	common operational picture
CPG	contingency planning guidance
CSA	combat support agency
CSP	campaign support plan
CT	counterterrorism
CTF	counter threat finance
CTN	countering threat networks
CWMD	countering weapons of mass destruction
DA	direct action
DACO	directive authority for cyberspace operations
DAFL	directive authority for logistics
DAL	defended asset list
DCA	defensive counterair
DCO	defensive cyberspace operations
DDR	disarmament, demobilization, and reintegration
DE	directed energy
DOD	Department of Defense
DODD	Department of Defense directive
DODI	Department of Defense instruction
DODIN	Department of Defense information network
DOS	Department of State
DPG	defense planning guidance
DSCA	defense support of civil authorities
EA	electromagnetic attack
EACA	electromagnetic attack control authority
EM	electromagnetic
EME	electromagnetic environment
EMI	electromagnetic interference
EMOE	electromagnetic operational environment
EMS	electromagnetic spectrum
EP	electromagnetic protection
EW	electromagnetic warfare
EXORD	execute order

FCP	functional campaign plan
FDO	flexible deterrent option
FFIR	friendly force information requirement
FHA	foreign humanitarian assistance
FHP	force health protection
FID	foreign internal defense
FRO	flexible response option
FSF	foreign security forces
GCP	global campaign plan
GFM	global force management
GFMIG	Global Force Management Implementation Guidance
GIF	global integration framework
HD	homeland defense
HN	host nation
HNS	host-nation support
HQ	headquarters
I2	identity intelligence
IADS	integrated air defense system
IAW	in accordance with
IC	intelligence community
ICB	institutional capacity building
ICP	integrated contingency plan
IE	information environment
IM	information management
ISR	intelligence, surveillance, and reconnaissance
IW	irregular warfare
J-2	intelligence directorate of a joint staff
J-3	operations directorate of a joint staff
J-5	plans directorate of a joint staff
J-7	training and education directorate of a joint staff
JCC	joint cyberspace center
JEMSO	joint electromagnetic spectrum operations
JFACC	joint force air component commander
JFC	joint force commander
JFLCC	joint force land component commander
JFMCC	joint force maritime component commander
JFSOCC	joint force special operations component commander
JIACG	joint interagency coordination group
JIPOE	joint intelligence preparation of the operational environment

JIST	joint integrated space team
JMETL	joint mission-essential task list
JOA	joint operations area
JP	joint publication
JPP	joint planning process
JRSOI	joint reception, staging, onward movement, and integration
JS	Joint Staff
JSA	joint security area
JSC	joint security coordinator
JSOA	joint special operations area
JSPS	Joint Strategic Planning System
JTCB	joint targeting coordination board
JTF	joint task force
JTF-State	joint task force-state
KLE	key leader engagement
LEA	law enforcement agency
LNO	liaison officer
LOC	line of communications
LOE	line of effort
LOO	line of operation
MILDEC	military deception
MILDEP	Military Department
MIPOE	medical intelligence preparation of the operational environment
MISO	military information support operations
MOE	measure of effectiveness
MOP	measure of performance
NATO	North Atlantic Treaty Organization
NDS	national defense strategy
NG	National Guard
NGB	National Guard Bureau
NGO	nongovernmental organization
NMS	national military strategy
NRF	National Response Framework
NSC	National Security Council
NSS	national security strategy
OA	operational area
OCA	offensive counterair
OCO	offensive cyberspace operations
OCS	operational contract support
OE	operational environment

OIE	operations in the information environment
OPCON	operational control
OPLAN	operation plan
OPSEC	operations security
OSD	Office of the Secretary of Defense
PA	public affairs
PAO	public affairs officer
PEO	peace enforcement operations
PIR	priority intelligence requirement
PKO	peacekeeping operations
PN	partner nation
PNT	positioning, navigation, and timing
PPD	Presidential policy directive
PR	personnel recovery
ROE	rules of engagement
RS	religious support
SA	security assistance
SC	security cooperation
SCO	security cooperation organization
SecDef	Secretary of Defense
SFA	security force assistance
SJA	staff judge advocate
SOF	special operations forces
SOP	standard operating procedure
SSA	security sector assistance
SSR	security sector reform
STO	special technical operations
TACON	tactical control
TF	task force
TPFDD	timed-phased force and deployment data
TSOC	theater special operations command
UAS	unmanned aircraft system
UCP	Unified Command Plan
UN	United Nations
US	United States
USAID	United States Agency for International Development
USC	United States Code
USCYBERCOM	United States Cyber Command
USG	United States Government
USSPACECOM	United States Space Command
UW	unconventional warfare

Glossary

VEO	violent extremist organization
WMD	weapons of mass destruction

PART II—TERMS AND DEFINITIONS

1. JP 3-0, *Joint Campaigns and Operations*, 18 June 2022, Active Terms and Definitions

activity. 1. A unit, organization, or installation performing a function or mission. 2. A function, mission, action, or collection of actions. (DOD Dictionary. Source: JP 3-0)

adversary. A party acknowledged as potentially hostile to a friendly party and against which the use of force may be envisaged. (DOD Dictionary. Source: JP 3-0)

air apportionment. The determination and assignment of the total expected effort by percentage and/or by priority that should be devoted to the various air operations for a given period of time. (DOD Dictionary. Source: JP 3-0)

antiaccess. Action, activity, or capability, usually long-range, designed to prevent an advancing enemy force from entering an operational area. Also called **A2**. (DOD Dictionary. Source: JP 3-0)

area denial. Action, activity, or capability, usually short-range, designed to limit an enemy force's freedom of action within an operational area. Also called **AD**. (DOD Dictionary. Source: JP 3-0)

area of influence. An area inclusive of and extending beyond an operational area wherein a commander is capable of direct influence by maneuver, fire support, and information normally under the commander's command or control. (Approved for incorporation into the DOD Dictionary.)

area of interest. That area of concern to the commander, including the area of influence, areas adjacent to it, and extending into enemy territory. Also called **AOI**. (Approved for incorporation into the DOD Dictionary.)

area of operations. An operational area defined by a commander for the land or maritime force commander to accomplish their missions and protect their forces. Also called **AO**. (Approved for incorporation into the DOD Dictionary.)

assessment. 1. A continuous process that measures the overall effectiveness of employing capabilities during military operations. 2. Determination of the progress toward accomplishing a task, creating a condition, or achieving an objective. 3. Analysis of the security, effectiveness, and potential of an existing or planned intelligence activity. 4. Judgment of the motives, qualifications, and characteristics of present or prospective employees or "agents." (DOD Dictionary. Source: JP 3-0)

assign. 1. To place units or personnel in an organization where such placement is relatively permanent and/or where such organization controls and administers the units or personnel for the primary function, or greater portion of the functions, of the unit or personnel. 2. To detail individuals to specific duties or functions where such duties or

functions are primary and/or relatively permanent. (Source: JP 3-0) (Definition #1 approved for incorporation into the DOD Dictionary.)

attach. 1. The placement of units or personnel in an organization where such placement is relatively temporary. 2. The detailing of individuals to specific functions where such functions are secondary or relatively temporary. (DOD Dictionary. Source: JP 3-0)

battle damage assessment. The estimate of damage composed of physical and functional damage assessment, as well as target system assessment, resulting from the application of fires. Also called **BDA**. (Approved for incorporation into the DOD Dictionary.)

boundary. A line that delineates surface areas for the purpose of facilitating coordination and deconfliction of operations between adjacent units, formations, or areas. (DOD Dictionary. Source: JP 3-0)

campaigning. The persistent conduct of related operations, activities, and investments that align military actions with the other instruments of national power, supporting global integration across the competition continuum in pursuit of strategic objectives. (Approved for inclusion in the DOD Dictionary.)

combatant commander. A commander of one of the unified or specified combatant commands established by the President. Also called **CCDR**. (DOD Dictionary. Source: JP 3-0)

combat power. The total means of destructive and disruptive force that a military unit/formation can apply against an enemy at a given time. (Approved for incorporation into the DOD Dictionary.)

commander's critical information requirement. Specific information identified by the commander as being essential to facilitate timely decision making. Also called **CCIR**. (Approved for incorporation into the DOD Dictionary.)

commander's intent. A clear and concise expression of the purpose of an operation and the desired objectives and military end state. (Approved for incorporation into the DOD Dictionary.)

common operational picture. A single, identical display of relevant information shared by more than one command that facilitates collaborative planning and assists all echelons to achieve situational awareness. Also called **COP**. (Approved for incorporation into the DOD Dictionary.)

condition. 1. Those variables of an operational environment or situation in which a unit, system, or individual operates and that may affect performance. 2. A physical or behavioral state of a system that is necessary for the achievement of an objective. (Approved for incorporation into the DOD Dictionary.)

continuity of operations. The degree or state of being continuous in the conduct of functions, tasks, or duties necessary to accomplish a military action or mission in carrying out the national military strategy. Also called **COOP**. (DOD Dictionary. Source: JP 3-0)

control. 1. Authority that may be less than full command exercised by a commander over part of the activities of subordinate or other organizations. (JP 1, Vol 2) 2. In mapping, charting, and photogrammetry, a collective term for a system of marks or objects on the Earth, a map, or a photograph, whose positions or elevations (or both) have been or will be determined. (JP 2-0) 3. Physical or psychological pressures exerted with the intent to assure that an agent or group will respond as directed. (JP 3-0) 4. In intelligence usage, an indicator governing the distribution and use of documents, information, or material. (DOD Dictionary. Source: JP 2-0)

crisis. An emerging incident or situation involving a possible threat to the United States, its citizens, military forces, or vital interests that develops rapidly and creates a condition of such diplomatic, economic, or military importance that commitment of military forces and resources is contemplated to achieve national and/or strategic objectives. (Approved for incorporation into the DOD Dictionary.)

cyberspace operations. The employment of cyberspace capabilities where the primary purpose is to achieve objectives in or through cyberspace. Also called **CO**. (DOD Dictionary. Source: JP 3-0)

deterrence. The prevention of action by the existence of a credible threat of unacceptable counteraction and/or belief that the cost of action outweighs the perceived benefits. (DOD Dictionary. Source: JP 3-0)

economy of force. The employment and distribution of forces to allocate the maximum possible combat power on primary efforts. (Approved for incorporation into the DOD Dictionary)

effect. 1. The physical or behavioral state of a system that results from an action, a set of actions, or another effect. 2. The result, outcome, or consequence of an action. 3. A change to a condition, behavior, or degree of freedom. (DOD Dictionary. Source: JP 3-0)

end state. The set of required conditions that defines achievement of the commander's objectives. (DOD Dictionary. Source: JP 3-0)

engagement. 1. An attack against an air or missile threat. (JP 3-01) 2. A tactical conflict, usually between opposing lower echelon maneuver forces. (Approved for incorporation into the DOD Dictionary.)

exclusion zone. A defined area, established by a sanctioning body, where specific activities are prohibited. (Approved for incorporation into the DOD Dictionary.)

expeditionary force. An armed force organized to achieve a specific objective in a foreign country. (DOD Dictionary. Source: JP 3-0)

fire support coordination measure. A measure employed by commanders to facilitate the rapid engagement of targets and simultaneously provide safeguards for friendly forces. Also called **FSCM**. (DOD Dictionary. Source: JP 3-0)

force projection. The ability to project the military instrument of national power from the United States or another theater in response to requirements for military operations. (Approved for incorporation into the DOD Dictionary.)

force protection. Preventive measures taken to mitigate hostile actions against Department of Defense personnel (including family members), resources, facilities, and critical information. Also called **FP**. (Approved for incorporation into the DOD Dictionary.)

foreign assistance. Support for foreign nations that can be provided through development assistance, humanitarian assistance, and security assistance. (Approved for incorporation into the DOD Dictionary.)

freedom of navigation operations. Actions conducted to protect United States navigation, overflight, and related interests on, under, and over the seas. (Approved for incorporation into the DOD Dictionary.)

friendly force information requirement. Information the commander and staff need to understand the status of friendly force and supporting capabilities. Also called **FFIR**. (DOD Dictionary. Source: JP 3-0)

hostile environment. An operational environment where the freedom of movement is contested. (Approved for incorporation into the DOD Dictionary.)

information management. The function of managing an organization's information resources for the handling of data and information acquired by one or many different systems, individuals, and organizations. Also called **IM**. (Approved for incorporation into the DOD Dictionary.)

interagency coordination. The planning and synchronization of efforts that occur between elements of Department of Defense and participating United States Government departments and agencies. (Approved for incorporation into the DOD Dictionary.)

interoperability. 1. The ability to act together coherently, effectively, and efficiently to achieve tactical, operational, and strategic objectives. (JP 3-0) 2. The condition achieved among communications-electronics systems or items of communications-

electronics equipment when information or services can be exchanged directly and satisfactorily between them and/or their users. (DOD Dictionary. Source: JP 6-0)

joint fires. Fires delivered during the employment of forces from two or more components in coordinated action to create desired effects in support of a common objective. (Approved for incorporation into the DOD Dictionary.)

joint fire support. Joint fires that assist the joint force in creating effects and achieving objectives. (Approved for incorporation into the DOD Dictionary.)

joint force. A force composed of elements, assigned or attached, of two or more Military Departments operating under a single joint force commander. (DOD Dictionary. Source: JP 3-0)

joint force air component commander. The commander within a unified command, subordinate unified command, or joint task force responsible to the establishing commander for recommending the proper employment of assigned, attached, and made available for tasking air forces; planning and coordinating air operations; or accomplishing such operational missions. Also called **JFACC**. (Approved for incorporation into the DOD Dictionary.)

joint force land component commander. The commander within a unified command, subordinate unified command, or joint task force responsible to the establishing commander for recommending the proper employment of assigned, attached, and made available for tasking land forces; planning and coordinating land operations; or accomplishing such operational missions. Also called **JFLCC**. (Approved for incorporation into the DOD Dictionary.)

joint force maritime component commander. The commander within a unified command, subordinate unified command, or joint task force responsible to the establishing commander for recommending the proper employment of assigned, attached, and made available for tasking maritime forces and assets; planning and coordinating maritime operations; or accomplishing such operational missions. Also called **JFMCC**. (Approved for incorporation into the DOD Dictionary.)

joint force special operations component commander. The commander within a unified command, subordinate unified command, or joint task force responsible to the establishing commander for recommending the proper employment of assigned, attached, and made-available-for-tasking special operations forces and assets; planning and coordinating special operations; or accomplishing such operational missions. Also called **JFSOCC**. (Approved for incorporation into the DOD Dictionary.)

joint function. A grouping of capabilities and activities that enable joint force commanders to synchronize, integrate, and direct joint operations. (Approved for replacement of “joint functions” and its definition in the DOD Dictionary.)

joint operations. Military actions conducted by joint forces and those Service forces employed in specified command relationships with each other, which, of themselves, do not establish joint forces. (Approved for incorporation into the DOD Dictionary.)

joint operations area. The airspace, land area, and maritime area defined by a combatant commander or subordinate unified commander, in which a joint force commander directs military operations to accomplish a specific mission. Also called **JOA**. (Approved for incorporation into the DOD Dictionary.)

joint special operations area. An area of land, sea, and airspace assigned by a joint force commander to the commander of a joint special operations force to conduct special operations activities. Also called **JSOA**. (DOD Dictionary. Source: JP 3-0)

link. 1. A behavioral, physical, or functional relationship between nodes. 2. In communications, a general term used to indicate the existence of communications facilities between two points. 3. A maritime route, other than a coastal or transit route, that connects any two or more routes. (Definition #3 approved for incorporation into the DOD Dictionary.)

major operation. A series of tactical actions conducted by combat forces, coordinated in time and place, to achieve strategic or operational objectives in an operational area. (Approved for incorporation into the DOD Dictionary.)

military engagement. Contact and interaction between individuals or elements of the Armed Forces of the United States and those of another nation's armed forces, or foreign and domestic civilian authorities or agencies, to build trust and confidence, share information, coordinate mutual activities, and maintain influence. (Approved for incorporation into the DOD Dictionary.)

military intervention. The deliberate act of a nation or a group of nations to introduce its military forces into the course of an existing controversy. (DOD Dictionary. Source: JP 3-0)

mission. 1. The essential task or tasks, together with the purpose, that clearly indicates the action to be taken and the reason for the action. (JP 3-0) 2. The dispatching of one or more aircraft to accomplish one particular task. (JP 3-30) (Approved for incorporation into the DOD Dictionary.)

mission area. In campaign planning and execution, a grouping of related operational-level objectives within a campaign structure that may include multiple lines of effort, tactical tasks, individual operations and activities, and investments. (Approved for inclusion in the DOD Dictionary.)

neutral. In combat and combat support operations, an identity applied to a track whose characteristics, behavior, origin, or nationality indicate that it is neither supporting nor opposing friendly forces. (DOD Dictionary. Source: JP 3-0)

neutrality. In international law, the attitude of impartiality during periods of war adopted by third states toward a belligerent and subsequently recognized by the belligerent, which creates rights and duties between the impartial states and the belligerent. (DOD Dictionary. Source: JP 3-0)

node. 1. A location in a mobility system where a movement requirement is originated, processed for onward movement, or terminated. (JP 3-36) 2. In communications and computer systems, the physical location that provides terminating, switching, and gateway access services to support information exchange. (JP 6-0) 3. An element of a network that represents a person, place, or physical object. (Approved for incorporation into the DOD Dictionary.)

operation. 1. A sequence of tactical actions with a common purpose or unifying theme. (JP 1) 2. A military action or the carrying out of a military mission. (JP 3-0) (Approved for incorporation into the DOD Dictionary.)

operational access. The ability to project military force into an operational area with sufficient freedom of action to accomplish the mission. (DOD Dictionary. Source: JP 3-0)

operational area. An overarching term encompassing more descriptive terms (such as area of responsibility and joint operations area) of locations for the conduct of military operations. Also called **OA**. (Approved for incorporation into the DOD Dictionary.)

operational art. The cognitive approach by commanders and staffs—supported by their skill, knowledge, experience, creativity, and judgment—to develop strategies, campaigns, and operations to organize and employ military forces by integrating ends, ways, and means. (DOD Dictionary. Source: JP 3-0)

operational environment. The aggregate of the conditions, circumstances, and influences that affect the employment of capabilities and bear on the decisions of the commander. Also called **OE**. (Approved for incorporation into the DOD Dictionary.)

operational level of warfare. The level of warfare in which campaigns and operations are planned, conducted, and sustained to achieve operational objectives to support achievement of strategic objectives. (Approved for incorporation into the DOD Dictionary.)

operational reach. The distance and duration across which a force can successfully employ military capabilities. (DOD Dictionary. Source: JP 3-0)

permissive environment. Uncontested conditions in which joint forces have freedom of movement. (Approved for incorporation into the DOD Dictionary.)

physical security. That part of security concerned with physical measures designed to safeguard personnel; to prevent unauthorized access to equipment, installations,

material, and documents; and to safeguard them against espionage, sabotage, damage, and theft. (DOD Dictionary. Source: JP 3-0)

protection. Preservation of the effectiveness and survivability of mission-related military and nonmilitary personnel, equipment, facilities, information, and infrastructure deployed or located within or outside the boundaries of a given operational area. (DOD Dictionary. Source: JP 3-0)

protection of shipping. The use of proportionate force, when necessary, for the protection of United States flag vessels and aircraft, United States citizens (whether embarked in United States or foreign vessels), and their property against unlawful violence. (Approved for incorporation into the DOD Dictionary.)

raid. An operation to temporarily seize an area to secure information, confuse an enemy, capture personnel or equipment or destroy a capability culminating with a planned withdrawal. (Approved for incorporation into the DOD Dictionary.)

religious advisement. The practice of informing the commander on the impact of religion on operations, to include worship, rituals, customs, and practices of United States military personnel, international forces, and the indigenous population, as well as the impact of military operations on the religious and humanitarian dynamics in the operational area. (Approved for incorporation into the DOD Dictionary.)

religious support. Chaplain-facilitated free exercise of religion through worship, religious and pastoral counseling services, ceremonial honors for the fallen, individual and family intervention, and advice to the commander on ethical and moral issues and morale. Also called **RS**. (Approved for incorporation into the DOD Dictionary.)

religious support team. A team comprising at least one chaplain and one enlisted religious affairs person. Also called **RST**. (DOD Dictionary. Source: JP 3-0)

risk management. The process to identify, assess, and mitigate risks and make decisions that balance risk cost with mission benefits. Also called **RM**. (Approved for incorporation into the DOD Dictionary.)

sanction enforcement. Operations that employ coercive measures to control the movement of certain types of designated items into or out of a nation or specified area. (DOD Dictionary. Source: JP 3-0)

show of force. An operation planned to demonstrate United States resolve that involves increased visibility of United States deployed forces in an attempt to defuse a specific situation that, if allowed to continue, may be detrimental to United States interests or national objectives. (DOD Dictionary. Source: JP 3-0)

stabilization activities. Various military missions, tasks, and activities conducted outside the United States in coordination with other instruments of national power to maintain

or reestablish a safe and secure environment and provide essential governmental services, emergency infrastructure reconstruction, and humanitarian relief. (Approved for the replacement of “stability activities” in the DOD Dictionary.)

strategic attack. An offensive action against a target—whether military, political, economic, or other—that is specifically selected to achieve national or military strategic objectives. (Approved for inclusion in the DOD Dictionary.)

strategic level of warfare. The level of warfare at which a nation determines national or multinational guidance, develops strategic objectives, then develops and commits national resources to achieve those objectives. (Approved for incorporation into the DOD Dictionary.)

strategy. An idea or set of ideas for employing the instruments of national power in a synchronized and integrated fashion to achieve theater, national, and multinational objectives. (Approved for incorporation into the DOD Dictionary.)

strike. An attack to damage or destroy an objective or a capability. (DOD Dictionary. Source: JP 3-0)

supported commander. 1. The commander having primary responsibility for all aspects of a task assigned. 2. In the context of joint planning, the commander who prepares operation plans or operation orders in response to requirements of the Chairman of the Joint Chiefs of Staff. 3. In the context of a support command relationship, the commander who receives assistance from another commander, and who is responsible for ensuring the supporting commander understands the assistance required. (Definitions #1 and #3 approved for incorporation into the DOD Dictionary.)

supporting commander. 1. A commander who provides actions and other directed support to a supported commander. 2. In the context of a support command relationship, the commander who aids, protects, complements, or sustains another commander’s force and who is responsible for providing the assistance required by the supported commander. (Definition #1 approved for incorporation into the DOD Dictionary.)

surveillance. The systematic observation of aerospace, cyberspace, surface, or subsurface areas, places, persons, or things by visual, aural, electronic, photographic, or other means. (DOD Dictionary. Source: JP 3-0)

sustainment. The provision of logistics and personnel services required to maintain and prolong operations until successful mission accomplishment. (DOD Dictionary. Source: JP 3-0)

system. A functionally, physically, and/or behaviorally related group of regularly interacting or interdependent elements that form a unified whole. (Approved for incorporation into the DOD Dictionary.)

tactical level of warfare. The level of warfare at which forces plan and execute battles and engagements to achieve military objectives. (Approved for incorporation into the DOD Dictionary.)

targeting. The process of selecting and prioritizing targets and matching the appropriate response to them, considering operational requirements and capabilities. (DOD Dictionary. Source: JP 3-0)

theater of operations. An operational area defined by the combatant commander for the conduct or support of specific military operations. (Approved for incorporation into the DOD Dictionary.)

theater of war. Defined by the President, Secretary of Defense, or the combatant commander as the area of air, land, and sea that is, or may become, directly involved in the conduct of campaigns and major operations involving combat. (Approved for incorporation into the DOD Dictionary.)

uncertain environment. A condition in which the joint force's freedom of movement may be contested. (Approved for incorporation into the DOD Dictionary.)

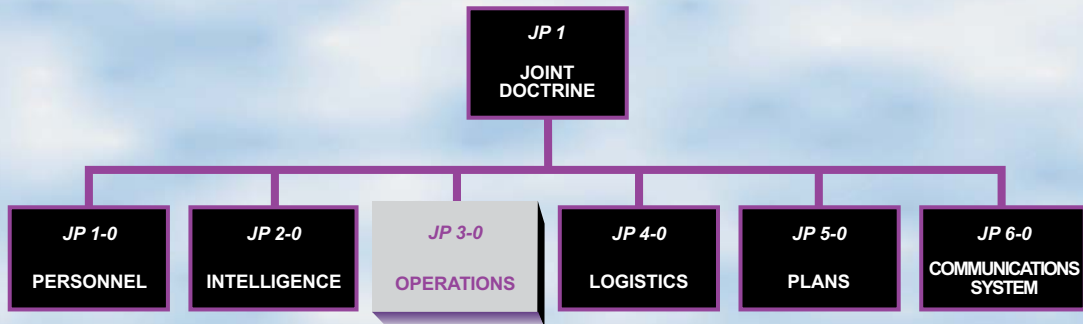
unity of command. The direction of all forces under a single, responsible commander who has the requisite authority to direct and employ those forces. (Approved for incorporation into the DOD Dictionary.)

weapon system. A combination of one or more weapons with all related equipment, materials, services, personnel, and means of delivery and deployment (if applicable) required for self-sufficiency. (DOD Dictionary. Source: JP 3-0)

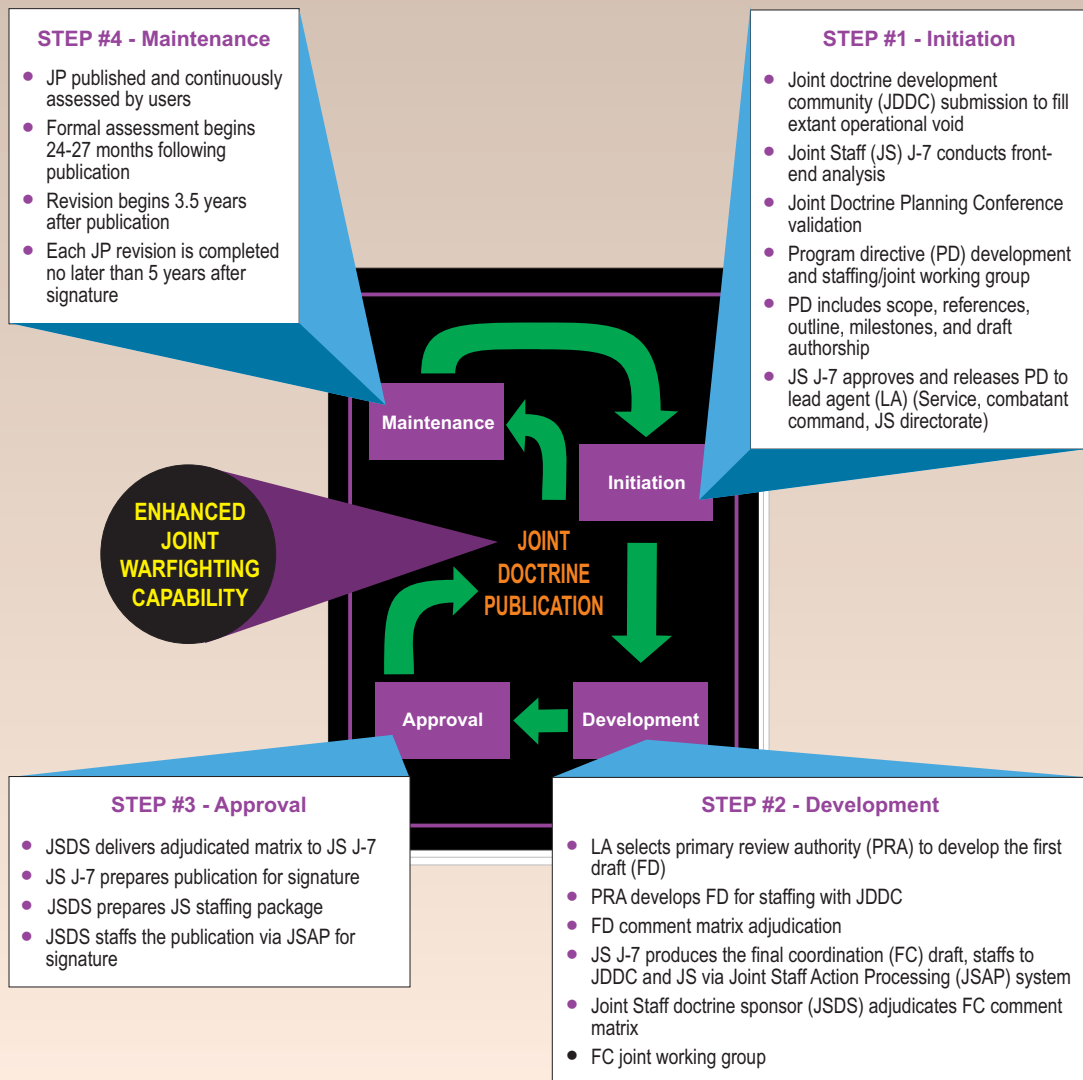
2. Terms Removed from the DOD Dictionary

- **Supersession of JP 3-0, *Joint Operations*, 17 January 2017, Incorporating Change 1, 22 October 2018:** alliance; combatant command chaplain; command chaplain; exercise; full-spectrum superiority; joint force chaplain; maneuver; neutralize; religious affairs; religious discrimination; termination criteria; theater strategy

JOINT DOCTRINE PUBLICATIONS HIERARCHY



All joint publications are organized into a comprehensive hierarchy as shown in the chart above. **Joint Publication (JP) 3-0** is in the **Operations** series of joint doctrine publications. The diagram below illustrates an overview of the development process:

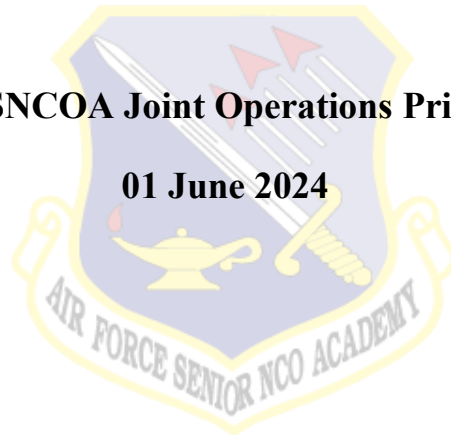




Joint Operations

AFSNCOA Joint Operations Primer

01 June 2024



Operational Art (*Joint Pub 3-0, pg. II-3*)

Operational art is the cognitive approach by commanders and staffs—supported by their skill, knowledge, experience, creativity, and judgment—to develop strategies, campaigns, and operations to organize and employ military forces by integrating ends, ways, means, and risks. Operational art is useful to the joint force commander (JFC) in initial policy/strategy formulation and planning. The commander’s judgment, decision making, and adaptation to the changing operational environment (OE) may also draw upon operational art.

Operational Design (*Joint Pub 3-0, pg. II-6*)

Operational design is the analytical framework that underpins planning. Operational design supports commanders and planners in organizing and understanding the OE. Additionally, operational design provides an iterative process that enables the commander’s vision and mastery of operational art to help planners answer ends, ways, means, and risk questions and appropriately structure campaigns and operations. The operational design methodology helps the JFC and staff identify broad solutions for mission accomplishment.

Operational Art & Operational Design

Operational Art and Operational Design work together to create a cohesive strategy for military operations. Operational art provides the broad, creative vision and framework, linking tactical actions to strategic objectives, while operational design offers a structured methodology to identify the problem, establish objectives, and develop a plan to achieve those objectives. By integrating these elements, commanders can craft and execute effective operations that align tactical actions with overarching strategic goals, ensuring a coordinated and adaptive approach to complex military challenges.

Instruments of National Power (*Purple Book, pg. 8*)

The United States’ vital national interests have endured since the founding of our Nation. Vital interests represent the matters and ideals for which the Nation is willing to sacrifice and are considered necessary for America’s survival. America’s core vital interests include **security of the homeland, safety of Americans at home and abroad, economic prosperity, and preservation of the American way of life.**

To advance national interests, appropriate government officials, often with National Security Council direction, employ the instruments of national power to achieve strategic objectives. These instruments include **diplomatic, informational, military, economic, financial, intelligence, and law enforcement (DIME-FIL)** activities. Each instrument of national power works most effectively when it is supported by and operates harmoniously with the other elements.

Joint Operations

Diplomatic. Diplomacy is the principal instrument for engagement with other states and foreign groups to advance U.S. values, interests, and objectives and to solicit foreign support for U.S. military operations.

Information. Every DoD action that is planned or executed, every word that is written or spoken, and every image that is displayed or relayed communicates the intent of DoD and, by extension, the U.S. government, to achieve strategic effects.

Military. The U.S.

employs the military at home and abroad in support of its national security goals. While the ultimate purpose of the U.S. Armed Forces is to fight and win the Nation's wars, military activities also include capacity and capability building of partner militaries and humanitarian aid and assistance operations.

Economic. A strong economy with free access to global markets and resources is fundamental to general welfare, the enabler of a strong national defense. The Department of Treasury works with other U.S. Government agencies, governments of other nations, and international finance institutions to encourage economic growth and prevent economic or financial crises.

Financial. The U.S. Government utilizes an array of resources to deny access to specified individuals or groups, including states and non-state actors, from formal or informal financial systems, networks, or sources of funding. Some of these resources include foreign aid, trade agreements, tariffs, embargos, and economic sanctions.

Intelligence. Intelligence consists of data collected by various organizations through a variety of mediums. Ambiguous data is translated into coherent information about the environment, future capabilities and intentions, and relevant actors to provide advantage to decision makers, including commanders and policy makers.

Law Enforcement. The U.S. Government enforces laws through government agencies, intergovernmental organizations, and host-nation partners. Law enforcement enables the U.S. Government to secure the homeland, detain criminals, and assist mission partners with security needs.

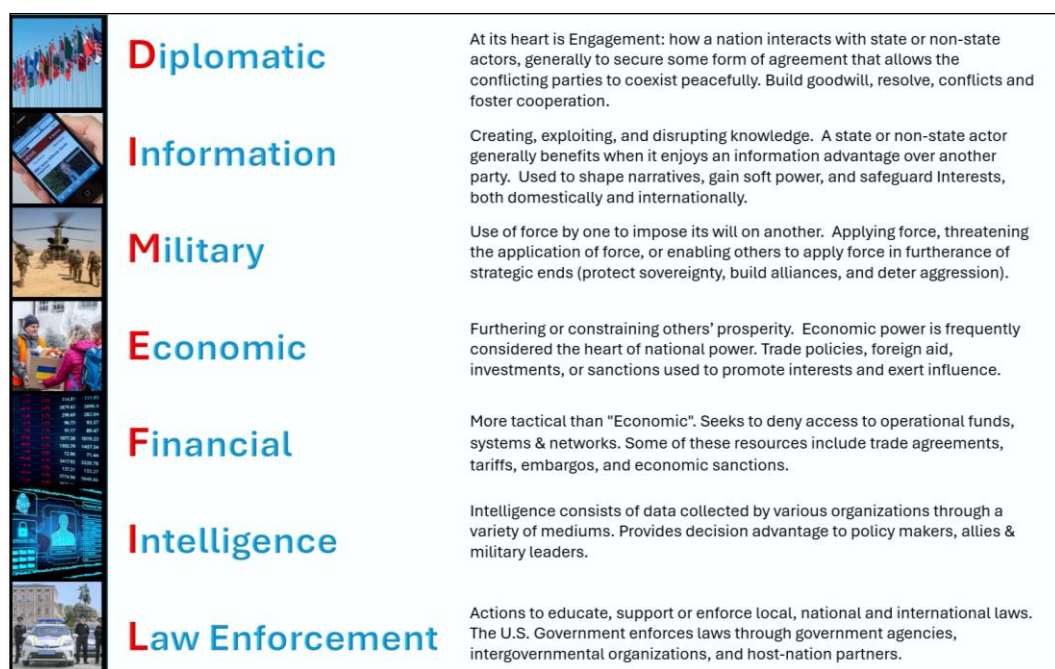


Figure 1 – DIME-FIL by AFSNCOA, Information sourced from: JP 1-0, The Purple Book & JDN 1-18

The Joint Staff (Purple Book, pg. 15 & <https://www.jcs.mil/Directorates>)

The Joint Staff is comprised of unique departments and directorates tasked with the execution of distinct functions. These include the **Joint Staff Information Management Division, Directorate of Management, J1 – Personnel and Manpower, J2 – Intelligence, J3 – Operations, J4 – Logistics, J5 – Strategic Plans and Policy, J6 – Command, Control, Communications, and Computers/Cyber, J7 – Joint Force Development,**

Joint Operations

and J8 – Joint Force Structure, Resources, and Assessment. These departments ensure planning, policies, intelligence, manpower, communications, and logistics function are translated into action. The Office of the Chairman also contains supporting elements that provide assistance to the CJCS, VCJCS, and the JCS on matters of advisement.

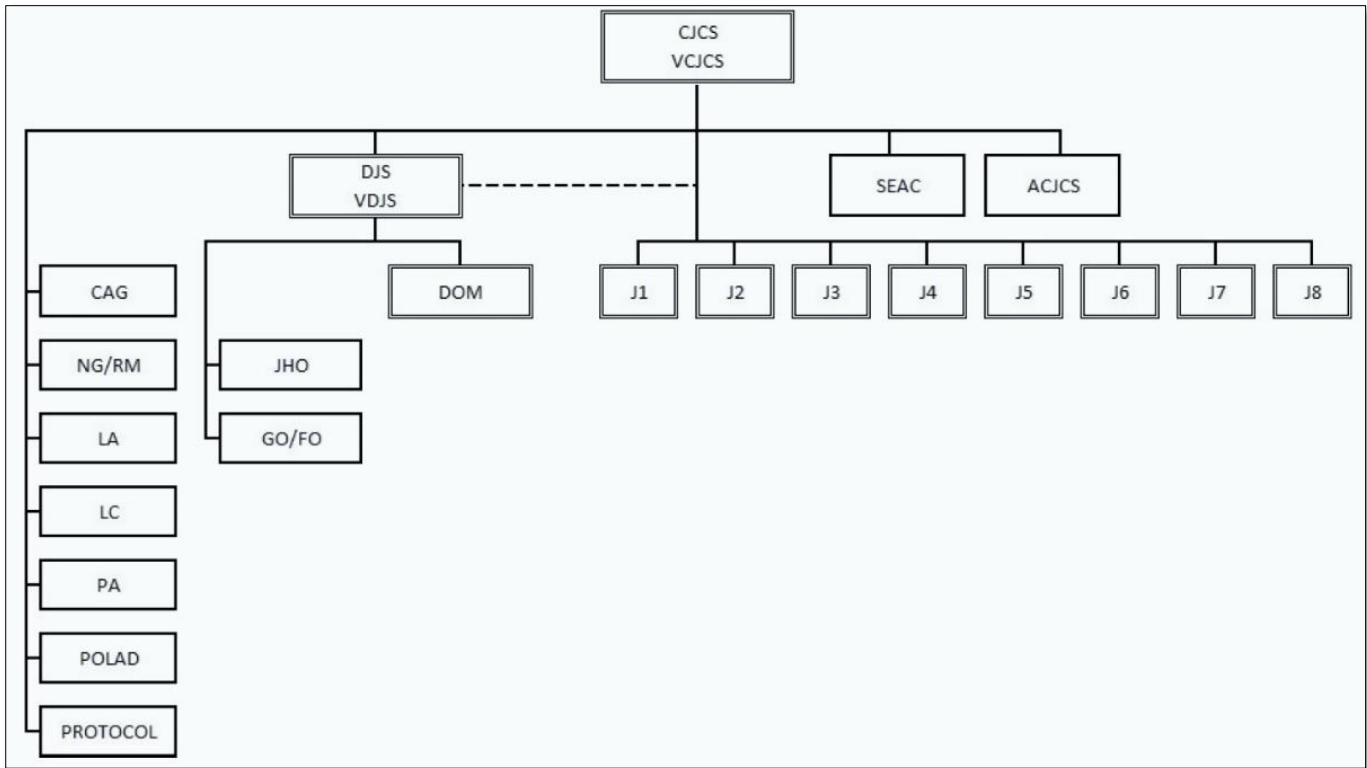


Figure 2 - Image sourced from *The Joint Team (Purple Book)*, page 15

J1 – Personnel and Manpower: Mission - Provides the Chairman of the Joint Chiefs of Staff manpower and personnel counsel and support in order to develop best military advice to national decision makers and provide strategic direction to the Joint Force, enabling global integration to achieve maximum comprehensive Joint Force readiness. Additionally, the Directorate ensures comprehensive Joint Force readiness to meet warfighting requirements, today and in the future, by monitoring, identifying, and predicting joint manpower and personnel challenges, validating Joint Force requirements, and informing the resource prioritization, identification and allocation process.

J2 – Intelligence: Mission - Supports the Chairman of the Joint Chiefs of Staff, the Secretary of Defense, Joint Staff and Unified Commands. It is the national level focal point for crisis intelligence support to military operations, indications and warning intelligence in DoD, and Unified Command intelligence requirements. The J-2 coordinates joint intelligence doctrine and architecture, and managed intelligence for joint warfighting assessments. J-2 serves as the Intelligence Community manager for Support to Military operations and is the Director of the Joint Warfighting Capabilities Assessments for Intelligence, Surveillance, and Reconnaissance under the Joint Requirements Oversight Council.

J3 – Operations: Mission - Assists the Chairman in carrying out responsibilities as the principal military advisor to the President and Secretary of Defense, developing and providing guidance to the combatant commanders and relaying communications between the President and the Secretary of Defense and the combatant commanders regarding current operations and plans.

Joint Operations

J4 – Logistics: Mission - Leads the logistics enterprise, drives joint force readiness and provides the best logistics advice to the chairman of the Joint Chiefs of Staff, to maximize the joint force commander's freedom of action. J-4 integrates logistics planning and execution in support of joint operations to drive joint force readiness, maximize the Joint Force Commander's freedom of action, and advise the Chairman of the Joint Chiefs of Staff on logistics matters. J-4 works across the myriad of organizations in the logistics Community of Interest (COI) including the Office of the Secretary of Defense, the Services, the Combatant Commands, the industrial base, and our multinational and interagency partners.

J5 – Strategic Plans and Policy: Mission - Proposes strategies, plans, and policy recommendations to the Chairman of the Joint Chiefs of Staff to support his provision of military advice across the full spectrum of national security concerns to the President and other national leaders and to ensure those recommendations are informed by a larger strategic context--coordinated with interagency and alliance partners--account for the view and requirements of the combatant commanders, and assess risk in executing the National Military Strategy. This decade has been one of unprecedented upheaval in the global security environment. The monolithic threats of the Cold War have dissipated only to be replaced by new dangers that threaten political stability, economic advancement, and human rights. Our central focus on preventing global nuclear war has been supplanted by the potential threat posed by the proliferation of weapons of mass destruction to rogue nations and non-state actors. The United States, as the world's only superpower, has both the credibility and capability to address these emerging threats and security challenges. To protect America's global interests, we must maintain the ability to translate today's uncertainty into tomorrow's strategy.

J6 – Command, Control, Communications, and Computers (C4)/Cyber: Mission - Provides expertise in support of the Chairman's core responsibilities and in advancing C4/Cyber across all domains to enable a globally integrated Combined/Joint Force. The J-6 represents the Joint Warfighter in support of the command, control, communications, and computers/cyber (C4) requirements validation and capability development processes while ensuring joint interoperability. To further this effort, the J-6 promulgates guidance and provides functional expertise to the Chairman in order to shape the joint information environment. Additionally, as the Joint Staff Chief Information Officer (CIO), the J-6 provides business class Information Technology (IT) services and support to the Chairman and the entire Joint Staff.

J7 – Joint Force Development: Mission - Trains, educates, develops, designs and adapts the globally integrated, partnered, Joint Force to achieve overmatch in the continuum of conflict under conditions of accelerating change in the character of war. J-7 performs its duties across the spectrum of joint force development by focusing on the following core functions: Joint Training & Exercising, Joint Education, Joint Doctrine Development, Identify and Share Joint Lessons Learned, Identify and Develop Joint Concepts, Allies and Partners Force Development, Combined Joint/NATO Warfare Development,

J8 – Joint Force Structure, Resources, and Assessment: Mission - Provides support to the CJCS for evaluating and developing force structure requirements. J-8 conducts joint, bilateral, and multilateral war games and interagency politico-military seminars and simulations. It develops, maintains, and improves the models, techniques, and capabilities used by the Joint Staff and combatant commands to conduct studies and analyses for CJCS. The J-8 Directorate develops capabilities, conducts studies, analysis, and assessments, and evaluates plans, programs, and strategies for the Chairman of the Joint Chiefs of Staff.

Military Activities (*Purple Book, pg. 10*)

The emerging strategic environment presents ever-increasing threats to the security and interest of our Nation across the range of DIME-FIL domains. The character of war is not static, and the full spectrum of the

Joint Operations

instruments of national power are essential to deterrence and victory in future high-end fights with great power competitors. For its part, the Joint Force focuses on six primary activities in fulfilling its obligation to the Nation:

Secure the Homeland. Securing the U.S. homeland is the Nation's first priority. Defense of the homeland is the DoD's highest priority, aiming to identify and defeat threats as far away from the homeland as possible.

Win the Nation's Wars. Winning the Nation's wars remains the preeminent justification for maintaining capable and credible military forces in the event that deterrence should fail.

Deter our Adversaries. Deterring adversarial powers from making the decision to utilize armed force is one of the most vital tasks of national defense. Defending national interests requires the capability to prevail in conflict and deter potential adversaries that threaten the vital interests of the U.S. or its partners.

Security Cooperation. Security cooperation encompasses all DoD interactions with foreign defense establishments to build defense relationships that promote specific U.S. security interests, develop allied and friendly military capabilities for self-defense and multinational operations, and provide U.S. forces with peacetime and contingency access to host nations.

Support to Civil Authorities. The U.S. responds to a variety of civil crises to relieve human suffering and restore civil function. These crises may be foreign or domestic and may occur independently, as in a natural disaster disrupting an otherwise functioning society, or within the context of a conflict, such as widespread suffering in a nation embroiled in insurgency.

Adapt to Changing Environment. needed due to constantly evolving strategic security challenges that require appropriate employment of the instruments of national power and the capabilities of the joint team to conduct military operations worldwide.

Principles of Joint Operations (*Purple Book*, pg. 25)

The Principles of Joint Operations are formed around the nine traditional Principles of War – **Objective, Offensive, Mass, Maneuver, Economy of Force, Unity of Command, Security, Surprise, and Simplicity**. Three additional principles – **Restraint, Perseverance, and Legitimacy** – are relevant to how the Armed Forces of the United States use combat power across the range of military operations. These principles are rules and guidelines that represent fundamental truths in the practice of war and military operations.

Objective. Directs every military operation toward a clearly defined, decisive, and achievable goal. This frequently involves the destruction of the enemy armed forces' capabilities and their will to fight.

Offensive. Action to seize, retain, and exploit the initiative. The most effective and decisive way to achieve a clearly defined goal. The means by which a military force seizes and holds the initiative while maintaining freedom of action and achieving decisive results.

Mass. Concentrating the effects of combat power at the most advantageous place and time to produce decisive results. Joint Force capabilities are integrated and synchronized where they will have a decisive effect in a short period of time.

Maneuver. Places the enemy in a position of disadvantage through the flexible application of combat power. Keeps the enemy off balance, preserves freedom of action, and reduces vulnerability by continually posing new problems for the enemy.

Economy of Force. Expending minimum essential combat power on secondary efforts in order to allocate the maximum possible combat power on primary efforts. The judicious employment and distribution of forces.

Joint Operations

Unity of Command. Ensures unity of effort under one responsible commander for every objective. During multinational operations and interagency coordination, this principle may not be possible, but the requirement for unity of effort becomes paramount.

Security. Preventing the enemy from acquiring unexpected advantage. Requires staff planning and an understanding of enemy strategy, tactics, and doctrine. Application of this principle includes prudent risk management, not undue caution.

Surprise. Striking at a time or place or in a manner for which the enemy is unprepared. Can help the commander shift the balance of combat power, thus achieving success well out of proportion to the effort expended.

Simplicity. Increases the probability that plans and operations will be executed as intended by preparing clear plans and concise orders. Allows better understanding and execution planning at all echelons. Especially critical to success in multinational operations.

Restraint. Limits collateral damage and prevents the unnecessary use of force. A single act could cause significant military and political consequences; therefore, judicious use of force is necessary. Requires the careful and disciplined balancing of the need for security, the conduct of military operations, and the national strategic end state.

Perseverance. Ensures the commitment necessary to attain the national strategic end state. The patient and resolute pursuit of national goals and objectives. Frequently involves diplomatic, economic, and informational measures to supplement military efforts.

Legitimacy. Maintain legal and moral authority in the conduct of operations. Based on the actual and perceived legality, morality, and rightness of the actions from the various perspectives of interested audiences

Joint Functions (*Purple Book*, pg. 25)

A joint function is a grouping of capabilities and activities that enable Joint Force Commanders to synchronize, integrate, and direct joint operations. There are seven joint functions common to joint operations: **command and control (C2), information, intelligence, fires, movements and maneuver, protection, and sustainment.** Commanders leverage the capabilities of multiple joint functions during operations. The joint functions apply to all joint operations across the competition continuum and enable both traditional and information warfare, but to different degrees, conditions, and standards, while employing different tactics, techniques, and procedures. The integration of activities across joint functions to accomplish tasks and missions occurs at all levels of command. Joint functions reinforce and complement one another, and integration across them is essential to mission accomplishment.

Command and Control. Encompasses the exercise of authority and direction by a commander over assigned and attached forces to accomplish the mission. The JFC provides operational vision, guidance, and direction to the joint force.

Information. The deliberate integration with other joint functions to change or maintain perceptions, attitudes, and other elements that drive desired relevant actor behaviors and to support human and automated decision making.

Intelligence. Informs JFCs about adversary intentions, capabilities, centers of gravity, critical factors, vulnerabilities, and future courses of action and helps commanders and staffs understand friendly, neutral, and threat networks.

Joint Operations

Fires. The use of weapon systems or other actions to create specific lethal or non-lethal effects on a target or objects of influence in accordance with U.S. and international law. Delivered during the employment of forces from two or more components in coordinated action to produce desired results in support of a common objective.

Movement and Maneuver. Encompasses the disposition of joint forces to conduct operations by securing positional or informational advantages across the competition continuum and exploiting tactical success to achieve operational and strategic objectives.

Protection. All efforts to secure and defend the effectiveness and survivability of mission-related military and non-military personnel, equipment, facilities, information, and infrastructure deployed or located within or outside the boundaries of a given operational area to maintain mission effectiveness.

Sustainment. The provision of logistics and personnel services support to maintain operations through mission accomplishment and redeployment of the force. Sustainment gives the JFC the means for freedom of action, endurance, and extending operational reach.

Joint Leader Attributes *(Developing Enlisted Leaders for Tomorrow's Wars, pg. 2-3)*

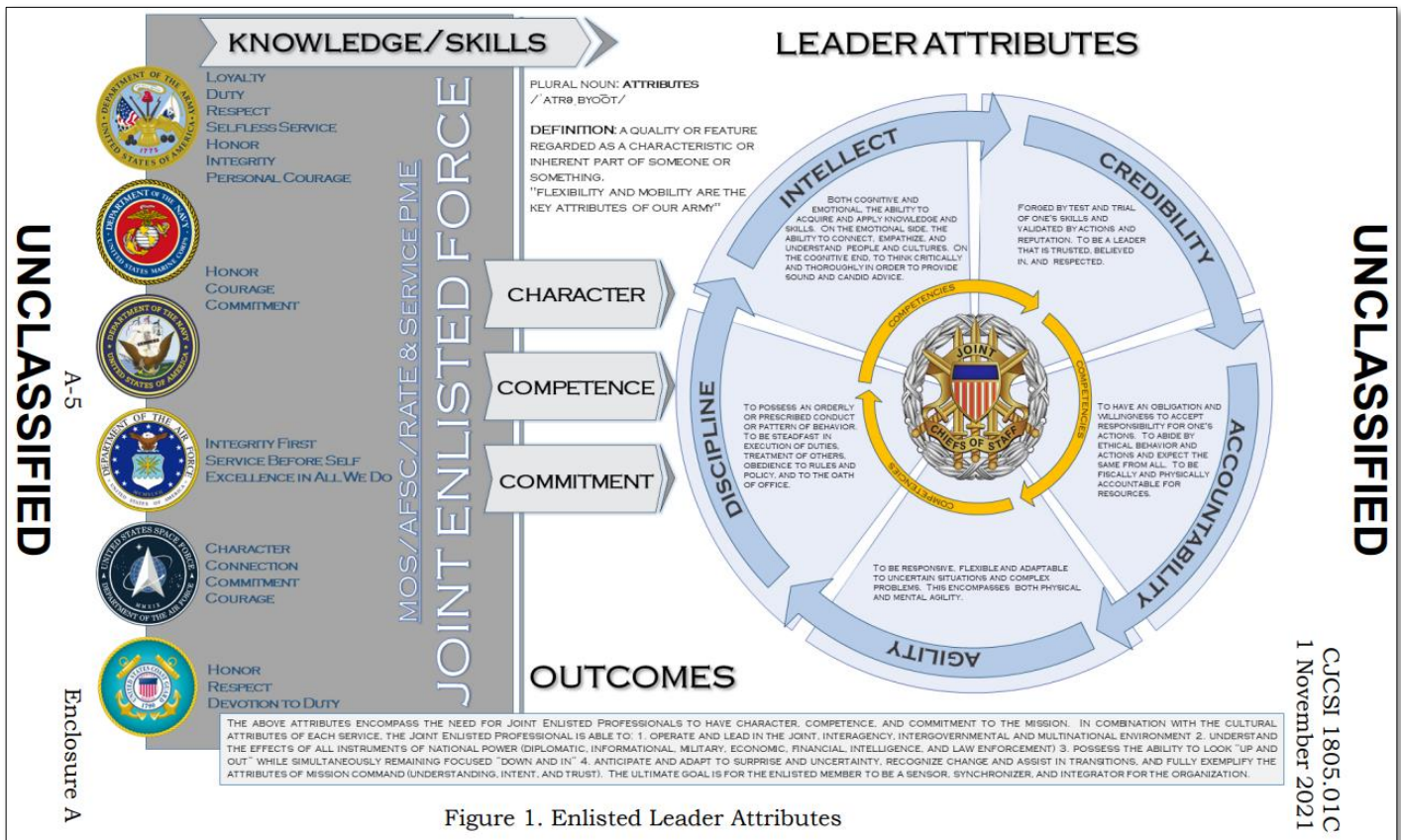


Figure 1. Enlisted Leader Attributes

Figure 3 - Enlisted Leader Attributes, CJCSI 1805.01C, 1 November 2021, page 15

Joint Operations

Tenets of Airpower (AFDP-1, pg. 11)

Mission Command: The Airman's philosophy for the command and control (C2) of airpower is **mission command**. Mission command is an approach to C2 that empowers subordinate decision-making for flexibility, initiative, and responsiveness in the accomplishment of commander's intent. Mission command provides Airmen operating in environments of increasing uncertainty, complexity, and rapid change with the freedom of action needed to exploit emergent opportunities and succeed. Given the global reach and strategic effects of airpower, the Air Force's approach to mission command balances the need for tactical flexibility with the management of global risks.

Flexibility & Versatility: **Flexibility** is the ability for airpower to seamlessly transition between mission sets while simultaneously exploiting the principles of mass and maneuver. Flexibility allows airpower to shift from one JFC objective to another, quickly and decisively; to re-role assets quickly from a preplanned mission to support an unanticipated need. **Versatility** is the ability to employ airpower effectively at the strategic, operational, and tactical levels of warfare and provide a wide variety of tasks in concert with other joint force elements. Airpower has the potential to achieve synergy through asymmetric and parallel operations.

Synergistic Effects: The proper application of a coordinated force across multiple domains can produce effects that exceed the contributions of forces employed individually. An objective of modern warfare is the precise, coordinated application of the various elements of military power to bring disproportionate pressure on adversaries. This **synergistic effect** forces adversaries to comply with our national will (affecting their intent) or to cause functional defeat of their forces (affecting their capability). Airpower allows commanders to observe adversaries which enables JFCs to counter enemy movements with unprecedented speed and agility.

Persistence: Airpower operations are often conducted continuously against a broad spectrum of objectives. Its attributes allow forces to visit and revisit multiple targets without occupying terrain or remaining in proximity to areas of operation to bring force upon targets. **Persistence** denies an adversary an opportunity to seize the initiative or to directly accomplish assigned tasks.

Concentration: Focusing overwhelming power at a decisive time and place is a warfighting imperative, supported by the principles of mass and economy of force. The flexibility and versatility of airpower with its attributes and persistence makes it an attractive option for **concentration**. The demand for airpower often exceeds the available forces and Airmen should guard against the inadvertent dilution of airpower effects resulting from this high demand.

Priority: Commanders should prioritize the use of airpower. Limited resources require that airpower be applied where it can make the greatest contribution to the most critical JFC objectives. The air component commander should assess the possible use of forces, analyze their strengths and capabilities to support the overall joint

- ★ Mission Command.
- ★ Flexibility and versatility.
- ★ Synergistic effects.
- ★ Persistence.
- ★ Concentration.
- ★ Priority.
- ★ Balance.

Figure 4 - Tenets of Airpower, AFDP 1, page 11

Joint Operations

campaign, and have an informed dialogue with the JFC regarding effective **prioritization** of airpower. The application of airpower is balanced against its ability to conduct simultaneous operations at all levels of warfare.

Balance: Much of the skill of the air component commander is reflected in the dynamic and correct balancing of the principles of joint operations and the tenets of airpower to bring Air Force capabilities together to produce synergistic effects. An air component commander should weigh combat opportunity, necessity, effectiveness, efficiency, and the impact on accomplishing assigned objectives against the associated risk to friendly forces. An Airman is uniquely suited to determine the proper theater-wide **balance** between offensive and defensive air operations, and among strategic, operational, and tactical applications to best accomplish the JFC's objectives.

Joint Operations Primer – Attachment 1 Reflection Questions

Question 1: Considering your organization’s current mission set, which of the **Joint Military Activities** (*Purple Book*, pg. 10) does your organization most contribute to? How so?

(Optional) Use the SEE format for the question above

State: *My organization most contributes to* _____ .

Elaborate: *This is because:* OR *In other words:*

Exemplify (examples): *For example, at work:*

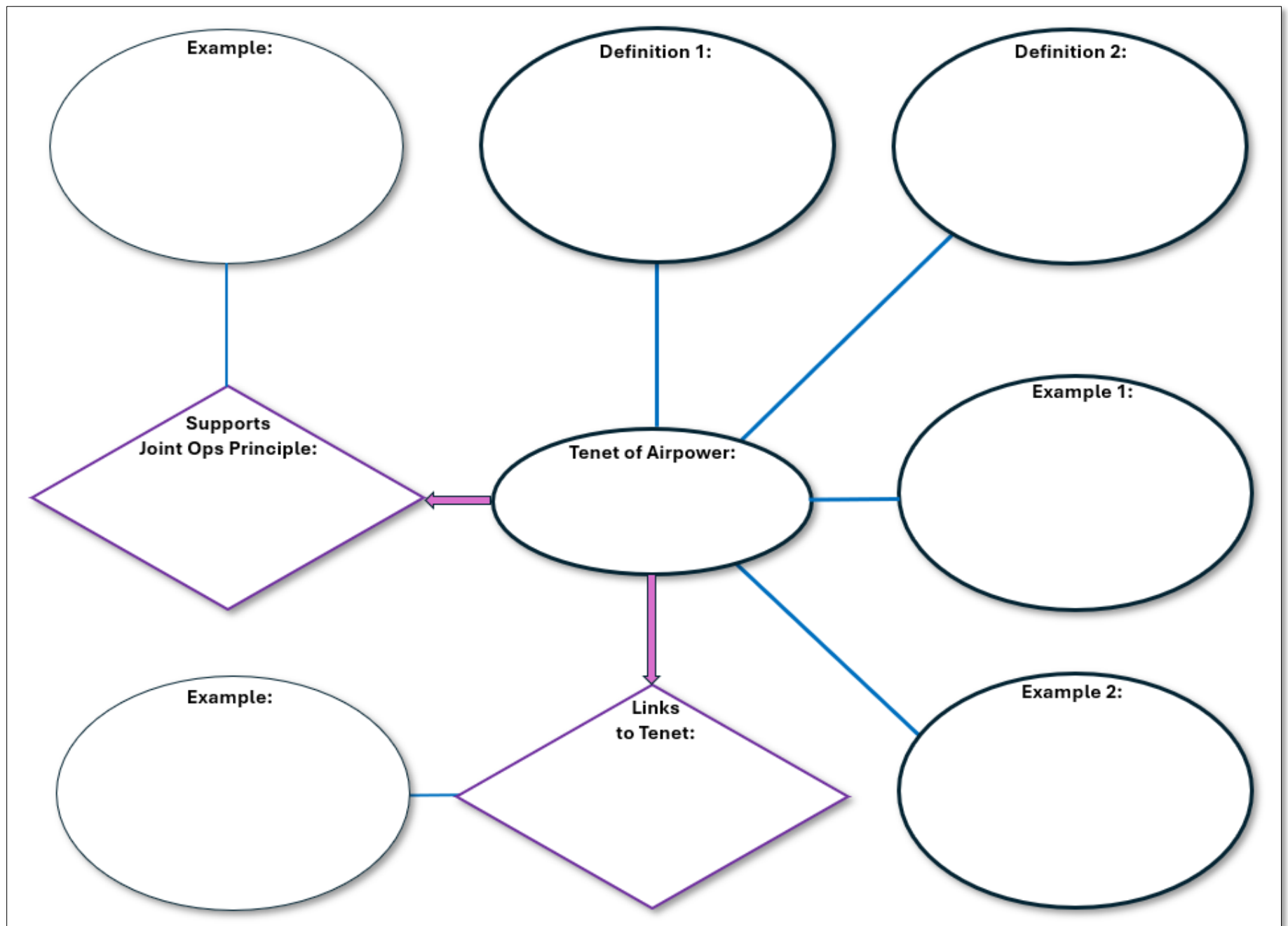
Illustrate (OPTIONAL): *This is similar to:* OR *This is like:*

Question 2: Considering the foundations of operational art (*broad vision; the ability to anticipate; and the skill to plan, prepare, execute, and assess*), which of these resonates most with you? Why?

Question 3: In your own words, what is, “*disciplined initiative*” and how do you foster it in your organization?

This image shows a single sheet of white paper with horizontal ruling lines. The lines are evenly spaced and run across the width of the page. There are no margins, text, or other markings on the paper.

Joint Operations Primer – Attachment 3 Tenets of Airpower Exercise



Joint Operations Primer – Attachment 4 Resources

Student Preparation:

Watch: JTF Organization (YouTube video)

<https://www.youtube.com/watch?v=JbFzaQQnFnM>

Read: Joint Publication 3-0 - Joint Campaigns and Operations (18 June 2022), II-1 through II-6

Read: The Joint Team (Purple Book), Pages 10, 15 and chapters 4 & 5

Read: Joint Operations Primer

Additional Resources (for increased understanding):

AFDP-1 (10 March 2021)

Developing Enlisted Leaders for Tomorrow's Wars

https://www.jcs.mil/Portals/36/Documents/Doctrine/education/epme_tm_vision_digital.pdf?ver=dmj-ILYBhrr-6wq3JhdXog%3D%3D

Joint Doctrine Note 1-18 (25 April 2018)

https://www.jcs.mil/Portals/36/Documents/Doctrine/jdn_jg/jdn1_18.pdf

Joint Military Operations Historical Collection (JMO Website):

<https://www.jcs.mil/Portals/36/Documents/History/Monographs/JMO.pdf>

Echoes of the Past: The Burma Campaign and Future Operational Design in the Indo-Pacific Region, By Shane Williams, John Green, Richard Kovsky, and Edwin Sumantha Joint Force Quarterly:

<https://ndupress.ndu.edu/JFQ/Joint-Force-Quarterly-109/Article/Article/3385559/echoes-of-the-past-the-burma-campaign-and-future-operational-design-in-the-indo>

Joint Staff Directorates (J1-J8):

<https://www.jcs.mil/Directorates>

JOINT PLANNING **PROCESS**



AFSNCOA Student Guide

1 October 2022

Derived from Joint Publication 5-0

Joint Planning Process

The JPP is an orderly, analytical set of logical steps to frame a problem; examine a mission; develop, analyze, and compare alternative COAs; select the best COA; and produce a plan or order. The application of operational design provides the conceptual basis for structuring campaigns and operations. The JPP provides a proven process to organize the work of the commander, staff, subordinate commanders, and other partners to develop plans that will appropriately address the problem. It focuses on defining the military mission and development and synchronization of detailed plans to accomplish that mission. It applies to both supported and supporting JFCs and to joint force component commanders when the components participate in joint planning. Together with operational design, the JPP facilitates interaction between and among the commander, staff, and subordinate and supporting headquarters throughout planning. The JPP helps commanders and their staffs organize their planning activities, share a common understanding of the mission and commander's intent, and develop effective plans and orders. Figure III-4 shows the primary steps of the JPP.

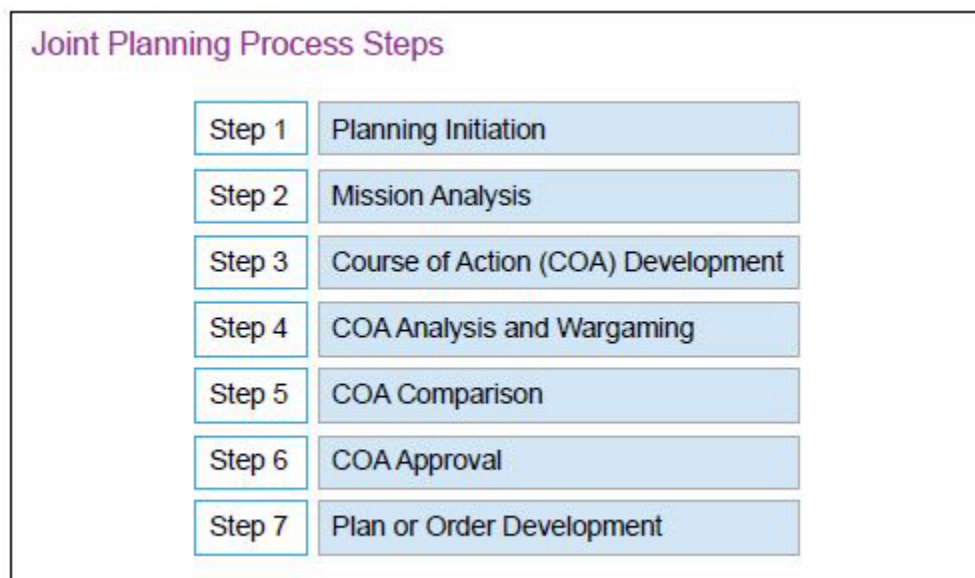


Figure III-4. Joint Planning Process Steps

The JPP is applicable for all planning. Like operational design, it is a logical process to approach a problem and determine a solution. It is a tool to be used by planners but is not prescriptive. Based on the nature of the problem, other tools available to the planner, expertise in the planning team, time, and other considerations, the process can be modified as required. Similarly, some JPP steps or tasks may be performed concurrently, truncated, or modified as necessary, depending upon the situation, subject, or time constraints of the planning effort.

STEP 1: PLANNING INITIATION (derived from JP-05, pdf pages 89-90)

- (1) Joint planning begins when an appropriate authority recognizes potential for military capability to be employed in support of national objectives or in response to a potential or actual crisis. At the strategic level, that authority—the President, SecDef, or CJCS—initiates planning by deciding to develop military options. Presidential directives, the NSS, UCP, CPG, NDS, NMS, JSCP, and related strategic guidance documents serve as the primary guidance to begin planning.
- (2) CCDRs, subordinate commanders, and supporting commanders also initiate planning on their own authority when they identify a planning requirement not directed by higher authority. Additionally, analyses of the OE or developing or immediate crises may result in the President, SecDef, or CJCS directing military planning through a planning directive. CCDRs normally develop military options in combination with other nonmilitary options so the President can direct a whole-of-government approach that involves all the appropriate instruments of national power. Whether or not planning begins as described here, the commander may act within approved authorities and rules of engagement (ROE)/rules for the use of force (RUF) in an immediate crisis.
- (3) The commander and staff will receive and analyze the planning guidance to determine the time available until mission execution; current status of strategic and staff estimates; and intelligence products, to include JIPOE, and other factors relevant to the specific planning situation. The staff gathers and analyzes relevant information about friendly, neutral, and threat networks. This information can be obtained by both military and nonmilitary elements. The commander will typically provide initial planning guidance based upon current understanding of the OE, the problem, and the initial operational approach for the campaign or operation. It could specify time constraints, outline initial coordination requirements, or authorize movement of key capabilities within the JFC's authority.
- (4) While planning is continuous once execution begins, it is particularly relevant when there is new strategic direction, significant changes to the current mission or planning assumptions, or the commander receives a mission for follow-on operations.
- (5) Planning for campaign plans is different from contingency plans in that contingency planning focuses on the anticipation of future events, while campaign planning assesses the current state of the OE and identifies how the command can shape the OE to deter crisis and support strategic objectives.
- (6) Operational design supports this step in the planning process by building understanding of **strategic direction, the strategic environment, and the OE**. This helps the commander and staff define the problem as they begin mission analysis.

STEP 2: MISSION ANALYSIS (derived from JP-05, pdf pages 90-110)

Develop a **mission statement**. The mission is the **task or set of tasks**, along with the **purpose**, that clearly indicates the **action** to be taken and the **reason** for doing so. Questions to ask:

- What is the **purpose** of the mission? (What problem is the commander being asked to solve or what change to the OE is desired?)
- What **tasks** will accomplish the mission?
- Will the mission achieve the **desired objectives**?
- What **limitations** have been placed on my own forces' actions?
- What **forces** are needed to support my operation?
- **How will I know** when the **mission is accomplished** successfully?
- How will **friendly, neutral, and threat networks** affect mission accomplishment?

Primary inputs and outputs

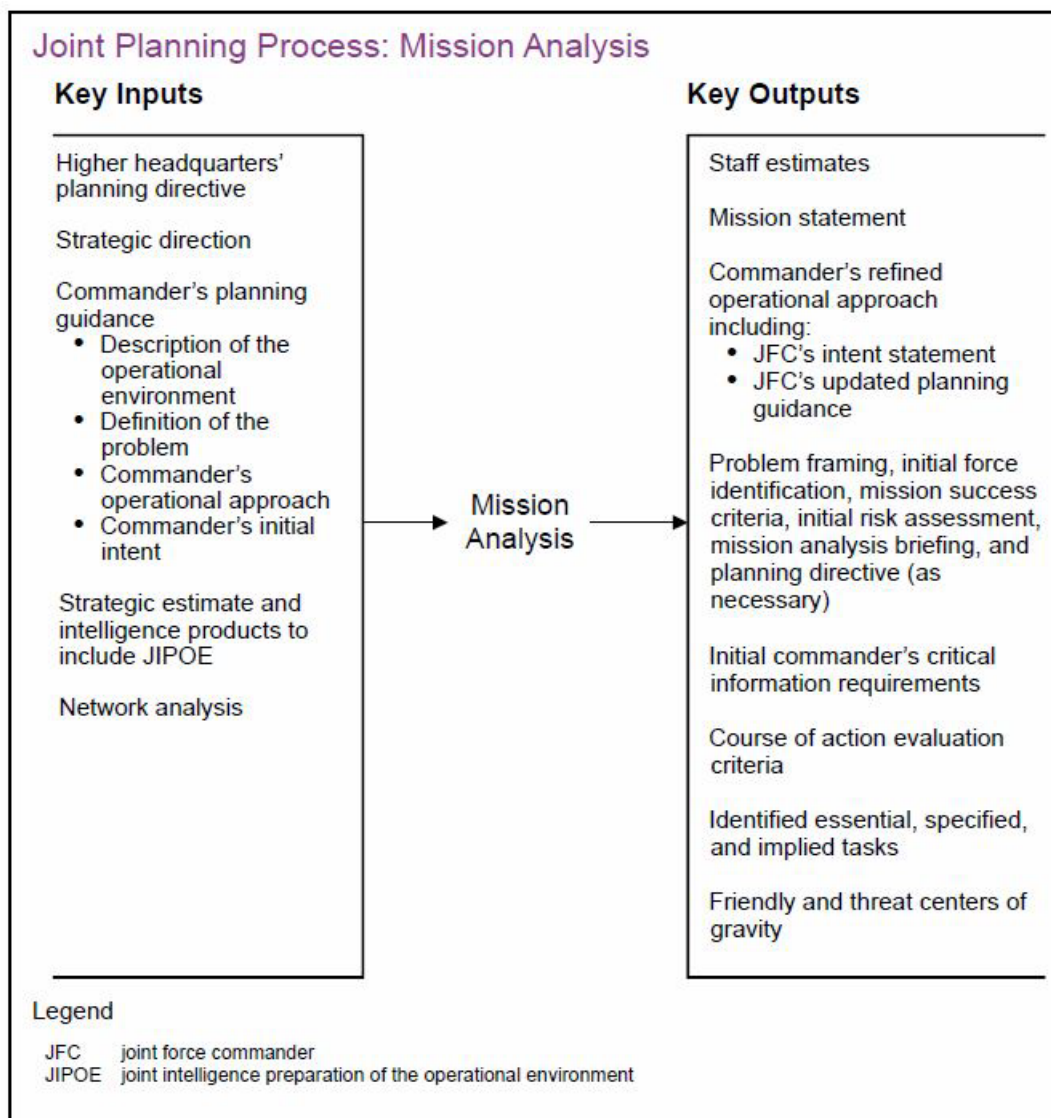


Figure III-5. Joint Planning Process: Mission Analysis

Mission analysis helps the JFC **understand the problem and purpose of the operation** and issue appropriate guidance to drive the rest of the planning process. Mission analysis can be accomplished through a number of logical **activities**, such as those shown in Figure III-6.

Mission Analysis Activities

- Begin logistics supportability analysis.
- Analyze higher headquarters planning activities and strategic guidance.
- Review commander's initial planning guidance, including his initial understanding of the operational environment, of the problem, and description of the operational approach.
- Determine known facts and develop planning assumptions.
- Determine and analyze operational limitations.
- Determine specified, implied, and essential tasks.
- Develop mission statement.
- Conduct initial force identification.
- Develop risk assessment.
- Develop course of action evaluation criteria.
- Develop initial military objectives.
- Develop commander's critical information requirements.
- Prepare staff estimates.
- Prepare and deliver mission analysis brief.
- Publish commander's updated planning guidance, intent statement, and refined operational approach.

Steps are not necessarily sequential.

Figure III-6. Mission Analysis Activities

The following information expands on selected key ideas from the table above. For more comprehensive information on Mission Analysis Activities, see JP 5-0:

Mission analysis should ensure the **correlation between** the commander's mission and intent and **those of higher and other commanders is understood**. Resources and authorities must also be evaluated to ensure there is not a mission-resource-authority mismatch and to enable the commander to **prioritize missions and tasks against limited resources**.

Continuously monitor, assess, and adjust objectives, planning assumptions, and criteria that comprise the military objectives. Keeping the strategic estimate up to date greatly facilitates planning in a crisis, as well as the transition of contingency plans to execution in crisis situations.

Multinational Strategic Guidance. Clearly understand both US and partner nation strategic and military objectives and conditions that the national or multinational political leadership want the force to achieve in terms of the internal and external balance of power, regional security, and geopolitics. To ensure unity of effort, planners should identify and attempt to resolve conflicts between participating nations' objectives and possible divergences.

Determine Known Facts and Develop Planning Assumptions. Use caution in characterizing information as facts. Certain items may be open to interpretation, based on the observer's perspective or incomplete information. Never assume away adversary capabilities or assume unrealistic friendly capabilities will be available. **All assumptions are continually reviewed to ensure their validity and challenged if unrealistic, including those provided in strategic guidance or from higher headquarters.** However, assumptions are useful to identify those issues the commander and planners must validate on execution, and strategic plans are heavily reliant on assumptions due to the ambiguity inherent in the strategic environment.

Develop Mission Statement. The mission statement describes the mission in terms of the elements of who, what, when, where, and why. The commander's operational approach informs the mission statement and helps form the basis for planning. The commander includes the mission statement in the planning guidance

EXAMPLE MISSION STATEMENT

When directed [when], United States X Command, in concert with coalition partners [who], deters Country Y from coercing its neighbors and proliferating weapons of mass destruction [what] to maintain security [why] in the region [where].

Initial Force Analysis. During mission analysis, the planning team begins to develop a rough-order-of-magnitude list of required forces and capabilities necessary to accomplish the specified and implied tasks. Planners consider the responsiveness of assigned and currently allocated forces. In some cases, joint force capacity limits the range of possible objectives a military force can achieve without substantially impacting other military objectives. In these cases, JFCs should identify these limitations early and develop COA options that include objectives the joint force can achieve with less risk.

Develop Military Objectives. Military objectives are clearly defined, decisive, and attainable goals toward which a military operation is directed. While military objectives commonly describe the condition and/or the relative position of the joint or enemy forces, the JFC may also express objectives as a particular behavior that the military operation will bring about. Military objectives may also be scoped to focus resources on particular points in time, space, or action.

Develop COA Evaluation Criteria. Evaluation criteria are standards the commander and staff will later use to measure the relative effectiveness and efficiency of one COA relative to other COAs. They address factors (e.g., hazards, threats, and mitigation measures) that affect success and those that can cause failure. The commander and staff use evaluation criteria during follow-on COA comparison (JPP step 5). These criteria are those aspects of the situation (or externally imposed factors) that the commander deems critical to mission accomplishment. Figure III-7 shows examples of potential evaluation criteria. The staff presents the proposed evaluation criteria to the commander at the mission analysis brief for approval.

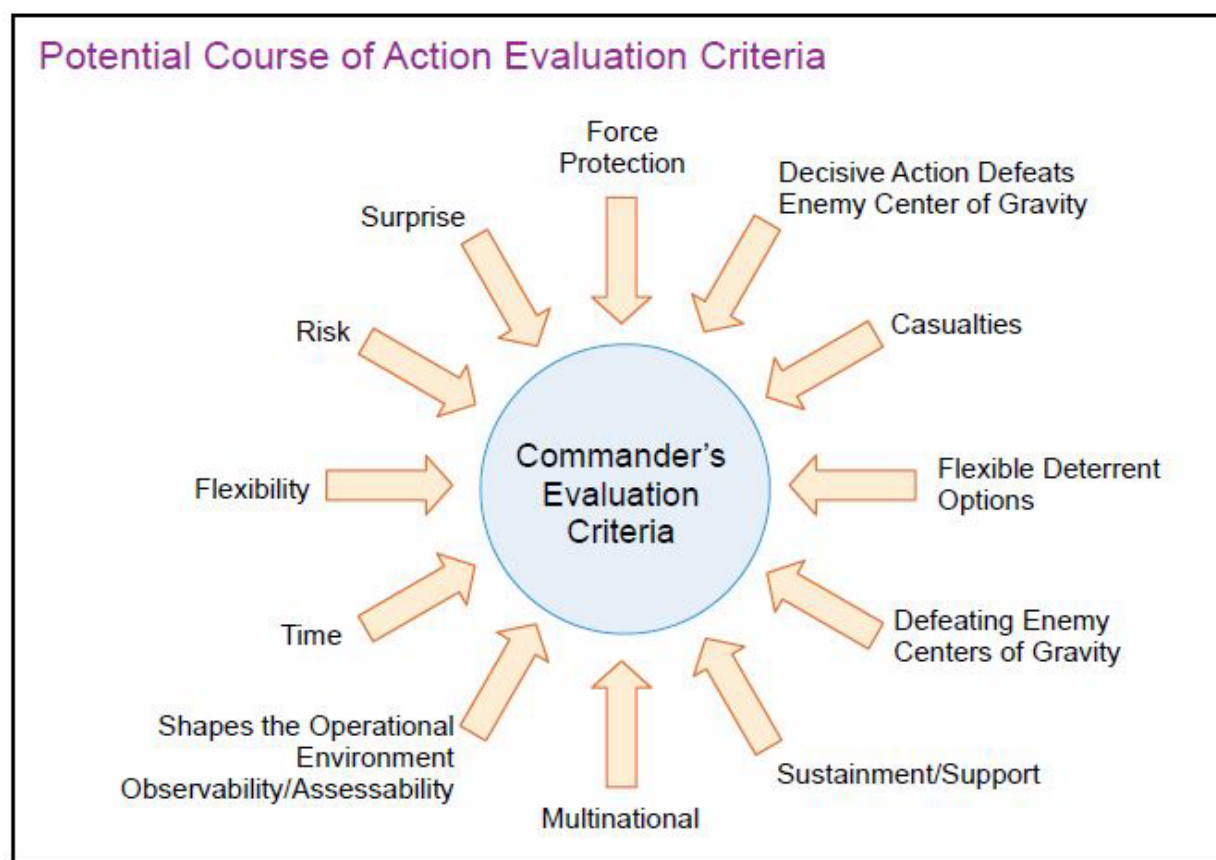


Figure III-7. Potential Course of Action Evaluation Criteria

Develop Risk Assessment. Planners conducting a preliminary risk assessment must identify the obstacles or actions that may preclude mission accomplishment and then assess the impact of these impediments to the mission. Once planners identify the obstacles or actions, they assess the probability of achieving objectives and severity of loss linked to an obstacle or action, and characterize the military risk. Based on judgment, military risk assessment is an integration of probability and consequence of an identified impediment (see Figure III-10).

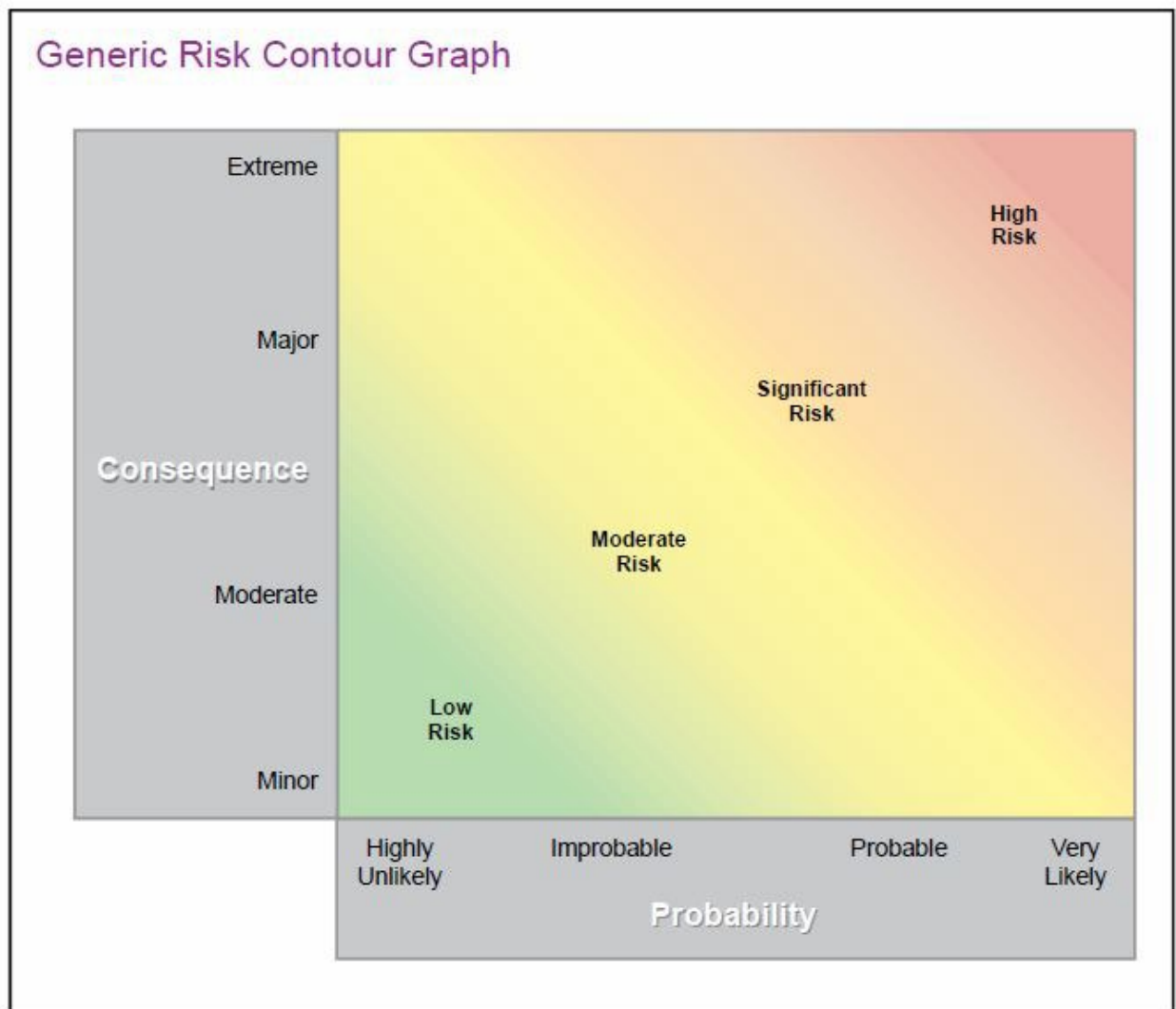


Figure III-10. Generic Risk Contour Graph

Determine Initial CCIRs. The Commander's Critical Information Requirements (CCIRs) are elements of information the commander identifies as being critical to timely decision making. CCIRs help focus information management and help the commander assess the OE, validate (or refute) assumptions, identify achievement of intermediate objectives, and identify decision points during operations. Priority intelligence requirements (PIRs) and friendly force information requirements (FFIRs) constitute the total list of CCIRs (see Figure III-11).

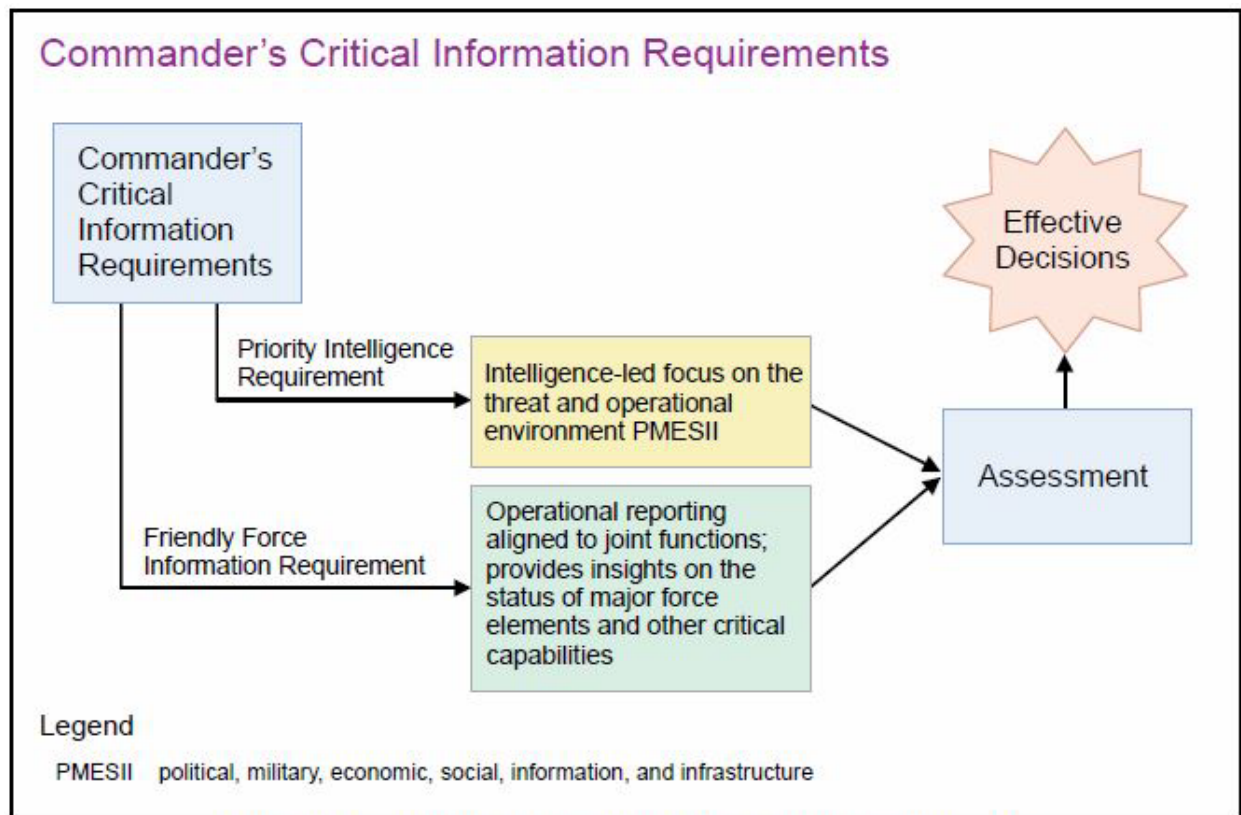


Figure III-11. Commander's Critical Information Requirements

Prepare and Deliver Mission Analysis Brief. Upon conclusion of the mission analysis, the staff will present a mission analysis brief to the commander. This brief provides the commander with the results of the staff's analysis of the mission, offers a forum to discuss issues that have been identified, and ensures the commander and staff share a common understanding of the mission. The results inform the commander's development of the mission statement. The commander provides refined planning guidance and intent to guide subsequent planning. Figure III-12 shows an example mission analysis briefing. (NOTE: the following example takes into account the full spectrum of information for Mission Analysis in JP-05)

Example Mission Analysis Briefing

- Introduction
- Situation overview
 - Operational environment (i.e., operational area) including contested environments extending beyond the operational area and threat overview
 - Political, military, economic, social, information, and infrastructure strengths and weaknesses
 - Enemy (including center[s] of gravity) and objectives
 - Neutral assessment (vulnerabilities and protection)
 - Nonmilitary threat networks (e.g., violent extremist organization, terrorist, criminal and insurgent) organization, composition, and disposition
- Friendly assessment
 - Facts and assumptions
 - Limitations—constraints/restraints
 - Vulnerabilities
 - Capabilities allocated
 - Legal considerations
 - Nonmilitary friendly networks (e.g., local police, local defense groups, local or regional civic groups) and their organization, composition, and disposition
 - Nonmilitary networks
 - Ability to help or hinder mission
- Communication synchronization
- Objectives, effects, and task analysis
 - United States Government interagency objectives
 - Higher commander's objectives/mission/guidance
 - Objectives and effects
 - Specified/implied/essential tasks
 - Centers of gravity
- Operational protection
 - Operational risk
 - Mitigation measures (existing/planned)
- Proposed initial commander's critical information requirements
- Mission
 - Proposed mission statement
 - Proposed commander's intent
- Command relationships analysis and options
- Conclusion—potential resource shortfalls
- Mission analysis approval and commander's course of action planning guidance

Figure III-12. Example Mission Analysis Briefing

STEP 3: COA DEVELOPMENT (derived from JP-05, pdf pages 110-122)

A COA is a potential way (solution, method) to accomplish the assigned mission. Staffs develop multiple COAs to provide commanders with options to attain the military end state. A good COA accomplishes the mission within the CC's guidance, provides flexibility to meet unforeseen events, and positions the joint force for future operations. It also gives components the maximum latitude for initiative.

Figure III-13 shows the **key inputs and outputs** of COA development. The products of mission analysis drive COA development. Since the operational approach contains the JFC's broad approach to solve the problem at hand, each COA will expand this concept with the additional details that describe **who** will take the action, **what type** of military action will occur, **when** the action will begin, **where** the action will occur, **why** the action is required (purpose), and **how** the action will occur (method of employment of forces).

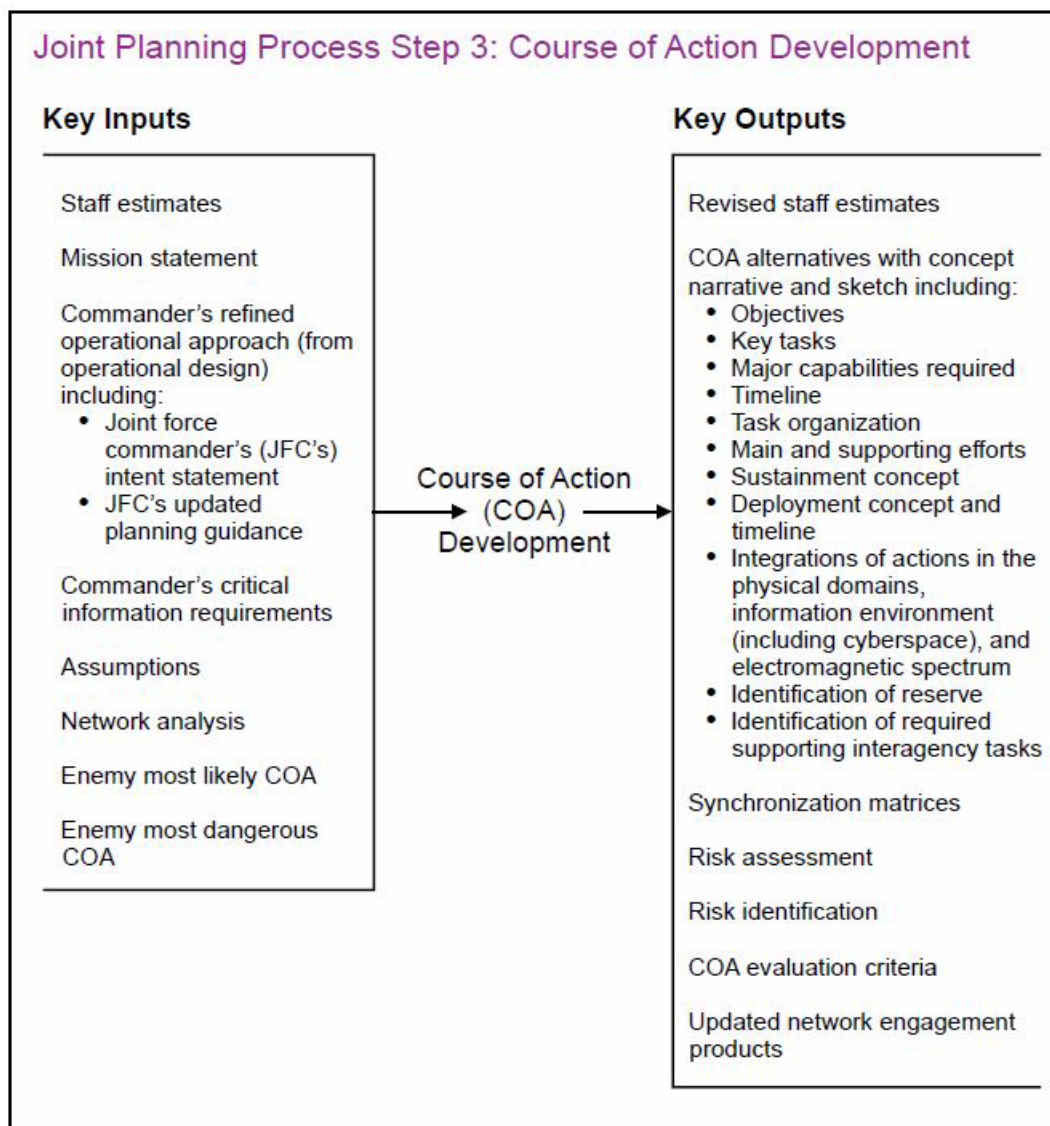


Figure III-13. Joint Planning Process Step 3: Course of Action Development

The following information expands on selected key ideas from the table above. For more comprehensive information on COA Development, see JP 5-0:

There are always multiple ways to accomplish the mission, but normally, the staff must strike a balance between the time desired for innovation and the time needed to build complete COAs that meet JFC guidance and the operational approach. Many staffs find they have time and resources to develop only two or three distinct COAs per operational approach.

For each COA, the commander must envision the employment of all participants in the operation as a whole—US military forces, multinational forces (MNF), and interagency and multinational partners—while accounting for input from senior leaders during plans reviews, operational limitations, political considerations, the operational area (OA), and existing flexible deterrent option (FDO).

COA Development Techniques and Procedures

- **Review objectives and tasks and develop ways to accomplish tasks.** Planners must review and refine objectives from the initial work done during the development of the operational approach. These objectives establish the conditions necessary to help achieve the national strategic objectives. Tasks are shaped by the CONOPS—intended sequencing and integration of air, land, maritime, special operations, cyberspace, and space forces. Tasks are prioritized while considering the enemy’s objectives and the need to gain advantage.
- The COAs should focus on **Centers of Gravity (COG)** and decisive points. **COG is the source of power or strength that enables a military force to achieve its objective and is what an opposing force can orient its actions against that will lead to enemy failure.** The COG analysis helps the commander become oriented to the enemy and compare friendly strengths and weakness with those of the enemy. By looking at friendly COGs and vulnerabilities, the staff understands the capabilities of their own force and critical vulnerabilities that will require protection.
- The **Operational Area (OA)** must be precisely defined, because the specific geographic area will impact planning factors such as access, basing, overflight, and sustainment.
- **Test the Validity of Each COA.** All COAs selected for analysis must be valid and meet all five of the following criteria:
 - **Suitable**—Can accomplish the mission within the commander’s guidance.
 - **Feasible**—Can accomplish the mission within the established time, space, and resource limitations.
 - **Acceptable**—Must balance cost and risk with the advantage gained.
 - **Distinguishable**—Must be sufficiently different from other COAs
 - **Complete**—Does it answer the questions who, what, where, when, how, and why?
- **Conduct COA Development Brief to Commander.** Figure III-15 provides suggested sequence and content. (NOTE: the following example takes into account the full spectrum of information for COA Development in JP-05).

Example Course of Action Development Briefing

- Operations Directorate of a Joint Staff (J-3)/Plans Directorate of a Joint Staff (J-5)
 - Context/background (i.e., road to war)
 - Initiation—review guidance for initiation
 - Strategic guidance—planning tasks assigned to supported commander, forces/resources apportioned, planning guidance, updates, defense agreements, theater campaign plan(s), Contingency Planning Guidance/Joint Strategic Campaign Plan
 - Forces allocated/assigned
- J-2 [Intelligence Directorate of a Joint Staff]
 - Joint intelligence preparation of the operational environment
 - Enemy objectives
 - Enemy courses of action (COAs)—most dangerous, most likely; strengths and weaknesses
 - Nonmilitary threat networks effect on possible COAs
- J-3/J-5/J-9 [Civil-military Operations Directorate of a Joint Staff]
 - Update facts and assumptions
 - Mission statement
 - Commander's intent (purpose, method, end state)
 - End state: political/military
 - termination criteria
 - Center of gravity analysis results: critical factors; strategic/operational
 - Joint operations area/theater of operations/communications zone sketch
 - Shaping activities recommended (for current theater campaign plan)
 - Flexible deterrent options with desired effect
 - For each COA, sketch and statement by phase
 - task organization
 - component tasking
 - timeline
 - recommended command and control by phase
 - lines of operation/lines of effort
 - logistics estimates and feasibility
 - COA risks
 - synchronization matrices
 - COA summarized distinctions
 - COA priority for analysis
 - Operations in the information environment
 - COA risks and opportunities from friendly nonmilitary networks and by friendly military forces.
 - COA risks and opportunities from neutral networks.
- Update COA Development Briefing to Include:
 - Red objectives
- Commander's Guidance

Figure III-15. Example Course of Action Development Briefing

STEP 4: COA ANALYSIS AND WARGAMING (derived from JP-05, pdf pages 122-133)

COA analysis is the process of closely examining potential COAs to reveal details that enable the CC and staff to tentatively evaluate COA validity and identify the advantages and disadvantages of each proposed friendly COA. The commander and staff analyze each COA separately according to the CC's guidance. Figure III-16 shows the key inputs and outputs associated with COA analysis.

Wargaming is a primary means for COA analysis. Wargames are representations of conflict or competition in a synthetic environment, in which people make decisions and respond to potential consequences. COA wargaming is a conscious attempt to visualize the flow of the operation, given joint force strengths, adversary capabilities and possible COAs, the OA, and other aspects of the OE. Each critical event within a proposed COA should be wargamed based upon time available using the action, reaction, and counteraction method of friendly and/or opposing force.

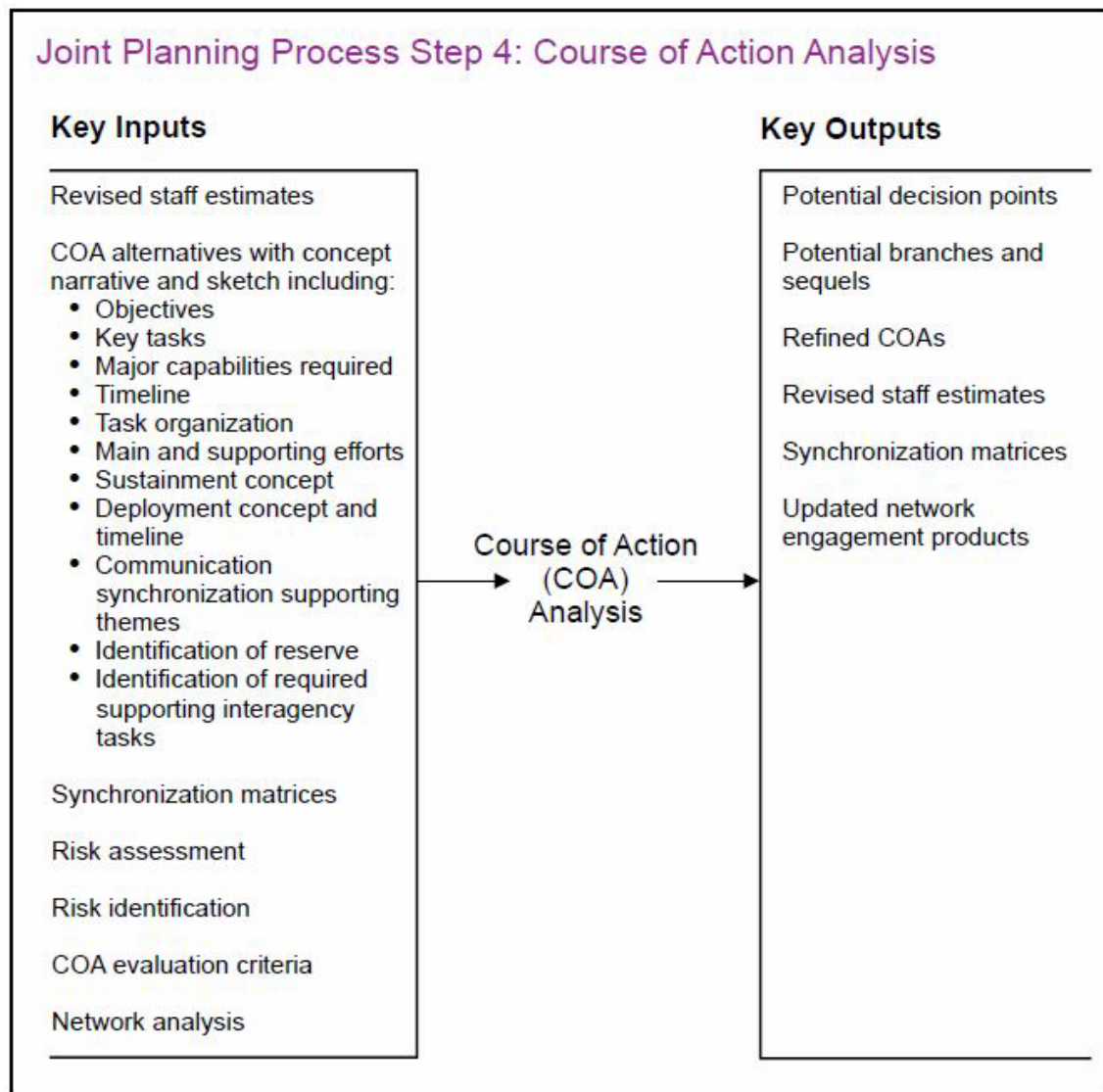


Figure III-16. Joint Planning Process Step 4: Course of Action Analysis

COA analysis identifies which COA best accomplishes the mission while best positioning the force for future operations. It also helps the commander and staff to:

1. Determine how to maximize combat power against the enemy while protecting the friendly forces and minimizing collateral damage in combat or maximize the effect of available resources toward achieving objectives in noncombat operations.
2. Have as near an identical visualization of the operation as possible.
3. Anticipate adversary, enemy, and other relevant actor actions/events in the OE and potential reaction options.
4. Determine conditions and resources required for success (Also ID gaps and seams).
5. Determine when and where to apply the force's capabilities.
6. Plan for and coordinate authorities to integrate information activities early.
7. Focus intelligence collection and operation assessment requirements.
8. Determine the most flexible COA.
9. Identify potential decision points.
10. Determine task organization options.
11. Develop data for use in a synchronization matrix or related tool.
12. Identify potential plan branches and sequels.
13. Identify high-value targets.
14. Assess risk.
15. Determine COA advantages and disadvantages.
16. Recommend CCIRs.
17. Validate end states and objectives.
18. Identify contradictions between friendly COAs and expected enemy

STEP 5: COA COMPARISON (derived from JP-05, pdf pages 133-136)

COA comparison is both a subjective and objective process, whereby COAs are considered independently and evaluated/compared against a set of criteria that are established by the staff and commander. The objective is to identify and recommend the COA that has the highest probability of accomplishing the mission and is acceptable. Figure III-18 depicts inputs and outputs for COA comparison.

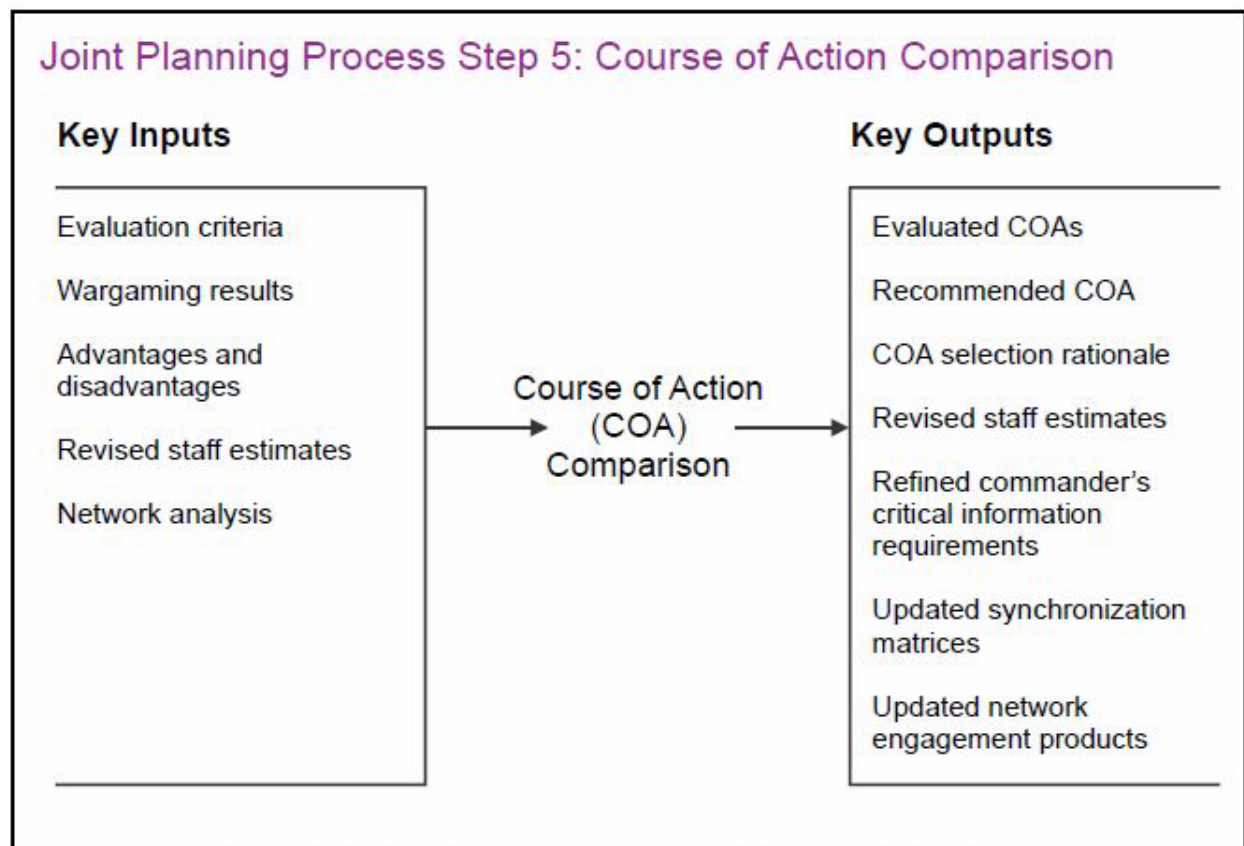


Figure III-18. Joint Planning Process Step 5: Course of Action Comparison

COA comparison facilitates the commander's decision-making process by balancing the **ends, means, ways, and risk** of each COA. The end product of this task is a briefing to the commander on a COA recommendation and a decision by the commander. COA comparison helps the commander answer the following questions:

1. What are the differences between each COA?
2. What are the advantages and disadvantages?
3. What are the risks?

Staff officers may each use their own matrix, such as the example in Figure III-19, to compare COAs with respect to their functional areas. Matrices use the evaluation criteria developed before the wargame (step 4 of JPP). Decision matrices alone cannot provide decision solutions. Their greatest value is providing a method to compare COAs against criteria that the commander

and staff believe will produce mission success. They are analytical tools that staff officers use to prepare recommendations. Commanders provide the solution by applying their judgment to staff recommendations and making a decision.

Example of Staff Estimate Matrix (Intelligence Estimate)

Evaluation Criteria	Frontal Course of Action 1	Envelopment Course of Action 2
Effects of Terrain		✓
Effects of Weather	✓	
Utilizes Surprise		✓
Attacks Critical Vulnerabilities		✓
Collection Support		✓
Counterintelligence	✓	
Totals	2	4

Figure III-19. Example of Staff Estimate Matrix (Intelligence Estimate)

Prepare for COA Comparison. The commander and staff use the evaluation criteria developed during mission analysis (step 1 of JPP) to identify the advantages and disadvantages of each COA. Evaluating the strengths and weaknesses of one COA facilitates comparing its advantages and disadvantages with another COA.

Determine/define comparison/evaluation criteria. Criteria are based on the particular circumstances and should be relative to the situation. There is no standard list of criteria, although the commander may prescribe several core criteria that all staff directors will use. COA comparison is subjective and should not be turned into a strictly mathematical process. The key is to inform the commander why one COA is preferred over the others in terms of the evaluation criteria and the risk.

STEP 6: COA APPROVAL (derived from JP-05, pdf pages 136-140)

In this JPP step, the staff briefs the commander on the COA comparison and the analysis and wargaming results, including a review of important supporting information. The staff determines the preferred COA to recommend to the commander. Figure III-20 depicts the COA approval inputs and outputs.

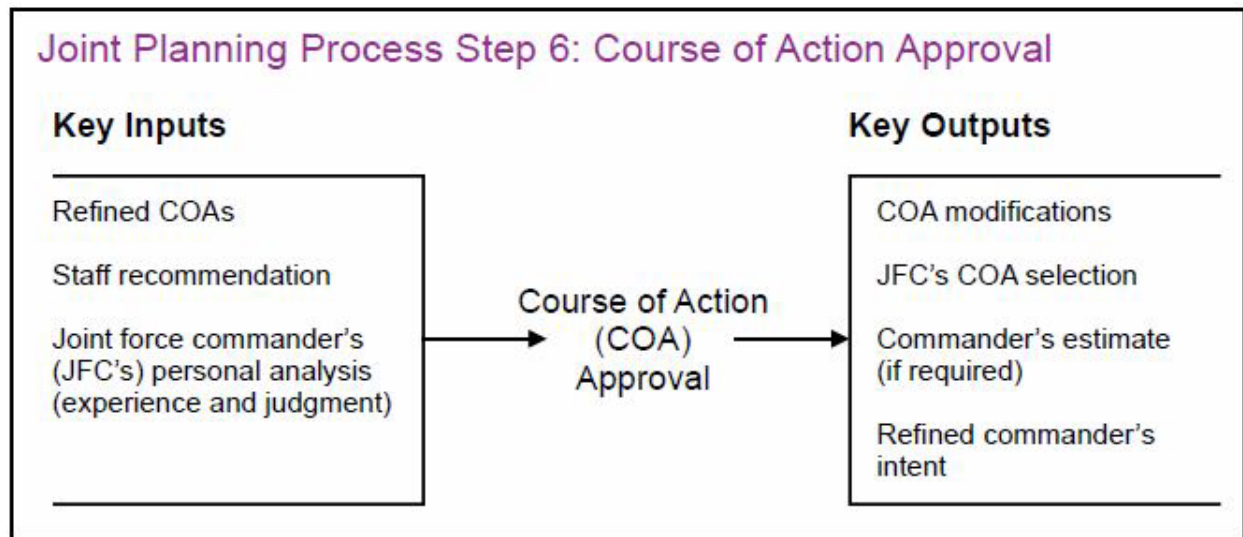


Figure III-20. Joint Planning Process Step 6: Course of Action Approval

Prepare/Present the COA Decision Briefing. The staff briefs the CC on the COA comparison, COA analysis, and wargaming results. The briefing should include a review of important supporting information such as the current status of the joint force, the current JIPOE, and assumptions used in COA development. Figure III-21 shows a sample COA decision briefing.

Commander Selects/Modifies the COA. COA selection is the end result of the COA comparison process. Throughout the COA development process, the commander conducts an independent analysis of the mission, possible COAs, and relative merits and risks associated with each COA. The commander, upon receiving the staff's recommendation, combines personal analysis with the staff recommendation, resulting in a selected COA. It gives the staff a concise statement of how the commander intends to accomplish the mission and provides the necessary focus for planning and plan development.

Refine Selected COA. Once the commander selects a COA, the staff will begin the refinement process of that COA into a clear decision statement to be used in the commander's estimate. At the same time, the staff will apply a final "acceptability" check.

The commander's estimate provides a concise narrative statement of how the commander intends to accomplish the mission and provides the necessary focus for campaign planning and contingency plan development. Further, it responds to the establishing authority's requirement to develop a plan for execution.

Sample Course of Action Decision Briefing Guide

- Purpose of the briefing
- Opposing situation
 - **Strength.** A review of opposing forces, both committed and available for reinforcement
 - **Composition.** Order of battle, major weapons systems, and operational characteristics (e.g., air, ground, and space-based capabilities, electronicmagnetic warfare capabilities, and cyberspace capabilities)
 - **Location and disposition.** Ground combat and fire support forces; air, naval, and missile forces; logistics forces and nodes; command and control facilities; and other combat power including forces contesting blue deployments
 - **Reinforcements.** Land; air; naval; missile; chemical, biological, radiological, and nuclear; other advanced weapons systems; capacity for movement of these forces
 - **Logistics.** Summary of opposing forces ability to support combat operations
 - **Time and space factors.** The capacity to move and reinforce positions
 - **Combat efficiency.** The state of training, readiness, battle experience, physical condition, morale, leadership, motivation, tactical doctrine, discipline, and significant strengths and weaknesses
- Nonmilitary threat networks (flexible format depending on situation and mission)
- Friendly situation (similar elements as opposing situation)
- Nonmilitary neutral networks (flexible format depending on situation and mission)
- Commander's intent statement
- Operational concepts and courses of action (COAs)
 - Any changes from the mission analysis briefing in the following areas:
 - assumptions
 - limitations
 - adversary and friendly centers of gravity
 - phasing of the operation (if phased)
 - Present COAs. As a minimum, discuss:
 - COA# _____ (short name, e.g., "Simultaneous Assault")
 - COA statement (brief concept of operations)
 - COA sketch
 - COA architecture
 - task organization
 - command relationships
 - organization of the operational area
 - major differences between each COA
 - summaries of COAs
 - COA analysis
 - review of the joint planning group's wargaming efforts
 - add considerations from own experiences
 - COA comparisons
 - description of comparison criteria (e.g., evaluation criteria) and comparison methodology
 - weigh strengths and weaknesses with respect to comparison criteria
 - COA recommendations
 - staff
 - components

Figure III-21. Sample Course of Action Decision Briefing Guide

STEP 7: PLAN OR ORDER DEVELOPMENT (derived from JP-05, pdf pages 140-152)

(1) CONOPS

The CONOPS clearly and concisely expresses what the JFC intends to accomplish and how it will be done using available resources. It describes how the actions of the joint force components and supporting organizations will be integrated, synchronized, and phased to accomplish the mission.

During plan or order development, the commander and staff, in collaboration with subordinate and supporting components and organizations, **expand the approved COA into a detailed plan** or OPORD by refining the initial CONOPS associated with the approved COA. The CONOPS is the centerpiece of the plan or OPORD.

During CONOPS development, the commander determines the best arrangement of simultaneous and sequential actions. This dictates the **sequencing of activities** or **force planning** into the OA. Supported CCDRs determine the sequencing of forces in concert with supporting commands and capture this sequencing in the TPFDD (time-phased force and deployment data) as the CC's required delivery dates.

(2) Format of Military Plans and Orders

Plans and orders can come in many varieties from very detailed campaign plans and contingency plans to simple verbal orders. They may also include orders and directives such as OPORDs, WARNORDs, PLANORDs, ALERTORDs, EXORDs, FRAGORDs, PTDOs, and DEPORDs. In most cases, the directive will be standardized in the ***five-paragraph format*** that is described in CJCSM 3130.03, *Planning and Execution Formats and Guidance*.

(3) Plan or Order Development

The JFC guides plan development by issuing a PLANORD or similar planning directive to coordinate the activities of the commands and agencies involved. A number of activities are associated with plan development, as Figure III-22 shows.

Plan Development Activities

- Force planning
- Support planning
- Deployment and redeployment planning
- Shortfall identification
- Feasibility analysis
- Refinement
- Documentation
- Plan review and approval
- Supporting plan development

Figure III-22. Plan Development Activities

(4) Shortfall Identification

The supported commander continuously identifies limiting factors, capability shortfalls, inadequate resources, and associated risks as plan development progresses. If shortfalls cannot be resolved within the prescribed time frame, the completed plan will include a consolidated summary, including the impact of unresolved shortfalls and associated risks.

(5) Feasibility Analysis

This step is similar to determining the feasibility of a COA. The focus in this step is on ensuring the assigned mission can be accomplished using available resources within the desired time. The primary factors analyzed for feasibility include total force requirements, sustainment resources, and transportation (in coordination with USTRANSCOM).

(6) Documentation

When the TPFDD is complete and end-to-end transportation feasibility has been achieved, the supported CCDR completes the documentation of the plan or OPORD and coordinates access with respective JPEC (joint planning and execution community) stakeholders to the TPFDD.

(7) Movement Plan Review and Approval

The final review and approval process for the plan or OPORD includes the JS J-5, JPEC, supported and supporting CCDRs, CJCS, USD(P), OSD, SecDef, and the President.

GLOSSARY – ABBREVIATIONS and ACRONYMS

ALERTORD	alert order
CC	Commander
CCDR	combatant commander
CCIR	commander's critical information requirement
CCMD	combatant command
CJCS	Chairman of the Joint Chiefs of Staff
CJCSM	Chairman of the Joint Chiefs of Staff manual
COA	course of action
COG	center of gravity
CONOPS	concept of operations
CPG	Contingency Planning Guidance
DEPORD	deployment order
EXORD	execute order
FDO	flexible deterrent option
FFIR	friendly force information requirement
FRAGORD	fragmentary order
JFC	joint force commander
JIPOE	joint intelligence preparation of the operational environment
JP	joint publication
JPEC	joint planning and execution community
JPP	joint planning process
JS	Joint Staff
JSCP	Joint Strategic Capabilities Plan
MNF	multinational force
NDS	national defense strategy
NMS	national military strategy
NSS	national security strategy
OA	operational area
OE	operational environment
OPORD	operation order
OSD	Office of the Secretary of Defense
PIR	priority intelligence requirement
PLANORD	planning order
PMESII	political, military, economic, social, information, and infrastructure
PTDO	prepare to deploy order
ROE	rules of engagement
RUF	rules for the use of force
SecDef	Secretary of Defense
TPFDD	time-phased force and deployment data
UCP	Unified Command Plan
USD(P)	Under Secretary of Defense for Policy
USTRANSCOM	United States Transportation Command
WARNORD	warning order

Insights and Best Practices

Focus Paper



Interorganizational Cooperation

Fifth Edition

**Deployable Training Division
Joint Staff J7**

April 2018

Approved for public release

This is the Fifth Edition of the Insights and Best Practices Focus Paper on “*Interorganizational Cooperation*.” It is written by the Deployable Training Division (DTD) Interorganizational Cooperation section of the Joint Staff J7 and released by the J7 Deputy Director for Joint Training.

Fifth Edition: April 2018
Fourth Edition: July 2013
Third Edition: June 2011
Second Edition: April 2011
First Edition: July 2007

Scope. This focus paper addresses:

- USG interagency coordination.
- Multinational operations.
- Organization and process insights for Combatant Command (CCMD) Headquarters (HQ).
- Organization and process insights for Joint Task Force (JTF) HQ.
- This paper does not delve deeply into interorganizational cooperation with joint, nongovernmental organizations (NGO), or private organizations. The areas of authorities, specific cyberspace, intelligence, and sustainment as they relate to interagency and interorganizational coordination are also not discussed. These omitted topics are addressed in other focus papers - see URL below.

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Terminology and Acronyms: Numerous military acronyms and organizational names are used in this paper. They are defined in the glossary to increase readability in the body of the paper for the intended readership. Further doctrinal discussions of Interorganizational Cooperation can be found in Joint Publication (JP) 3-08.

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Releasability: Approved for public release.

PREFACE

This paper discusses insights and best practices related to interorganizational cooperation to support, promote, and facilitate a comprehensive approach to achieve unified action. We derive these insights directly from our observations of joint forces in operations.

This paper may be beneficial to three main audiences:

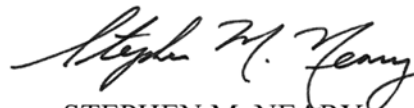
- Senior leaders as they consider military interaction with external stakeholders.
- Directors and principals of joint staffs as they guide their staffs in working with other USG agencies, international organizations, and multinational partners.
- Other mission partners as they prepare to interact with a U.S. joint force.

Four considerations:

- Support a broad comprehensive approach that aligns the goals and efforts of military, governmental, and nongovernmental entities to achieve national and international objectives.
- Be inclusive instead of exclusive with military and non-military partners. Inclusivity leads to appreciation of different perspectives and assists with developing potential solutions. Inclusivity achieves cooperation and unity of effort, increasing the speed with which objectives are realized.
- Develop trust and close relationships with stakeholders across the interagency, international, multinational, and private sectors to enable the level of collaboration necessary to achieve common goals. Transparency and mutual trust remain central to the concept of interdependence.
- Organize the HQ to include mission partners and stakeholder perspectives, authorities, capabilities, and limitations in planning, execution, and assessment. Concurrently, reach out to partners and stakeholders to inform their planning, execution, and assessment.

This and other focus papers by the Joint Staff J7 Deployable Training Division (DTD) summarize observations and insights on joint force HQs. DTD gains insights on operational matters through regular contact and dialogue with CCMD and operational level commanders and staffs as they plan, prepare for, and conduct operations and exercises. DTD incorporates these insights in functionally-based focus papers, refines them through senior flag officer feedback, and then shares them with the operational force joint lessons learned community and joint doctrine community. Five related focus papers to this paper are *JTF C2 and Organization*, *Chief of Staff (COS) Roles and Functions at the Joint Headquarters*, *Authorities, Design and Planning*, and *Joint Operations*. These papers are found on the site noted on the inside front cover.

Please share your thoughts, solutions, and best practices as you think, plan, and work your way through operational challenges with DTD's POC, Mr. Mike Findlay. See the inside front cover for contact information.



STEPHEN M. NEARY
Brigadier General, U.S. Marine Corps
Deputy Director, Joint Training
Joint Staff J7

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1.0 EXECUTIVE SUMMARY. U.S. Joint Force Commanders coordinate with engaged United States Government (USG) agencies and cooperate with multinational partners to support, promote, and facilitate a comprehensive approach to achieve national and international objectives. The mission command attributes of trust and shared understanding extend beyond commanders and subordinates to interorganizational cooperation.

Inclusion of mission partners' viewpoints into the commander's decision cycle facilitates appreciation of different perspectives, development of potential solutions, and achievement of unity of effort.

Interorganizational cooperation:

The interaction that occurs among elements of the DOD; participating USG departments and agencies; state, territorial, local, and tribal agencies; foreign military forces and government agencies; international organizations; nongovernmental organizations; and the private sector.

Source: JP 3-08

Key challenges:

- Coordination with the many interorganizational partners to retain a competitive advantage over potential adversaries.
- Developing trust, relationships, and unity of effort across a diverse group of organizations with differing cultures, policies, priorities, authorities, capabilities, and procedures. These challenges are magnified in ad hoc and short notice operations.
- Limited presence of engaged USG agency partners at the theater and operational level.
- Information sharing with mission partners.
- Readiness of U.S. forces to operate in a supporting role to allies, multinational forces, host nations, or U.S. civil authorities. The military is often not in the lead.
- Developing HQs organization and processes that promote coordination and collaboration with partners.

"The value we have derived by having interagency or interministerial...baked in at the ground floor is almost immeasurable."

- Senior Joint Commander

Overarching insights:

- Interorganizational cooperation is essential to achieving unified action.
- A comprehensive approach expands a military-centric perspective to a whole of government and governments approach that is integrated with external partners and stakeholders.
- Focus collective efforts on common goals to gain unity of effort.
- Understand the DOD's complementary role in supporting the USG's other instruments of power.
- Understand mission partners' perspectives, goals, authorities, capabilities, capacities, and limitations.
- Extend the mission command principle of inclusion to mission partners. Build personal relationships and trust with mission partners through transparency, appropriate information sharing, and access to capabilities.
- Develop HQ structures, processes, and procedures to facilitate inclusion and unity of effort.

Unified Action: The synchronization, coordination, and/or integration of the activities of governmental and nongovernmental entities with military operations to achieve unity of effort.

Unity of Effort: Coordination and cooperation toward common objectives, even if the participants are not necessarily part of the same command or organization - the product of successful unified action.

Source: JP 1-02

2.0 STRATEGIC CONTEXT.

The 2016 National Military Strategy (NMS) characterizes the strategic environment as unpredictable and marked by an increase in global disorder as the U.S. faces multiple, simultaneous security challenges from traditional state actors and non-traditional, transregional sub-state groups, both taking advantage of rapid technological change. Other challenges in the strategic environment include “seam” issues—foreign fighter flow, terrorist threat networks, cyberspace, illicit trafficking, pandemics, transnational criminal organizations, etc., that cut across multiple geographic boundaries, necessitating close coordination across many entities to address these challenges.

- The National Military Strategy outlines a vision of a global Joint Force optimized for a dynamic and ever-changing security environment. It recognizes the challenges posed by an evolving security environment and seeks to **address them through a comprehensive and globally integrated approach** to planning, operations, and capability development that retains a competitive advantage over potential adversaries.

- The evolving nature of transregional, multi-domain, multi-functional challenges will continue to produce challenges and interrelated risks at greater speed, necessitating an integrated approach in addressing them.

- Regardless of crisis or contingency, the Joint Force will prefer to operate in concert with joint, intergovernmental, interagency, and multinational partners.

- Excerpt from the 2016 National Military Strategy

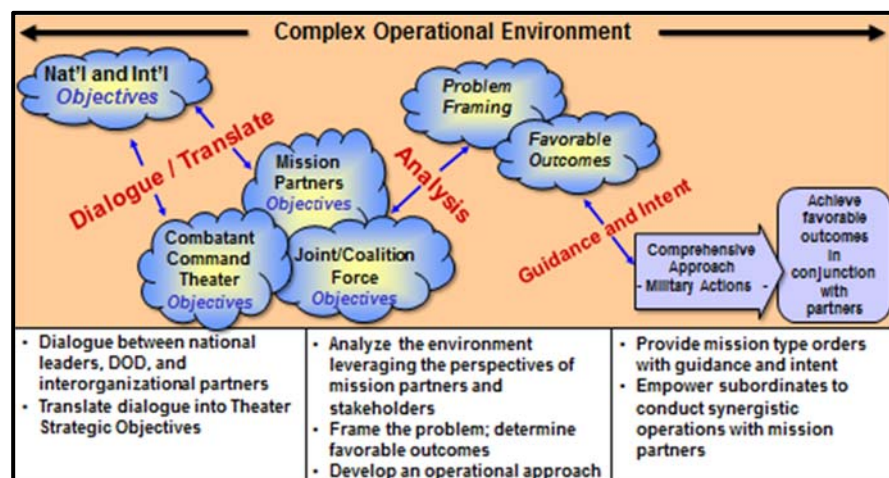
Success in this environment will increasingly depend on the Joint Force’s ability to support, promote, and facilitate a comprehensive approach in the pursuit of national security objectives.

- Interorganizational cooperation is an element of unity of effort; it is the connective tissue which allows the commander to develop a comprehensive approach to achieve unified action. Interorganizational cooperation is defined as the interaction that occurs among: elements of the DOD; participating USG departments and agencies; state, territorial, local, and tribal agencies; foreign military forces and government agencies; international organizations; nongovernmental organizations; and the private sector.
- Interagency coordination is the coordination that occurs between elements of DOD and engaged USG agencies for the purpose of achieving an objective. Interagency coordination forges the vital link between the DOD and the other instruments of US national power.

Supporting a Comprehensive Approach. The figure below illustrates the coordination necessary to develop and implement a

comprehensive approach in concert with our joint, intergovernmental, interagency, and multinational partners to achieve favorable outcomes. The coordination and processes are far more complex in actuality than that depicted. Competition and conflict

Supporting a Comprehensive Approach



are much broader than friendly versus enemy military warfare (military on military thinking). The military is just one of the many instruments of national power operating to achieve shared objectives. Commanders are developing and using end states, objectives, and conditions that address the broader environment by using some form of Political, Military, Economic, Social, Information, and Infrastructure (PMESII) construct as a means to provide common visualization and better achieve unity of effort with our partners. Combatant commanders, in conjunction with Department of State (DOS), U.S. Agency for International Development (USAID), and other USG agencies, determine how to coordinate operations, actions, and activities at the theater strategic and operational level to achieve strategic objectives.

Four key insights (see the illustration on the previous page):

- 1) Dialogue: Persistent dialogue with national and international leadership is required to ascertain the “real” problem and to clarify/develop national objectives, desired end states, risks, and feasible policy direction. Furthermore, commanders and staff must translate what they see, hear, and feel into solid, clear Combatant Command level objectives. Recognizing that national and international positions and objectives continually change, theater-strategic headquarters expend significant effort maintaining open dialogue to ensure objectives remain appropriately nested. (The Ends)
- 2) Analysis: We recognize the complex, interconnected, and largely unpredictable nature of the environment. Inclusion of mission partners in analyzing this environment facilitates common understanding, shared visualization, and unity of effort bridging the gap between elements of national and international power. (The Ways)
- 3) Actions: We strive to harmonize military actions with those of our stakeholders. The use of mission-type orders, coupled with guidance and intent, empower decentralized military operations that are synergized with those of our partners. We continually see the importance of establishing a command climate and an organizational capability that facilitates inclusion by all members of the joint, interagency, and multinational team. (The Means)
- 4) Accountability: We repeatedly see the combatant and JTF commander ultimately held accountable for success regardless of higher direction, lack of resources, or absence of support.

“A comprehensive approach is not another form of design or new joint planning process. It is simply a mindset focused on dialogue, analysis, coordination and intent to better conduct synergistic operations with mission partners to achieve common objectives.”
- Senior General Officer

“Operational art promotes unified action by encouraging JFCs and staffs to consider the capabilities, actions, goals, priorities, and operating processes of interorganizational partners, while determining objectives, establishing priorities, and assigning tasks to subordinate forces...[operational art] facilitates the coordination, synchronization, and, where appropriate, integration of military operations with those of interorganizational partners, thereby promoting unity of effort.”
Source: JP 3-0, Joint Operations

JFCs promote unified action through supporting a comprehensive approach. The joint force may also provide assistance to external organizations, such as a Lead Federal Agency (LFA), in support of its efforts to achieve an overarching mission. An example that illustrates the benefit

of an LFA synchronizing USG efforts was the designation of the USAID/Office of Foreign Disaster Assistance (OFDA) as the lead for the USG response to the Ebola outbreak in West Africa, with the Joint force in a supporting role.

The joint commander seeks to synchronize, coordinate, and integrate the activities of the military (M) instrument with other instruments of national power (diplomatic, information, and economic) as part of the D-I-M-E construct to promote unified action. Supporting a comprehensive approach applies to both foreign and domestic operations in which DOD participates. Additional discussion of the comprehensive approach is available in the overarching “*Insights and Best Practices Paper on Joint Operations*.”

Insights and Best Practices:

- The operational environment is dynamic, requiring iterative dialogue and interaction between the Joint Force, interorganizational mission partners, and national and international leadership.
- Commander’s guidance and intent will evolve to adapt to changing conditions.
- Developing a shared understanding of the operational environment requires early interaction with mission partners in supporting a comprehensive approach.
- Strong personal relationships and defined roles, responsibilities, coordination mechanisms, and processes with interorganizational mission partners will promote unity of effort, and overcome organizational and cultural differences.
- Include mission partners in design, planning, execution, and assessment. External stakeholders have unique perspectives and expertise that build a broader assessment and understanding of the operational environment.
- In foreign operations, incorporate liaison officers with all involved embassy country teams and include country team representatives from each country team in-person or via video teleconference (VTC) during design, planning, execution, and assessment.
- In domestic operations, provide liaison and be engaged with the involved agencies and entities (e.g., Federal Coordinating Officer, Defense Coordinating Officer, Joint Field Office) to assist their planning and awareness.

Mission Partner: An agency or other external organization that the U.S. military works with within a specific situation or operation, based on an agreement, commitment or willing arrangement, to advance their mutual interests. Mission partners broadly share mission goals and objectives.

Stakeholder: A person, organization, or entity who affects or can be affected by actions of the U.S. military. Stakeholders do not necessarily have shared goals or objectives with the USG or DOD.

Source: JP 3-08

“The first commander(s) on the ground will set the stage for [an operation] and determine the relationship, both good and bad, with the Ambassador and Embassy country team, particularly the DATT and Station”

- Senior State Department Official and former U.S. Ambassador

3.0 FRAMING THE COORDINATION AND COLLABORATION CHALLENGES.

Challenges in coordination and collaboration have the potential to hinder support to a comprehensive approach. This section addresses two major overarching challenges of coordination and collaboration within the broader challenge noted in the text box:

<u>Challenge</u>
• <i>Uneven coordination due to inconsistent participation in planning, training and operations, policy gaps, resources and differences in organizational cultures</i>

- A void of organizational structure and linkages at the theater and operational level.
- Unclear organization and processes to effectively coordinate and collaborate.

Operational Void: As depicted in the illustration, while structures exist at the strategic and tactical levels to facilitate interorganizational cooperation, a “void” often exists at the theater and operational level where CCDRs and JTF Commanders operate. This operational void is caused by differences in

organizational structures, coordination permissions, capacities, capabilities, and budget authorities between DOD and other interorganizational partners.

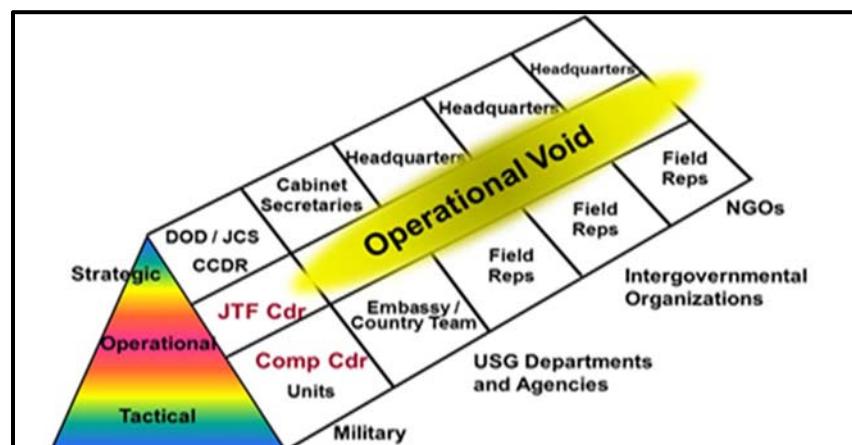
A contributing factor to the operational void is the disparity of resources among the various agencies.

Resources drive how an

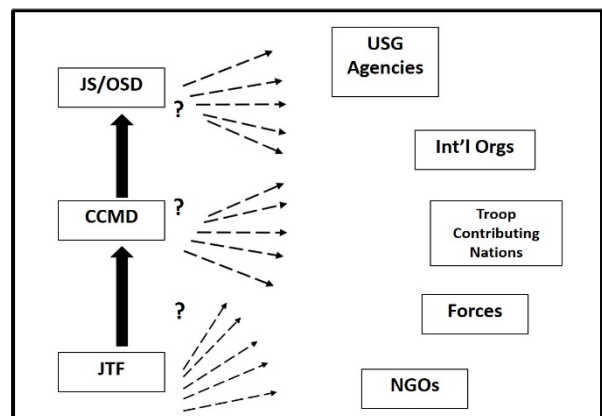
agency can respond to, and support, a crisis. This disparity is particularly evident in foreign operations that involve multiple nations. When carrying out a regional operation that involves more than one foreign country, inclusion of all the relevant embassy country teams, and coordination among them as well as with the DOD and other elements is extremely important, but not always easy. Country teams are often focused on the bilateral relationship between the U.S. and the host country, and each country team reports back to Washington without a coordinating entity within the region. When confronted with an operational void that adversely impacts mission coordination, the JFC can take initiative to assist in a broader coordination among governmental and nongovernmental entities, while recognizing their respective lines of authority.

Organizational and process challenges:

The graphic depicts the coordination lines between various echelons of command and potential partners. These are often complex and overlapping due to the many requirements for coordination and collaboration. Information fratricide can



Potential for Confusion in Coordination Lines



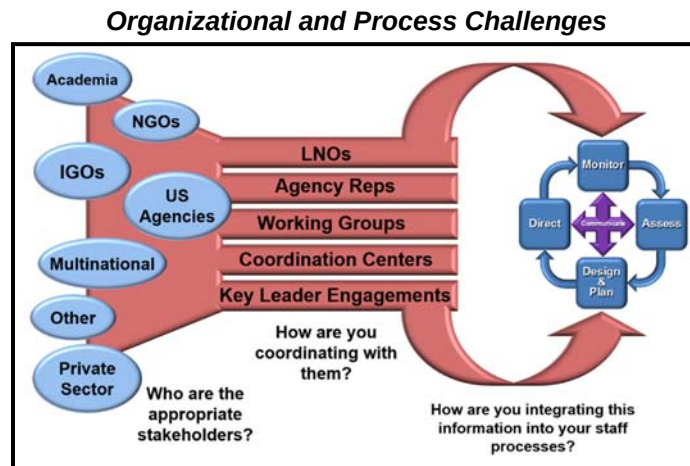
occur absent continuous communication and clear lines of responsibilities.

A related challenge is deciding:

1. Who should we coordinate with?
2. How are we coordinating with them?
3. How is this information getting into our staff processes?
4. How are we supporting our partners?

These questions are valid whether the joint force is supported or supporting another force or agency. The graphic to the right depicts a framework that lays out the above questions when the joint force is the supported organization. One can see how it could also be applied when

the joint force is supporting an organization on the left side. It depicts the first step to identify engaged partners and stakeholders, which can be overlooked – often due to the complexity of the situation and lack of knowledge on who is working the problem. Second is to determine a method (or methods) of coordination. Sometimes methods may pre-exist, other times they may need to be created. Additionally, there may be restrictions in direct liaison or a lack of trusted relationships hindering coordination or collaboration. The final step is to develop the means to gain partner/stakeholder perspectives while providing joint force perspectives in return. We find this last step is often the most challenging step of the process and is best addressed by clear terms of reference and staff integration processes. We have seen JFCs continually re-address these basic questions as the environment or situation changes.



4.0 INTERAGENCY COORDINATION.

Interagency coordination, as a subset of interorganizational cooperation, is defined as coordinating across U.S. federal government agencies. As such, the type of operation – foreign or domestic support – will determine agency partners for DOD entities. The primary partner for foreign operations is DOS, normally through the appropriate U.S. Embassy. During domestic operations, the most likely partner is the Department of Homeland Security (DHS) and the Federal Emergency Management Agency (FEMA) as embodied by the United Coordination Group defined in the National Incident Management System (NIMS) and National Response Framework (NRF).

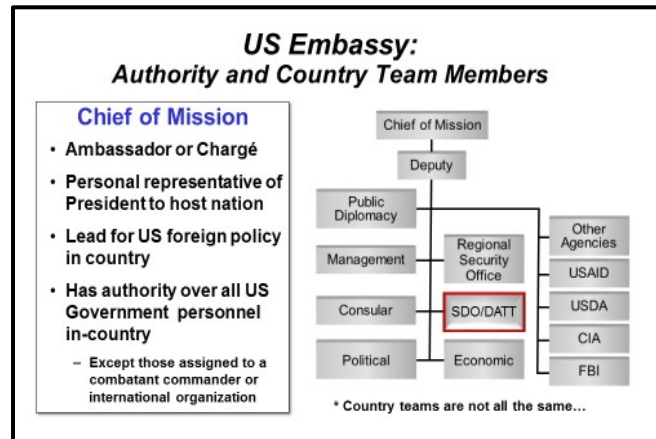
U.S. Embassy: The interagency process continues to be the most efficient and effective means for the U.S. Government to leverage resources for securing America's interests abroad. In foreign operations, a key partner for the joint force is the U.S. Embassy. JFCs conduct coordination with the country team and the various agencies represented on it. The country team has established relationships with the host nation, multinational partners, and non-governmental and private entities. Working through the country team allows the joint command to engage appropriately without negatively impacting existing U.S. relationships. For a JTF (when given DIRLAUTH), the primary point of entry for the joint command into the country team will be the Senior Defense Official/Defense Attaché (SDO/DATT) as the senior military officer in the embassy. The Joint Force Commander will normally have a regular and close relationship with the country team Chief of Mission.

Foreign Policy Advisor (POLAD): POLADs provide invaluable foreign policy expertise and advice to senior, strategic level military leaders serving at various commands throughout the world. POLADs work alongside conventional and special operations commanders and communicate with foreign governments, militaries, and other government agencies. The POLAD is often a senior Foreign Service officer with substantial diplomatic expertise. The POLAD is an advisor to the commander and not an LNO from the State Department. As such, he or she provides the commander with insights and perspectives of a foreign policy expert. The POLAD can be expected to leverage contacts with DOS or other agencies to open a dialog, but does not speak on behalf of DOS.

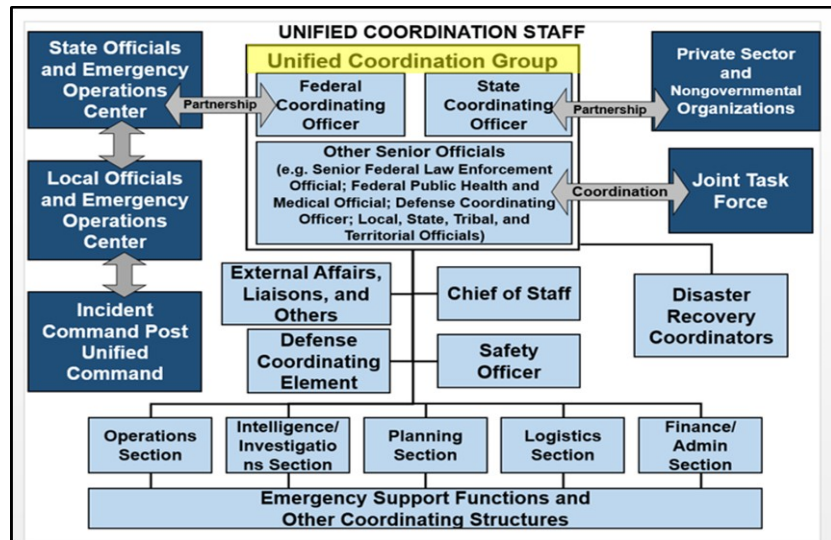
Unified Coordination Group: For domestic operations, DOD conducts two types of missions, Homeland Defense and Civil Support. These missions are characterized by different partners, authorities, and structures than that of foreign operations. DOD's principal mission partner in each of these missions is DHS and, for Civil Support, FEMA. Authorities for operating domestically differ greatly from foreign operations, partly because fewer U.S. laws apply to foreign operations whereas all U.S. laws apply for domestic operations (e.g., Posse Comitatus).

"The Combatant Commander's team on the ground must be adept, flexible in coordinating not only with the Ambassador and country team, especially the DATT and Station (Chief), and especially all elements on the ground... to understand mission, ops in the entire region, AOR, and keep Washington interagency informed and also asking the right questions."

- Senior State Department Official and
Former U.S. Ambassador



Coordinating structures with federal, state, tribal, territorial, and local agencies are guided by NIMS and the NRF. The Unified Coordination Group (UCG) serves as the focal point for Unified Action and is located at a Joint Field Office (JFO). The primary DOD linkage in the JFO is the Defense Coordinating Officer (DCO).

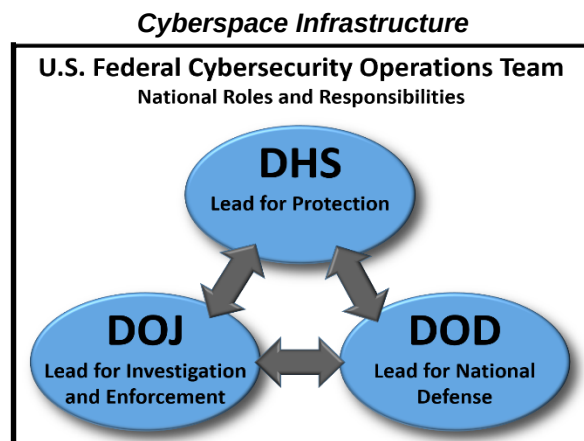


Cyberspace Operations:

Cyberspace operations is another example of necessary interagency coordination. DOD has an interdependent relationship with national cyberspace infrastructure partners (see the graphic on the right). The U.S. private sector and international/host nations provide support for DOD networks requiring coordination to ensure the integrity of key nodes. The cybersecurity operations team in the graphic demonstrates a necessary whole-of-government solution to defend the nation due to the scale of the interdependent cyberspace infrastructure and the diversity of partner relationships. For example, DHS complies with the NRF and the National Infrastructure Protection Plan (NIPP) to plan for and respond to crises. Authorities for the conduct of cyberspace operations reside at high levels across different USG agencies (e.g., DOD, DHS, and Department of Justice (DOJ)). The diverse placement, employment, and timeliness of authorities complicates mission planning and can delay capability execution without transparent interagency coordination.

Insights and Best Practices:

- Develop and nurture relationships with interagency partners. Be inclusive.
- Understand the interagency process for both domestic and foreign operations.
- Leverage the POLAD as an advisor; they are not liaison officers from DOS or Embassies.
- Leverage key interagency coordination groups to achieve unity of effort.
- Understand the key interagency partners in cyberspace operations. Leverage their expertise and capabilities for cyberspace situational awareness, timely threat identification, global and regional analysis and assessment, the development of tailored threat responses, and/or the execution of branch plans that account for stakeholder equities.



5.0 MULTINATIONAL OPERATIONS. The U.S. will normally operate as part of a multinational force to share capability, capacity, and authorities and to lend broader international legitimacy to a given mission. Although nations will often participate in multinational operations, they rarely, if ever, relinquish national command of their forces.

Multinational operations are operations conducted by forces of two or more nations, usually undertaken within the structure of a coalition or alliance.

Source: JP 3-16

The basic structures for multinational operations fall into one of three types: integrated, lead nation, or parallel

“Maintaining positive, energetic, and collaborative relations with our coalition partners has become infinitely more important.”
- Senior Joint Commander

command. A good example of an integrated command structure is found in Afghanistan (Resolute Support HQ) where Commander, RS is designated from a member nation, but the HQ staff and the commanders and staffs of subordinate commands are of multinational makeup. A Lead Nation structure exists when all member nations place their forces under the control of one nation (CJTF-Operation Inherent Resolve is a U.S. Lead Nation construct). Under a parallel command structure, no single force commander is designated and the staffs are separate. The coalition leadership must develop a means for coordination among the participants to attain unity of effort. This is normally accomplished through the use of coordination centers. (An example of a parallel command structure was the response to a disaster relief operation in the Philippines. Supporting nations operated under bilateral relationships directly with the Government of the Philippines. GOP established a coordination center).

Forces participating in multinational operations will always have at least two distinct chains of command: a national chain of command and a multinational chain of command. The degree of command authority (e.g., OPCON, TACON, etc) delegated to a multinational force commander (MNFC) is normally negotiated between the participating nations and can vary from nation to nation. In a multinational or coalition environment, each nation will likely have a National Command Element (NCE) providing command and control support and guidance to the nation's forces and a National Support Element to provide administrative, logistics (what United States would refer to as 'Title 10' support). Normally the senior assigned officer is designated the Senior National Representative (SNR). These elements can be the commander's point of coordination for many of the issues involved in coalition and multinational operations; examples of such issues are rules of engagement, national caveats, and interoperability.

Although personal relationships between the commander and his or her counterpart and the associated staff relationships are critical, two structural enhancements can improve the coordination within MNFs: a liaison network and coordination centers.

During multinational operations, U.S. forces establish liaison early with forces of each nation to:

- foster better understanding of caveats, capabilities, and limitations
- facilitate the ability to integrate and synchronize operations
- assist in sharing information
- Developing trust and an increased level of teamwork.

Another means of enhancing MNF coordination is the use of a multinational coordination center (MNCC). We often see some form of MNCC at the combatant command when the US has been designated a lead nation in an MN operation or between national forces in a parallel command structure. It is a proven means of integrating the participating nations' military forces into

multinational planning and operations processes, enhancing coordination and cooperation, and supporting an open and full interaction within the MNF structure. A MNCC may be established as a response to a crisis or maintained permanently to facilitate continuity.

We can expect to see more scenarios where a JTF may be largely working by, with, and through the host nation or indigenous forces. This “by, with, and through” construct has unique implications for the JTF. This construct requires the JTF to understand its role, authorities, and how its partner force operates as well as the specific mechanisms allowing the JTF to work “by, with, and through” its partner. In this situation we will often operate within a parallel command structure with HN forces.

Interoperability within a coalition construct is two-faceted: a human dimension based on trust, transparency, and inclusion; and a technical aspect. Coalition operations are by nature human-based. JFCs can not allow technical limitations of information sharing networks, tools, and databases to fracture the coalition. Language differences can pose formidable challenges. Even in the same language, words have different meanings to different people in different cultures. Select words carefully, avoid acronyms, and confirm understanding early rather than risk confusion later. Ensure information-exchange technical platforms are in-place, necessary disclosure and information sharing training is accomplished, and establish a strong “write for release” policy to enable collaboration both within and external to the HQ.

Insights and Best Practices:

- Personal relationships and building mutual trust are often more important than formal command relationships.
- Political considerations, directed authorities, and national caveats will heavily influence the coalition command structure and operations. Understand the domestic politics of participating nations to gain awareness of factors influencing national objectives, capabilities, and limitations.
- Understand the speed at which your partners can plan and operate.
- Leverage relationships to overcome potential technical interoperability challenges.
- Include and empower coalition partners by not over-classifying information and effectively sharing with them. Include Foreign Disclosure Officers.
- Understand and incorporate National Command and National Support Elements, and Senior National Representatives.

6.0 HQ ORGANIZATIONAL INSIGHTS. Interorganizational cooperation is a cross functional staff effort. This type of cooperation occurs across the staff and is not limited to a particular section or directorate; it entails interaction by multiple functional areas with various organizations outside of the JFC. The following list provides a sample of some initial questions for functional staff consideration:

- **Planning:** Are your partners included in planning? Are you included in theirs? Are they assisting in design (understanding the operating environment and problem)?
- **Assessment:** How are you including your partners' perspectives?
- **Operations:** Are your operations synchronized with your partners? Is your battle rhythm in synch with the supported agency's battle rhythm?
- **Fires:** How are you integrating your nonlethal fires?
- **Communication Strategy:** Are all partners presenting a unified message?
- **Legal:** Does everyone understand their proper authorities?
- **Intel:** Is information from all mission partners included in the Joint Intelligence Preparation of the Operational Environment (JIPOE)?

The efforts toward gaining and maintaining interorganizational cooperation constitute a multi-faceted staff process that requires ownership and assigned responsibilities in some form of terms of reference (TOR) document. Absent clear responsibilities, the HQs will either overlook potential engagements or be confusing in their engagement with these external partners and stakeholders.

We see numerous options for engagement and interface with these players. Many HQ have civilian or multinational deputy commanders. These deputies can greatly assist in the interaction with civilian and coalition partners. Some HQs use a separate directorate, often designating a J9 for this function, particularly in combatant commands and other JFCs where dealing with agencies and other external stakeholders is a

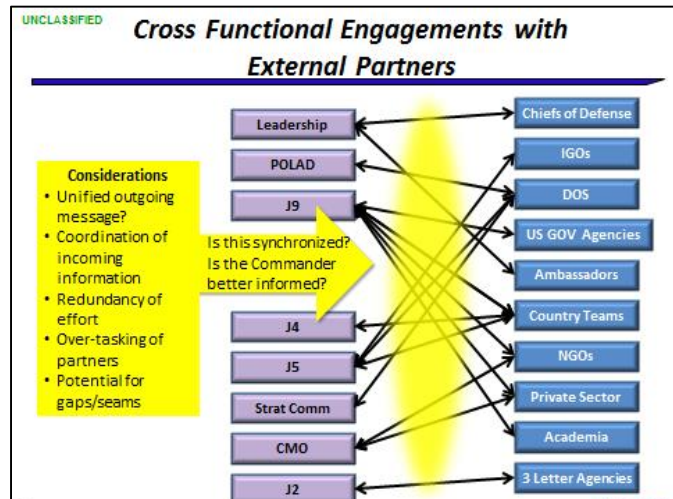
	USG Agencies	Intl Orgs (NATO)	Coalition Forces	Troop Contributing Nations	NGOs
HHQ	✓	✓	✓ SNRs	✓	✓
CCDR	As Requested		✓ (SNRs & CDRs)	As Requested	
DCDR	Per TOR	Per TOR	Per TOR	Per TOR	
COS		COS	SNRs		
POLAD	DOS	Per TOR			
J1	Per TOR		✓	Per TOR	
J2	Per TOR				
J3	Per TOR		✓		Per TOR
J4/J8	Per TOR		✓	ICW CCMD	Per TOR
J5	Per TOR	✓		✓	
J9	Per TOR				✓

significant portion of the command's focus. Others assign this responsibility to the J3 or J5, or form a Joint Interagency Coordination Group (JIACG), a Partnership Directorate, or Civil-Military Coordination Section. Regardless of the name or mechanism, we see the importance of designating responsibility for primary interface with each of the various players and ensuring their inclusion within the HQs.

A HQ's structure and processes for coordination may evolve as the mission progresses and the requirements for coordination and synchronization change. Early on much of the coordination may occur in the J5, while in execution the J3 may take on increased responsibilities. In addition to structure and process changes, the placement and use of partner representatives or liaison may

evolve. For example, interagency representatives and LNOs may be consolidated in one location, or be spread by function across the entire staff in a hub-and-spoke arrangement.

A key requirement for interorganizational coordination within a joint command is to establish the initial staff linkages to external partners. As part of the initial mission analysis, the command conducts an evaluation to determine what stakeholders may influence or affect the mission. The illustration to the right depicts the complexity of cross-functional command group and staff interaction with partners. The arrows are not all-inclusive; the relationships shown here are part of a large, complex web. This complexity underscores the need for Terms of



Reference (TOR) within the command to delineate roles and responsibilities for engagement and coordination. Listed below are questions to consider when determining whether to establish a separate internal coordinating entity within the joint force command structure:

- What is the current requirement for interorganizational cooperation? Who are we currently coordinating with? Are there other organizations we should be coordinating with? Is the current coordination sufficient? How is it affecting the mission? What would be the benefits of improved coordination?
- Are the current coordination processes for Phase 0 operations sufficient and effective when transitioning and operating in subsequent Phases?
- Are the coordination processes for supporting another organization effective?
- Are the coordination processes when the JFC is the supported command effective?
- Is the solution a new organizational entity or process, or just a refinement of current staff processes?

Insights and Best Practices:

- Develop Terms of Reference to define roles and responsibilities across directorates.
- Develop and maintain a close relationship with the POLAD (if assigned) to ensure that DOS perspectives and diplomatic considerations are represented in key Battle Rhythm events.
- Ensure external perspectives are included in appropriate staff processes (e.g., OPTs, assessments, daily Commander Briefs, the Operations Center).
- Develop and maintain relationships with the higher HQ to leverage their interagency contacts, relationships, and capabilities that can inform your command's operations.
- Understand your subordinates' capabilities to coordinate with relevant partners. Some subordinates may be better able and equipped to directly coordinate with relevant partners, while others may require your support.
- Develop and maintain relationships with pertinent private or commercial entities that may impact your mission.

7.0 COORDINATION AND COLLABORATION TECHNIQUES.

Information Sharing: As stated in the National Security Strategy signed December 2017, “relationships develop over time, create trust and shared understanding that the United States calls upon when confronting security threats, responding to crises, and encouraging others to share the burden from tackling the world’s challenges.” Sharing information with our mission partners is inherently linked to building the trust necessary to operate together to achieve unified action. DOD’s culture encourages the safeguarding of information to ensure operational security. Thus, sharing information with our partners is often limited by policy and regulation, but just as often we restrict information flow simply out of convenience or habit. For example, much unclassified work is conducted on classified networks without consideration of the ability to share information with our partners. Understand the opportunities and implications of sharing information not only with USG interagency partners, but also with potential alliance and coalition members. Effectively sharing information will require up-front, command-level decisions within a properly balanced need-to-share and need-to know construct. Sharing of information may require a mission partner environment network together with well-defined information management decisions to create shared understanding.

Insights and Best Practices:

- Balance “need-to-share” with “need-to-know” thinking within a culture of inclusion. Always consider “writing for release.”
- Integrate Foreign Disclosure Officers into the staff to help mitigate risk while encouraging the maximum amount of information sharing.
- Address information sharing and collaboration requirements with mission partners. Develop processes to share information with all stakeholders who are not on your communications network. Interoperability is more human-based than technical.
- Identify and promulgate the primary communications network to be used by the command. Alert users when critical information must be passed on another network.

Liaison Officers: Liaison Officers are the most common method to coordinate with external mission partners. They can be deployed individually or in small teams, but the rule of thumb is to send quality personnel with the maturity and skill to operate independently. Understand and codify the roles, responsibilities, and authorities of LNOs or Agency Representatives. Understand at what level the representative can speak for their parent organization and at what point the JFC will have to reach to higher authority. The staff as a whole, and decision-makers in particular, must understand if the assigned LNOs are able to speak on behalf of their parent organization or if they can only provide reach back, viewpoints, and perspectives. The joint force command can fill a vital role by gathering, understanding, and sharing the specific authority held by individual LNOs and representatives.

Coordination Centers: We have seen coordination centers work as an effective means of coordinating with interorganizational partners, particularly at the tactical level where they can link the JTF with partners on the ground. Doctrinal solutions include Civil-Military Operations Center (CMOC), Humanitarian Assistance Coordination Centers (HACC), and the previously mentioned MNCC. CMOCs and MNCCs are normally extensions of the JFC staff. Locating a CMOC away from the JFC headquarters may help to encourage and facilitate participation by external organizations. The HACC is normally established by an external entity such as the

United Nations. JFCs will likely provide some form of liaison to HACCs to ensure synergy with other missions such as NEO or combat operations.

Working Groups and Meetings: Sitting down for face-to-face meetings with interorganizational partners is often the most effective way to coordinate, but can also be the most difficult. We have observed greater access within less formal setting in the case of external forums located off site, and internal battle rhythm events, such as an Interagency Working Group or a Combined Interagency Coordination Group (CIACG). Relevant stakeholders must be included to allow for maximum information sharing.

Engagements: Individual discussions between senior leaders are often the precursor to establishing the above mentioned meetings. These one-on-one engagements establish relationships and build trust that create common understanding between organizations.

Information Networks/Websites: Multiple networks and web portals exist for sharing of information and gaining situational awareness. We see successful JFCs utilizing or monitoring these networks, ensuring their staffs have access to and are aware of the information available on them. Examples include the Homeland Security Information Network (HSIN), ReliefWeb, and the All Partners Access Network (APAN).

Contact Groups: In some instances, we have observed a move toward less structured approaches to coordinating disparate groups toward a common goal. These loosely formed organizations, sometimes called Contact Groups, are bound by a shared problem set (e.g., piracy, Ebola pandemic) and membership is open to anyone who can contribute. These ad-hoc groups are then disbanded once the problem is solved or reduced to a manageable level.

Stakeholder Coordination Efforts: Interorganizational partners have established methods to improve coordination with DOD counterparts, many with the goal of educating and establishing relationships prior to operations or crisis. Notable examples are USAID's Joint Humanitarian Operations Course (JHOC) and the Development in Vulnerable Environments (DiVE) course. The International Committee of the Red Cross (ICRC) has personnel and programs that educate military units on their unique role. The U.S. Institute of Peace hosts an Interagency Tabletop Exercise that brings together the military, other USG agencies, and NGOs for an event that promotes interaction and education in real-world scenarios. These programs educate the military staff member of interorganizational capabilities and participation by military staff members increase the likelihood of improved coordination during real-world events.

Glossary

Abbreviations and Acronyms

AOR – Area of Responsibility	JP – Joint Publication
APAN – All Partners Access Network	JTF – Joint Task Force
C2 – Command and Control	LFA – Lead Federal Agency
CCDR – Combatant Commander	LNO – Liaison Officer
CCMD - Combatant Command (organization)	MNCC – Multinational Coordination Center
CIACG – Combined Interagency Coordination Group	MNF – Multinational Force
CJTf – Combined Joint Task Force	MNFC – Multinational Force Commander
CMOC – Civil-Military Operations Center	NCE – National Command Element
COS – Chief of Staff	NGO – Non-Governmental Organization
DATT – Defense Attaché	NIMS – National Incident Management System
DCO – Defense Coordinating Officer	NIPP – National Infrastructure Protection Plan
DHS – Department of Homeland Security	NMS – National Military Strategy
DIME – Diplomatic, Informational, Military, Economic	NRF – National Response Framework
DIRLAUTH – Direct Liaison Authorized	NSE – National Support Element
DiVE – Development in Vulnerable Environments	OFDA – Office of Foreign Disaster Assistance
DOJ – Department of Justice	OPT – Operational Planning Team
DOS – Department of State	PMESII – Political, Military, Economic, Social, Information, and Infrastructure
DTD – Deployable Training Division	POLAD – Foreign Policy Advisor
FEMA – Federal Emergency Management Agency	SDO – Senior Defense Officer
FPA – Foreign Policy Advisor	TOR – Terms of Reference
GCC – Geographic Combatant Command	UCG – Unified Coordination Group
HACC – Humanitarian Assistance Coordination Center	USAID – United States Agency for International Development
HQ – Headquarters	USG – United States Government
HSIN – Homeland Security Information Network	
ICRC – International Committee of the Red Cross	
JFC - Joint Force Commander	
JFO – Joint Field Office	
JHOC – Joint Humanitarian Operations Course	
JIACG – Joint Interagency Coordination Group	
JIPOE – Joint Intelligence Preparation of the Operating Environment	
JKO – Joint Knowledge Online	



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Army and Air National Guardsmen carefully exit helicopter pad during PATRIOT Exercise 2015 at Mile Bluff Medical Center in Mauston, Wisconsin, July 2015 (U.S. Air National Guard/Paul Mann)



Improving Joint Interagency Coordination

Changing Mindsets

By Alexander L. Carter

Joint interagency coordination is incredibly important but difficult work that is hampered by cultural differences among team members and an absence of clear and focused performance measures. Despite some rare successes in interagency work between the Department of Defense (DOD) and other partners in the past 20

years, successful interagency teamwork remains elusive across the combatant commands. This article examines the recent history of joint interagency coordination, discusses some of the key cultural and organizational impediments facing these teams, and introduces a set of performance measures for immediate use across these commands. These

measures, if adopted by these teams, would positively impact performance and inform our senior civilian and military leadership on the nature of how we exercise national power to support our allies and defeat our enemies.

Why It Matters

Clearly, the world is getting more dangerous and unpredictable, and not just within the traditional paradigms of war and conflict. There have been global and regional conflicts involving the United

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States, but there have also been natural and manmade disasters (hurricanes, earthquakes, tsunamis, oil spills, refugee crises, and so forth) around the world. And we have supported our allies and friends in their own humanitarian and disaster recovery efforts. At the discretion of the President and Congress, we have responded to many of these events by typically leveraging our military resources through any one of the unified combatant commands. Increasingly, these manmade and natural conflicts and disasters create a new and much more complicated set of challenges—that is, wicked problems—for our military planners. These problems require a different set of skills, ones that are increasingly being sourced outside of our military structure and institutions.

Wicked problems are almost impossible to solve. For example, there are multiple stakeholders whose interests are linked to the problem(s). Wicked problems are unique; they are not discrete. Typically, as the wicked problem gets analyzed, it morphs into a new or different set of problems.¹ In short, those holding opposing viewpoints would (and should) approach these problems from different biases, perspectives, and experiences in order to create a “shared understanding of the problem[s],”² especially when they cannot be “solved by traditional processes.”³ Thus, the U.S. military’s opportunities to work more closely with its non-DOD (that is, interagency) partners have never been more relevant and timely. We cannot solve or attempt to solve these wicked problems without the expertise and skills of those drawn from all of our instruments of national power (diplomatic, information, military, and economic, or DIME),⁴ including those from outside the government sector (contractors, academicians, not-for-profit agencies, corporations, and so forth). Joint interagency teams, therefore, should be increasingly viewed as attractive forums and vehicles to leverage our combined national power in support of U.S. interests, at home and abroad. So how has joint interagency work evolved and progressed (or not) over the years, and what lessons can help us make better use of these unique organizations?

Ups and Downs

In the last 25 years, the U.S. experience with joint interagency coordination has evolved, spurred by our military interventions in Panama (1989–1990), Somalia (1992–1994), and Haiti (1994–1995).⁵ Reflecting on those interventions, President Bill Clinton issued Presidential Decision Directive 56, “Managing Complex Contingency Operations,” in May 1997, which established standardized processes and structures relating to joint interagency coordination.⁶ However, a report reviewing the directive criticized the joint interagency environment, citing a continuing lack of a “decisive authority and . . . the contrasting approaches and institutional cultures.”⁷ Later, with our involvement in the wars in Iraq and Afghanistan, President George W. Bush promulgated national-level guidance relating to joint interagency coordination on December 7, 2005: National Security Presidential Directive 44, “Management of Joint Interagency Efforts Concerning Reconstruction and Stability.”⁸ The directive expanded the need for joint interagency coordination across the “spectrum of conflict: complex contingencies, peacekeeping, failed and failing states, political transitions, and other military interventions.”⁹

Another key publication that continued the evolution of joint interagency coordination was Joint Publication (JP) 3-08, *Interorganizational Coordination During Joint Operations*,¹⁰ which established guidance within DOD on the structures and processes in place to support joint interagency coordination, including key U.S. Government agency responsibilities and lead designations for different types of military and nonmilitary interventions. JP 3-08 also formalized a joint interagency team structure that U.S. Central Command had created years earlier: the Joint Interagency Coordination Group. The goal of JP 3-08 was to:

provide sufficient detail to help Combatant Commanders, subordinate Joint Force Commands, their staffs, and joint interagency partners understand the Joint Interagency Coordinating Group (or

*equivalent organization) as a capability to enable the coordination of all instruments of national power with joint operations.*¹¹

It is during this period of recent history, and with the backdrop of these supporting directives and policies, that we can point to some rare but relevant success stories with joint interagency work, despite organizational and cultural obstacles. Two such examples are the Bosnian train and equip program and Joint Interagency Task Force–South.

Congress funded the Bosnian train and equip program following the Bosnian war and the 1995 signing of the Dayton Peace Accords.¹² The objective of the program was to provide the Bosnian Federation military force with training, weapons, and other types of equipment to build up their capability to defend themselves against the neighboring Serbian military. An interagency task force that drew its ranks initially from DOD, the Department of State, and the Central Intelligence Agency was created to oversee the program.

At the outset, the task force faced significant challenges. Initially, it had “no money, no equipment, and no training.”¹³ But during the first 2 years of operation, the task force was able to obtain adequate funding, secure and execute critical training contracts, obtain weapons (mostly donated from other countries), and overcome anti-U.S. sentiment against the program at home and abroad. Yet in writing about the task force, its former deputy Christopher Lamb asserts that its success was due to a combination of organizational, team, and individual variables. Ultimately, Dr. Lamb surmised, the train and equip program “rectified the military imbalance between Bosnian Serb and Federation forces, reassuring the Bosnians and sobering the Serbs,”¹⁴ and it “facilitated the integrated approach the United States pursued in Bosnia, proving remarkably adept at implementing its controversial security assistance program.”¹⁵

Another example of interagency success is Joint Interagency Task Force–South (JIATF–South), headquartered in Key West, Florida. Its mission is to conduct “interagency and international

detection and monitoring operations, and the interdiction of illicit trafficking and other narco-terrorist threats in support of national and partner nation security.”¹⁶ Since its latest formation in 2003, when it combined with another task force (JIATF-East), the team’s composition has reflected a diverse body of team members including all branches of the U.S. military, U.S. Coast Guard, Drug Enforcement Administration, Federal Bureau of Investigation, National Security Agency, National Geospatial-Intelligence Agency, Central Intelligence Agency, and U.S. Customs and Border Protection. Additionally, JIATF-South has a plethora of international partners across the region. Over the past 10 years, JIATF-South’s accomplishments have been impressive, with its successes allowing “JIATF-South to stand toe-to-toe with the drug traffickers . . . driving up their costs, cutting their profits, raising their risk of prosecution and incarceration, and forcing them to divert their trade to less costly destinations . . . accounting for roughly 50 percent of global cocaine interdiction.”¹⁷

Despite these two examples of interagency successes, however, joint interagency coordination within the combatant commands continues to be difficult to achieve despite publications, speeches, briefs, endless memoranda, directives, and working groups. For example, two combatant commands were the subject of a 2010 review by the U.S. Government Accountability Office (GAO).¹⁸ In its report, GAO cited that U.S. Africa Command (USAFRICOM) demonstrated some practices that “sustain collaboration, but areas for improvement remained”¹⁹ in key staff work associated with linking geographic combatant command theater security cooperation plans to country and Embassy strategic plans. In addition, USAFRICOM staff had “limited knowledge about working with U.S. embassies and about cultural issues in Africa, which has resulted in some cultural missteps.”²⁰

U.S. Southern Command, on the other hand, was viewed as having “mature joint interagency processes and coordinating mechanisms,”²¹ but GAO was still critical of the command’s handling



Specialists prepare to investigate mock chemical weapons inside training village of Sangari at Joint Readiness Training Center, Fort Polk, Louisiana (40th Public Affairs Directorate/William Gore)

of its logistical support to the 2010 Haiti earthquake disaster relief effort and the command’s underlying joint interagency planning and staffing processes.²² The U.S. Agency for International Development expressed similar disappointment in its after-action review of that same relief effort, commenting that, in effect, the military commanders on the ground were not adequately educated on the humanitarian assistance/disaster relief operations.²³

Why do some interagency teams succeed while others struggle? In reviewing the examples of the Bosnian train and equip program and JIATF-South, Dr. Lamb writes that both interagency teams were successful because they exhibited 10 positive “determinants of effectiveness”

within 3 broad performance areas: organizational (purpose, empowerment, and support), team (structure, decisionmaking, culture, and learning), and individual (composition, rewards, and leadership).²⁴ A successful team will generally have positive indicators within these areas. Similarly, in reviewing interagency teams or environments that were not successful, it can be argued there were negative indicators assessed within these same areas.

Culture Clash and Structure

Two indicators of interagency team success or failure that deserve additional enquiry relate to the team’s culture and structure. Perhaps joint interagency coordination can be challenging because

the individuals and institutions they represent are so different in terms of the cultures and organizational structures. For example, in comparing military officers (DOD) with Foreign Service Officers from the Department of State, the contrasts in approach and style are significant. For example, whereas the DOD mission is to prepare for and fight war, the State mission is to conduct diplomacy. Unlike DOD, State does not see training as a major activity or as important for either units or individuals. DOD is uncomfortable with ambiguity, but State can deal with it. Doctrine is seen as critical to DOD but not to State. Where DOD is focused on discrete events and activities with plans, objectives, courses of action, and endstates, State is focused on ongoing processes without expectation of an endstate.²⁵ DOD views plans and planning as a core activity, yet State views a plan in general terms to achieve objectives but values flexibility and innovation.²⁶ Is it any wonder, then, that “most Foreign Service Officers spend the majority of their time engaging their host-nation equivalents, not directing actions along a line of subordinates?”²⁷

If we are to become more effective with joint interagency coordination, DOD must understand and appreciate the value that joint interagency partners bring to the fight. Joint interagency coordination cannot “be described like the command and control relationships for a military operation. . . . [U.S. Government] agencies may have different organizational cultures and, in some cases, conflicting goals, policies, procedures, and decision-making techniques and processes.”²⁸ Because of the cultural and ideological differences between DOD and non-DOD participants, the level of commitment exhibited by members of this joint interagency team may vary tremendously, which will prevent or impede the team’s ability to become a “high performance group.”²⁹

Joint interagency teams can organize themselves in many ways to accomplish their mission. Too often, though, they face challenges in governance—how work gets done and by whom. One observer noted, “The principal problem

of joint interagency decisionmaking is lack of decisive authority; there is no one in charge.”³⁰ In reviewing the more scientific study of organizational psychology, an argument can be made that joint interagency teams fit the definition of “leaderless groups,” which are those that “usually do not have a professional leader or facilitator who is responsible for the group and its functioning.”³¹ Instead, members assume the role of leader or facilitator. The purpose for which the group was created can become lost or blurred over time. Group members who assume the role of leader are likely to be untrained in group leadership and consequently may not understand group dynamics and how to manage group leadership tasks. These groups may run the risk of groupthink that produces a situation where disagreement and differences are not tolerated.³² Some basic team tasks, such as enforcing ground rules and team norms, may not be accomplished. Finally, team meetings may lack structure, focus, or direction.³³

Given these cultural and structural challenges, joint interagency teams may benefit from a common set of standards or measures to strive toward, linking them with common standards and norms. Joint interagency teams may benefit by using some methods to evaluate how effective they are within their respective combatant commands. The questions surrounding measurement of joint interagency teams, however, are initially daunting: How do you measure teamwork? How do you measure coordination? How do you quantify a group’s success when most of its products and services (such as advice) are not quantifiable? Should we compare our joint interagency efforts to other similar organizations or functions in other combatant commands? Any measures adopted by the team must be clear, unambiguous, and unifying to the team.

Performance Measures

Group behavior and performance in a joint interagency group would be most effectively harnessed and channeled by focusing on agreed-upon performance measures. Introducing these critical few measures would help channel

discussion, focus, and overall results. The framework developed by Lamb provides a good starting point to assess the environment within which any joint interagency operates.³⁴ But actionable measures within this framework are needed to tie individual, team, and organizational performance together. What measures are needed?

The military typically refers to measures of effectiveness (MOEs) and measures of performance (MOPs). *MOEs* are defined as criteria used to assess changes in system behavior, capability, or operational environment that are tied to measuring the attainment of an endstate, achievement of an objective, or creation of an effect. *MOPs* are defined as criteria used to assess friendly actions tied to measuring task accomplishment.³⁵ Taken together, these measures can inform and drive team performance if built and regularly reported on. According to JP 3-0, *Joint Operations*, “continuous assessment helps the Joint Force Command and joint force component commanders determine if the joint force is doing the right things (MOE) to achieve its objectives, not just doing things right (MOP).”³⁶ MOEs and MOPs add concrete, tangible indicators of whether a joint interagency team is operating effectively, but these measures should be grouped according to a general area of observation or performance.

Both are important types of measures for the purposes of driving joint interagency team behavior and performance. In the table, the first column includes the 10 Postulated Determinants of Effectiveness that serve as an overall performance framework through which to measure level of joint interagency success; the second column specifies the Supporting Measures. This column is a collection of example performance measures (a combination of MOEs and MOPs).

Building and Using Performance Measures

The work of joint interagency teams could and should be measured primarily in how they produce advice, conduct coordination, and, in some cases, lead the combined U.S. Government

Table. Postulated Determinants of Effectiveness and Supporting Measures

Purpose	Mission, goals, objectives, and measures regularly reviewed and adjusted by sponsoring agency or command leadership. Customer satisfaction surveys consistently score in "meets" or "exceeds" expectations in terms of interagency products, services, and support.
Empowerment	Team members are able to speak and make resource decisions on behalf of their home agency. One or more team members are deployed with joint task force or equivalent organization in support of a regional event requiring a U.S. whole-of-government response.
Support	A percentage of theater security cooperation activities and exercises is supported and resourced by non-U.S. Government partners annually. Development of Annex V and supporting theater campaign plans (TCPs) is led by a Senior Executive Service (SES) civilian from an interagency partner.
Structure	Leadership of team (facilitator) is rotated monthly on a random basis. X members of the joint interagency team are permanently staffed/embedded within the combatant command's current or future operations directorate (J33 or J35). Ratio of assigned versus authorized joint interagency billets is equal at each combatant command. Team member tours are at least 12 months and no more than 36 months in length.
Decisionmaking	A number of combatant command's TCPs are synchronized with country work plans annually. A percentage of TCPs is completed with joint interagency input annually.
Culture	A number of non-DOD personnel from joint interagency teams are formally trained on DOD combatant command planning processes. A percentage of joint interagency personnel who have received onsite Embassy briefs from country teams within the combatant command's area of operation is present. Location of team meetings is rotated monthly on a random basis. Cultural briefs/social events among DOD, State Department, and other interagency partners are held on a quarterly basis.
Learning	A number of intergovernmental/nongovernmental organizations (IGOs/NGOs) partner with combatant command and/or State Department participating in TCP reviews, discussions, and plan approvals. A percentage of joint interagency personnel who receive foreign language training (and tested) annually through combatant command or home agency are present. A number of joint interagency personnel (non-DOD) who have system access to a combatant command's Theater Security Cooperation Management System (or equivalent) are present. Team-sponsored symposiums on joint interagency work within the region occur. Team-authored articles on joint interagency work within the region are published.
Composition	Team members represent the full spectrum of support that can be provided through joint interagency coordination (governmental, IGO, NGO, nonprofit, business sector). Level of funding for mobilized Reservists who support joint interagency exercises (civilian expertise) is equal.
Rewards	Formal and informal training opportunities are offered to joint interagency team members based on informal group consensus-driven "Order of Merit List" based on individual contributions to supporting team products and services. Performance evaluations are completed by general officer/SES equivalents.
Leadership	A number of wicked problems are introduced, discussed, and solved annually relevant to the team's area of responsibility. Quarterly state of interagency work is briefed to senior leadership who provide support to the joint interagency team or command (DOD, State Department, other).

Source: Table based on Christopher J. Lamb with Sarah Arkin and Sally Scudder, *The Bosnian Train and Equip Program: A Lesson in Interagency Integration of Hard and Soft Power*, INSS Strategic Perspectives 15 (Washington, DC: NDU Press, March 2014), 57.

response to planned or unplanned events around the world in support of national interests and as directed by senior diplomatic or military leadership. But how does one truly measure team-work? How can performance measures really gauge how well team members cooperate or how well they provide outstanding staff support to their command or joint activity? To answer this question, the team should understand the areas of performance that it can influence within its structure and mission by

conducting a team assessment of where it stands and where it needs to go. This is done through three simple steps.

First, a team self-assessment must be conducted using the framework areas of performance, focusing on where the team rates generally positively or negatively for each of the 10 areas within the framework. For example, one team's members might review the framework and self-assess that while they generally are doing fine in the areas of composition, decisionmaking, and leadership, they believe that they could do

better in culture, structure, and empowerment. This initial and subjective team assessment sets a baseline for where to improve team performance. This should be a subject of hearty discourse and heated debate—an agenda item that may be best planned as a singularly focused offsite retreat. Second, the team should identify a set of a few critical measures (5–7 MOPs or MOEs within the table) across organization, team, and individual areas. The team may choose the ones offered in the table or create others more appropriate,



Crew of Coast Guard Cutter *Stratton* stands by to offload 34 metric tons of cocaine in San Diego, California, August 2015 (U.S. Coast Guard/Patrick Kelley)

adhering to the principle of definition that each measure be specific, measurable, attainable, relevant, and timely.³⁷ Third, each measure must be selected with the endstate of improving joint interagency team results.

The team should then assign someone to be responsible for collecting the data and tracking and reporting the team's progress against each agreed MOP and MOE. That person is also responsible for helping to define where the team wants to go with that area of performance. As such, the measure will have some clear thresholds of what determines underperforming, performing, or overperforming. The point is that the team determines which measures are right for it and charts a path forward on how to achieve success in these measures.

Any joint interagency team members can take the measures they have adopted to help them channel their individual and collective energies toward more productive activity. Measures will give the team

focus, direction, and added meaning as team members seek to support their command organization, whether it be a combatant command or some other joint activity. Individuals will benefit from being able to link their efforts and contributions to the team. They will be able to report back to their parent commands or agencies in a more factual and descriptive manner, informing their leadership in richer ways about how their agency is supporting this joint effort. But these measures will not only drive performance and results within each joint interagency team; this new model or framework with its supporting measures also has the opportunity to influence and inform the most senior levels of military leadership.

There are many forms of joint interagency team constructs within the U.S. Government. The more familiar ones may be found within unified combatant commands or even at Embassies, but there are others. Regardless of where they are and whom they support, these

teams operate within an enterprise, driven by either senior military or civilian leadership. These teams may ultimately report to four-star generals, Federal agency administrators, governmental senior executives, or even specially appointed directors with quasi-governmental jurisdiction and powers. All of these leaders are charged with the responsibility to support their organizational or enterprise mission and track progress toward goals and objectives on a regular basis. The measures developed for joint interagency teams can be a critical component of a leader's evaluation of how joint interagency teams are supporting their "customers." One technique borrowed from the business sector that is worth a brief mention is the power of comparing similar activities (in this case, joint interagency coordination) across geographies (that is, U.S. Southern Command, U.S. European Command, U.S. Central Command) or even comparing similar functions (that

is, theater security cooperation activities). Why do this?

As senior leaders are facing increasingly complex problems within their areas of interest and operation and are being asked to do more with less through appropriated funding constraints, they also are having to question the efficiency and effectiveness of the programs and activities for which they are responsible. By comparing similar activities or functions using the same measures, leaders could be better informed about the resource and manpower decisions they make within these joint support activities.

Many leading businesses, whether in the manufacturing, service, or retail industries, for example, regularly score their performance using industry standard measures. Using this internal assessment, they can see how their company performance stacks up against other similar companies in the same industry. For example, a manufacturing company may have as one of its key measures or metrics a need to capture “purchase order cycle time.” This would be a metric that would be regularly updated, reported on, and assessed relative to how other companies were performing in this same metric. Information on this measure would be collected from various sources on a regular basis. It is assumed that this metric is so universal that a comparison of company-level performance across the industry would be instructive because it would allow the company to see how it is doing relative to its peers—where it stands. This review offers the company an external, independent look at a part of its operations and usually motivates it to improve upon key aspects of its business. This process is called *benchmarking*, which can be defined as:

*a standard of performance . . . benchmarking helps organizations [to] identify standards of performance in other organizations and to import them successfully to their own. It allows them to discover where they stand in relation to others. By identifying, understanding, and comparing the best practices and processes of others with its own, an organization can target problem areas and develop solutions to achieve the best levels of government.*³⁸



Soldier with 5th Battalion, 3rd Field Artillery Regiment, 17th Field Artillery Brigade, 7th Infantry Division readies firefighting gear at unit headquarters on Joint Base Lewis-McChord, Washington, August 2015 (28th Public Affairs Directorate/Patricia McMurphy)

Benchmarking is an example of a productivity solution (or management tool) in the business world that can be properly applied to the joint interagency environment. Another way to look at benchmarking (which should have increasing relevance to the government in light of continuing Federal budget challenges) is as “the routine comparison with similar organizations of

administrative processes, practices, costs, and staffing, to uncover opportunities to improve services and/or lower costs.”³⁹

Critics of using self-defined measures to benchmark themselves against others might be afraid of what they may find. As Jeremy Hope and Steve Player write, “Benchmarking is the practice of being humble enough to admit that others are better at something than you are and

wise enough to learn how to match or even surpass them.”⁴⁰ Proponents of this benchmarking practice, on the other hand, argue that “setting aspirational and directional goals can inspire and motivate teams. The process recognizes that everything is connected and achieving any one goal depends on making progress towards all others.”⁴¹

The measures introduced above should be further discussed, defined, and operationalized within each combatant command. With adopted measures in place, joint interagency teams are better able to chart a course of improvement by understanding where they are (baseline) and where they need to go (endstate). But these measures by themselves are of limited value if they are not put in the broader context of how similar joint interagency activities are performing across the combatant commands, since each of these commands competes for funding and resources. For example, are there some measures that should be candidates for comparison across combatant commands, despite their differences in mission, climate, geography, the type of interagency supported historically provided, and so forth? How can we compare joint interagency activities across the DOD enterprise using metrics defined within our own combatant command?

Final Thoughts

The United States will continue to be called upon to support its allies and fight its enemies across a broad spectrum of conflict. Our measured response to each of these calls for help should not be confined to purely military or diplomatic lines. As we see more wicked problems taking the world stage, we must look to our joint interagency teams and the commands and agencies they represent to deliberate on and provide advice across the full range of our national instruments of power (DIME). But these teams will continue to be hamstrung by cultural clashes and structural challenges unless changes are put in place to properly structure and support these teams. By doing so, the teams could leverage the combined talents and resources from capabilities across gov-

ernment, the nonprofit sector, academia, and even the business sector.

These changes to our joint interagency teams would involve a mental shift in the way they (and others) evaluate their performance through meaningful performance measures. These measures must gauge not only whether we are doing things right, but also whether we are doing the right things. Through the adoption of a performance framework and supporting measures, teams can channel their energies, talents, and resources to support the leaders entrusted to represent national interests overseas. With measures in place and teams properly aligned, the Nation’s leaders, civilian and military, can begin an informed dialogue about how to potentially assess and benchmark team performance that cuts across and transcends geographies, jurisdictions, and commands. JFQ

Notes

¹ Debra E. Hahn, “Predicting Program Success—Not Child’s Play,” *Defense AT&L* 43, no. 1 (January–February 2014), 46.

² Gabriel Marcella, *Affairs of the State: The Interagency and National Security* (Carlisle Barracks, PA: U.S. Army War College, 2009), 38.

³ Christopher M. Schnaubelt, “Complex Operations and Interagency Operational Art,” *PRISM* 1, no. 1 (December 2009), 47.

⁴ Joint Publication (JP) 3-0, *Joint Operations* (Washington, DC: The Joint Staff, August 11, 2011), VII.

⁵ Marcella, 29.

⁶ Ibid.

⁷ Ibid., 30.

⁸ Ibid., 31.

⁹ Ibid.

¹⁰ JP 3-08, *Interorganizational Coordination During Joint Operations* (Washington, DC: The Joint Staff, March 17, 2006).

¹¹ Ibid., D-1.

¹² Christopher J. Lamb with Sarah Arkin and Sally Scudder, *The Bosnian Train and Equip Program: A Lesson in Interagency Integration of Hard and Soft Power*, INSS Strategic Perspectives 15 (Washington, DC: NDU Press, March 2014).

¹³ Ibid., 24.

¹⁴ Ibid., 56.

¹⁵ Ibid., 118.

¹⁶ See Joint Interagency Task Force–South Web site at <www.jiatfs.southcom.mil/index.aspx>.

¹⁷ Evan Munsing and Christopher J. Lamb, *Joint Interagency Task Force–South: The Best*

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Interorganizational Cooperation

Part I of III: The Interagency Perspective

By James C. McArthur, William D. Betts, Nelson R. Bregón, Faith M. Chamberlain, George E. Katsos, Mark C. Kelly, E. Craig Levy, Matthew L. Lim, Kimberly K. Mickus, and Paul N. Stockton

In 2012, the Chairman of the Joint Chiefs of Staff directed the Armed Forces to expand the envelope of interagency cooperation.¹ His edict inspired a profusion of Department of Defense (DOD) literature catalog-

ing the challenges of working with non-DOD organizations. This article is part one of a three-part series that features the other side of the story: interorganizational cooperation from interagency perspectives. Over the

course of this series, authors from U.S. Government, intergovernmental, non-governmental, and treaty-based organizations argue that broader inclusion of non-DOD perspectives into joint doctrine encourages the identification and propagation of much-needed inter-organizational best practices.

This installment features perspectives from U.S. Federal executive departments and agencies (hereafter referred to as *organizations*). We address many differences among our organizations that can disrupt the planning and execution of interagency agreements. This article argues that better awareness of such

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issues among organizations—especially a recognition of which differences offer opportunities for compromise—would foster improved interagency negotiation and unity of effort throughout whole-of-government endeavors. The following sections sort the differences into three broad categories: *purpose* (goals and objectives), *process* (methods of work and decisionmaking), and *people* (attitude and communication). The sections below address each category in order of increasing potential for compromise. The examples demonstrate that organizations do not willingly budge on purpose-based differences, while process differences offer some room for negotiation. People, however, appear the most malleable in that small efforts yield high payoffs throughout planning and execution.

Differences in Purpose

Joint Publication 1, *Doctrine for the Armed Forces of the United States*, defines *unity of effort* as “coordination and cooperation toward common objectives, even if the participants are not necessarily part of the same command or organization.”² By definition, common objectives or shared purpose are a prerequisite for unity of effort. Naturally, governmental organizations were created to fulfill different functions. For example, the Department of State considers diplomacy the art and practice of conducting negotiations and maintaining relations between nations, while DOD provides for the security of the United States and its interests. When two or more organizations cooperate, their divergent high-level purposes could naturally cascade into opposing objectives at lower organizational levels. This divergence could be exacerbated by three differences: interpretation of higher level guidance, geographic areas of responsibility, and time horizons.

Interpretations of Higher Level Guidance. Competing objectives are often the result of U.S. agencies interpreting the same strategic guidance in different ways. The National Security Strategy contains general guidance and prioritization. In the absence of more

specific comprehensive direction, organizations tend to define their objectives along organizational lines. Early U.S. Government in-fighting in Afghanistan was partially due to the George W. Bush administration’s cancellation of a detailed Presidential policy directive for managing complex contingencies.³

Additionally, blurred congressional jurisdiction contributes to different interpretations of higher level guidance. Co-chairs of the 9/11 Commission report, for instance, related this problem as it pertained to the Department of Homeland Security, stating that “the jurisdictional melee among scores of Congressional committees has led to conflicting and contradictory tasks and mandates for DHS.”⁴ Unfortunately, congressional jurisdiction is not the only blurred line causing competing purposes.

Geographic Areas of Responsibility. A well-documented difference between organizations is the misalignment of their areas of responsibility. There is a notable disparity between DOD, State, and the United States Agency for International Development (USAID) boundaries in North Africa and Southwest Asia. Each organization has valid reasons for its own convention that support organization-specific purposes. Some agencies group countries based on cultural, historical, or economic connections. DOD deliberately separates India and Pakistan to foster discrete military relationships, while State combines them to address issues that pervade the entire region.⁵ The geographic mismatch can also be challenging when a country is clustered with lower priority nations under one organization but grouped with higher priorities in another. Such mismatches precluded comprehensive strategies for countering terrorism and piracy in Africa.⁶

Organizations also tailor their boundaries with inconsistent sizes and scopes. DOD prefers larger, continent-sized groupings, while State and USAID favor smaller subdivisions. USAID has challenges operating within the wide aperture of DOD’s combatant command planners because the vast majority of USAID’s strategic planning occurs within the respective host countries. USAID’s

bottom-up, country-specific approach to strategic planning allows it to better involve host-country governments and local civil societies in solving their own issues, leading to more sustainable and effective solutions.

Despite clear benefits in doing so, organizations are not open to changing their geographic alignment. In a 2012 audit conducted by the Government Accountability Office (GAO), State and USAID stated that the improved geographic alignment associated with the standup of U.S. Africa Command improved cooperation among the three organizations. Despite this acknowledged success, significant objections to a wider alignment of world regions remain. State raised concerns that adjusting its regional bureaus to look like combatant commands would signal a “militarization” of diplomacy, unnerving partners and allies. The Department of Health and Human Services echoes this sentiment, stating that many Americans do not realize the mere fact that the organization represents the U.S. Government can affect relationships in unpredictable ways. Whereas in some relationships this fact is likely to open doors, in others there may be resistance to assent to U.S. wishes for the sole reason that opposition to the United States is a domestic political necessity. Other organizations, such as the Department of Justice and Department of Commerce, cited different reasons, including the burdens of retraining and relocating personnel. Additionally, all agencies professed a need to retain the authority to change their boundaries to adapt to changing mission requirements. All of these factors led GAO to conclude that a government-wide geographic alignment is unlikely, and thus the resulting disagreements over priorities and objectives will endure.

Time Horizons. Finding a common purpose may also take extra effort when different time horizons are involved. A U.S. military civil affairs officer in Afghanistan spoke plainly to a USAID official in Afghanistan, stating, “Our objective is to fight and kill al Qaeda and the Taliban. Your objective is to build a democratic central government. Right



U.S. Army veterinarian trains local Afghans as part of joint effort including Provincial Reconstruction Team Farah, 438th Medical Detachment Veterinary Services, and Special Operations Task Force–West to promote public health in Farah Province (U.S. Navy/Matthew Stroup)

now, our objective is number one, and the consequences of our actions will be your problem in six months.”⁷ Many organizations agree that this type of difference, which may generate inconsistent planning benchmarks with subsequent effects, is not uncommon. While State and USAID perspectives on relationships and programmatic results can stretch into decades, DOD outlooks tend to be much shorter. Thus, viewpoints on downstream effects can be valid yet dissimilar. In extreme instances, DOD may be the first U.S. implementer of civic engagement in an area. As such, these interactions can shape the environment and set expectations of local groups for other governmental organizations, even undermining access for humanitarian partners.

When DOD-USAID coordination is absent, DOD activities may lead local groups to develop unrealistic goals for future governmental interactions, leading to disappointment, resentment, and

possible anger toward the United States. It can also undermine many of the tools USAID uses to motivate populations to engage in solving their own problems. For example, early in Operation *Enduring Freedom*, the U.S. military was incentivized to achieve “quick wins” in civic and humanitarian assistance activities. As a result, commanders spent large sums of money quickly often without considering the downstream effects. One unintended consequence of cash infusion on Afghanistan’s agrarian economy was a change in consumer behavior for veterinary services. While USAID had been conducting long-term livelihood training for veterinarians and vet technicians in the country, the military’s free veterinary services completely undercut the ability of USAID-trained veterinarians to make a living. As a result, farmers chose not to pay for local services because they could wait and receive free civic services from military programming.⁸ A contemporary

USAID official eloquently summarized that spending money quickly in unstable areas usually means unstable results.⁹

Best Practice: Finding Shared Purpose. Different interpretations of higher level policy usually only see resolution at the highest level. The National Security Council (NSC) staff can settle such disparities by issuing clarifying guidance in the form of Presidential policy directives that clearly state goals and responsibilities for a particular mission.¹⁰ Another possible mechanism to encourage shared purpose is a congressionally mandated review to include national security. Although the State Department and USAID 2010 Quadrennial Diplomacy and Development Review is not congressionally mandated, it identified the need to turn to other governmental agencies for experience and expertise in performing international functions. Both Homeland Security and Justice viewed this recognition as positive. Given

that congressionally mandated reviews may better instigate change, the U.S. Government could benefit from mandated reviews for all Federal executive departments or those departments only participating in the NSC system.¹¹ A single comprehensive Quadrennial Security Review for those departments under the NSC system also could be beneficial.¹²

But not all interagency friction occurs at a level that warrants NSC or congressional attention. At the operational and tactical/field level, organization officials have to work through challenges. Organizations may have varying functions, but those do not prevent a shared purpose for a portion of the mission. “Promote Cooperation” is a DOD forum in which combatant commanders request input and feedback on their plans from non-DOD counterparts. Simulations and workshops can help organizations find common ground that previously did not exist. In geographic combatant commands, military planners determined that there was a need to track, integrate with, and support efforts with State Department activities to preclude the need for a noncombatant evacuation operation executed by the military. The functional combatant commands also embed civilian organization liaisons into their command structures.¹³ Even if objectives cannot align, the liaisons and humanitarian advisors can look one or two organizational levels down to identify opportunities of mutual interest, for instance. Homeland Security and the Federal Emergency Management Agency (FEMA) also benefit with embedding DOD liaisons in their organizations, which can prevent late resource requests that end up in unfilled requirements.

With respect to differing time horizons, organizations with a longer view can seek short-term cooperative opportunities with partners who have less time available. These opportunities, if taken, may overcome unintended consequences toward government efforts. Because unity of effort requires common objectives, when there is no obvious shared purpose the organizations must actively seek common ground. The idea is not to force an unnatural cooperation but rather

to find the hidden symbiotic relationship that provides mutual benefit. A shared purpose is the first step toward a framework of cooperation: a shared process.

Differences in Process

Once interagency participants share a purpose, they can plan the shared process to achieve it. U.S. Government organizations typically codify mutually beneficial arrangements in the form of a general memorandum of understanding (MOU) or a detailed, more binding memorandum of agreement (MOA).¹⁴ An example of a successful shared process is the Homeland Security National Response Framework (NRF).¹⁵ This off-the-shelf plan establishes roles and responsibilities for orchestrating the government’s comprehensive domestic disaster response. An example of how process differences preclude a much-needed agreement is in the stalled International Response Framework (IRF).¹⁶ The current Federal system for foreign disaster response, led by USAID, is effective for normal disasters. However, complex overseas catastrophes involving infrastructure collapse (for example, Haiti) or radiological events (such as in Fukushima), especially in developed or big modern cities, beg for an international response capability comparable to the NRF. Such complexities aggravate the process difference of would-be participants. To arrive at a shared process such as an MOA or MOU, U.S. Government organizations must first compare the processes—namely, decisionmaking and methods of work—of their individual organizations.

Decisionmaking. Many organizations view DOD as overly bureaucratic. The department’s sheer size and complexity can make liaison and cooperation difficult for other organizations. For starters, DOD’s enormity can cause a resource and power disparity. Smaller organizations may be reluctant to cooperate for fear of their efforts being co-opted and/or losing turf and resources.¹⁷ Other organizations do not have the manning or time to participate in planning events or other settings to the extent that DOD does or might expect. Similarly, the broad

mission set and needs of DOD make it difficult for civilian agencies to find points of contact that can speak with finality.

Each organization has its own decisionmaking habits and may employ command structures that are more flexible and fluid than those of DOD. Staffing decisions for a special project or specific incident may be based more on individuals’ subject matter expertise than on their rank, grade, or position. This facilitates application of the best resources to a given problem, but it may also cause temporary changes to traditional chains of command or result in coordination points that reside at different levels within each respective organization. Some organizations may also take a different approach to managing an incident. While DOD manages largely through individuals within a rank structure, the Department of Housing and Urban Development (HUD) manages disaster response through an internal committee known as the Disaster Management Group. So while action officers in DOD may only need the approval of an individual, action officers within HUD may need the approval of an entire committee.

Methods of Work. While DOD is accustomed to global connectivity, it is easy to forget that sharing data with interagency partners may not be as easy. Much of the information that DOD possesses is classified, and the rationale for many decisions requires access to classified material. The inability to quickly declassify this information so it can be shared with non-DOD and U.S. Government organizations hinders effective engagement by many DOD senior leaders and action officers. Additionally, the lack of linguistic expertise and cultural sensitivity on the part of many DOD members is a hindrance to effective cooperation.

Some organizational cultures are diametrically opposed to that of DOD. The military’s strict chain of command and requirement to unquestioningly follow lawful orders are foreign to organizations such as the Department of Energy (DOE) and its need to challenge and question, which are hallmarks of good science. Other practices such as addressing everyone, other than the most

senior leadership, by first name may be mistaken by DOD as disrespectful, while non-DOD meeting attendees are often mystified when everyone leaps to their feet when a general walks in. Working hours can be another contrasting trait. Although many organizations maintain a constant high operational tempo, some operate according to “traditional business hours.” This can create challenges during time-sensitive operations such as disaster response. Although organizations such as DOD, DOE, or FEMA may be able to vet and approve actions quickly, including at night and over weekends, traditional hour operations may have staff working extra hours in support of an incident. The reachback of these other organizations to headquarters or leadership for technical assistance may be delayed during non-work hours because the organization is not structured or staffed to maintain its full suite of capabilities 24/7.

Best Practice: Compromise for Shared Process. DOD has learned in the last decade that trying to predict a partner’s reaction to a situation can be clouded by a common tendency known as mirror-imaging: assuming the other side will act in a certain way because that is how you would act under similar circumstances. In recent conflicts, mirror-imaging has led to poor assumptions and offended partners. Without awareness of a partner’s organizational culture, mirror-imaging can also be a problem in interagency cooperation. By improving organizational cultural awareness, U.S. Government organizations can compare their processes to find room for compromise. The resulting interagency plan will reflect not only a vetted shared purpose but a shared process as well: one that incorporates decisionmaking mechanisms and methods of work compatible for all participants. For example, under the NRF, several organizations that are accustomed to leading have yielded in the name of a shared purpose and process. FEMA is designated as the supported organization and a host of governmental organizations, including DOD, are in appropriate supporting roles. As FEMA assigns missions to meet specific assistance requirements, it also tells DOD what is needed, where

to take it, and how that assistance will be integrated into the larger Federal support operation. Complex overseas catastrophes involving chemical or radiological events, such as Fukushima, reinforce the need for a comparable IRF. Additionally, DOD information-sharing obstacles facing non-DOD personnel during time-sensitive operations underpin the need for more efficient ways of doing business.

It is important for DOD representatives to remember that organizational process differences are just that: differences. There is not a right or wrong organizational culture—just one that best suits the purpose of the organization. Avoiding the tendency to mirror-image will prevent poor assumptions and temper expectations. Each organization should clearly articulate its needs, resources, abilities, authorities, and, most importantly, its constraints. Many issues arise from one party making assumptions about another party based on its own way of doing things. Clear communication of requirements and timelines upfront affords the opportunity to mitigate missed connections down the line. To reinforce positive communication among organizations, MOAs and MOUs are good foundations for a shared process, and an accessible DOD central repository would enhance awareness on how the department interacts with interagency partners.

People: Communication Makes Workarounds Work

People actively search for a common purpose. People compromise to forge a common process. People make decisions, and people do the work—with other people from other organizations. U.S. Department of Agriculture (USDA) representatives reported that their ability to work effectively with interagency partners in Iraq and Afghanistan depended almost entirely on developing positive interpersonal relationships based on trust.¹⁸ There are three types of communication differences that have stalled personal relationships in the past: terminology, information-sharing, and attitude.

Terminology. Anyone who has experienced a DOD meeting knows the military

speaks a unique language peppered with jargon, acronyms, and high-tech PowerPoint lingo. But a unique language has evolved at other organizations as well, and each side is often unaware that a common word has a different meaning to the other. One well-known example is the word *intelligence*, while in fairly common use (as in “medical intelligence”) on both the military and civilian sides, it can cause difficulties in other settings when it may be interpreted as a form of espionage. Many organizations echo this sentiment. Without prior knowledge, DOD partners can also read a more militaristic intent into innocuous DOD terms such as *targeting* when, in fact, a DOD author may only be referring to selectivity and focus with no context of violent action whatsoever. While militaristic terminology can make interagency players question DOD’s intentions, withholding information can cause longstanding issues of trust.

Information-sharing. Often the military is required to withhold information out of operational necessity. However, what looks like a clear operational necessity to DOD will not always appear as clear-cut to other organizations. A senior civilian State official expressed his frustration at his organization’s lack of awareness of DOD special operations missions: “None of us knew in many cases what they [DOD] were doing until an operation had already taken place. There was one really bad issue where Special Forces killed the wrong guys, and [the country team] had to explain it all to [Afghan president Hamid] Karzai without even having known such an operation would take place.”¹⁹ DOD is not expected to curb this practice, only to ensure the decision to withhold information is a calculated one because even justified instances can erode trust.

Even more damaging cases of withheld information are those due to negligence. Another senior civilian was more incredulous when DOD withheld mission results long after a mission went bad: “They bombed a wedding party; we heard about it way after the fact. If we had heard sooner, we could have helped mitigate the effects.”²⁰

Attitude. Organizational cultures also affect how individuals act and treat



U.S. military humanitarian assistance capabilities support emergency relief efforts at Fukushima Daiichi Nuclear Power Plant (U.S. Air Force/Shane A. Cuomo)

others. Mirror-imaging was shown to lead to poor assumptions about decision-making practices and methods of work used in organizations. The same concept can apply to individuals with equally damaging results. Differences in organizational attitude are merely unjustified perceptions—that is, stereotypes. Even though a person works for an organization with a certain reputation, uniform, rank, or grade, there are, quite often, more similarities than expected. A senior USAID official relayed his change of heart about working with military officers in Afghanistan:

Ambassador Khalilzad asked a bunch of military planners to come in and do planning. The idea among USAID . . . staff that we'd have five colonels working with us to do our planning . . . was uncomfortable. But the more we got to know them, the more we respected their talent, skill, hard work. . . . We realized we were on the same team. They pushed us, challenged us, made

*us think. Most USAID people never work with the military, so this whole experience was new.*²¹

Another USAID official explained a progressive experience in Afghanistan: “At one point I [told senior officials in Washington] that I thought we had a hell of a lot in common with the uniformed military, which was rebellious to say and stunned them. I said that they are operational, mission oriented, have a command and control structure and chain of command, plan well and do strategies well, and we [at] USAID do all the same.”²²

Best Practice. Cross-organizational communication fundamentals are an easy fix with huge payoffs throughout the planning and execution of an interagency endeavor. Given enough time, U.S. Government representatives learn that people from other organizations are not as different as they assumed. If DOD personnel can avoid the prescribed missteps and get off on the right foot, they can

build vital interpersonal relationships without struggling to earn respect over many months or years. More frequent personal interaction will only accelerate the process and build trust. For example, USAID encourages DOD field personnel to reach out directly to USAID country staff in both tactical and strategic planning. At the same time, USAID strives to educate its own staff as to why DOD may be engaging in activities that could be considered within USAID's purview and how to productively interact with such activities. USAID continues its DOD outreach to build on cooperative efforts with its new policy on cooperation with DOD.²³

One aspect of this policy is already proved. Interagency collocation was widely recognized as a best practice in Afghanistan. Collocation at multiple levels of decisionmaking made possible regular joint analysis and planning and facilitated relationship development and mutual learning.²⁴ Almost immediately after Lieutenant General David Barno,

USA, took command of the combined forces in Afghanistan in 2003, he moved his headquarters to the Embassy compound. Barno and Ambassador Zalmay Khalilzad saw each other for a few hours every morning and every evening. The Ambassador emphasized the benefits of collocation: “Being . . . so close facilitated more frequent interaction, not only by telephone. . . . We made a commitment that what was important was the mission, that we were a single team.”²⁵ Collocation helps mitigate all three identified categories of differences. Neighbors learn each other’s language, they feel obliged to share information as much as possible, and they give respect and trust where it is due.

Perhaps practice makes perfect. The more opportunities organizations have to collaborate in more detail on a recurring basis, the better prepared they will be to collaborate during a crisis. Increasing the number of contact points and collaborative projects among agencies will bring greater familiarity for each of the others. It is the relationships fostered on a continual basis that will facilitate efficiency when time is of the essence.

More interaction in force development venues will also allow subject matter experts to better identify and proliferate much-needed best practices. Although war college students will read lessons learned such as from the State Department and USDA, the other 90 percent of the military will not look for those perspectives. DOD joint force development continuously grows in importance due to the acknowledgment that no single military Service can win a war on its own. In Iraq and Afghanistan, the United States learned that no single governmental organization could stabilize a war-torn region alone. A similar theme emerged at Fukushima and in Haiti. If DOD continues to be asked to support executive decisions in nontraditional military operations and complex catastrophes, which are likely callings for DOD in the years to come, then interagency force development at the strategic, operational, and tactical levels must be cultivated.

This article raises awareness on U.S. Government organizational purpose, process, and people differences. By presenting non-DOD perspectives, we aim to facilitate DOD interagency cooperation through improved awareness of negotiation pitfalls. By definition, unity of effort requires unity of purpose. Partners may have different purposes for the task at hand, but comparing objectives across time, space, and organizational level can unearth commonalities. Once a shared purpose is found, comparing process differences will identify friction points that must be negotiated before codifying a shared process. Where purpose and process differences present significant structural barriers to compromise, interpersonal relationships just take a little effort and are widely recognized as the most important facilitator in interagency cooperation. As new interagency differences and best practices emerge, broader inclusion of interagency perspectives into joint doctrine ensures these updates are captured throughout the continuous cycle of joint doctrine revision. It broadens the audience and truly expands the envelope of interagency coordination per the Chairman’s remit. The second installment of the Interorganizational Cooperation series expands the envelope further beyond the U.S. Government with perspectives from intergovernmental, nongovernmental, and treaty-based organizations. JFQ

Notes

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² Joint Publication (JP) 1, *Doctrine for the Armed Forces of the United States* (Washington, DC: The Joint Staff, March 25, 2013), GL-13. JP 3-08, *Interorganizational Coordination During Joint Operations* (Washington, DC: The Joint Staff, June 24, 2011), which is traditionally the one-stop shop for non-DOD and nongovernmental entities to enter into the joint doctrine hierarchy, is presently under revision with an expected signature date in 2016.

³ Andrea Strimling Yodsampa, *Coordinating for Results: Lessons from a Case Study of Interagency Coordination in Afghanistan* (Washington, DC: IBM Center for the Business of

Government, 2013), 13. In an effort to capture institutional lessons from complex operations, the Clinton administration issued Presidential Policy Directive 56, *Managing Complex Contingency Operations*, in May 1997. The Bush administration replaced it in 2005 with the issuance of National Security Presidential Directive 44, *Management of Interagency Efforts Concerning Stabilization and Reconstruction*.

⁴ Frederick M. Kaiser, *Interagency Collaborative Arrangements and Activities*, R41803 (Washington, DC: Congressional Research Service, May 31, 2011), 16.

⁵ John H. Pendleton and Jacquelyn L. Williams-Bridgers, *Interagency Collaboration: Implications of a Common Alignment of World Regions among Select Federal Agencies*, GAO-11-776R (Washington, DC: Government Accountability Office, July 11, 2011), 17.

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¹³ Pendleton and Williams-Bridgers, 26.

¹⁴ DOD Instruction 4000.19, “Support Agreements,” April 25, 2013, 28.

¹⁵ *National Response Framework* (Washington, DC: Department of Homeland Security, January 2008).

¹⁶ *Independent Review of the U.S. Government Response to the Haiti Earthquake: Final Report* (Washington, DC: U.S. Agency for International Development [USAID], March 28, 2011), 86; *Quadrennial Diplomacy and Development Review* (Washington, DC: Department of State, July 2009), 140.

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¹⁸ Bernie Carreau, “Lessons from USDA in Iraq and Afghanistan,” *PRISM* 1, no. 3 (June 2010), 144.

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²¹ Carreau, 144.

²² Yodsampa, 19.

²³ Alfonso E. Lenhardt, *USAID Policy on Cooperation with the Department of Defense* (Washington, DC: USAID, June 2015).

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Joint Guide for

INTERAGENCY DOCTRINE



4 November 2019



Supplement to Joint Publication 3-08
Interorganizational Cooperation Appendices

PREFACE

1. Scope

This first edition of *Joint Guide for Interagency Doctrine* represents a major milestone in our efforts to improve interoperability among United States Government (USG) federal workforces. It attempts to socialize interagency frameworks at the strategic level with the focus on national security. This document is not authoritative, definitive of the activities of any of department or agency, nor binding to the USG, but instead compiles information from a variety of authoritative sources.

2. Purpose and Application

This document was prepared under the direction of the Joint Doctrine Interorganizational Cooperation committee. Its purpose is to improve communication and mutual understanding within the federal government and increase workforce efficiencies using the enclosed as a starting point for interoperability solutions. Content, much of it drawn from existing organizational materials, was chosen for its interagency and workforce significance. This document is not intended to be an all-inclusive compilation of interagency material, replace any organizational policy or doctrinal document, nor to recommend one concept or practice over others. In no event will it become a vehicle for establishing, interpreting or replacing policy, rules, regulations, but can provide insight and a starting point on a doctrine for understanding and improving unity of effort among workforces. This document is not intended to be used as a legal document, nor reflect all relevant statutory provisions, regulations or other guidance nor restrict the authority of the USG from organizing the workforce and executing activities in a manner the President deems most appropriate.

3. Revision

Future editions will be updated based on upon properly formatted material submitted by departments and agencies during annual reviews and according to demand. Organizations are responsible for providing update requests for consideration to the Department of Defense (DOD) / Joint Chiefs of Staff / George Katsos / Program Manager through the Joint Staff's Annual Call Memo via Executive Secretariats and direct interagency stakeholder requests. Per this effort, we acknowledge and intend to inform but in no way counter any other on-going engagement and cooperation by civilian or military entities to include those in the Joint Staff in their quest to improve interoperability with counterparts.



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Doctrine Division

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CHAPTER I

FOUNDATIONS

1. National Interests

National interests are usually expressed in national level policies and determine our country's involvement in the rest of the world. In general, the President articulates national interests within strategic documents or through executive action. The protection of these interests often bring the country into either competition or conflict with other nations and entities within the international arena. When US interests are incompatible with other states or actors who seek to protect or advance their own interests, competition among these entities take many forms of interaction to include coercion, deterrence, or attraction of others in order to leverage and gain advantage within the competition space.

2. National Strategic Direction

National strategic direction is governed by the Constitution, US law, USG policy regarding internationally recognized law, and the national interest as represented by national security policy. The President, assisted by the National Security Council (NSC) and other councils, provides strategic direction that guide the synchronization and USG activities. As an overarching term, strategic direction encompasses processes and action that the President, Cabinet secretaries, and agency heads provide for their workforces to accomplish national security objectives. For security purposes, the President signs the National Security Strategy (NSS) in which the NSC is the principal forum that coordinates its strategic-level implementation.

3. National Power

Power is the ability to act or produce an effect. In the context of national security, power is distributed and used in the pursuit of national interests based on national agendas and demands. The process of distributing power may be peaceful and orderly or violent and chaotic. The USG has many elements of national power at its disposal. Commonly referred to as DIME (Diplomatic, Information, Military, Economic) when employed for national security reasons, national power can also include the statecraft resources of Finance, Intelligence, and Law Enforcement. Many of the individual agencies bring their own workforce footprint to make up these elements of national power therefore becoming instruments of USG policy upon employment. These efforts support and operate harmoniously with the other instruments of national power as part of an integrated cohesive whole-of-government approach. At any point in time, one of the instruments is usually playing the principal role in advancing a national strategy while the others support.

4. Strategic Approaches

The US faces complex threats and security challenges that require innovative responses. US steady state or response activities range from peaceful cooperation, to competition below armed conflict, to armed conflict. Moving through this spectrum of

activities crosses important conceptual thresholds as parties shift from generally friendly to increasingly adversarial interactions.

Unified action is a comprehensive effort that focuses on coordination and cooperation of civilian and military entities toward common objectives, even if the participants are not necessarily part of the same command or organization. The translation of national objectives into unified action is essential to the unity of effort through a military command-and-control method and a civilian consensus-based cooperation system towards success. A whole-of-government approach integrates the cooperative efforts of USG departments and agencies toward unity of effort between them. For both international and domestic activities, whole-of-government efforts are facilitated through mechanisms set up by presidential and organizational policies. A number of civilian agencies and organizations—each with their own mandates, capabilities, authorities, and objectives—compete with each other and can undermine the whole-of-government progress. In support of a whole-of-government approach, strategic art as an intellectual process can create conditions for the USG bureaucracy to work. This includes understanding the major international, diplomatic, political, and security challenges impacting success, the potential ways that the US might employ its national means to attain desired ends, and visualizing how deployed workforces can support and/or enable national success.

For more information see: Joint Publication 1, Doctrine for the Armed Forces of the United States, at <https://www.jcs.mil/Doctrine/Joint-Doctrine-Pubs/Capstone-Series/>

CHAPTER II ORGANIZATION

1. The National Security Council System

The NSC system is a process that coordinates executive departments and agencies to develop and implement effective national security policies. Its principal forum, the NSC, has its regular attendees (both statutory and non-statutory) that normally include the President, the Vice President, the Secretary of State, the Secretary of the Treasury, the Secretary of Defense, and the Assistant to the President for National Security Affairs.

2. National Security Council

The NSC is the President's principal staff for considering national security and foreign policy matters with senior national security advisors and Cabinet officials. It serves as the President's principal arm for coordinating policy matters among various USG departments and agencies. Its function is to advise and assist the President to integrate all aspects of national security policy as it affects the US. The NSC develops policy options, considers implications, coordinates operational problems that require interdepartmental consideration, develops recommendations for the President, and monitors policy implementation. The NSC manages an interagency process that is strategic, agile, transparent, and predictable to advance US national security interests. At its core, the purpose of the interagency process is to advance the President's policy priorities and, more generally, to serve the national interest by ensuring all USG departments and agencies, and perspectives contribute to achieving these priorities, and participate in formulating and implementing policy. Those who participate in the interagency process do so as representatives of their respective USG departments and agencies. They also serve the nation's greater interests by being participants in a unique process to resolve common problems and advance common policies. The three levels of formal NSC interagency committees are the Principals Committee (PC), Deputies Committee (DC), and Policy Coordination Committees (PCCs). The PC is the senior Cabinet-level interagency forum for consideration of policy chaired by the National Security Advisor. The DC is the senior sub-Cabinet-level interagency forum chaired by the Deputy National Security Advisor to ensure issues being brought before the PC or the NSC have been properly analyzed and prepared for decision. PCCs are the main day-to-day fora for interagency coordination of national security policy that ensure timely responses to decisions made by the President. The PPCs are established at the direction of the DC, and chaired by senior NSC staff and convene on a regular basis to review and coordinate the implementation of presidential decisions in their policy areas.

3. Other Councils

The Homeland Security Council is tasked with advising the President on matters relating to homeland security. The Homeland Security Advisor is subordinate and under the direction of the National Security Advisor. Regular attendees include the President, Vice President, Secretaries of State, of the Treasury, Defense, Homeland Security, and Attorney General. The Domestic Policy Council supervises the development,

coordination, and execution of domestic policy for the President, and also offers advice to the President and represents Presidential priorities to Congress. Regular attendees include the President, Vice president, Attorney General, and the Secretaries of Health and Human Services, Homeland Security, Labor, Veterans Affairs, Interior, Education, Housing and Urban Development, Agriculture, Transportation, Commerce, Energy and the Treasury. The National Economic Council is the principal forum used by the President for considering economic policy matters (separate from those above) including: healthcare, tax and retirement, the financial system, macroeconomics, infrastructure, agriculture, technology, telecom, cyber-security, energy and the environment, and trade. Regular attendees include the President, Vice president, and the Secretaries of the Treasury, Agriculture, Commerce, Labor, Housing and Urban Development, Transportation, Energy and Health and Human Services.

4. Nature of Workforce Interaction

The Executive Branch of the USG is organized by function with each department performing certain core tasks. Each US department and agency of the Executive Branch is established by its enabling or organic legislation. Congress appropriates department and agency funds based on the missions set forth in that legislation, and the ability of an agency to execute specific missions is therefore constrained by both its general authority under its enabling legislation (i.e., whether the enabling legislation allows it to perform certain functions) and the availability of funding to perform those the activities permitted under the enabling legislation. The Economy Act provides agencies the authority to provide services to, or secure the services of, another executive agency for in-house performance or performance by contract where there is no other statutory authority. The head of an agency or major organizational unit within an agency may place an order for goods or services with a major organizational unit within the same agency or another agency under certain circumstances.

For more information see: National Security Presidential Memorandum-4, Organization of the National Security Council, the Homeland Security Council, and Subcommittees; Interorganizational Cooperation I of III - The Interagency Perspective JFQ 79, 2015; Interorganizational Cooperation II of III - The Humanitarian Perspective JFQ 80, 2016; Interorganizational Cooperation III of III The Joint Force Perspective JFQ 81, 2016, at <https://www.jcs.mil/Doctrine/Interorganizational-Documents/>

CHAPTER III

FEDERAL GOVERNMENT STRUCTURES

1. United States Government

The USG and its workforce assists in achieving foreign and domestic objectives. Abroad, the Department of State (DOS) is the lead foreign agency that assists the President in foreign policy formulation and execution. For overseas development and disaster response the US Agency for International Development (USAID) is designated the lead federal agency for USG activities. During conflict, DOD leads efforts until a legitimate government is established for DOS or USAID diplomacy and interaction. In management and support of domestic activities, DHS is designated the lead foreign agency for homeland security. DHS unifies national efforts to secure America by preventing and deterring terrorist attacks and protecting against, and responding to, threats and hazards to the nation. For homeland defense, DOD is the lead federal agency. In this role, DOD manages efforts to protect US sovereignty, territory, domestic populations and critical defense infrastructure against external threats and aggression, or other threats. The following discusses three structures and frameworks.

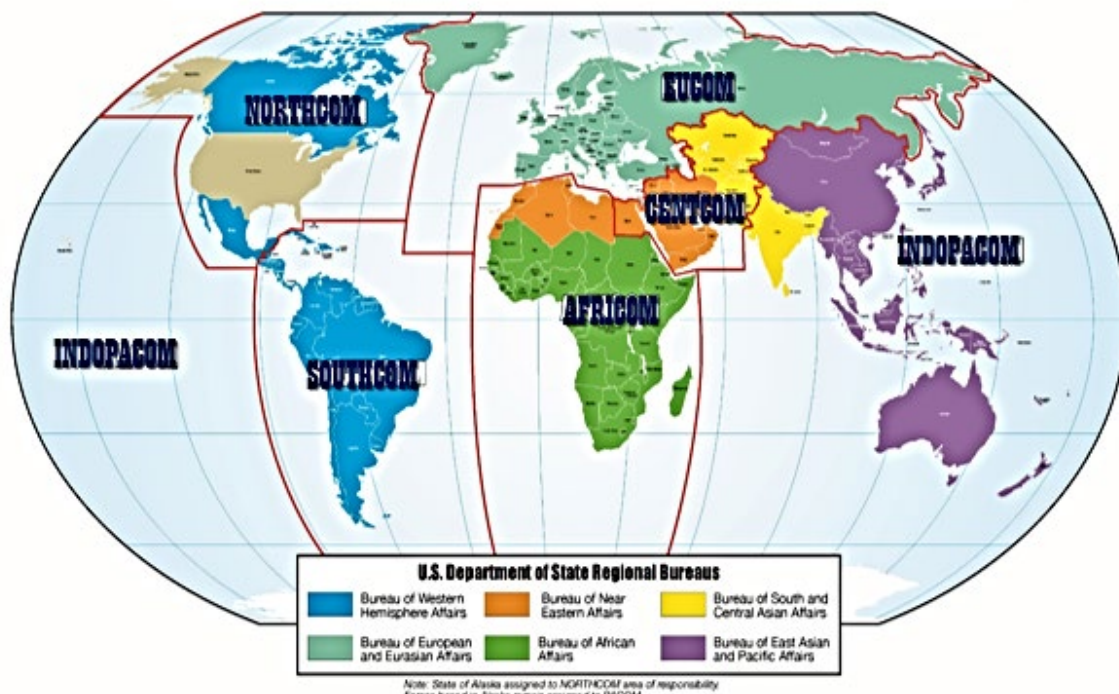
2. Structure in Foreign Countries

The US has bilateral diplomatic relations with almost all of the world's independent states. The US bilateral representation in the foreign country, known as the diplomatic mission, is established in accordance with the Vienna Convention on Diplomatic Relations, of which the US is a party. DOS provides the core staff of a diplomatic mission and administers the presence of representatives of other USG departments and agencies in the country. A diplomatic mission is led by a chief of mission (COM), usually the ambassador, but at times another person designated by the President, or the chargé d'affaires (the chargé) when no US ambassador is accredited to the country or the ambassador is absent from the country. The deputy chief of mission (DCM) is second in charge of the mission and usually assumes the role of chargé in the absence of the COM. In some countries the entire diplomatic mission will operate out of the US embassy in the host nation's (HNs) capital city. In other countries the diplomatic mission will include consulates, consulates general, or other offices or facilities (constituent posts) in other parts of the host country. For countries with which the US has no diplomatic relations, the embassy of another country represents US interests and at times houses an interests section staffed with USG employees. In countries where an international organization is headquartered, the US may have a multilateral mission to the international organization in addition to the bilateral mission to the host country.

The country team, headed by the COM, is the senior in-country interagency coordinating body. It is composed of the COM, DCM, section heads, the senior member of each USG department or agency in country, and other USG personnel, as determined by the COM. Each member presents the position of the parent organization to the country team and conveys country team considerations back to the parent organization. The COM confers with the country team to develop and implement foreign policy toward the HN and to disseminate decisions to the members of the mission. Within the executive branch, DOS

is the lead foreign affairs agency, assisting the President in foreign policy formulation and execution. DOS oversees the coordination of DOD external political-military relationships with overall US foreign policy and is the lead for coordinated interagency security sector assistance planning. USAID is the lead agency for overseas development and disaster response and is the lead implementing agency for non-security US stabilization assistance. The USAID mission is led by the mission director who is the senior-most USAID official at post, who could be a mission director, country representative, senior development advisor, or hold another position. Both USAID and DOS provide a competitive forward deployed political capability that achieve national objectives.

Organizational differences between DOS and DOD can complicate efforts to coordinate interagency activities whose execution or effects extend beyond one country. Overseas activities of DOS are, like diplomatic activities in general, heavily focused on country-by-country bilateral engagement, as opposed to DOD's more regional focus under military geographic combatant commands (GCCs). There is no DOS official resident in an overseas region who supervises or coordinates the activities of multiple US diplomatic missions. DOS Regional Bureaus are also distributed differently than DOD GCCs. Below is the DOD GCCs overlay on DOS Regional Bureau areas of responsibilities.



The DOS focal point for formulation and implementation of regional foreign policy strategies is the regional bureau headed by an assistant secretary at DOS in Washington, DC. USAID has a similar structure, with geographic bureaus headed by assistant administrators in Washington, DC. Even when these DOS and USAID regional bureaus undertake region-wide activities or coordination, the regional boundaries do not entirely match those of DOD's GCC areas of responsibility. Thus, a single GCC will often have to coordinate with two DOS or USAID regional bureaus, and vice versa. Although DOD

combatant commanders will often find it more expeditious to approach the COMs for approval of an activity in HNs, the political effect of the proposed US military activity usually goes beyond the boundaries of the individual HN. In such cases the DOD combatant commander (CCDR) should not assume that the position of the COM corresponds to the region-wide position of DOS. The CCDR's policy advisor can assist in ascertaining whether the activity has regional bureau approval.

The overall USG global plan for diplomacy and development is the DOS/USAID Joint Strategic Plan (JSP). JSP provides a four year framework for advancing US diplomatic and development efforts abroad in alignment with the NSS. DOS and USAID regional bureaus work together to produce joint regional strategies. DOS functional bureaus each produce their own strategy to guide efforts in their respective areas. COMs prepare an integrated country strategy every four years that sets USG goals and objectives with respect to the host country, and establish action plans to achieve those objectives with input from interagency Country Team and relevant US departments and agencies. The resulting integrated country strategy is a concise, streamlined document that articulates whole-of-government priorities in a given country in support of higher-level strategic plans and policy. The country development cooperation strategy is a five-year country-level strategy that defines USAID's approach (all USAID overseas operating units) for how USAID will design and implement projects and activities. It is used to inform dialogue with Congress, engage host country partners and other stakeholders, including the private sector and civil society.

3. Key Domestic Frameworks and Structures

Through a series of systems, frameworks, and plans, the nation has developed a single, comprehensive approach to domestic incident management that enables it to systematically prevent, prepare for, respond to, and recover from terrorist attacks, major disasters, and other emergencies. The establishment of a single, comprehensive national incident management system known as the National Incident Management System (NIMS) provides a systematic, proactive societal approach to reduce the loss of life, property, and harm to the environment. Within Department of Homeland Security (DHS), the Federal Emergency Management Agency (FEMA) develops policy, strategy, and the aforementioned doctrinal products. For example, the National Response Framework (NRF) is a guide that details how the nation conducts all-hazards response-from the smallest incident to the largest catastrophe. It also identifies response principles, the roles and responsibilities of numerous federal departments and agencies, as well as the structures that organize national response and describes how communities, states, the USG, private sector, and domestic NGO stakeholders apply these principles to coordinate a national response. The NRF base document is also reinforced by Emergency Support Function (ESF) annexes with support annexes that provide concept of operations, procedures, and structures to achieve response directly for all stakeholders to fulfill their roles under the NRF. Certain statutes also provide a critical component to response. For example, the Robert T. Stafford Disaster Relief and Emergency Assistance Act gives the President the authority to declare an area a major disaster, declare an area an emergency, exercise ten-day emergency authority, and send in federal assets when an emergency occurs in an area

over which the federal government exercises primary responsibility. The following key domestic frameworks are facilitated by FEMA:

- **National Prevention Framework** - describes what the whole community should do upon the discovery of intelligence or information regarding an imminent threat to the homeland in order to thwart an initial or follow-on terrorist attack.
- **National Protection Framework** - describes what to do to safeguard against acts of terrorism, natural disasters and other threats or hazards.
- **National Mitigation Framework** - establishes a common platform and forum for coordinating and addressing how the nation manages risk mitigation.
- **National Response Framework (NRF)** - a guide to how the nation responds to all types of disasters and emergencies.
- **National Disaster Recovery Framework (NDRF)** - a guide that enables effective recovery support to disaster-impacted states, tribes, and local jurisdictions.

Other Partnerships. International cooperation also is practiced in our hemisphere including with Canada, Mexico, and the Bahamas. For Canada, the North American Aerospace Defense Command, DOD through US Northern Command (USNORTHCOM), and Canada Joint Operations Command share the task of defending North America and building cooperative approaches to ensure its security. The military commands have complementary missions and work closely together to meet their individual and collective responsibilities for the defense and security of North America. DOD through USNORTHCOM also works in partnership with the Mexican military and civil response partners to increase mutual long-term capacity to counter common security threats and build consequence management capability. Coordination facilitates a whole-of-government approach to a wide range of programs, events, and activities that strengthen the bilateral relationship and the collective defense of our respective nations. For the Bahamas, DOD through USNORTHCOM works in partnership with the Royal Bahamas Defence Force and their National Emergency Management Agency civil response partners to increase long-term capacity to counter security threats to both the Bahamas and the United States and build cooperative consequence management capabilities.

State, Local, Territorial, and Tribal Entities and Other Non-Federal Workforces. Domestic state, local, territorial, and tribal government (SLTT) authorities may request or require federal assistance for incidents with potentially serious long-term effects that require a coordinated response across organizations and jurisdictions, political boundaries, sectors of society, and multiple organizations. This may include federal military forces (active and reserve) for a contingency response. The National Guard of each state and territory coordinate among federal, and SLTT governments to prevent, protect against, and respond to threats and natural disasters. When a disaster threatens or occurs, a governor may request federal assistance. If DOD support is required and approved as part of that federal assistance, then DOD may execute mission assignments in support of the primary federal agency that often result in a wide range of assistance to SLTT authorities. Incidents can have a mix of public health, economic, social, environmental, criminal, and political implications with potentially serious long-term effects. Significant incidents require a

coordinated response across organizations and jurisdictions, political boundaries, sectors of society, and multiple organizations. Each US state and territory has an office of emergency services (OES), or an equivalent office (e.g., the office of emergency management), responsible to plan and assist the governor in response to emergencies. The OES coordinates state or territorial assistance to its local governments through authority of the governor or state military leader known as the Adjutant General (TAG). The OES operates the state emergency operations center during a disaster or emergency and coordinates with federal officials for support, if required. The state will usually designate a state coordinating officer, with authorities similar to the federal coordinating officer, to coordinate and integrate federal and state activities.

Domestic Law Enforcement. When requested, federal forces may provide support to federal, state, territory, tribal, insular areas, and local law enforcement organizations reacting to civil disturbances, conducting border security and counterdrug missions, preparing for antiterrorism operations, and participating in other related law enforcement activities. For DOD personnel, the requested support must be consistent with the limits Congress placed on military support to law enforcement through laws such as the Posse Comitatus Act that restricts its participation in civilian law enforcement activities.

*For more information on USG see: The United States Government Manual at
[https://www.jcs.mil/Doctrine/Interorganizational-Documents/
Joint Publication 3-08, Interorganizational Cooperation, and JP 3-28 Defense Support of Civil Authorities](https://www.jcs.mil/Doctrine/Interorganizational-Documents/Joint%20Publication%203-08,%20Interorganizational%20Cooperation,%20and%20JP%203-28%20Defense%20Support%20of%20Civil%20Authorities)
at <https://www.jcs.mil/Doctrine/Joint-Doctrine-Pubs/3-0-Operations-Series/>;
DHS Executive Guide to Domestic Incident Management and Support and other FEMA documents at
<https://www.fema.gov/national-preparedness-resource-library>;
Domestic Operation Law 2018 Handbook for Judge Advocates at
https://www.loc.gov/rr/frd/Military_Law/CLAMO.html*

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CHAPTER IV

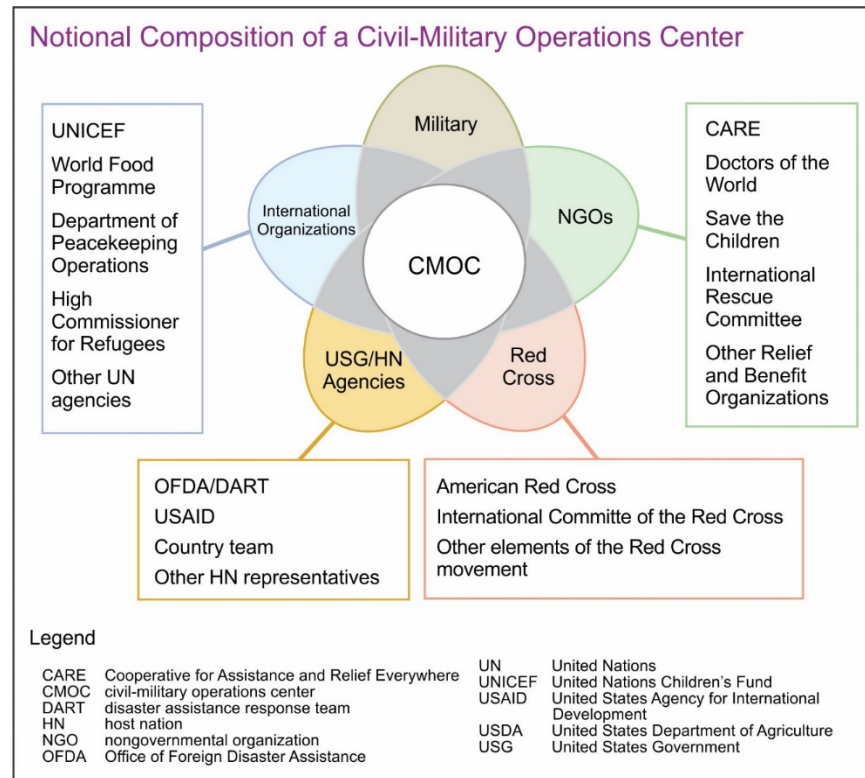
CIVIL-MILITARY COOPERATION

1. Cooperation

Civil-military cooperation generally involve temporary organizations of civilian and military personnel which are task-oriented to provide an optimal mix of capabilities and expertise to accomplish specific planning or assessment tasks or to conduct synchronized or integrated activities. Civil-military personnel can either be co-located or come together for designated planning or implementation functions. They help integrate the knowledge, expertise, and unique capabilities of USG departments and agencies within as well as multinational military forces and civilian elements of multinational partners.

The crux of interorganizational cooperation is understanding the civil-military relationship as collaborative rather than competitive. The most productive way to look at this relationship is seeing the comparative advantages of each of the two communities. While the military normally focuses on achieving clearly defined and measurable objectives within given timelines under a C2 structure, civilian organizations are concerned with fulfilling shifting political, economic, social, and humanitarian interests using negotiation, dialogue, bargaining, and consensus building. Civilian organizations act as agents of change within that society focusing on state-to-state and ministry-to-ministry relations, and in community development activities. At the same time, civilian agencies generally work in permissive environments and may not understand military goals and operations. While the ways and means between military and civilian organizations may differ, they share many purposes and risks, and the ultimate overall goal may be shared. A civil-military team can combine efforts to diminish the means and motivations of conflict, while developing provincial, district, state, or local institutions so they can lead in governance, provide basic services and economic development, and enforce the rule of law.

Joint Task Force Interorganizational Cooperation. The unique aspects of the interagency process require the Joint Task Force (JTF) headquarters to be especially flexible, responsive, and cognizant of the capabilities of military components and civilian led organizations. In contrast to an established military command structure, NGOs and international organizations in the operational area may not have a defined structure for controlling activities. Abroad, the civil-military operations center (CMOC) is composed of representatives from military, civilian, US, and multinational government agencies involved in the operation. An effective CMOC contributes to meeting the objectives of all represented agencies in a cooperative and efficient manner.



At the national level, a Joint Interagency Task Force (JIATF) is a formal organization usually chartered by the DOD and one or more civilian agencies via memorandum of agreement or other legal documents to work on a single defined task or activity led by a military commander or director. For example, JIATF South in Key West Florida detects and monitors illicit trafficking in the air and maritime domains to facilitate international and interagency interdiction and apprehension. Additionally, JIATF West on the Island of Oahu, Hawaii, executes counterdrug activities to both defend the Homeland and stabilize the pacific region by hardening the environment against the growth of transnational crime and disrupting transnational criminal organizations that threaten US interests.

2. Working Relationships and Practices

The USG builds on coordinated actions and information to maintain credibility and trust with foreign populaces, governments, adversaries, and US citizens alike. This is done through accuracy, consistency, timeliness, and transparency in words and deeds. Credibility is important to build relationships that advance our national interests. All USG departments and agencies share responsibility to use information as an instrument of national power. This includes developing processes to access and analyze communication and to deliver information to key audiences, both US and foreign. Relationships between military and civilian departments and agencies cannot be equated to military command authorities (e.g., operational control [OPCON], tactical control [TACON], support). In an interagency sense, the concept of supported/supporting is less about command relationships and more about the methods used to obtain and provide support.

Civilian departments and agencies tend to operate via consensus-based cooperation, rather than command and control (C2) structures. However, when the incident command system (ICS) is used, it is typically under a DOD unified command structure used when more than one department or agency has incident jurisdiction or when incidents cross political jurisdictions. The ICS is a standardized, on-scene emergency management construct specifically designed to provide an integrated organizational structure that can accommodate complexity and the demands of multiple incidents, without being hindered by jurisdictional boundaries. NGOs do not operate within military, governmental, or international organization hierarchies. However, they often occupy the same operational space, and efforts must be made for cooperation.

The most common technique for cooperation is the identification or formation of boards, centers, cells, working groups, offices, elements, planning teams, and other enduring or temporary cross-functional staff organizations that manage specific processes and accomplish tasks in support of mission accomplishment. These cross-functional staff organizations generally fall under the principal oversight of the joint force staff directorates. Direct, early liaison can facilitate the flow of accurate and timely information about the crisis area, especially when civilian department, agency, and organizational activities precede military operations. Early liaison can also build working relationships based upon trust and open communications among all organizations.

Nongovernmental Organizations Guidelines. Guidelines facilitate interaction between the US Armed Forces and NGOs that are engaged in humanitarian relief efforts in hostile or potentially hostile environments. These guidelines are premised on a de facto recognition that military and civilian actors have often occupied the same operational space in the past and will undoubtedly do so in the future.

Forms of cooperation, to include unclassified information sharing through liaison arrangements, will minimize the risk of confusion between military and civilian roles in hostile or potentially hostile environments, subject to military force protection, mission accomplishment, and operational requirements. This could involve co-locations of workforce personnel. Nongovernmental and/or private efforts must supplement or complement, but not duplicate or replace, other forms of assistance provided to a country by the lead USG department or agency with primary responsibility for foreign assistance activities. USG departments and agencies should be aware of the Code of Conduct of the International Federation of Red Cross and Red Crescent Movement societies and NGOs in Disaster Relief, the United Nations (UN) Inter-Agency Standing Committee (IASC) Guidelines, country-specific guidelines based on the IASC Guidelines, and the Sphere Project Humanitarian Charter and Minimum Standards in Disaster Response. The international community may choose to coordinate through the UN's Cluster system approach for non-refugee humanitarian emergencies or the Refugee Coordination Model for coordination and protection of refugees. Once this occurs, civilian liaison officers could begin coordination in-country through a civil-military operations center for civil-military liaison. Possible organizations such as the USAID's Civil-Military Cooperation, DOS's Crisis Stabilization Office, and the UN's humanitarian coordinator can act as a facilitator between DOD personnel and NGOs in an operational area.

Civilian personnel should not wear military-style clothing. This is not meant to preclude personnel from wearing protective gear, such as helmets and protective vests, provided that such items are distinguishable in color/appearance from DOD issue items. Travel in DOD vehicles should be limited to liaison personnel. Civilian led personnel may, as a last resort, request military protection for convoys delivering humanitarian assistance, take advantage of essential logistics support available only from the military, or accept evacuation assistance for medical treatment or to evacuate from a hostile environment. Provision of such military support rests solely within the discretion of the military forces and will not be undertaken if it interferes with higher priority military activities.

For US Armed Forces, when conducting relief activities, military personnel should wear uniforms or other distinctive clothing to avoid being mistaken for civilian representatives. DOD personnel and units should not display civilian logos on any military clothing, vehicles, or equipment. This does not preclude the appropriate use of symbols recognized under the law of war, such as a red cross, when appropriate. DOD at times uses such symbols on military clothing, vehicles, and equipment in appropriate situations. Visits to non-military sites should be by prior arrangement and DOD personnel should respect civilian views on the bearing of arms. DOD personnel should not describe civilians as “force multipliers” or “partners” of the military, or in any other fashion DOD personnel and units should also avoid interfering with civilian led relief efforts directed toward segments of the civilian population that the military may regard as unfriendly. However, individual NGOs may seek to cooperate with the military, in which case such cooperation will be carried out with due regard to avoiding compromise of the security, safety, and independence of the civilian community at large, representatives, or public perceptions of their independence.

3. Other Civilian Entities

Civil Society. Civil society is an umbrella term that may be applied to a wide array of organizations that include community groups, NGOs, labor unions, indigenous groups, charitable organizations, faith-based organizations, professional associations, foundations, and the family. The connection to civil society is deep for all members of the interagency as it is life outside the workplace with extensive social networks and influence.

Private Sector. The private sector is another umbrella term that may be applied to any or all of the nonpublic or commercial individuals and businesses, specified nonprofit organizations, most of academia and other scholastic institutions, contractors, and selected NGOs. The National Infrastructure Protection Plan provides the framework for partnership between government and the private sector to protect critical infrastructure and key resources. Information sharing and analysis centers, sector coordinating councils, and state and local fusion centers enable information sharing and security efforts for the various sectors of our nation’s critical infrastructure.

- **Public-private partnerships (PPPs).** PPPs are voluntary, non-contractual collaborations between DOD and non-USG entities which both parties leverage expertise, resources, and incentive of the other to achieve mutually agreed goals.

- **Multinational Corporations (MNCs).** MNCs, as business entities, are distinct from the “not-for-profit” NGOs. MNCs may have local insight, in-country equipment and resources, pre-established organization, and means to reconstruct devastated areas. MNCs operating in country prior to US intervention are often knowledgeable concerning local government, culture, terrain, and logistics needs. The DOC and DOS in countries where the US embassy is resident can provide advice and contacts for MNCs. In addition, MNCs will likely be motivated to protect their investments and revive their own business operations. US strategic interest may overlap with MNCs’ agendas, particularly in relation to crisis resolution, regional recovery, and building social and economic security.
- **Academia.** Universities, think tanks, and research organizations can provide important resources to federal assistance. In the US, academic organizations and consortiums can provide research, knowledge, and ideas, and establish dialogue between USG and academia.

For more information see: Command Relationships JFQ 63, 2011; Multinational Command Relationships Part II of III, JFQ 65, 2012; Multinational Command Relationships Part II of III, JFQ 65, 2012; The United Nations and Intergovernmental Organization Command Relationships, JFQ66, 2012; Joint Publication 3-57, Civil Military Operations and Joint Publication 3-08, Interorganizational Cooperation, at <https://www.jcs.mil/Doctrine/Joint-Doctrine-Pubs/3-0-Operations-Series/>; ATP 3-57.80, Civil-Military Engagement at <https://armypubs.army.mil/>; US Institute of Peace Website at <https://www.usip.org/>; The UN Cluster Approach at <https://emergency.unhcr.org/entry/61190/cluster-approach-iasc>; Civil Society at <http://esango.un.org/civilsociety/login.do>

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CHAPTER V

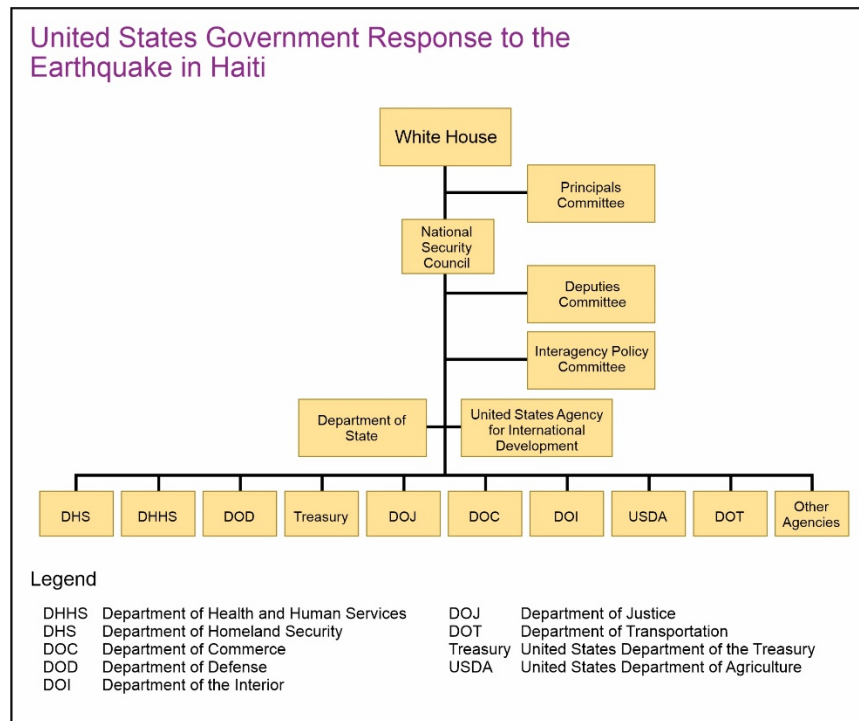
FORCE EMPLOYMENT OBSERVATIONS

1. Domestic and Foreign Threats and Challenges

The USG often responds to domestic challenges and threats with a combined civilian and military workforce. In the wake of a slow or stagnant interagency planning process or response, the President can exercise central decision making if necessary. The following are recent examples involving civilian and military workforce cooperation. Coordination and notional mechanisms are listed in Appendix C.

2. Response to the 2010 Haiti Earthquake

Due to the overwhelming severity of the earthquake and its effect on the UN and Haitian Government capacity, the President provided clear direction for a “whole-of-government” response with USAID as the lead federal agency for USG coordination. In support of USAID was a military response conducted by JTF Haiti and commanded by US Southern Command. This disaster required a broader response than past events to include humanitarian, political, and diplomatic resources. It was imperative that high-level officials manage USG involvement. The clear direction from the President to commit USG resources was important to create a unity of mission and purpose. However, the strategic leadership from Washington was slow to develop due to implementation of the new “whole of government” response and limited availability of accurate information from Haiti. In the first weeks of the response, policy leaders became deeply involved in tactical and operational decisions in Haiti that made daily operations in the field somewhat difficult. However, pre-existing personal relationships were key to the success of the response and were further strengthened by the widespread use of liaisons. Although UN Clusters were initially activated, it took about two to three weeks for all 12 UN Clusters coordinated by the UN Office for Coordinating Humanitarian Affairs (OCHA) to become functional. As the management structure evolved in Washington and Haiti, USAID and its Office of US Foreign Disaster Assistance (OFDA) and its deployable Disaster Assistance Response Team (DART) no longer coordinated the overall in-country response but continued to fulfill its usual capacity working within the UN Cluster system.

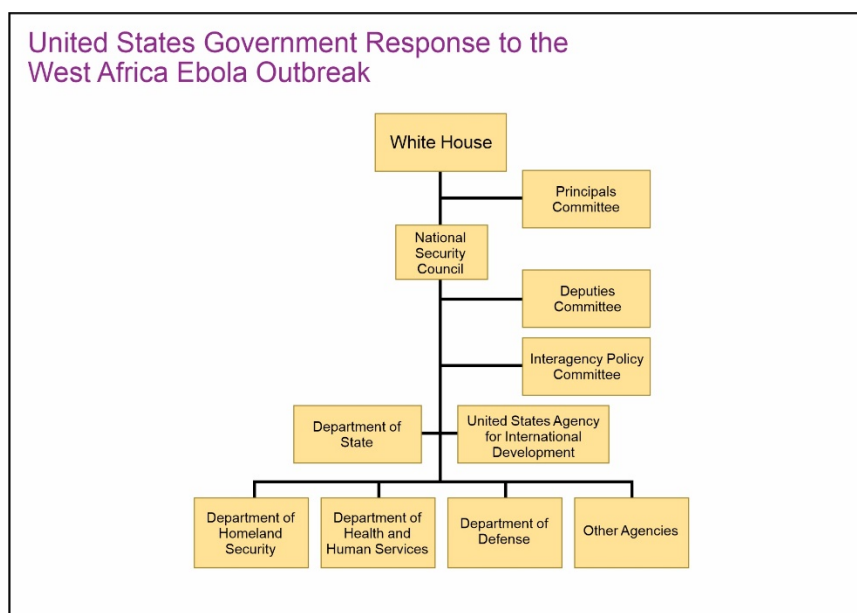


For more information see *USG Haiti Report, Independent Review of the U.S. Government Response to the Haiti Earthquake, Final Report, March 2011* at https://pdf.usaid.gov/pdf_docs/pdacr222.pdf;

For more information see *Evaluation of OCHA Response to the Haiti Earthquake, Final Report January 2011* at <https://www.unocha.org/sites/dms/Documents/Evaluation%20of%20OCHA%20Response%20to%20the%20Haiti%20Earthquake.pdf>

3. Response to the 2014 West Africa Ebola Outbreak

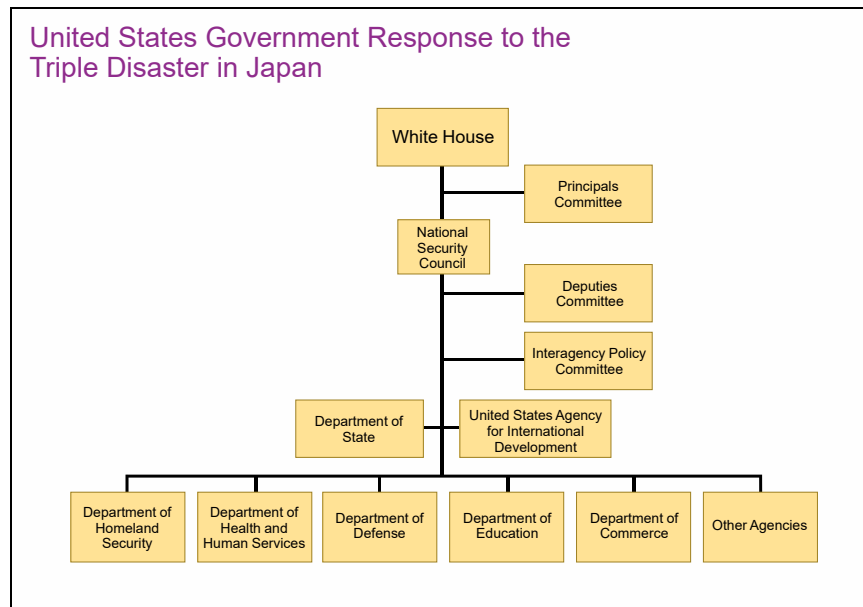
In 2014, the COMs in Sierra Leone and Guinea issued a disaster declaration for the pandemic of Ebola. In support of USAID was a military response conducted by Joint Force Command Unified Assistance and commanded by US Africa Command. In total there were over 11,300 deaths. Although there was no single NRF-like document for the international community, the UN Cluster system coordinated by UNOCHA and USAID processes provided broad definition of roles and responsibilities. One challenge was what constitutes a triggering event. Previous humanitarian assistance missions were initiated by an obvious triggering event (e.g., tsunami, earthquake) resulting in DART deployment and subsequent requests for USG workforce support. However in this case, a disease response has no obvious triggering event. Another challenge was that the outbreak was framed by the UN as a “health” rather than a “humanitarian” crisis. Not using the humanitarian label meant that the surge capacity, emergency funding and coordination structures typical of a large-scale disaster response were not triggered, and the formal UN Cluster system was not activated. While this had the positive effect of leaving national authorities to take the lead in the response, it also left many NGOs unsure of how or where to engage.



For more information see: *Responding to Global Health Crises: Lessons from the U.S. Response to the 2014-2016 West Africa Ebola Outbreak* at crsreports.congress.gov/;
The Ebola response in West Africa Exposing the politics and culture of international aid October 2015 at <https://www.odi.org/sites/odi.org.uk/files/odi-assets/publications-opinion-files/9903.pdf>

4. Response to the 2011 Triple Disaster in Japan

The COM in Japan requested assistance resulting from an earthquake in Japan. This event also generated a tsunami national disaster then resulted in a manmade disaster of cascading chemical, biological, radiological, and nuclear effects. In support of the HN response and USAID was US Army Japan and subsequent JTF's under US Pacific Command jurisdiction. Challenges were that interagency processes and structures needed to absorb additional personnel sent forward by organizations and that existence guidance was vague and undefined. Different organizational terminology used also caused workforce confusion. In the end there were 15,000 deaths 3,000 missing. While there was no UN Cluster system activation, NGOs activated their own due to being accustomed with the humanitarian cluster system many times activated in responding to large scale disasters abroad.



For more information see: *Managing Foreign Assistance in a CBRN Emergency The U.S. Government Response to Japan's "Triple Disaster"* at https://ndupress.ndu.edu/Portals/68/Documents/jfq/jfq-68/JFQ-68_25-31_Basalla-Berger-Abbot.pdf;

Choose Your Partner Correctly in Emergency Response: Partnership Innovation Learned from the Great East Japan Earthquake and Tsunami 2011 – Final Report, UN OCHA 2013 Humanitarian Research and Innovation Grant Program, New York: UN OCHA at https://www.preventionweb.net/files/47733_bisripartnershipinnovationfrom2011g.pdf

5. United States Government Responses to Hurricanes Katrina (2005) and Sandy (2012)

In the overall USG response to Hurricane Katrina, separate command structures for active duty military and the National Guard hindered unity of effort. USNORTHCOM commanded active duty forces, while each State government commanded its own National Guard forces. For the first two days of Katrina response operations, USNORTHCOM did not have situational awareness of what forces the National Guard had on the ground. Subsequently it activated the active duty JTF-Katrina to bring order out of the chaos in and around New Orleans. However, JTF Katrina simply could not operate at full efficiency when it lacked visibility of over half the military forces in the disaster area. Further, FEMA requested assistance from DOD without knowing what State National Guard forces had already deployed to fill the same needs. Also, the Commanding General of JTF-Katrina and the TAGs of Louisiana and Mississippi had only a coordinating relationship, with no formal command relationship established. This resulted in confusion over roles and responsibilities between National Guard and Federal forces and highlights the need for a more unified command structure. On the civilian side, it was clear that Federal law enforcement support to State and local officials required greater coordination, a command structure, collaborative planning and training with State and local law enforcement, as well as detailed implementation guidance. For Hurricane Katrina, a need for common doctrine and terminology was identified and all ESF's were activated in the US southeast regions IV and VI.

During Hurricane Sandy and operating under Presidential Policy Directive (PPD-8) National Preparedness, FEMA coordinated the large-scale mobilization of USG teams, supplies, and other assets both before and immediately after landfall. The Dual Status Commander arrangement was used over State and Federal forces to provide organized unity of command in support of USG unified action. Multiple JTFs were activated for the impacted areas in the states of New York and New Jersey. The magnitude of the disaster revealed several strengths and areas for improvement related to integrating and coordinating Federal operations. While there was a continued need for a common doctrine including terminology, FEMA's response and recovery operations were only effective when implemented in concert with the activities at all levels of government, and with private and nonprofit sectors, faith-based organizations, communities, and individuals. In the US northeast, all ESF's and newly established RSF's along with regional response coordination centers were activated in regions I, II, III and IV.

Form ore information see The Federal Response to Hurricane Katrina Lessons Learned February 2006 at <http://library.stmarytx.edu/acadlib/edocs/katrinawh.pdf>;

Hurricane Sandy FEMA After-Action Report July 1, 2013 at https://www.fema.gov/media-library-data/20130726-1923-25045-7442/sandy_fema_aar.pdf;

Presidential Policy Directive / PPD-8 National Preparedness at <https://www.dhs.gov/presidential-policy-directive-8-national-preparedness>

6. Certain Unity Issues in Afghanistan and Iraq Deployments

The campaigns in Afghanistan and Iraq suffered from problems in both in the military and in the interagency aspects of implementation. Interagency collaboration is a significant problem in Washington where the only person with the authority to resolve such disputes is the President. At the regional level, the struggle between DOS and DOD stood out. Regional combatant commanders sometimes act independently, developing relationships with foreign leaders and bringing their influence to bear on issues that significantly blur the lines between diplomacy and security policy. There is a huge disparity in resources that combatant commanders can marshal compared to Ambassadors comes up in this context between DOS and DOD may contribute to what many fear is the "militarization" of foreign policy. . Impediments to unified effort existed at three levels—decision making at the national level (between White House staff and organizations constituting the National Security Council); within departments and agencies, particularly the DOD; and in the field (Afghanistan and Iraq). Vertical unity of effort refers to the lines of authority from the President down through the departments and agencies of the national security system. In Afghanistan (2001), the President was frustrated when it was discovered DOD and the Central Intelligence Agency (CIA) each thought the other had the lead for operations. In Iraq (2003), Special Envoy Paul Bremer's appointment accentuated disagreements among DOS, DOD, and White House staffs about who was in the chain of command between the President and Bremer. Bremer was convinced that he worked for the President even though his terms of reference stated he worked for the Secretary of Defense. Horizontal unity of effort refers to the way discrete organizations cooperate for common purposes when they are not accountable to the same authority, or when they are too far removed from a common authority to receive effective oversight. More narrowly, horizontal unity of effort in national security discourse refers to how well departments and agencies in the Executive Branch collaborate to accomplish national objectives or, in

common parlance, interagency cooperation. Notable interagency cooperation was some of the DOS and DOD partnerships forged between Ambassadors and theater commanders in Afghanistan (2003) and in Iraq (2007) which contributed to their making progress against the insurgencies during their tenures.

*For more information see Commanding Heights; Strategic Lessons from Complex Operations, Center for Complex Operations 2009 at
https://cco.ndu.edu/Portals/96/Documents/books/commanding-heights/commanding_heights.pdf*

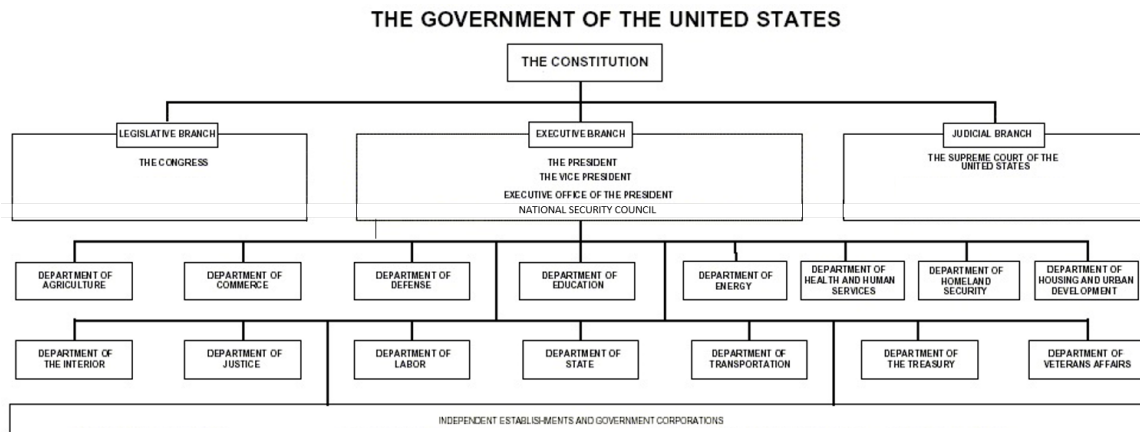
*Decade of War, Volume I Enduring Lessons from the Past Decade of Operations 2012 at
<http://edocs.nps.edu/2014/February/Decade%20of%20War%20volume%201.pdf>*

APPENDIX A

UNITED STATES GOVERNMENT DEPARTMENTS AND SELECTED AGENCIES

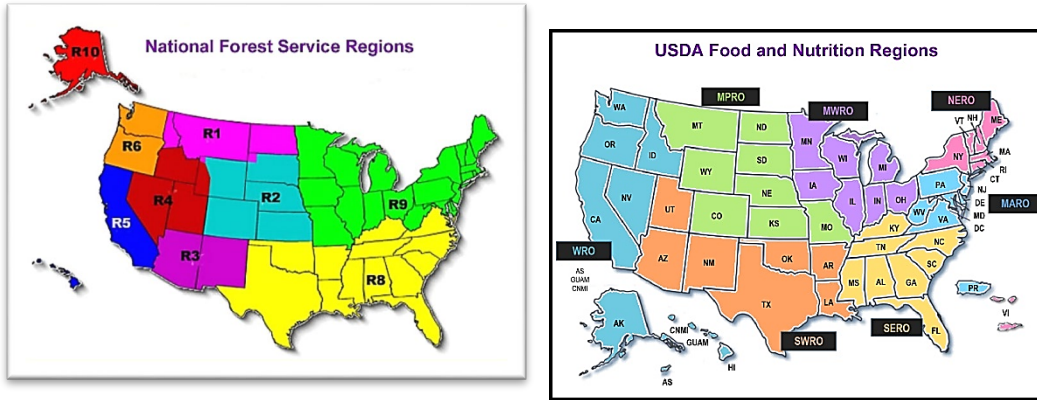
1. United States Federal Government

The US federal government is composed of three distinct branches: whose powers are vested by the US Constitution in the Congress, the President, and the Federal courts (legislative, executive, and judicial). For the purposes of workforce cooperation, this joint guide focuses on the Executive Branch and its departments and certain agencies.



2. Department of Agriculture

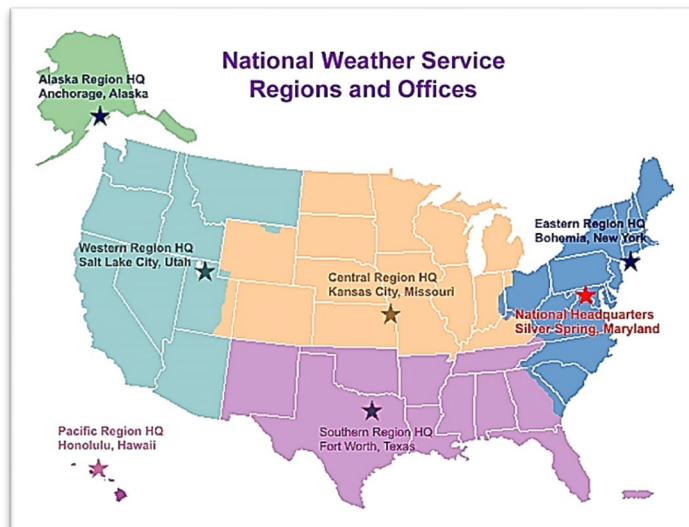
The US Department of Agriculture (USDA) provides leadership on food, agriculture, natural resources, rural development, nutrition, and related issues based on sound public policy, the best available science, and efficient management. For domestic activities, USDA coordinates NRF ESFs for agriculture and natural resources (ESF 11) and firefighting (ESF 4). Additionally, USDA is assigned to recovery support functions (RSF) in the NDRF. For global missions, USDA breaks down into the following regions: Western Hemisphere Division (North America, Cuba and Caribbean Basin, Central and South America), Asia Division (North Asia, South Asia and Pacific, Europe, Africa and Middle East), Europe, and Africa and Middle East. The following are USDA's Food and Nutrition Service and Forest Service regional maps.



For more information see <http://www.usda.gov>;
 The Department of Agriculture Strategic Plan 2018 - 2022 at
<https://www.jcs.mil/Doctrine/Interorganizational-Documents/>

3. Department of Commerce and National Oceanic and Atmospheric Administration

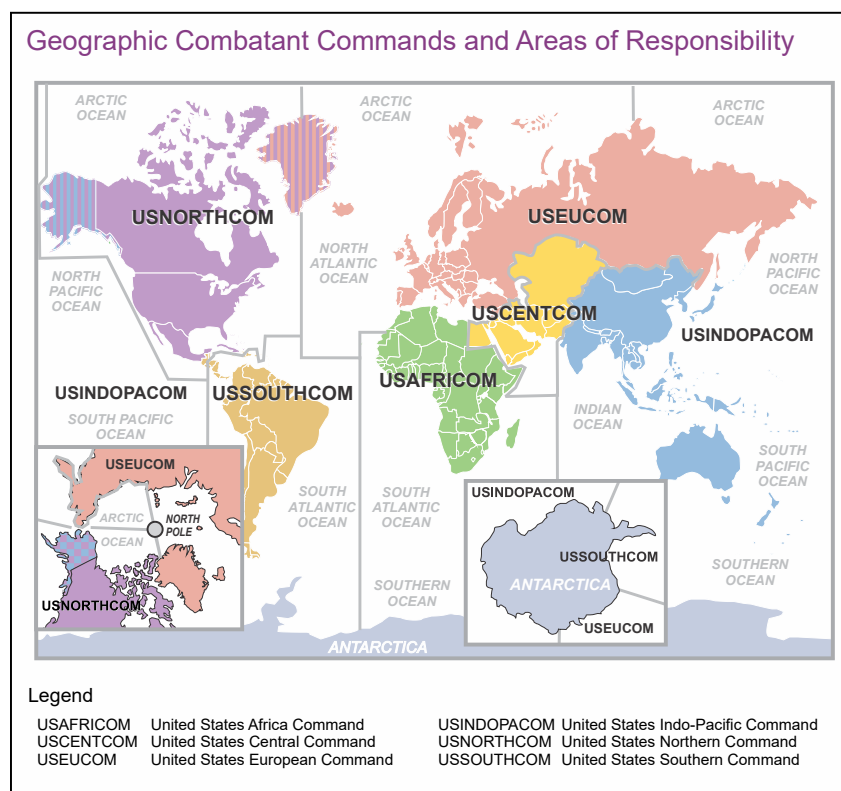
The mission of the Department of Commerce (DOC) is to promote job creation, economic growth, sustainable development, and improved living standards for all Americans by working in partnership with businesses, universities, communities, and our nation's workers. As the designated coordinator of the RSF for Economic Recovery to the NDRF, DOC leads the nation's efforts to integrate the expertise of the USG to help local, state, and tribal governments and the private sector sustain and/or rebuild businesses and employment, and develop economic opportunities that result in sustainable and economically resilient communities after large-scale and catastrophic incidents. DOC's uniform service, National Oceanic and Atmospheric Administration (NOAA), mission centers on environmental assessment, prediction, and stewardship. DOC NOAA's National Weather Service regions include Alaska, Central, Eastern, Pacific, Southern and Western.



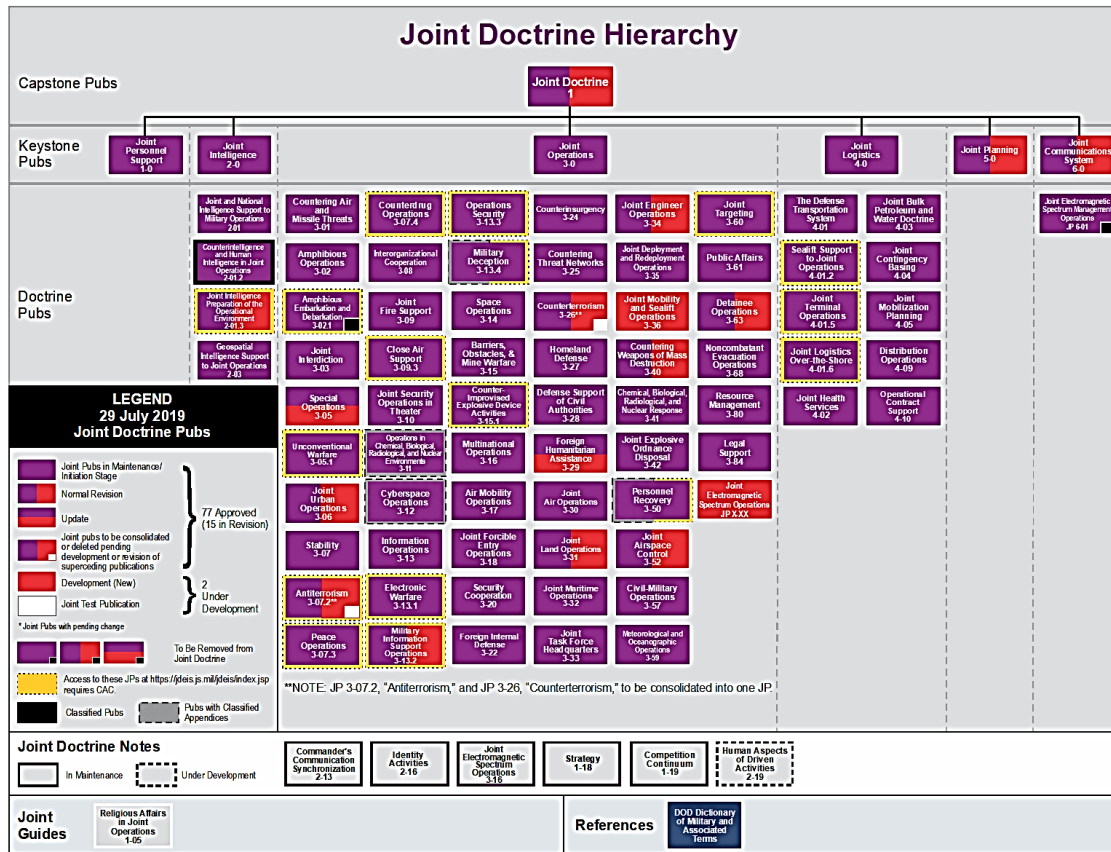
*For more information see <http://www.doc.gov>;
The Department of Commerce Strategic Plan, FY 2018 - 2022 at
<https://www.jcs.mil/Doctrine/Interorganizational-Documents/>;
NOAA at <http://www.noaa.gov>*

4. Department of Defense and Joint Chiefs of Staff

DOD is the largest employer in the federal government with over two million employees made up of both uniformed and civilian personnel. The mission of DOD is to provide the military forces needed to deter war, to protect the security of our country, and fight and win the nation's wars. The Joint Chiefs of Staff (JCS) is a body of senior uniformed leaders in the DOD lead by the Chairman of the Joint Chiefs of Staff (CJCS) that advises the President, the Secretary of Defense, and the NSC on national security matters. For other domestic activities, DOD coordinates public works and engineering support functions (ESF 3) and support urban search and rescue (ESF 9). Additionally DOD leads coordination for the recovery of infrastructure systems to the NDRF. Furthermore DOD is in partnership with DHS, DHHS, and the Veteran's Administration (VA) in a federally coordinated healthcare system known as the National Disaster Medical System (NDMS). Below is the DOD GCC regions of responsibility map.



For promoting interoperability among its workforce known as a joint force, DOD is one of two Executive Branch departments that maintains its own best practices in an adaptive and living reference library. Captured at its senior level, the joint doctrine hierarchy reflects best practices and lessons learned throughout its force. Its overarching document is Joint Publication 1, Joint Warfighting.



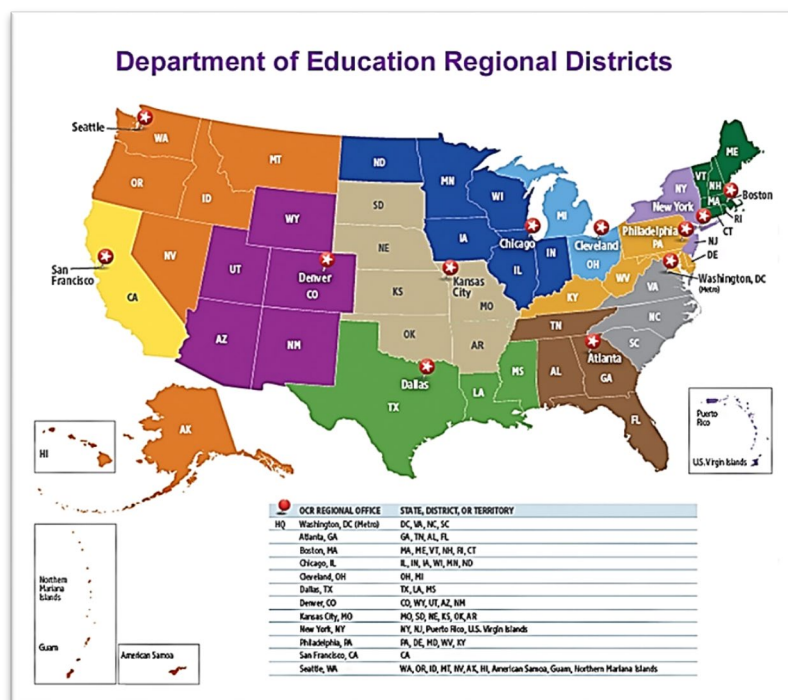
DOD is also one of two Executive Branch departments that maintains its own dictionary and terminology repository through its terminology program. The DOD Dictionary is meant to only expand upon existing dictionaries such as Merriam Webster or the Concise Oxford English Dictionary with a military focus and assisting in interpreting higher level guidance, not to supplant them. DOD's challenge in doctrine and terminology development is normally whether there exists a gap in joint doctrine or whether a policy void exists.

For more information see <http://www.defense.gov>;

For campaign activities related to Civilian, Economic, environmental, Food, and Health Security see The US Government's Approach Articles at <https://www.jcs.mil/Doctrine/Interorganizational-Documents/>;
The DOD Terminology Program see <https://www.jcs.mil/Doctrine/DOD-Terminology-Program/>

5. Department of Education

The Department of Education provides support to states and localities, and focusing resources to ensure equal access to educational excellence throughout the nation. Domestic activities include supports multiple recovery support missions. The following is the Education Department's regional district map.

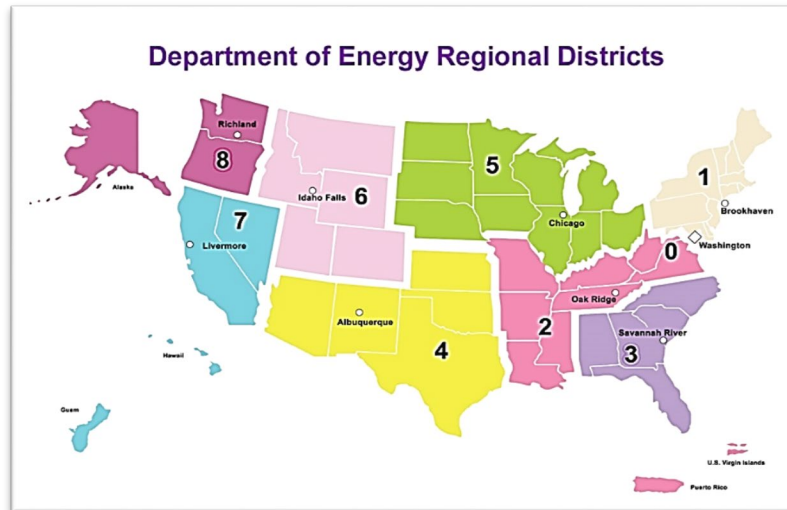


For more information see <http://www.ed.gov>;

Department of Education Strategic Plan for FY 2018 - 2022 at <https://www.jcs.mil/Doctrine/Interorganizational-Documents/>

6. Department of Energy and National Nuclear Security Administration

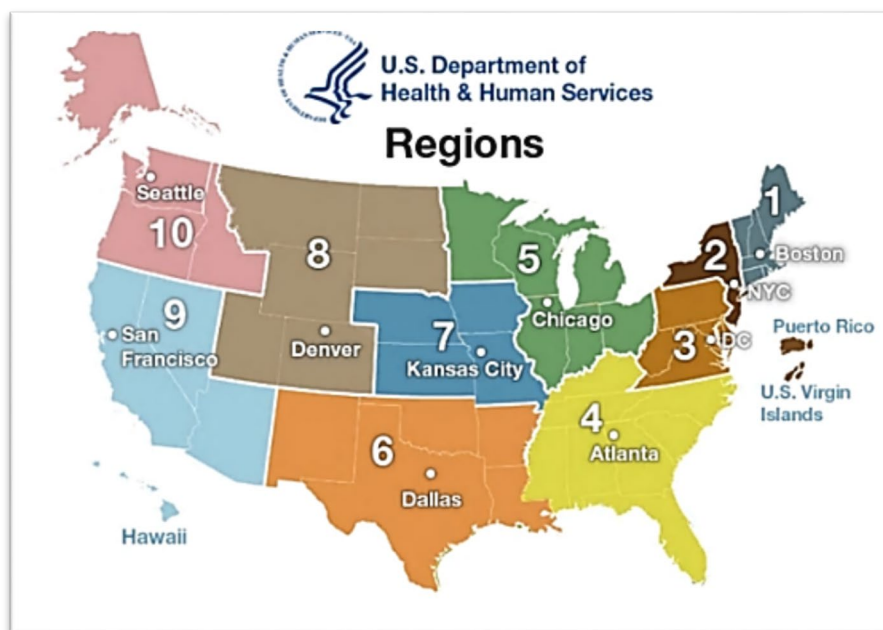
The Department of Energy (DOE) addresses the nation's energy, environmental, and nuclear challenges through transformative science and technology solutions. Its National Nuclear Security Administration activities include maintaining and enhancing the safety, security, and effectiveness of the US nuclear weapons stockpile, working to reduce the global danger from weapons of mass destruction and responding to nuclear and radiological emergencies. DOE also coordinates emergency energy support function in securing the US energy infrastructure against all hazards, reducing the impact of disruptive events, and responding to and facilitating recovery from energy disruption, in collaboration with all levels of industry and state, local, tribal, territorial, and foreign governments (ESF 12). Below is the DOE regional district map.



*For more information see <http://www.energy.gov>;
The Department of Energy Goals and Objectives 2019 at
<https://www.jcs.mil/Doctrine/Interorganizational-Documents/>*

7. Department of Health and Human Services and Centers for Disease Control and Prevention

The Department of Health and Human Services (DHHS) is the USG's principal agency for protecting the health of all Americans and providing essential human services. DHHS leads the federal public health and medical response to federal domestic public health and medical services for emergencies and incidents (ESF 8). DHHS is also the designated coordinator of the RSF for Health and Social Services recovery to the NDRF. DHHS's uniform service, the Public Health Service, deploys in support of public health responses to man-made and natural disasters. DHHS' Centers for Disease Control and Prevention has the main goal to protect public health and safety through the control and prevention of disease, injury, and disability in the US and internationally that includes attention on infectious disease, food borne pathogens, environmental health, occupational safety and health, health promotion, injury prevention and educational activities. DHHS is also in partnership with DOD, DHS, and the VA in a federally coordinated NDMS healthcare system. The following is the DHHS regional district map that mirrors FEMA's region and NDMS section maps.

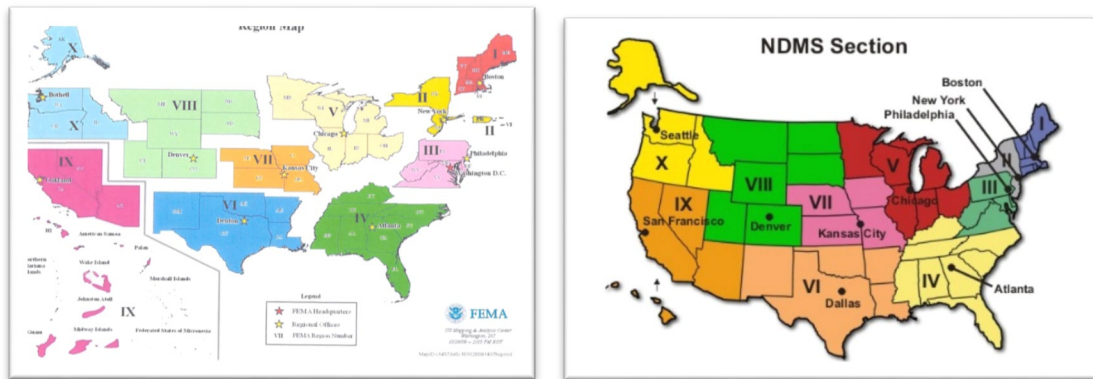


*For more information see <http://www.hhs.gov>;
The Department of Health and Human Services Strategic Plan 2018 - 2022 at
<https://www.jcs.mil/Doctrine/Interorganizational-Documents/>;
USPHS at <http://www.usphs.gov>*

8. Department of Homeland Security and Federal Emergency Management Agency

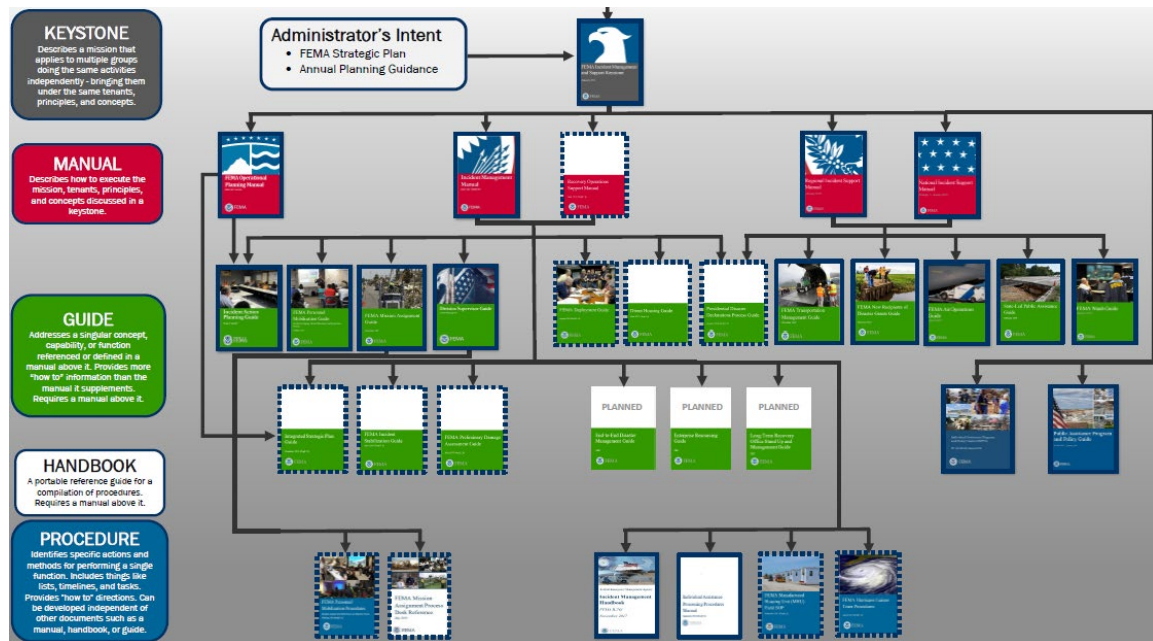
The DHS mission is to prevent terrorism and enhance security, secure and manage our borders, enforce and administer US immigration laws, protect cyberspace and critical infrastructure, and strengthen national preparedness and resilience to disasters. Its emergency management agency FEMA's mission supports citizens and first responders to ensure that as a nation we work together to build, sustain, and improve our capability to prepare for, protect against, respond to, recover from, and mitigate all hazards. FEMA's NIMS organizational incident management doctrine provides a common, nationwide approach, organizational structures, and operational protocols that enables the whole community to work together to manage all threats and hazards. Throughout its preparedness, response, recovery, and mitigation activities, FEMA prepares for the specific types of incidents that pose the greatest risk to the security of the nation and emphasizes the actions aimed at achieving an integrated, layered, and all-of-nation preparedness approach that optimizes using available resources. Per the NRF, FEMA is the lead coordinator for ESFs 2 (Communications), 5 (Information and Planning), 6 (Mass Care, Emergency Assistance, Temporary Housing, and Human Services), 7 (Logistics), 9 (Search and Rescue), 14 (Cross-Sector Business and Infrastructure), and 15 (External Affairs), as well as the NDRF RSF for Community Planning and Capacity Building. DHS is also the lead federal agency that activates and in partnership with DOD, DHHS, and VA a federally coordinated NDMS healthcare system. The following are FEMA's district and NDMS section maps.

FEMA REGIONS and NDMS SECTION MAP



FEMA also has its own hierarchy of doctrine publications. The hierarchy's capstone document is known as The Federal Emergency Management Agency Publication 1. This document constitutes guidance intended to promote thoughtful innovation, flexibility, and proactive performance in achieving complex domestic missions. FEMA Pub 1 is hierarchically underpinned by the planning framework documents below. Integrated to ensure interoperability across all mission areas, the frameworks describe the coordinating structures and alignment of key roles and responsibilities for the whole community.

FEMA DOCTRINE HIERARCHY



FEMA Pub 1 is supported by interagency organizational plans also known as Federal Interagency Operational Plan (FIOP) that provide SLTT, and insular area planners an understanding of how the USG functions in its response:

- **Prevention FIOP** - focused on USG departments and agencies' delivery of core capabilities to prevent imminent terrorist threats and attacks, including follow-on attacks against the United States.

- **Protection FIOP** - comprises the capabilities necessary to secure the homeland against acts of terrorism and manmade or natural disasters.
- **Mitigation FIOP** - describes the concept of operations for national-level USG capabilities to support SLTT, insular area, and USG plans.
- **Response FIOP** - an all-hazards plan that builds upon the NRF and describes how the USG coordinates its efforts to save lives, protect property and the environment, and meet basic human needs following an emergency or disaster.
- **Recovery FIOP** - provides guidance to implement the NDRF, and describes the concept of operations for integrating and synchronizing existing national-level USG capabilities to support SLTT, insular area, and USG plans.

For promoting interoperability and assisting in interpreting higher level guidance within the Department, DHS also maintains its own dictionary known as the DHS Lexicon.

For more information see <http://www.dhs.gov>; https://www.fema.gov/media-library-data/1508151197225-ced8c60378c3936adb92c1a3ee6f6564/FINAL_NIMS_2017.pdf;

The Department of Homeland Security, Strategic Plan FY 2014 - 2018 at <https://www.jcs.mil/Doctrine/Interorganizational-Documents/>;

FEMA at <http://www.fema.gov>;

The National Response Framework and National Disaster Recovery Framework at <https://www.jcs.mil/Doctrine/Interorganizational-Documents/>;

FEMA Federal Interagency Operation Plans 1) Response, 2) Recovery, 3) Protection, 4) Nuclear/Radiological and 5) Mitigation, at <https://www.jcs.mil/Doctrine/Interorganizational-Documents/>;
DHS Lexicon at <https://www.dhs.gov/publication/dhs-lexicon>

9. Department of Housing and Urban Development

The US Department of Housing and Urban Development (HUD) creates strong, sustainable, inclusive communities and quality, affordable homes. As the designated coordinator of the RSF for housing to the NDRF, HUD leads the nation's efforts to address pre- and post-disaster housing issues and coordinate the delivery of federal resources and activities to assist SLTT and insular area governments as they rehabilitate and reconstruct destroyed and damaged housing, when feasible, and develop new accessible, permanent housing options. Below is the HUD regional district map.



*For more information see <http://www.hud.gov>;
Department of Department of Housing and Urban Development Strategic Plan 2018 - 2022 at
<https://www.jcs.mil/Doctrine/Interorganizational-Documents/>*

10. Department of Interior

The Department of Interior (DOI) protects and manages the nation's natural resources and cultural heritage, provides scientific and other information about those resources, and honors the nation's trust responsibilities or special commitments to American Indians, Alaska Natives, and affiliated island communities. DOI is the primary agency for Protection of Natural and Cultural Resources and Historic Properties (NCH), and one of the five mission areas under Agriculture and Natural Resources (ESF 11). This includes providing post event assessments of damages and providing technical assistance and resources for assessing impacts of response activities on NCH resources. DOI is also the designated coordinator of the RSF for Natural and Cultural Resources to the NDRF. The following is DOI's national watershed map.



For more information see <http://www.doi.gov>;
The Department of the Interior, Strategic Plan for FY 2018 - 2022 - 2022 at
<https://www.jcs.mil/Doctrine/Interorganizational-Documents/>

11. Department of Justice and Federal Bureau of Investigation

The mission of the Department of Justice (DOJ) is to enforce the law and defend the interests of the US according to the law, ensure public safety against threats foreign and domestic, provide federal leadership in preventing and controlling crime, seek just punishment for those guilty of unlawful behavior, and ensure fair and impartial administration of justice for all Americans. DOJ, acting through the Federal Bureau of Investigation (FBI), leads and coordinates the operational law enforcement response to, and related investigative and intelligence activities related to, terrorist threats and incidents within the US. DOJ is the designated coordinator and primary agency for Public Safety and Security (ESF 13). DOJ is also a supporting agency for eight other NRF mission areas and primary or supporting for three RSFs in NDRF. The FBI is charged with preventing the domestic acquisition of WMD and related technologies and its use against the US or its interests abroad.

For more information see <http://www.justice.gov>;
The Department of Justice, FY 2018 - 2022 Strategic Plan at
<https://www.jcs.mil/Doctrine/Interorganizational-Documents/>;
FBI at <http://www.fbi.gov>

12. Department of Labor

The Department of Labor (DOL) fosters and promotes the welfare of the job seekers, wage earners, and retirees of the US by improving their working conditions; advancing their opportunities for profitable employment; protecting their retirement and health care benefits; helping employers find workers; strengthening free collective bargaining; and tracking changes in employment, prices, and other national economic measurements. In carrying out this mission, DOL administers a variety of federal labor laws, including those

that assure safe and healthful working conditions, a minimum hourly wage and overtime pay, freedom from employment discrimination and equal opportunity through affirmative action, unemployment insurance, and other income support.

*For more information see <http://www.dol.gov>;
The Strategic Plan 2018 - 2022 at <https://www.jcs.mil/Doctrine/Interorganizational-Documents/>*

13. Department of State and United States Agency for International Development

DOS manages America's relationships with foreign governments, international organizations, and the people of other countries. As the lead foreign affairs agency, DOS has the primary role in coordinating the development and implementation foreign policy; managing the foreign affairs budget and other foreign affairs resources; leading and coordinating US representation abroad; conveying US foreign policy to foreign governments and international organizations through US embassies and consulates; conducting negotiations and concluding agreements and treaties; and coordinating and supporting international activities of other USG departments and agencies and officials. Foreign affairs activities such as US representation abroad, foreign assistance programs, countering international crime, foreign military training programs, the consular and services DOS provides, and more) are paid for by the foreign affairs budget. A US mission is the basic unit for the conduct of bilateral diplomacy with foreign governments overseas. A mission is headed by a COM, normally an ambassador, who is a presidential appointee and the President's personal representative. As such, the COM is the senior US official in the country. By law, COMs coordinate, direct, and supervise USG activities and representatives posted in the foreign country to which they are accredited, to achieve a unified, consistent foreign policy toward the HN. COMs do not, however, exercise control of US Executive Branch personnel officially on the staff of an international organization and performing the functions of that organization (e.g., North Atlantic Treaty Organization [NATO]), US military personnel operating under the command of a CCDR, or Voice of America correspondents on official assignment. The following is a DOS Regional Bureau map. The geographic responsibility challenge is that DOS Region Bureaus and DOD Combatant Command boundaries are not geographically aligned.



USAID, an independent establishment of the Executive Branch, reports to and is under direct authority and foreign policy guidance of the Secretary of State. USAID is the principal USG provider of global development and humanitarian assistance. Under the USAID Administrator and through its assistance programs, USAID plays an active and vital role in promoting US national security and foreign policy interests by investing in developing countries for the long-term benefit of America and the American people. Development now takes its place alongside defense and diplomacy as the three essential components, also known as the “3Ds” of American foreign policy. DOD coordination with USAID should be conducted with the mission civil-military coordinator in order to support more effective coordination, reduce duplication and lead to better development outcomes. Through its OFDA, USAID administers the President’s authority to provide emergency relief and long-term humanitarian assistance, coordinating the USG response to disasters declared by the US ambassador within the affected country or by higher DOS authority.

*For more information see <http://www.state.gov>;
<http://www.usaid.gov>;*

*The Department of State and USAID Strategic Plan 2018 – 2022 and
USAID Policy on Cooperation with the Department of Defense 2015
at <https://www.jcs.mil/Doctrine/Interorganizational-Documents/>*

14. Department of the Treasury

The Department of the Treasury serves the American people and strengthens national security by managing the USG’s finances effectively, promoting economic growth and stability, and ensuring the safety, soundness, and security of the US financial system. The Department of the Treasury is the executive agency responsible for promoting economic prosperity and ensuring the financial security of the US. They are responsible for a wide range of activities such as advising the President on economic and financial issues, encouraging sustainable economic growth, and fostering improved governance in financial institutions. The Department of the Treasury operates and maintains systems that are critical to the nation’s financial infrastructure (e.g., production of coin and currency,

disbursement of payments to the American public, revenue collection, and borrowing of funds necessary to run the USG). The Department of the Treasury works with other USG departments and agencies, foreign governments, and international financial institutions to encourage global economic growth, raise standards of living, and, to the extent possible, predict and prevent economic and financial crises. They also perform a critical and far-reaching role in enhancing national security by implementing economic sanctions against foreign threats to the US, identifying and targeting the financial support networks of national security threats, and improving the safeguards of our financial systems. As the sector specific agency, the Department of the Treasury provides institutional knowledge and specialized expertise of the Financial Services Sector to public and private sector partners. The Department of the Treasury also leads, facilitates, and supports the security and resilience programs of the Financial Services Sector critical infrastructure in the all-hazards environment.

*For more information see <http://www.treasury.gov>;
The Department of the Treasury FY 2018 - 2022 Strategic Plan at
<https://www.jcs.mil/Doctrine/Interorganizational-Documents/>*

15. Department of Transportation

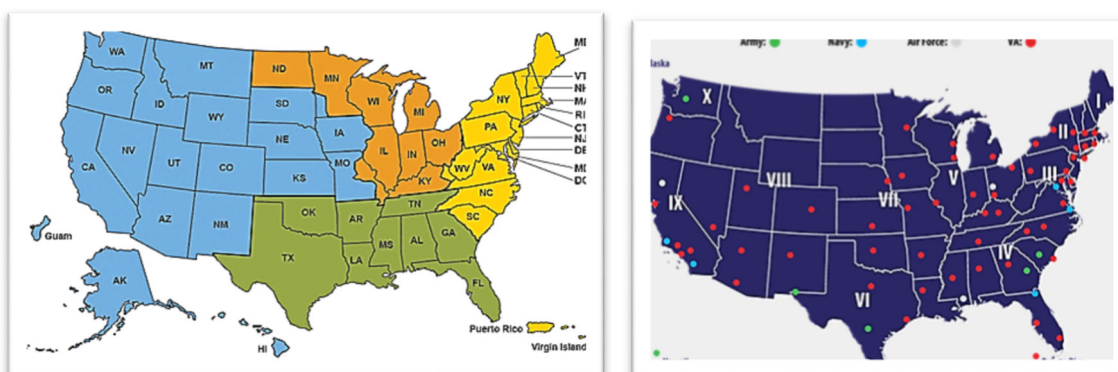
The Department of Transportation (DOT) serves the US by ensuring a fast, safe, efficient, accessible, and convenient transportation system that meets our vital national interests and enhances the quality of life of the American people, today and into the future. The national objectives of general welfare, economic growth and stability, and security of the US require the development of transportation policies and programs that contribute to providing fast, safe, efficient, and convenient transportation at the lowest cost consistent with those and other national objectives, including the efficient use and conservation of US resources. For domestic incidents, DOT is the lead coordination for transportation (ESF 1). The Office of the Comptroller of the Currency map is below:



*For more information see <http://www.dot.gov>;
The Department of Transportation Strategic Plan, FY 2018 - 2022 at
<https://www.jcs.mil/Doctrine/Interorganizational-Documents/>*

16. Department of Veterans Affairs

The Department of Veterans Affairs (VA) is the second largest department in the USG. VA has over 350,000 employees in more than 1,400 locations nationwide, with additional facilities in Puerto Rico, Guam, and the Philippines. VA is well postured to provide support during an emergency or disaster. The VA's first priority when an emergency or disaster impacts the VA or the nation is to provide assistance to veterans and their families and restore VA operations as soon as possible. The NRF, with a Stafford Act declaration, provides the vehicles that assist VA in providing support to the nation through the following: Public Works and Engineering (ESF 3), Emergency Management (ESF 5), Mass Care, Housing, and Human Services (ESF 6); Resources Support (ESF 7); Public Health and Medical Services (ESF 8); Public Safety and Security (ESF 13); External Affairs (ESF 15). The VA is in partnership with DOD, DHS and DHHS under the NDMS and also regulates patient flow with DOD at over 50 Federal Coordination Centers across the country. The following are the VA District and Federal Coordination Centers regional maps.



For more information see <http://www.va.gov>;
 The Department of Veterans Affairs Strategic Plan FY 2018 – 2024/
<https://www.va.gov/performance/>, <https://www.jcs.mil/Doctrine/Interorganizational-Documents>

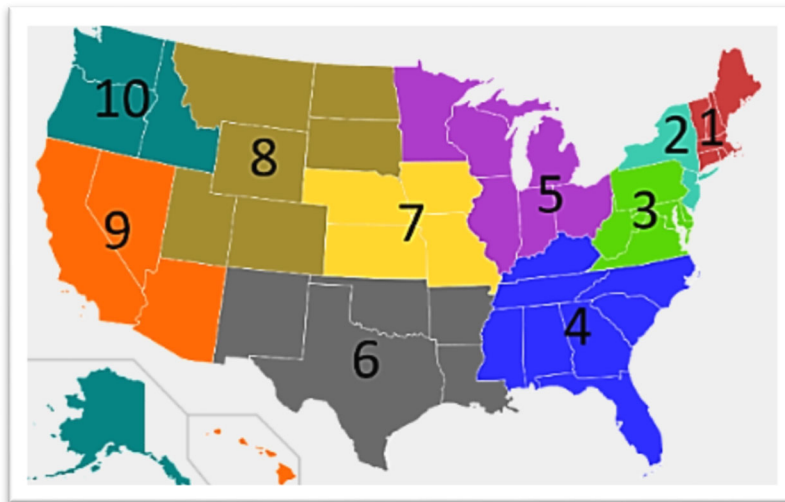
17. Office of the Director of National Intelligence and Central Intelligence Agency

The mission of the Office of the Director of National Intelligence is to lead intelligence integration and forge an intelligence community that delivers the most insightful intelligence possible. It integrates foreign, military, and domestic intelligence capabilities through policy, personnel, and technology actions to provide decision advantage to policymakers, warfighters, homeland security officials, and law enforcement personnel. The CIA is an independent agency that provides intelligence relevant to national security and strategic policy interests of the US to senior US policymakers. The CIA's primary mission is to collect, analyze, and produce timely analysis of foreign intelligence to assist the President and senior USG policymakers in making decisions in support of national interests and goals. The CIA does not make policy; it is an independent source of intelligence information for those who do. The CIA may also conduct covert action at the direction of the President to preempt threats or achieve US policy objectives.

*For more information see <http://www.dni.gov>; <http://www.cia.gov>;
The 2019 National Intelligence Strategy at
<https://www.jcs.mil/Doctrine/Interorganizational-Documents/>*

18. Environmental Protection Agency

The Environmental Protection Agency's (EPA's) mission is to protect human health and the environment. EPA leads the nation's environmental science, research, education, and assessment efforts. EPA works closely with other USG departments and agencies, state and local governments, and Indian tribes to develop and enforce regulations under existing environmental laws. EPA researches and sets national standards for a variety of environmental programs and delegates to states and tribes responsibility for issuing permits and monitoring and enforcing compliance. Where national standards are not met, EPA can issue sanctions and take other steps to assist the states and tribes in reaching the desired levels of environmental quality. EPA, along with the US Coast Guard, also has significant responsibilities under the NRF for oil and hazardous materials response (ESF 10), and under the National Oil and Hazardous Substances. Below is the EPA regional map.



*For more information see <http://www.epa.gov>;
The Environmental Protection Agency FY 2018 - 2022 Strategic Plan
<https://www.jcs.mil/Doctrine/Interorganizational-Documents/>*

19. General Services Administration

The General Services Administration (GSA) leverages the buying power of the USG to acquire the best value for taxpayers and federal customers. GSA exercises responsible asset management; delivers superior workplaces, quality acquisition services, and expert business solutions; and develops innovative and effective management policies. GSA oversees the business of the USG. Serving as co-primary agency lead for NRF resources support (ESF 7), and support agency to nine other ESFs.

*For more information see <http://www.gsa.gov>;
The GSA Strategic Plan Fiscal Years 2018-2022 at <https://www.jcs.mil/Doctrine/Interorganizational-Documents/>*

*For more information see The United States Government Manual at <https://www.jcs.mil/Doctrine/Interorganizational-Documents/>; ESFs at <https://www.fema.gov/media-library/assets/documents/>; RSFs at <https://www.fema.gov/recovery-support-functions>; Joint Publication 3-08, *Interorganizational Cooperation* at <https://www.jcs.mil/Doctrine/Joint-Doctrine-Pubs/3-0-Operations-Series/>; *Interorganizational Cooperation I of III - The Interagency Perspective JFQ 79*, 2015; *Interorganizational Cooperation II of III - The Humanitarian Perspective JFQ 80*, 2016; *Interorganizational Cooperation III of III The Joint Force Perspective JFQ 81*, 2016, at <https://www.jcs.mil/Doctrine/Interorganizational-Documents/>; *Campaign Activities related to Civilian, Economic, environmental, Food, and Health Security*, at *The US Government's Approach Articles* at <https://www.jcs.mil/Doctrine/Interorganizational-Documents/>;*

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APPENDIX B

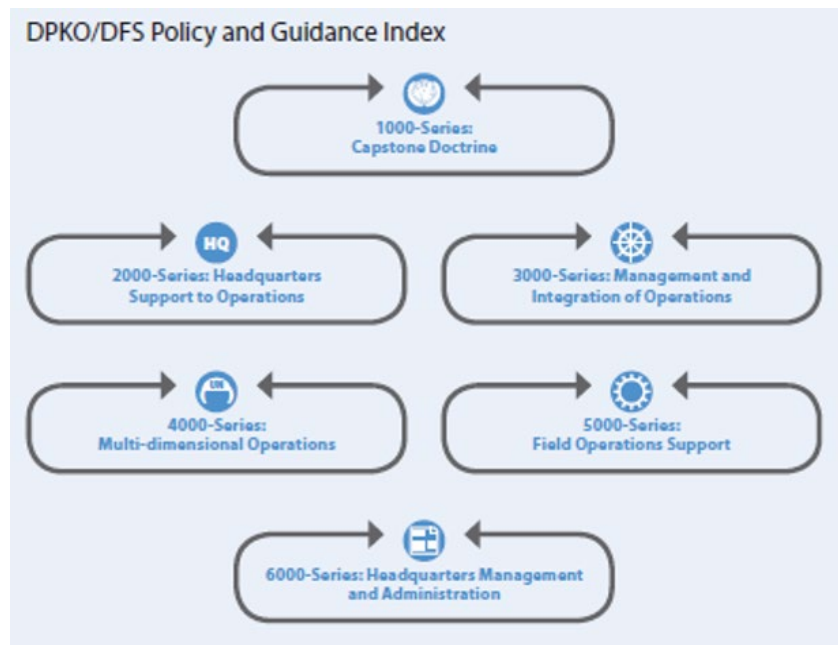
INTERNATIONAL ORGANIZATIONS

1. International Organizations

An international organization is an organization created by a formal agreement (e.g., a treaty) between two or more governments on a global, regional, or functional basis to protect and promote national interests shared by member states. International organizations may be established for wide-ranging or narrowly defined purposes. Examples include the UN, NATO, Organization of American States, and the African Union (AU). NATO and the Organization for Security and Cooperation in Europe are regional security organizations, while the European Union, the AU, and the Organization of American States are general regional organizations.

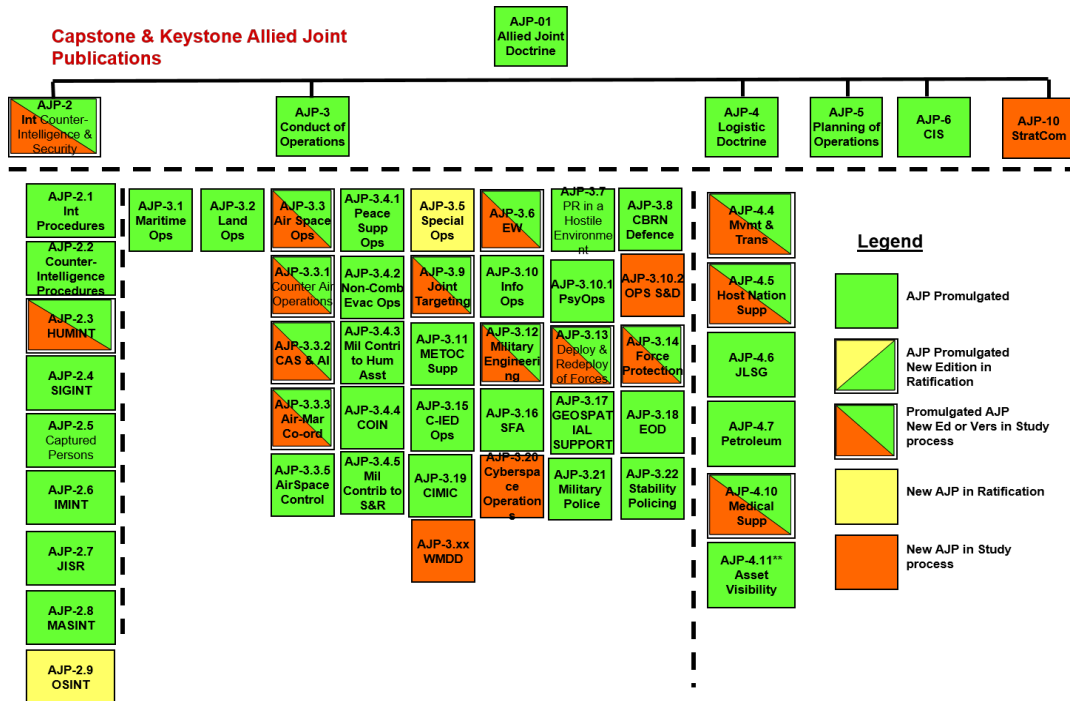
Coordination with the UN begins at the national level with DOS, through the US ambassador to the UN, officially titled the US Permanent Representative. The ambassador typically has the status of Cabinet rank and is assisted at the US mission to the UN by a military assistant who coordinates military interests primarily with the UN Department of Peacekeeping Operations (DPKO) and the UNOCHA. USG coordination with UN peace operations missions or agencies in-theater is through the US country team, which includes DOS's refugee coordinators focused on humanitarian response through UN agencies and the International Committee of the Red Cross. In some countries, US UN military observers attached to some UN peace operations missions may provide information and advice through the US country team. The following UN Doctrine framework that is being developed under its UN Peacekeeping Operations Principles and Guidelines capstone document is authored by the UNDPKO and Department of Field Support.

UNITED NATIONS DOCTRINE HIERARCHY BUILDING BLOCKS



NATO is an alliance of 29 countries from North America and Europe committed to fulfilling the goals of the North Atlantic Treaty. In accordance with the treaty, the fundamental role of NATO is to safeguard the freedom and security of its member countries by political and military means. It provides a forum for member countries to consult on security issues of common concern and take joint action to address them. The following is NATO's own Allied Joint Doctrine Architecture to guide the employment of allied joint forces in multinational operations.

ALLIED JOINT DOCTRINE HIERARCHY



For more information on the UN see <http://www.un.org>;
NATO at <http://www.nato.in>

2. International Red Cross and Red Crescent Movement and American Red Cross

The International Red Cross and Red Crescent Movement is a global humanitarian network of over 80 million people that helps those facing disaster, conflict and health and social problems. It consists of the International Committee of the Red Cross, the International Federation of Red Cross and Red Crescent Societies, and the 191 National Red Cross and Red Crescent Societies. As part of a worldwide movement that offers neutral humanitarian care to the victims of war, the American Red Cross distinguishes itself by also aiding victims of devastating natural disasters. Over the years, the organization has expanded its services, always with the aim of preventing and relieving suffering. It also offers compassionate services in five other areas: community services that help the needy; support and comfort for military members and their families; the collection, processing, and distribution of lifesaving blood and blood products; educational programs that promote health and safety; and international relief (includes disaster risk reduction and preparedness programs) and development programs.

*For more information see <https://www.icrc.org/en/who-we-are/movement>
The American Red Cross at <http://www.redcross.org>*

3. United States Institute of Peace and Nongovernmental Organizations

The US Institute of Peace (USIP) was created by Congress in 1984 as an independent, nonpartisan organization charged with preventing, mitigating, and resolving violent conflicts around the world. USIP engages directly in conflict zones and by providing analysis, education, and resources to those working for peace. USIP's programs are funded by an annual congressional appropriation and supplemented by funds from USG departments and agencies. USIP has more than 300 personnel at their District of Columbia Headquarters and more on the ground in many of the world's most dangerous regions.

NGOs are private, self-governing, not-for-profit organizations dedicated to alleviating human suffering; and/or promoting education, health care, economic development, environmental protection, human rights, and conflict resolution; and/or encouraging the establishment of democratic institutions and civil society. Where long-term problems precede a deepening crisis, NGOs are frequently on scene before the US military and may have an established presence in the crisis area. NGOs frequently work in areas where military forces conduct military engagement, security cooperation, and deterrence activities and most likely will remain long after military forces have departed. Although NGOs may have philosophical differences and divergent agendas from military forces, short-term objectives are frequently similar. Identifying common ground with NGOs can be mutually beneficial, although NGOs often object to any sense that their activities have been co-opted for the achievement of military objectives. Their mission is often one of a humanitarian or development nature and in very few cases related to assisting the military. InterAction is the largest coalition of US-based international development and humanitarian NGO with over 165 members operating in developing countries.

Civil society and civil society organizations are nongovernmental, voluntary groups that organize themselves on behalf of individual citizens and local communities. An active civil society partners with government to fill public services and holds government accountable, by pressing for transparent and fair governance, with equal access to government services for all people. Traditional civil society and civil society organizations include religious, tribal, cultural, and informal organizations. Modern civil society and civil society organizations include universities, community-based organizations, professional and trade associations, media, charities, artists, and NGOs financed with national funds.

*For more information on USIP <http://www.usip.org>;
Interaction at <https://www.interaction.org/>*

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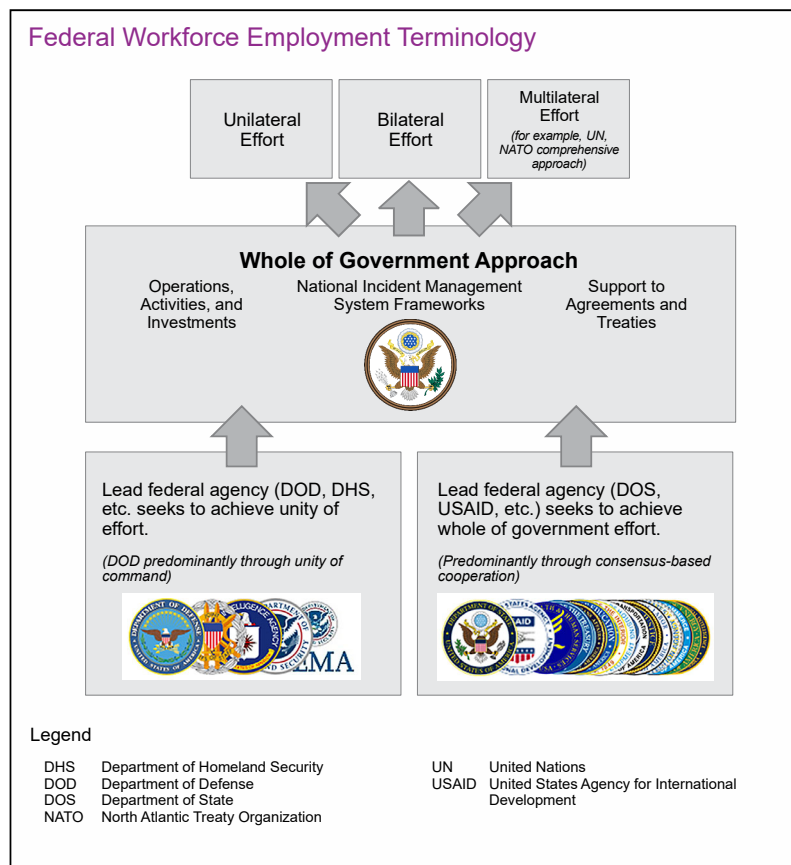
APPENDIX C COORDINATION MECHANISMS

1. Coordination Mechanisms

The following discusses USG and other frameworks, systems, notional mapping, and terminology.

2. Federal Crosswalk

USG federal workforce communities presently describe their strategic approach as either “unity of effort” or “whole-of-government effort” when employed. The following shows the basic terminology used and for what efforts.



3. Domestic National Coordination Mechanisms

For domestic operations, USG departments and agencies aspire to a whole-of-government approach. This approach involves the integration of USG efforts through interagency planning that set forth detailed concepts of operations; descriptions of critical tasks and responsibilities; detailed resource, personnel, and sourcing requirements; and specific provisions for the rapid integration of resources and personnel directed in PPD-8. Two planning frameworks are represented below.

National Response Framework

Domestic Coordination—Emergency Support Functions

Agency	#1 - Transportation	#2 - Communications	#3 - Public Works and Engineering	#4 - Firefighting	#5 - Emergency Management	#6 - Mass Care, Emergency Assistance, Housing, and Human Services	#7 - Logistics Management and Resource Support	#8 - Public Health and Medical Services	#9 - Search and Rescue	#10 - Oil and Hazardous Materials Response	#11 - Agriculture and Natural Resources	#12 - Energy	#13 - Public Safety and Security	#14 - Cross-Sector Business and Infrastructure	#15 - External Affairs
USDA			S		S	S	S	S			C	S		S	S
USDA/FS	S	S	S	C	S	S	S	S	S	S			S		S
DOC	S	S	S	S	S		S	S	S	S	S	S	S	S	S
DOD	S	S	S	S	S	S	S	S	P	S	S	S	S	S	S
DOD/USACE	S		C	S		S	S	S	S	S	S	S	S	S	
ED					S										S
DOE	S		S		S		S	S	S	S	S	C		S	S
DHHS			S		S	S	S	C	S	S	S			S	S
DHS	S	S	S		S		S	S	S	S	S	S	S	C	C
DHS/FEMA	S	P	P	S	C	C	C	S	C	S	S			P	P
DHS/NCS		C					S						S		
DHS/USCG	S		S	S				S	P	P			S		
HUD					S	S								S	S
DOI	S	S	S	S	S	S	S	S	P	S	P	S	S		S
DOJ	S				S	S		S	S	S	S		C		S
DOL			S		S	S		S	S	S	S	S		S	S
DOS	S		S	S	S			S		S	S	S		S	S
DOS/USAID					S	S				S	S	S			S
DOT	C		S		S	S	S	S			S	S		S	S
Treasury					S	S							S	S	S
VA			S		S	S	S	S					S		S
EPA			S	S				S		C	S	S	S	S	S
GSA	S	S	S		S	S	C	S		S	S			S	S

Legend

C	ESF coordinator	GSA	General Services Administration
DHHS	Department of Health and Human Services	HUD	Department of Housing and Urban Development
DHS	Department of Homeland Security	NCS	National Communications System
DOC	Department of Commerce	P	primary agency
DOD	Department of Defense	S	support agency
DOE	Department of Energy	USACE	United States Army Corps of Engineers
DOI	Department of the Interior	USAID	United States Agency for International Development
DOJ	Department of Justice	USCG	United States Coast Guard
DOL	Department of Labor	USDA	United States Department of Agriculture
DOS	Department of State	VA	US Department of Veterans Affairs
DOT	Department of Transportation		
ED	Department of Education		
EPA	Environmental Protection Agency		
ESF	emergency support function		
FEMA	Federal Emergency Management Agency		
FS	Forest Service		

Other Federal Agencies may not be depicted for the purposes of this figure.

National Disaster Recovery Framework

Domestic Coordination—Recovery Support Functions

Agency	#1 - Community Planning and Capacity Building	#2 - Economic	#3 - Health and Social Services	#4 - Housing	#5 - Infrastructure Systems	#6 - Natural and Cultural Resources
USDA	S	S	S	P	S	S
DOC	S	C		S	S	S
DOD					S	
DOD/USACE					C	S
ED	S		P		S	
DOE				S	P	
DHHS	P		C	S	S	
DHS	S				S	
DHS/FEMA	C	P	P	S	P	P
HUD	S			S		
DOI	S		P		S	C
DOJ	S		P	P		
DOL		P	P			
DOT	S		S		P	
Treasury	S	S	S		S	
VA			P	S		
EPA	S		P	S	S	P
GSA					S	
CNCS	S		P	S		S
SBA	S	P	S	S		
ARC			S	S		

Legend

ARC	American Red Cross	ED	Department of Education
C	coordinator	EPA	Environmental Protection Agency
CNCS	Corporation for National Community Service	FEMA	Federal Emergency Management Agency
DHHS	Department of Health and Human Services	HUD	Department of Housing and Urban Development
DHS	Department of Homeland Security	P	primary agency
GSA	General Services Administration	S	support agency
DOC	Department of Commerce	RSF	recovery support function
DOD	Department of Defense	SBA	Small Business Administration
DOE	Department of Energy	USACE	United States Army Corps of Engineers
DOI	Department of the Interior	USDA	United States Department of Agriculture
DOJ	Department of Justice	VA	US Department of Veterans Affairs
DOL	Department of Labor		
DOT	Department of Transportation		
ED	Department of Education		

Other Federal Agencies may not be depicted for the purposes of this figure.

4. Federal System Linkage Abroad

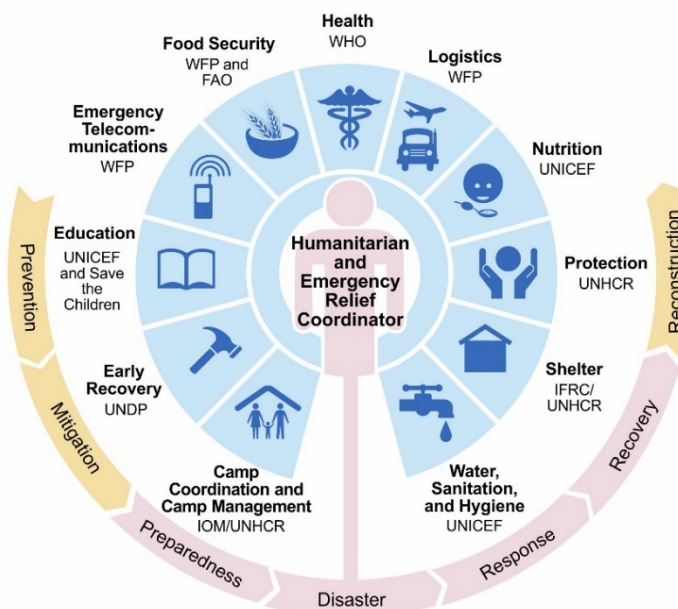
The USAID/OFDA Humanitarian Sector system has 11 areas that coordinate foreign disaster, conflict or development assistance to HN through the COM/US Ambassador via DOS. Upon request from the host nation through UNOCHA, the USG normally through USAID/OFDA will provide assistance that links with UN and other coordination systems abroad. UNOCHA is responsible for assistance activated under the UN Humanitarian Clusters system that is responsible for facilitating assistance to the relevant HN ministries. If UN Clusters are not activated, international response normally flows to HN ministries.

United States Agency for International Development
Humanitarian Sectors

	Agriculture and Food Security
	Economic Recovery and Market Systems
	Health
	Humanitarian Coordination and Information Management
	Humanitarian Studies, Analysis, or Applications
	Logistics and Relief Commodities
	Nutrition
	Protection
	Natural and Technological Risks
	Shelter and Settlements
	Water, Sanitation, and Hygiene

Cluster Sector Activities and Respective Leads

The Clusters



NOTE:
The cluster system does not apply in refugee situations where UNHCR is the lead for all sectors.

Legend

FAO	Food and Agriculture Organization (United Nations)	UNHCR	United Nations High Commissioner for Refugees
IFRC	International Federation of Red Cross and Red Crescent Societies	UNICEF	United Nations Children's Fund
IOM	International Organization for Migration	WFP	World Food Programme (United Nations)
UNDP	United Nations Development Programme	WHO	World Health Organization (United Nations)

5. Notional US Domestic to Foreign Government Institution Mapping

As USG departments continue to develop their own strategies to achieve policy security objectives, the future is uncertain on how they will plan for a robust international workforce response. Currently, USAID-led foreign disaster relief is effective for routine disasters but additional progress is needed to better coordinate US humanitarian assistance for catastrophes with cascading effects to public infrastructure (for example, the loss of electrical power grids and exposure to chemical and radiological events). One solution is to use the domestic NRF as a framework. The NRF evolved from Katrina is a useful model for a possible International Response Framework (IRF). Such a framework could produce a mechanism that would be useful due to the fact that most foreign governments are not prepared to respond to out-of-the ordinary, severe catastrophes that overwhelm local and regional response capacity. The NRFs ESRs bring order into a space of chaos during disaster relief. USAID/OFDA's humanitarian sectors framework can link into the UN Cluster system to provide disaster relief to the HN. The NRF identifies the key response principles, as well as the roles and structures that organize national response. It describes how communities, States, the Federal Government, and private sector and nongovernmental stakeholders apply these principles for a coordinated, effective national response. In addition, it describes special circumstances where the Federal Government exercises a larger role, including incidents where USG interests are involved and catastrophic incidents where a State would require significant support. It lays the groundwork for first responders, decision-makers and supporting entities to provide a unified national response. An IRF must take into account the role and capacities of the UN agencies and should attempt to mirror the UN Cluster system to ensure integration during international responses. In this context, USG disaster response should function within the UN system, with ultimate responsibility and control left to the host government. The following mapping can be used in whole or portions to create an IRF.

NFR to IRF Mapping.

NRF Activity	US Humanitarian Activity	UN Cluster Activity	HN Activity
ESF #11 Agriculture and Natural Resources (USDA)	Agriculture Food and Security	Agriculture (Food and Agriculture Organization of the UN)	Ministry of Agriculture; Ministry of Livestock Development
former ESF #14 Long-Term Recovery (DHS); now National Disaster Recovery Framework	Humanitarian Coordination and Information Management	Camp Management (UN High Comm for Refugees / International Organization for Migration)	Ministry of State for Special Programmes
ESF #5 Emergency Management (DHS)	Economic Recovery and Market Systems	Early Recovery (UN Development Programme)	Ministry of State for Special Programmes
ESF #15 External Affairs (DHS)	Humanitarian Studies, Analysis or Applications	Education (UN Children's Fund / Save the Children)	Ministry of Education
ESF #6 Mass Care, Emergency Assistance, Housing, and Human Services (DHS)	Shelter and Settlements	Emergency Shelter (UN High Commissioner for Refugees)	Ministry of Public Health & Sanitation
ESF #8 Public Health and Medical Services (HHS)	Health	Health (World Health Organization)	Ministry of Health; Ministry of Public Health & Sanitation
ESF #7 Logistics Management and Resource Support (DHS/GSA)	Logistics and Relief Commodities	Logistics (World Food Programme)	Ministry of State for Special Programmes
ESF #11 Agriculture and Natural Resources (USDA)	Nutrition	Nutrition (UN Children's Fund)	Ministry of Health; Ministry of Public Health & Sanitation
ESF #13 Public Safety and Security (DOJ)	Protection	Protection (UN High Comm for Refugees / UN High Comm for Human Rights/UN Children's Fund)	Ministry of Provincial Admin and Internal Security
ESF #2 Communications (DHS)	Natural and Technological Risks	Telecommunications (OCHA/ UN Children's Fund / World Food Programme)	Ministry of State for Special Programmes
ESF #8 Public Health and Medical Services (HHS)	Water, Sanitation and Hygiene	Water/Sanitation (UN Children)	Ministry of Water & Irrigation

For more information see USG Haiti Report, Independent Review of the U.S. Government Response to the Haiti Earthquake, Final Report, March 2011 at https://pdf.usaid.gov/pdf_docs/pdacr222.pdf;

APPENDIX D

DEPARTMENT FACTORS

The Code of Laws of the United States of America (U.S. Code) is the official compilation and codification of US federal statutes. It contains 53 titles. The main edition is published every six years by the House of Representative, and cumulative supplements are published annually. Below is a crosswalk between departments and US Code sections.

Department and Selected Agency	Section of US CODE
Agriculture	7, 21
Commerce	13, 15, 17, 35
Defense	10, 32, 37, 41, 42, 50
Education	20
Energy	42
Health and Human Services	42
Homeland Security	6, 8, 14, 19, 23, 33, 42, 50
Housing and Urban Development	42
Interior	16, 25, 30, 43, 54
Justice	18, 28, 42
Labor	29, 30, 33
State Department	22
Transportation	23, 42, 45, 46, 48, 49
Treasury	11, 12, 26, 31
Veteran Affairs	38
Environmental Protection Agency	42
Central Intelligence Agency	50
Office of the Director of National Intelligence	50
General Services Administration	40, 41

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APPENDIX E

UNITED STATES GOVERNMENT COMPENDIUM OF INTERAGENCY AND ASSOCIATED TERMS (USG Compendium)

Interagency terms that reside in strategic level or other significant documents of relevancy to the interagency can be proposed placement in a separate USG Compendium.

The USG Compendium is separated into two parts (I - alphabetization of terms, and II -thematic lists.) The requirement is on the reader to analyze individual terms by viewing the original source placed in the document following each term and definition before comparing with similar terms or using in other documents. Part II's thematic lists are categorized as follows to expose readers to terms and definitions related to foreign and domestic activities:

1. Domestic Support - All-Hazard Emergency Management:

- law enforcement; fire and medical health services related to preparedness, protection, mitigation, response, recovery and continuation of essential public and private services

2. Domestic Support - Homeland Security:

- terrorism, intelligence, cybersecurity, critical infrastructure protection, national all-hazard emergency planning and response to include civil-military coordination

3. Foreign Support - Humanitarian and Sustainable Development Assistance:

- foreign disaster response and humanitarian relief, youth, resilience and climate change as well as sectoral: health, agriculture, education, et al.

4. Foreign Support - Stabilization and Security Assistance:

- fragility, defense and governance, counterterrorism, counter violent extremism, peace keeping operations, atrocity prevention, civil-military coordination and transition

5. Administrative Terms:

- those terms commonly used in interagency discussions

Updates to the USG Compendium are made annually or event-driven. For reference purposes, the USG Compendium will be cited as: Office of the Chairman of the Joint Chiefs of Staff, "USG Compendium of Interagency and Associated Terms," (Washington, DC: The Joint Staff, date), page # (if necessary).

For more information on the USG Compendium see The DOD Terminology Program Web pages on the Joint Electronic Library at <https://www.jcs.mil/>

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APPENDIX F

GLOSSARY

(for this document only)

[Departments and Agencies normally define mission task terms (n - deterrence, stabilization, etc.) instead of strategic effect terms (v) to avoid confusion within and between mission areas and levels of engagement. For strategic effect terms the standard dictionary definition applies. The following is a lengthy but not exhaustive list of strategic effect terms: advance, assure, coerce, compete, compel, contain, deceive, defeat, degrade, delay, delegitimize, deny, destroy, deter, discredit, disable, discourage, disrupt, divert, engage, enhance, integrate, isolate, kill, maintain, manage, neutralize, prevent, protect, stabilize, suppress, synchronize.]

chief of mission - the principal officer in charge of a diplomatic mission of the United States or of a United States office abroad which is designated by the Secretary of State as diplomatic in nature, including any individual temporarily assigned to be in charge of such a mission or office. Also called COM. (22 USC 3902)

civil society - nongovernmental, voluntary groups that organize themselves on behalf of individual citizens and local communities to fill public services and holds government accountable, by pressing for transparent and fair governance, with equal access to government services for all people.

collaboration - a process where organizations work together to attain common goals by sharing knowledge, learning, and building consensus.

compromise - a settlement of differences by mutual concessions without violation of core values; an agreement reached by adjustment of conflicting or opposing positions, by reciprocal modification of an original position.

consensus - a general or collective agreement, accord, or position reached by a group as a whole. It implies a serious consideration of every group member's position and results in a mutually acceptable outcome even if there are differences among parties.

cooperation - the process of acting together for a common purpose or mutual benefit. It involves working in harmony, side by side and implies an association between organizations. It is the alternative to working separately in competition. Cooperation with other departments and agencies does not require giving up authority, autonomy, or becoming subordinated to the direction of others.

coordination - the process of organizing a complex enterprise in which numerous organizations are involved, and bringing their contributions together to form a coherent or efficient whole.

development assistance - programs, projects, and activities that improve the lives of the citizens of developing countries while furthering US foreign policy interests in expanding democracy and promoting free market economic growth.

interagency - of or pertaining to United States Government agencies and departments, including the Department of Defense. (*DOD Dictionary*)

intergovernmental organization - an organization created by a formal agreement between two or more governments on a global, regional, or functional basis to protect and promote national interests shared by member states.

interorganizational cooperation - the interaction that occurs among elements of the Department of Defense; participating United States Government departments and agencies; state, territorial, local, and tribal agencies; foreign military forces and government agencies; international organizations; nongovernmental organizations; and the private sector. (*DOD Dictionary*)

lead federal agency - the federal agency that leads and coordinates the overall federal response to an emergency. Also called LFA. (*DOD Dictionary*)

mission civil-military coordinator - serves as the first point of contact for non-disaster related interactions between the Department of Defense and the United States Agency for International Development and missions; serves as a formal point of entry the Department of Defense and the United States Agency for International Development missions and support more effective coordination, reduce duplication, and to lead to better development outcomes in support of national security.

mission partner - an agency or other external stakeholder that the US military works with in a specific situation or operation, based on an agreement, commitment or willing arrangement, to advance their mutual interests.

nongovernmental organization - a private, self-governing, not-for-profit organization dedicated to alleviating human suffering; and/or promoting education, health care, economic development, environmental protection, human rights, and conflict resolution; and/or encouraging the establishment of democratic institutions and civil society. Also called NGO. (*DOD Dictionary*)

private sector - an umbrella term that may be applied to any or all of the nonpublic or commercial individuals and businesses, specified nonprofit organizations, most of academia and other scholastic institutions, and selected nongovernmental organizations.

stabilization - a political endeavor involving an integrated civilian-military process to create conditions where locally legitimate authorities and systems can peaceably manage conflict and prevent a resurgence of violence. (*Stabilization Assistance Review, DOS, USAID, DOD, 2018*)

stakeholder - a person, organization, or entity who affects or can be affected by actions of the US military. Stakeholders do not necessarily have shared goals or objectives with the US Government or Department of Defense.

strategic art - a process that involves continuous orchestration of all the instrument of national power to protect and promote national interests.

synchronization - the process of planning when and how—across time and space—stakeholders will apply their resources in a sequenced fashion.

unified action - the synchronization, coordination, and/or integration of the activities of governmental and nongovernmental entities with military operations to achieve unity of effort.

unity of command - the operation of all forces under a single responsible commander who has the requisite authority to direct and employ those forces in pursuit of a common purpose. (*DOD Dictionary*)

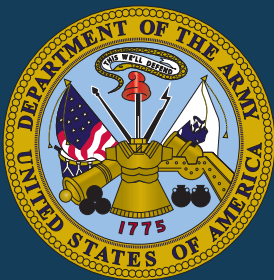
unity of effort - coordination and cooperation toward common objectives, even if the participants are not necessarily part of the same command or organization, which is the product of successful unified action. (*DOD Dictionary*)

whole-of-government approach - an approach that integrates the collaborative efforts of the departments and agencies of the US Government to achieve unity of effort. (*CJCSI 3110.01K*)

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Joint Publication 3-08



Interorganizational Cooperation



12 October 2016
Validated 18 October 2017



PREFACE

1. Scope

This publication provides joint doctrine to coordinate military operations with other US Government departments and agencies; state, local, and tribal governments; foreign military forces and government agencies; international organizations, nongovernmental organizations, and the private sector.

2. Purpose

This publication has been prepared under the direction of the Chairman of the Joint Chiefs of Staff (CJCS). It sets forth joint doctrine to govern the activities and performance of the Armed Forces of the United States in joint operations, and it provides considerations for military interaction with governmental and nongovernmental agencies, multinational forces, and other interorganizational partners. It provides military guidance for the exercise of authority by combatant commanders and other joint force commanders (JFCs), and prescribes joint doctrine for operations and training. It provides military guidance for use by the Armed Forces in preparing and executing their plans and orders. It is not the intent of this publication to restrict the authority of the JFC from organizing the force and executing the mission in a manner the JFC deems most appropriate to ensure unity of effort in the accomplishment of objectives.

3. Application

a. Joint doctrine established in this publication applies to the Joint Staff, commanders of combatant commands, subunified commands, joint task forces, subordinate components of these commands, the Services, and combat support agencies.

b. The guidance in this publication is authoritative; as such, this doctrine will be followed except when, in the judgment of the commander, exceptional circumstances dictate otherwise. If conflicts arise between the contents of this publication and the contents of Service publications, this publication will take precedence unless the CJCS, normally in coordination with the other members of the Joint Chiefs of Staff, has provided more current and specific guidance. Commanders of forces operating as part of a multinational (alliance or coalition) military command should follow multinational

doctrine and procedures ratified by the United States. For doctrine and procedures not ratified by the US, commanders should evaluate and follow the multinational command's doctrine and procedures, where applicable and consistent with US law, regulations, and doctrine.

For the Chairman of the Joint Chiefs of Staff:

A handwritten signature in black ink, appearing to read 'K. D. Scott', with a stylized flourish at the end.

KEVIN D. SCOTT
Vice Admiral, USN
Director, Joint Force Development

**SUMMARY OF CHANGES
REVISION OF JOINT PUBLICATION 3-08
DATED 24 JUNE 2011**

- **This publication was validated without change on 18 October 2017.**
- **Changes the title to Interorganizational Cooperation.**
- **Updates appendices to focus more on what military commanders should know about relevant civilian organizations.**
- **Deconflicts the labeling of civilian-led organizations, to include the Red Cross and Red Crescent Movement.**
- **Removes the term intergovernmental organization and its acronym IGO.**
- **Modifies civilian-led organizations into three categories: international organizations, governmental organizations, and nongovernmental organizations.**
- **Updates language regarding the role and mission of the United Nations.**
- **Clarifies the role of the United States Agency for International Development (USAID) Office of Transition Initiatives and its relationship with the Department of Defense (DOD).**
- **Deletes reference to Homeland Security Presidential Directive-7 and replaces it with Presidential Policy Directive-21, Critical Infrastructure Security and Resilience.**
- **Adds description of the mission and activities of the Food and Drug Administration and better describes its relationship with DOD.**
- **Better explains the complexity of various US Government departments and agencies due to a lack of organic authorities and lack of appropriations to support certain activities.**
- **Adds reference to the Department of State and USAID Joint Strategic Plan, FY 2014-2017, and the USAID Policy on Cooperation with the Department of Defense.**
- **Emphasizes the benefits of a task-organized joint task force.**

- **Notes the placement of USAID senior development advisors and their role supporting development issues for the combatant commander.**
- **Clarifies the roles and missions of Customs and Border Protection.**
- **Identifies certain US Coast Guard maritime counterterrorism units.**
- **Adds language on the roles of the Federal Aviation Administration, and clarifies a statement on air traffic management security.**

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EXECUTIVE SUMMARY COMMANDER'S OVERVIEW

- **Describes the Foundations of Interorganizational Cooperation**
 - **Addresses Key Considerations for Interagency Cooperation**
 - **Covers Conducting Interorganizational Cooperation**
 - **Presents Domestic Considerations for Interorganizational Cooperation**
 - **Presents Foreign Considerations for Interorganizational Cooperation**
-

Foundations of Interorganizational Cooperation

Commitment to interorganizational cooperation can facilitate cooperation in areas of common interest, promote a common operational picture, and enable sharing of critical information and resources.

Interorganizational cooperation may enable:

Unity of effort. The translation of national objectives into unified action is essential to unity of effort and ultimately mission success.

Common objectives. Joint and multinational operations are integrated at the strategic level and coordinated at the operational and tactical level with the activities of participating United States Government (USG) departments and agencies, relevant international organizations, nongovernmental organizations (NGOs), host nation (HN) agencies, and elements of the private sector to achieve common objectives.

Common understanding. Common understanding can enable the joint force commander (JFC) to identify opportunities for cooperation, assist in mitigating unnecessary conflict or unintended consequences, and operate effectively in the same space as external organizations.

Unity of Effort

Interorganizational cooperation can build mutual understanding of respective goals to enable unity of effort. While unity of command and the exercise of command and control (C2) apply strictly to military forces and operations, unified action among all stakeholders is necessary to achieve unity of effort in military operations involving civilian organizations and

foreign military forces, or military participation in civilian-led operations.

Whole-of-Government

For domestic operations, USG departments and agencies aspire to a whole-of-government approach. This approach involves the integration of USG efforts through interagency planning that set forth detailed concepts of operations. For international operations, there is no similarly robust interagency framework with equivalent statutory authorities or designated interagency roles and responsibilities.

Coordinating Efforts

Strategic Direction. Strategic direction is the common thread that integrates and synchronizes the activities of the Joint Staff (JS), combatant commands (CCMDs), Services, combat support agencies, and other USG departments and agencies.

Applying the Military Component. JFCs have long coordinated with USG departments and agencies such as Department of State (DOS), Department of Justice, Department of Transportation, United States Agency for International Development (USAID), and the intelligence community. JFCs preparing for domestic operations maintain relationships with the Department of Homeland Security (DHS) and its component agencies.

Capitalizing on Organizational Diversity. Each stakeholder brings its own culture, authorities, missions, philosophy, goals, practices, expertise, and skills to the mission. This diversity is an asset when viewed as an opportunity to see the problem from multiple perspectives, for generating innovative solutions, and for bringing various capabilities to the fight.

Identifying Authorities. Each USG department and agency derives authorities from the US Constitution, federal law, federal charters, Presidential directives, congressional mandates, and strategic direction. These authorities should be identified and documented early in the joint planning process.

Enabling Unity of Effort. JFCs integrate and synchronize joint operations, as much as possible, in time, space, and purpose with the actions of supporting or supported multinational forces and civilian partners.

***Working Relationships
and Practices***

In an interagency sense, the concept of supported/supporting is less about command relationships and more about the methods used to obtain and provide support. Civilian departments and agencies tend to operate via coordination and communication structures, rather than C2 structures.

The most common technique for collaboration is the identification or formation of boards, centers, cells, working groups, offices, elements, planning teams, and other enduring or temporary cross-functional staff organizations that manage specific processes and accomplish tasks in support of mission accomplishment.

***Considerations for
Effective Cooperation***

While many NGOs might not be hostile to Department of Defense (DOD) goals, they may choose to not cooperate with DOD or USG efforts to maintain their neutrality. Private sector entities are largely motivated by business or other institutional interests. USG contractors are legally constrained by the language of their contract and generally report to, and are accountable to, only the contracting officer of the contracting agency. Cooperation between international organizations, NGOs, and the private sector is often based on a perceived mutually supportive interest, rather than a formalized agreement.

Key Considerations for Interagency Cooperation

***United States Government
(USG) Department and
Agency Cooperation***

One difficulty of coordinating operations among USG departments and agencies is determining appropriate counterparts and exchanging information among them when habitual relationships are not established. The CCMDs, Services, National Guard Bureau, JS, and other DOD organizations provide a number of liaison officers to other USG departments and agencies, or organizations, principally in the National Capital Region, to assist USG departments and agencies in accomplishing mutually assigned tasks.

***Organizational
Environments***

Sharing information among department and agency participants is critical to ensure no participant is handicapped by a lack of situational awareness, uncertainties are reduced as much as possible, and interagency decision making is empowered by a common operational picture. Common unifying goals should be clarified with a discussion on the way to achieve them

based upon the roles and responsibilities of each organization with their assigned resources.

***Commander's
Communication
Synchronization***

The USG uses strategic guidance and direction to coordinate use of the informational instrument of national power in specific situations. Commander's communication guidance is a fundamental component of national security direction. It is essential to our ability to achieve unity of effort through unified action with our interagency partners and the broader interorganizational community.

***Cyberspace
Considerations***

Access to the Internet provides adversaries the capability to compromise the integrity of US critical infrastructures/key resources in direct and indirect ways. Threats to all interorganizational networks present a significant risk to national security and global military missions.

Interorganizational Cooperation

***USG organizations
working to achieve
national security
objectives require
increased and improved
communications and
cooperation.***

Joint planning should include key external stakeholders, ideally starting with mission analysis. Within the area of responsibility (AOR) and the joint operations area (JOA), structures are established at the CCMD, subordinate joint task force (JTF) headquarters (HQ), task force, and Service component levels to coordinate and resolve military, political, humanitarian, and other issues.

***National Security Council
System***

The Chairman of the Joint Chiefs of Staff (CJCS) regularly attends National Security Council (NSC) meetings and provides advice and views in this capacity.

***Whole-of-Government
Approach***

Whole-of-government planning refers to NSC-sponsored processes by which multiple USG departments and agencies come together to develop plans that address challenges to national interests.

***Joint Planning and
Interorganizational
Cooperation***

Once approval has been provided within the proper chains of command, the combatant commanders coordinate with affected USG entities throughout the Adaptive Planning and Execution enterprise to align the instruments of national power. When developing joint plans, planners should identify opportunities to support and promote a unified USG approach to achieve national security objectives.

***Interorganizational
Cooperation***

The crux of interorganizational cooperation is understanding the civil-military relationship as collaborative rather than competitive. While the military normally focuses on achieving clearly defined and measurable objectives within given timelines under a C2 structure, civilian organizations are concerned with fulfilling shifting political, economic, social, and humanitarian interests using negotiation, dialogue, bargaining, and consensus building. Civilian organizations may have a better appreciation of the political-social-cultural situation, and have better relief, development, and public administration experience, thus potentially acting as agents of change within that society.

***International
Organizations***

International organizations may be established for wide-ranging or narrowly defined purposes. Examples include the United Nations (UN), North Atlantic Treaty Organization (NATO), Organization of American States (OAS), and the African Union (AU). NATO and the Organization for Security and Cooperation in Europe are regional security organizations, while the European Union, the AU, and the OAS are general regional organizations. However, some general regional organizations and sub-regional organizations conduct security related activities.

***Nongovernmental
Organizations (NGOs)***

Where long-term problems precede a deepening crisis, NGOs are frequently on scene before the US military and may have an established presence in the crisis area. NGOs frequently work in areas where military forces conduct military engagement, security cooperation, and deterrence activities. They will most likely remain long after military forces have departed.

The Private Sector

The private sector is an umbrella term that may be applied to any or all of the nonpublic or commercial individuals and businesses, specified nonprofit organizations, most of academia and other scholastic institutions, and selected NGOs. The private sector can help the USG obtain information, identify risks, conduct vulnerability assessments, and provide other assistance.

***Joint Task Force
Considerations***

Unlike the military, most USG departments and agencies are not equipped and organized to create separate staffs at the strategic, operational, and tactical levels. Therefore, JTF personnel interface with individuals who are coordinating their organization's activities at more than one level.

Organizing the Joint Force Headquarters for Interorganizational Cooperation

Joint force HQ organization structure should support interorganizational cooperation. The JFC's mission analysis should identify each staff functional area's requirements to coordinate with external stakeholders. The JFC should synchronize its interorganizational cooperation with adjacent DOD commands, particularly those who support or are supported by the JFC.

Information Management and Sharing

Commanders at all levels should provide guidance on information sharing outside of the USG. DOD information should be secured and made available to mission partners to the maximum extent allowed by US laws and DOD policy. Commanders, joint task forces (CJTFs) and their staffs should communicate with non-USG stakeholders from the outset of complex operations, and not as an afterthought.

Domestic Considerations

Key Roles of USG Stakeholders

DHS leads the unified national effort to secure America by preventing terrorism and enhancing security, securing and managing our borders, enforcing and administering immigration laws, safeguarding and securing cyberspace, and ensuring resilience to disasters. **Within DOD, Secretary of Defense (SecDef)** has overall authority and is the President's principal advisor on military matters concerning use of federal forces in homeland defense (HD) and defense support of civil authorities (DSCA). Chief, National Guard Bureau is SecDef's principal advisor, through the CJCS, for non-federalized National Guard forces. The Assistant Secretary of Defense (Homeland Defense and Global Security) serves as the principal staff assistant delegated the authority to manage and coordinate HD and DSCA functions at the SecDef level. The two CCMDs with major HD and DSCA missions are **United States Northern Command (USNORTHCOM)** and **United States Pacific Command (USPACOM)**, as their AORs include the US and its territories. **CJCS** ensures HD and DSCA plans and operations are compatible with other military plans.

Homeland Defense and Defense Support of Civil Authorities

The use of the Armed Forces inside the US and its territories, though limited in some respects, falls into two mission areas: HD—for which DOD is lead agency and employs military forces to conduct military operations in defense of the homeland; and DSCA—for which DOD

supports other USG departments and agencies by providing military resources in support of civil authorities. While the HD and DSCA missions are distinct, some department roles and responsibilities overlap, and operations require extensive coordination between lead and supporting agencies.

***Joint Force
Considerations***

When the President or SecDef directs DSCA, Commander, USNORTHCOM or Commander, USPACOM will generally be designated as the supported commander.

***State, Local, Territorial,
and Tribal Considerations***

When a disaster threatens or occurs, a governor may request federal assistance. If DOD support is required and approved as part of that federal assistance, then DOD may execute mission assignments in support of the primary federal agency that often result in a wide range of assistance to local, tribal, territorial, and state authorities. Significant incidents require a coordinated response across organizations and jurisdictions, political boundaries, sectors of society, and multiple organizations.

NGOs

National Voluntary Organizations Active in Disaster (NVOAD) (<http://www.nvoad.org>) is a nonprofit, nonpartisan organization that provides a forum for organizations to share knowledge and resources to help communities prepare for and recover from disasters. NVOAD is the primary point of contact for voluntary organizations in the National Response Coordination Center (at Federal Emergency Management Agency HQ).

The Private Sector

The private sector owns or operates approximately 85 percent of the nation's critical infrastructure. Federal, state, local, and tribal governments and the private sector are partners in critical infrastructure protection.

***Interorganizational
Cooperation with Canada,
Mexico, and the Bahamas***

Canada. North American Aerospace Defense Command, USNORTHCOM, and Canada Joint Operations Command share the task of defending North America and building cooperative approaches to ensure its security.

Mexico. USNORTHCOM works in partnership with the Mexican military and civil response partners to increase mutual long-term capacity to counter common security threats and build consequence management capability.

The Bahamas. USNORTHCOM works in partnership with the Royal Bahamas Defence Force and their National Emergency Management Agency civil response partners to increase long-term capacity to counter security threats to both the Bahamas and the US and build cooperative consequence management capabilities.

***Critical Infrastructure
Information Sharing and
Analysis***

DHS leads the evaluation of vulnerabilities and coordinates with other federal, state, local, tribal, international, and private entities to plan responses.

Foreign Considerations

***USG Structure in Foreign
Countries***

The Diplomatic Mission. The US has bilateral diplomatic relations with almost all of the world's independent states. The US bilateral representation in the foreign country, known as the diplomatic mission, is established in accordance with the Vienna Convention on Diplomatic Relations, of which the US is a party.

The Ambassador. The ambassador is the President's personal representative to the government of the foreign country or to the international organization to which accredited.

The Embassy. The HQ of the mission is the US embassy, usually located in the capital city of the HN.

Consulates. Consulates—branch offices of the mission located in key cities—may be established in large cities or commercial centers. Consulates are often far from the US embassy. A consulate is headed by a consul general.

The Country Team. The country team, headed by the chief of mission (COM), is the senior in-country interagency coordinating body.

CCMDs. USG departments and agencies augment CCMDs to help integrate the instruments of national power in plans.

***International
Organizations***

The UN. Coordination with the UN begins at the national level with DOS, through the US ambassador to the UN, officially titled the US Permanent Representative.

NATO. NATO is an alliance of 28 countries from North America and Europe committed to fulfilling the goals of the North Atlantic Treaty.

NGOs

NGOs typically operate under approval of the HN and provide humanitarian or other assistance in many of the world's trouble spots. In a hostile or uncertain environment, the military's initial objective is stabilization and security for its own forces. NGOs normally seek to address humanitarian needs first and are often unwilling to subordinate their objectives to military missions, which they had no part in determining.

Military Support of NGOs

SecDef may task US military forces with missions that bring them into contact with international organizations, NGOs, and private sector entities. In such circumstances, it can be mutually beneficial to coordinate the activities of all entities in the operational area.

Foreign Operations

Within the executive branch, DOS is the lead foreign affairs agency, assisting the President in foreign policy formulation and execution. DOS oversees the coordination of DOD external political-military relationships with overall US foreign policy. USAID is the lead agency for overseas development and disaster response and carries out programs that complement DOD efforts in stabilization, foreign internal defense, and security force assistance.

Joint Task Force Considerations

JTF Assessment Team. A JTF assessment team may deploy to the JOA to establish liaison with the ambassador or COM, country team, HN, multinational members, UN representatives, international organizations, NGOs, and private sector representatives.

Organizational Tools for the JTF. The CJTF should establish structures to coordinate all activities in the JOA. In addition to military operations, these structures should include political, civil, administrative, legal, and humanitarian elements, as well as international organizations, NGOs, private sector entities, and the media.

Civil-Military Operations Center

The civil-military operations center (CMOC) is a mechanism to coordinate civil-military operations that can also provide operational and tactical level coordination between the JFC and other stakeholders. The CMOC

generally does not set policy or direct operations, but rather coordinates and facilitates. The CMOC is the meeting place of stakeholders. Once established in the JOA and operating primarily from the CMOC, or humanitarian operations center, JTF liaison teams work to increase understanding of mission and tactics with other forces, convey information, enhance mutual trust, and improve teamwork.

Civil-Military Teams

A civil-military team combines diplomatic, informational, military, and economic capabilities to enhance the legitimacy and the effectiveness of the HN government.

Aligning Words and Deeds

All USG departments and agencies share responsibility to use information as an instrument of national power. This includes developing processes to access and analyze communication and to deliver information to key audiences, both US and foreign. DOD synchronizes, aligns, and coordinates communication to facilitate understanding by key audiences.

CONCLUSION

This publication provides joint doctrine to coordinate military operations with other USG departments and agencies; state, local, and tribal governments; foreign military forces and government agencies; international organizations; NGOs; and the private sector.

CHAPTER I INTRODUCTION

“When the United States undertakes military operations, the Armed Forces of the United States are only one component of a national-level effort involving all instruments of national power. Instilling unity of effort at the national level is necessarily a cooperative endeavor involving a number of United States Government departments and agencies. In certain operations, agencies of states, localities, or foreign countries may also be involved.”

Joint Publication 1, *Doctrine for the Armed Forces of the United States*

1. Introduction

This publication describes the joint force commander’s (JFC’s) coordination with various external organizations that may be involved with, or operate simultaneously with, joint operations. This coordination includes the Armed Forces of the United States; United States Government (USG) departments and agencies; state, territorial, local, and tribal government agencies; foreign military forces and government agencies; international organizations; nongovernmental organizations (NGOs); and the private sector. Interagency coordination describes the interaction between USG departments and agencies and is a subset of interorganizational cooperation. Figure I-1 illustrates this point. The Department of Defense (DOD) conducts interorganizational cooperation across a range of operations, with each type of operation involving different communities of interest, structures, and authorities. The terms “interagency” and “interorganizational” do not define structures or organizations, but rather describe processes occurring among various separate entities.

SECTION A. FOUNDATIONS OF INTERORGANIZATIONAL COOPERATION

2. Purpose

Commitment to interorganizational cooperation can facilitate cooperation in areas of common interest, promote a common operational picture (COP), and enable sharing of critical information and resources. This commitment is based on recognition that external organizations will affect the JFC’s mission, and vice versa. Interorganizational cooperation may enable:

a. **Unity of Effort.** The translation of national objectives into unified action is essential to unity of effort and ultimately mission success. DOD agencies interact with interorganizational stakeholders to gain a mutual understanding of the capabilities, limitations, and consequences of military and civilian actions and to identify ways in which military and civilian capabilities best complement each other. The National Security Council (NSC) integrates these capabilities by facilitating mutual understanding and cooperation at the national level.

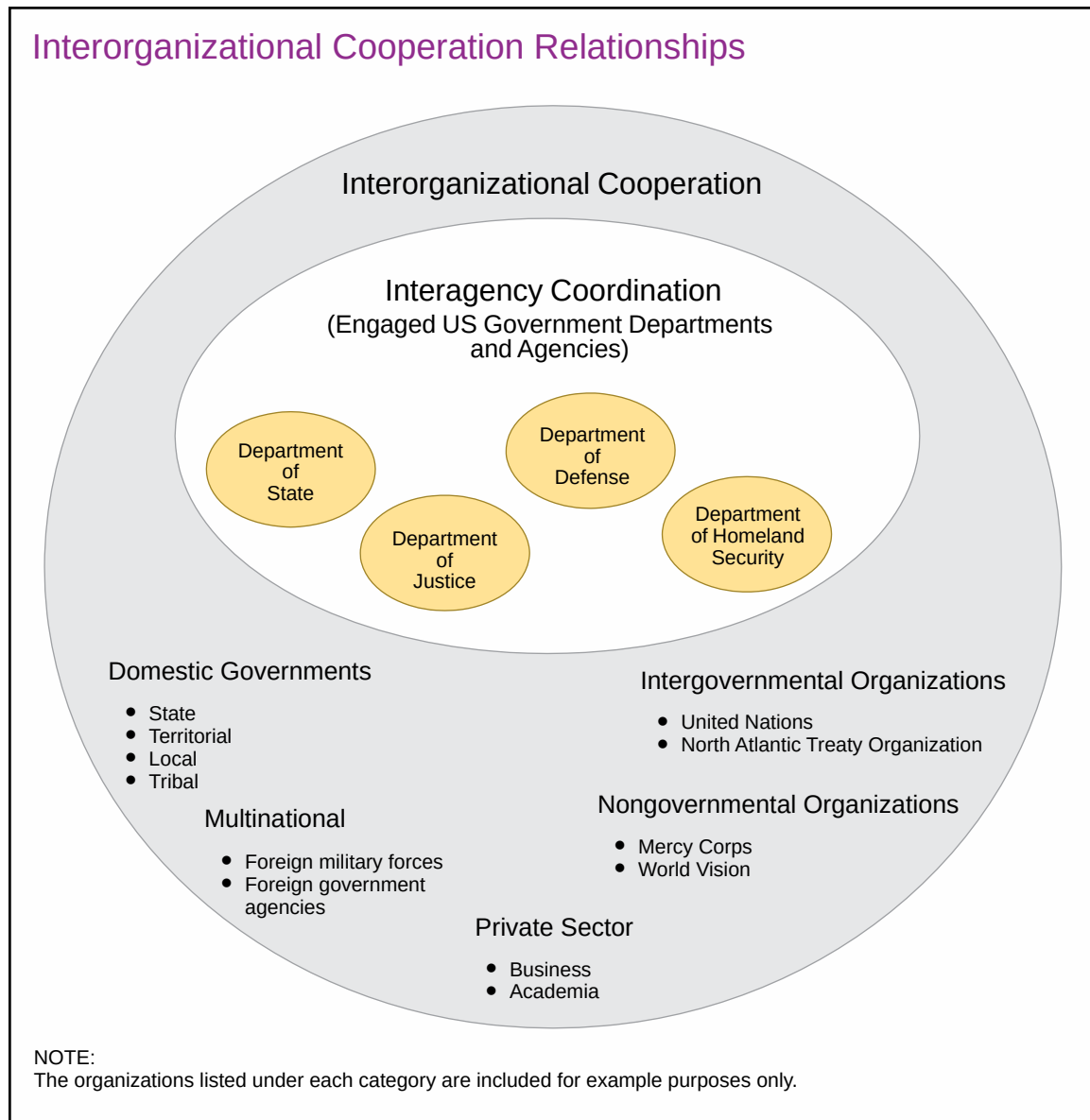


Figure I-1. Interorganizational Cooperation Relationships

b. Common Objectives. A number of civilian agencies and organizations—each with their own mandates, capabilities, authorities, and objectives—interact with the Armed Forces of the United States and its multinational counterparts. Joint and multinational operations are integrated at the strategic level and coordinated at the operational and tactical level with the activities of participating USG departments and agencies, relevant international organizations, NGOs, host nation (HN) agencies, and elements of the private sector to achieve common objectives. Interagency coordination is conducted between elements of DOD and relevant USG departments and agencies to achieve unity of effort. Interagency coordination links the US military and the other instruments of national power. Interorganizational cooperation refers to broader interaction among elements of DOD; relevant USG departments and agencies; state, territorial, local, and tribal agencies; foreign military forces and government agencies; international organizations; NGOs; the private sector; and other mission partners.

c. Common Understanding

(1) JFCs can draw on the capabilities of external organizations, provide additional capabilities or capacity to those organizations, or deconflict military activities with them. External organizations may be present only during some phases of an operation or campaign. It is imperative JFCs and their staffs coordinate with the relevant interorganizational entities in the shared operational environment in order to increase situational awareness and address their respective interests, equities, and challenges. Interorganizational cooperation enables understanding between military commands and external stakeholders concerning respective interests, equities, and challenges. Common

KEY TERMS

Interagency—Of or pertaining to United States Government agencies and departments, including the Department of Defense.

Interorganizational cooperation—The interaction that occurs among elements of the Department of Defense; participating United States Government departments and agencies; state, territorial, local, and tribal agencies; foreign military forces and government agencies; international organizations; nongovernmental organizations; and the private sector.

Nongovernmental organization—A private, self-governing, not-for-profit organization dedicated to alleviating human suffering; and/or promoting education, health care, economic development, environmental protection, human rights, and conflict resolution; and/or encouraging the establishment of democratic institutions and civil society.

Private sector—An umbrella term that may be applied to any or all of the nonpublic or commercial individuals and businesses, specified nonprofit organizations, most of academia and other scholastic institutions, and selected nongovernmental organizations.

Unified action—The synchronization, coordination, and/or integration of the activities of governmental and nongovernmental entities with military operations to achieve unity of effort.

Unity of effort—Coordination and cooperation toward common objectives, even if the participants are not necessarily part of the same command or organization, which is the product of successful unified action.

While not defined, the terms mission partner and stakeholder are used throughout this joint publication. A mission partner is an agency or other external stakeholder that the US military works with in a specific situation or operation, based on an agreement, commitment or willing arrangement, to advance their mutual interests. Mission partners broadly share mission goals and objectives. A stakeholder is a person, organization, or entity who affects or can be affected by actions of the US military. Stakeholders do not necessarily have shared goals or objectives with the US Government or Department of Defense.

understanding can enable the JFC to identify opportunities for cooperation, assist in mitigating unnecessary conflict or unintended consequences, and operate effectively in the same space as external organizations.

(2) DOD should provide participating external stakeholders with consistent and coherent information to synchronize efforts and minimize confusion at the strategic, operational, and tactical levels. DOD elements—including Office of the Secretary of Defense (OSD), the Joint Chiefs of Staff (JCS), DOD agencies and field activities, Military Departments, and combatant commands (CCMDs)—should work with USG partners to develop objectives, which identify DOD’s role. DOD’s organizational culture, procedures, and hierarchical structure may facilitate consensus building and development of an internal DOD position prior to conducting interorganizational cooperation, especially at the strategic level. However, this DOD internal consensus may require compromise to tailor DOD capabilities to enable unity of effort to attain the USG end state. OSD and the Joint Staff (JS) coordinate with the NSC staff; JFC’s staffs work with, and through, their OSD and JS counterparts to facilitate interagency coordination and establish and maintain dialogue on national objectives. Office of the Under Secretary of Defense for Policy (OUSD[P]) and JS involvement helps ensure interagency coordination is synchronized and cohesive at all levels. Greater visibility of DOD-wide coordination with other USG departments and agencies enables the Secretary of Defense (SecDef) to balance competing global requirements and present a unified DOD position.

(3) Combatant commanders (CCDRs) and other JFCs should assign personnel to facilitate interorganizational cooperation to better prepare for smooth transition activities from shaping to crisis response or major operations and campaigns.

3. Unity of Effort

a. Within the USG, unity of effort can be diminished by organizational stovepiping, crisis-driven planning, different core missions, and divergent organizational processes and cultures. When USG departments and agencies do not coordinate sufficiently, they may interpret national policy guidance differently, develop different objectives and strategies, and set different priorities, and therefore, not act in concert toward national objectives. In a coalition, the interests and practices of participating foreign governments and military forces, international organizations, NGOs, and private sector entities are distinct from, and at times can compete with, USG interests, further exacerbating these issues. Interorganizational cooperation can build mutual understanding of respective goals to enable unity of effort.

b. Interorganizational cooperation seeks to find common goals, objectives, or principles between different organizations; set the conditions for unified action through planning and preparation; and leverage cross-organizational capabilities for unity of effort during execution

c. In military operations, unity of effort is facilitated by first establishing unity of command. Unity of command is based on the designation of a single commander with the authority to direct and coordinate the efforts of all assigned and attached forces in

pursuit of a common objective. Commanders exercise military command and control (C2) to ensure military operations are planned and conducted in accordance with (IAW) the guidance and direction received from the President and SecDef in coordination with other authorities (e.g., North Atlantic Treaty Organization [NATO] or United Nations [UN]). In operations involving interagency partners and other stakeholders where the commander may not control all elements, commanders should seek cooperation and build consensus to achieve unity of effort toward mission objectives.

For more information on unity of effort, see Joint Publication (JP) 1, Doctrine for the Armed Forces of the United States.

d. While unity of command and the exercise of C2 apply strictly to military forces and operations, unified action among all stakeholders is necessary to achieve unity of effort in military operations involving civilian organizations and foreign military forces or military participation in civilian-led operations. Unified action is the DOD doctrinal term that represents a comprehensive approach. Unified action is promoted through close, continuous coordination and cooperation, which seeks to minimize confusion over objectives, inadequate structure or procedures, and bureaucratic or personnel limitations.

e. A rigid military, C2-focused approach may be counterproductive to building interorganizational relationships and may impede unified action. Achieving unity of effort is a continuous process, requiring constant effort to sustain interorganizational relationships. If at all possible, these relationships are best established prior to the operation or crisis. This lays the groundwork for trust, which facilitates communication and quicker actions.

f. Even where an overall USG strategy for a particular operational area has been agreed to by all USG departments and agencies involved, individuals are likely to interpret that mission through the lens (or perspective) of their particular agency's core mission. The goal of improving unity of effort is to achieve a broad consensus approach in applying instruments of national power toward common objectives. The Department of State's (DOS's) *3D Planning Guide: Diplomacy, Development, Defense* states, "...to achieve unity of effort, it is not necessary for all organizations to be controlled under the same command structure, but it is necessary for each agency's efforts to be in harmony with the short- and long-term goals of the mission." The *Unity of Effort Framework Solution Guide: Improving Unity of Effort* is a planning and synchronization aid to improve intergovernmental unified action. The framework is especially useful in planning before operations begin and is most effective when applied at the beginning of the planning process. It can serve as an interagency operational template for those missions in which DOD is not the lead agency. Four attributes can guide a framework that can improve unity of effort:

- (1) Common vision or goals for the mission.
- (2) Common understanding of the operational environment.
- (3) Coordination of efforts to ensure continued coherency.

- (4) Compatible measures of progress and ability to change course, if necessary.

For more information on unified action and unity of effort, refer to JP 1, Doctrine for the Armed Forces of the United States. For more information on the challenges associated with unified action and interorganizational cooperation, refer to Decade of War, Volume 1, Enduring Lessons from the Past Decade of Operations (<http://oai.dtic.mil/oai/oai?verb=getRecord&metadataPrefix=html&identifier=ADA570341>).

4. Whole-of-Government

a. For domestic operations, USG departments and agencies aspire to a whole-of-government approach. This approach involves the integration of USG efforts through interagency planning that set forth detailed concepts of operations; descriptions of critical tasks and responsibilities; detailed resource, personnel, and sourcing requirements; and specific provisions for the rapid integration of resources and personnel directed in Presidential Policy Directive (PPD)-8, *National Preparedness*. The National Preparedness System contains five national planning frameworks (NPFs) (<https://www.fema.gov/national-planning-frameworks>) that spell out USG departments and agencies' responsibilities to prevent, protect against, mitigate, respond to, and recover from the threats and hazards that pose the greatest risk, as called for in PPD-8, *National Preparedness*—National Prevention Framework, National Protection Framework, National Mitigation Framework, National Response Framework (NRF), National Disaster Recovery Framework.

b. For international operations, there is no similarly robust interagency framework with equivalent statutory authorities or designated interagency roles and responsibilities. Some policies, processes, and organizations facilitate whole-of-government efforts (for example, National Security Presidential Directive (NSPD)-44, *Management of Interagency Efforts Concerning Reconstruction and Stabilization*; Department of Defense Instruction [DODI] 3000.05, *Stability Operations*; DOS's Bureau of Conflict and Stabilization Operations [CSO]; and the Office of the Director of National Intelligence [ODNI] to coordinate the activities of all USG intelligence agencies). Security cooperation programs under Title 10, United States Code (USC), Section 2282 authority are developed through a process of joint formulation between DOD and DOS.

5. Coordinating Efforts

a. **Strategic Direction.** The President, assisted by the NSC, provides strategic direction to guide USG departments and agencies. Strategic direction is provided in national level documents such as the national security strategy (NSS), Defense Strategy Review (DSR), National Military Strategy, National Strategy for Combating Terrorism, NPFs (the NRF is one of five NPFs), National Strategy for Maritime Security, National Incident Management System (NIMS), and the Unified Command Plan. Strategic direction is the common thread that integrates and synchronizes the activities of the JS, CCMDs, Services, combat support agencies, and other USG departments and agencies. As an overarching term, strategic direction encompasses the processes and products by

which the President, SecDef, and Chairman of the Joint Chiefs of Staff (CJCS) provide policy and strategic guidance to DOD.

(1) Within the USG, the NSS guides the development, integration, and coordination of all the instruments of national power to accomplish national security objectives. The President signs the NSS, and the NSC is the principal forum to coordinate its strategic-level implementation. With respect to DOD, this effort informs the development of strategic direction that is used by the CCMDs, Services, and DOD agencies, and forms the foundation for operational and tactical-level guidance.

(2) In the context of weapons of mass destruction (WMD), systematic and deliberate interorganizational cooperation is mandated at the strategic level to enable an enhanced response. The *Department of Defense Strategy to Counter Weapons of Mass Destruction* states, “DOD must be prepared for complex WMD crises with global implications, such as the transfer of WMD or material of concern, the creation of WMD safe havens, or the threatened or actual use of WMD. DOD must also be prepared to respond to the theft or loss of control of WMD or material of concern in states that are weakly governed or under internal or external pressures. These risks present unique challenges to DOD that require adaptive or innovative operational concepts, the flexible application of military force, and the effective integration of interagency and international capabilities.” The strategy also states that “existing relationships with partners must be maintained and deepened, and new partnerships must be sought out and created. Additionally, DOD must coordinate with NGOs that can provide enhanced capabilities and capacities.”

For more information, refer to JP 3-40, Countering Weapons of Mass Destruction.

(3) The NRF presents the guiding principles that enable all response partners to prepare for, and provide a unified national response to, domestic disasters and emergencies. The NRF establishes a comprehensive, national, all-hazards approach to domestic incident response and describes the roles and responsibilities of USG departments and agencies, including DOD, for delivering the core capabilities required.

For more information, refer to the NSS; JP 3-27, Homeland Defense; and JP 3-28, Defense Support of Civil Authorities.

b. Applying the Military Component. JFCs have long coordinated with USG departments and agencies such as DOS, Department of Justice (DOJ), Department of Transportation (DOT), United States Agency for International Development (USAID), and the intelligence community (IC). JFCs preparing for domestic operations maintain relationships with the Department of Homeland Security (DHS) and its component agencies; DOJ, particularly the Federal Bureau of Investigation (FBI); and the National Guard Bureau (NGB), which provides coordination with the adjutants general (TAGs) of the 50 states, District of Columbia (through its commanding general), and the three territories. Other JFCs preparing for foreign operations coordinate selectively with multinational partners, international organizations (e.g., the UN and NATO), NGOs, and HN agencies.

(1) Solutions to complex problems seldom reside exclusively in one department or agency. Joint campaign and operation plans should be developed to optimize the core authorities, competencies, and operational capabilities of other departments and agencies, particularly when DOD provides support to those departments and agencies. Planning for department or agency expertise should also occur within a commander's estimate (Level 1) and/or within a base plan (Level 2), depending on requirements. Annex V (Interagency Coordination) of specific joint concept plans (CONPLANS) and/or operation plans (OPLANS) should capture much of this information. Additionally, other sections (e.g., annex A [Task Organization], annex B [Intelligence], annex C [Operations], annex G [Civil Affairs], annex W [Operational Contract Support], and annex Y [Commanders' Communication Synchronization]) should also contain pertinent interagency information.

For more information and sample formats, refer to Chairman of the Joint Chiefs of Staff Manual (CJCSM) 3130.03, Adaptive Planning and Execution (APEX) Planning Formats and Guidance.

(2) In many situations, DOD serves in a supporting role. Thus, commanders and their staffs may need to adjust or adopt procedures, especially planning and reporting, to coordinate military operations with the activities of other organizations. DOD interaction with international organizations; NGOs; state, local, and tribal authorities; and the private sector is conducted with the knowledge, approval, assistance, and cooperation of the chief of mission (COM) in foreign countries and DHS (e.g., Federal Emergency Management Agency [FEMA]) in the US. USAID and DHS may also facilitate DOD interaction with these entities. DOD may also develop direct relations with these organizations to prepare for potential coordinated response operations.

c. Capitalizing on Organizational Diversity. Each stakeholder brings its own culture, authorities, core missions, philosophy, goals, practices, expertise, and skills to the mission. This diversity is an asset when viewed as an opportunity to see the problem set from multiple perspectives, for generating innovative solutions, and for bringing various capabilities to the fight. It can also present challenges in achieving unified action and a common understanding of the operational environment and mission goals. The core missions of different agencies and organizations may not coincide with the JFC's mission.

d. Gathering the Right Resources. Commanders should identify available resources and capabilities, and determine how to work with mission partners to apply them. Despite potential philosophical, cultural, and operational differences, JFCs should foster an atmosphere of cooperation that contributes to unity of effort.

e. Identifying Authorities. Each USG department and agency derives authorities from the US Constitution, federal law, federal charters, Presidential directives, congressional mandates, and strategic direction. These authorities should be identified and documented early in the joint planning process (JPP). International organization authorities are based on their formal agreements with member governments and rely

largely on consensus among their members. NGOs are independent of the USG, although they may have certain contractual obligations when they receive USG funding. Private sector organizations are bound by the laws of various jurisdictions, including their home jurisdiction and any location where they do business.

f. **Enabling Unity of Effort.** JFCs integrate and synchronize joint operations, as much as possible, in time, space, and purpose with the actions of supporting or supported multinational forces (MNFs) and civilian partners. The extent of cooperation and coordination between various organizations with the joint force will vary based on the nature of the operation (e.g., offensive/defensive, peacekeeping, or humanitarian) and the organization's capabilities, mission, and role.

6. Working Relationships and Practices

a. **Supported and Supporting Roles.** Relationships between military and civilian departments and agencies cannot be equated to military command authorities (e.g., operational control [OPCON], tactical control [TACON], support) as described in JP 1, *Doctrine for the Armed Forces of the United States*. In an interagency sense, the concept of supported/supporting is less about command relationships and more about the methods used to obtain and provide support. During combat operations, such as Operation DESERT STORM, DOD was the lead agency and was supported by other USG departments and agencies. In foreign humanitarian assistance (FHA) operations, such as the Haiti earthquake, DOD provided support to USAID's Office of United States Foreign Disaster Assistance (OFDA). When civil authorities receive military support (approved by the President or SecDef), the CCMDs typically support another civilian department or agency (e.g., Department of Health and Human Services [DHHS] as part of NRF Emergency Support Function [ESF] #8, Public Health and Medical Services). Members of the National Guard (NG) may be activated in a Title 10, USC, status; in a Title 32, USC, status; or in a state active duty status to support domestic operations.

b. **Coordination.** Civilian departments and agencies tend to operate via coordination and communication structures, rather than C2 structures. However, when the incident command system (ICS) is used, it is typically under a unified command structure used when more than one department or agency has incident jurisdiction or when incidents cross political jurisdictions. The ICS is a standardized, on-scene emergency management construct specifically designed to provide an integrated organizational structure that can accommodate complexity and the demands of multiple incidents, without being hindered by jurisdictional boundaries. NGOs do not operate within military, governmental, or international organization hierarchies. However, they often occupy the same operational space, and efforts must be made for coordination.

For more information, refer to Guidelines for Relations Between US Armed Forces and Nongovernmental Humanitarian Organizations in Hostile or Potentially Hostile Environments (http://www.usip.org/sites/default/files/guidelines_handout.pdf).

c. **Collaboration.** The most common technique for collaboration is the identification or formation of boards, centers, cells, working groups, offices, elements,

planning teams, and other enduring or temporary cross-functional staff organizations that manage specific processes and accomplish tasks in support of mission accomplishment. These cross-functional staff organizations generally fall under the principal oversight of the joint force staff directorates. This arrangement strengthens the staff's support to mission execution. Inclusion of participating civilian department and agency representatives in the various cross-functional staff organizations enhances collaboration. JFCs should consider selective integration of participating civilian departments and agencies into their day-to-day operations.

d. **Liaison.** Direct, early liaison can facilitate the flow of accurate and timely information about the crisis area, especially when civilian department, agency, and organizational activities precede military operations. Early liaison can also build working relationships based upon trust and open communications among all organizations.

For more information on collaborative techniques and employment of liaison officers (LNOs), refer to JP 3-33, Joint Task Force Headquarters.

7. Considerations for Effective Cooperation

a. Military policies, processes, and procedures can be different from those of civilian organizations. These differences may present significant challenges to interorganizational cooperation. The various USG departments and agencies often have different, and sometimes conflicting, legal authority, policies, procedures, and decision-making techniques, which make unified action a challenge. In addition, some international organizations, NGOs, and private sector entities may have policies that are antithetical to those of the USG, particularly the US military. US membership in an international organization does not guarantee that the international organization will act in a manner that supports or is consistent with US policy or objectives. While many NGOs might not be hostile to DOD goals, they may choose to not cooperate with DOD or USG efforts to maintain their neutrality. Private sector entities are largely motivated by business or other institutional interests. USG contractors are legally constrained by the language of their contract and generally report to, and are accountable to, only the contracting officer of the contracting agency. Activities outside the scope of the contract require a new contract or modifications to the existing contract.

b. The military relies on structured and hierarchical decision-making processes; detailed planning; the use of standardized tactics, techniques, and procedures; and sophisticated C2 systems to coordinate and synchronize operations. Civilian departments and agencies may employ similar principles, but may not have the same degree of structural process, and their organizational structure is often more horizontal. Decision processes may be more ad hoc, collaborative, and collegial. Cooperation between international organizations, NGOs, and the private sector is often based on a perceived mutually supportive interest, rather than a formalized agreement. Many NGOs are signatories to various codes of conduct, which include the responsibility to share information for effectiveness, safety, and other reasons. An understanding of the differences in decision-making processes is essential to avoid confusion during

NOTIONAL RANGE OF INTERACTION TERMS

The following terms are a range of interactions that occur among stakeholders. There is no common interorganizational agreement on these terms, and other stakeholders may use them interchangeably or with varying definitions. The following descriptions provide a baseline for common understanding.

Collaboration is a process where organizations work together to attain common goals by sharing knowledge, learning, and building consensus.

Compromise is a settlement of differences by mutual concessions without violation of core values; an agreement reached by adjustment of conflicting or opposing positions, by reciprocal modification of an original position. Compromise should not be regarded in the context of win/lose.

Consensus is a general or collective agreement, accord, or position reached by a group as a whole. It implies a serious consideration of every group member's position and results in a mutually acceptable outcome even if there are differences among parties.

Cooperation is the process of acting together for a common purpose or mutual benefit. It involves working in harmony, side by side and implies an association between organizations. It is the alternative to working separately in competition. Cooperation with other departments and agencies does not require giving up authority, autonomy, or becoming subordinated to the direction of others.

Coordination is the process of organizing a complex enterprise in which numerous organizations are involved, and bringing their contributions together to form a coherent or efficient whole.

Synchronization is the process of planning when and how—across time and space—stakeholders will apply their resources in a sequenced fashion.

interorganizational cooperation. A continuous information exchange among stakeholders can mitigate confusion.

c. US military forces provide unique capabilities to USG efforts. These include military-to-military relationships, extensive resources (e.g., logistics), and people ready to rapidly respond to multiple global crises. Additional unique military capabilities include C2 resources supported by worldwide communications and intelligence, surveillance, and reconnaissance infrastructures; robust organizational and planning processes; civil affairs (CA) personnel and their civilian-acquired skills; and air, land, and sea mobility support for intertheater or intratheater requirements.

d. Operations involving extensive USG and multinational involvement present significant coordination challenges. Mutual understanding of mission objectives and clear lines of authority enable successful execution. Normally, existing authorities dictate the primary or lead agency. In cases where the USG lead is unclear, a department or agency may be designated by the President or NSC.

e. Joint force operations can reinforce USG diplomatic, development, and law enforcement initiatives and other activities. As an example, DOS regional and/or integrated country strategies and geographic combatant commander (GCC) theater campaign plans (TCPs) are coordinated and synchronized.

f. Successful interagency cooperation depends on the ability of JFCs, the COM or the ambassador, the CJCS, and the secretaries or directors of USG departments and agencies to personally work together. Interpersonal communication skills that emphasize consultation, persuasion, compromise, and consensus building contribute to achieving unified action. Successful JFCs and their staffs work continuously to build personal relationships that inspire trust and confidence. The challenges of gaining consensus and creating synergy among the USG departments and agencies, multinational partners, and nongovernmental entities are greater, as they are significant because of the constant rotation of DOD personnel and other staffs, and there are generally no clear authorities directing these relationships. JFCs and their staffs can address these challenges by developing personal relationships, using liaison elements, and making conscious decisions on the degree of reliance on those external stakeholders for critical tasks. It is not necessary to “own” every asset to ensure access. The long-term institutionalization of personal relationships should be a goal. When personal relationships do not exist (e.g., with the arrival of a new commander or key staff member), then the command’s positive reputation, built over time, can enable coordination.

SECTION B. KEY CONSIDERATIONS FOR INTERAGENCY COORDINATION

8. United States Government Department and Agency Coordination

a. One difficulty of coordinating operations among USG departments and agencies is determining appropriate counterparts and exchanging information among them when habitual relationships are not established. Organizational differences exist between the US military and USG departments’ and agencies’ hierarchies, particularly at the operational level. In defense support of civil authorities (DSCA), military forces may not be familiar with existing structures for disaster response. In foreign operations, existing structures may be limited or not exist at all. Further, overall lead authority in a crisis response and limited contingency operation is likely to be exercised not by the GCC, but by a US ambassador, COM (usually, but not always, the ambassador), or other senior civilian who will provide policy and goals for all USG departments and agencies. When a disaster is declared, the DOS geographic bureau of the affected area becomes the key participating bureau.

b. Decision making at the lowest levels is frequently thwarted because field coordinators may not be vested with the authority to speak for parent organizations. Physical or virtual interagency teaming initiatives, such as joint interagency task forces (JIATFs), joint interagency coordination groups (JIACGs), or routine interagency video teleconferences, improve reachback and expedite decision making. Figure I-2 depicts comparative organizational structures in the context of four levels of decision making.

c. CCMDs coordinate with civilian department and agency representatives in two primary ways. The first is through an LNO, where the individual retains parent agency identity and a direct reporting relationship (e.g., a member of one of the CCDR's cross-functional staff organizations such as the JIACG). The second is through direct assignment (i.e., civilian agency detail) to the command in the same capacity as a DOD employee. USG departments and agencies may deploy relatively junior personnel compared to their military counterparts. This difference in age, seniority, experience, or

Relevant United States Agency Organizational Structures Levels of Armed Forces of United States Executive Departments and Agencies

Levels of Decision Making	United States Executive Departments and Agencies
National Strategic	National Security Council Secretary of Defense Joint Chiefs of Staff Secretaries of State, Homeland Security, etc. United States Agency for International Development administrator
Theater Strategic	Combatant Commander Ambassador Chief of Mission Federal Emergency Management Agency (FEMA) administrator
Operational	Joint Task Force Defense Coordinating Officer Embassy Country Team staffs FEMA region directors Federal coordinating officers
Tactical	Task Force or Service Component Commander Agency Field Representatives (e.g., Office of United States Foreign Disaster Assistance disaster assistance response team) Domestic response teams

Figure I-2. Relevant United States Agency Organizational Structures Levels of Armed Forces of United States Executive Departments and Agencies

status should not cause unnecessary friction. Carefully crafted memorandums of agreement (MOAs) can specify detailees' rating and reviewing chains, tasking authority, and other clauses that are explicitly designed to overcome this potential source of friction.

d. The CCMDs, Services, NGB, JS, and other DOD organizations provide a number of LNOs to other USG departments and agencies, or organizations, principally in the National Capital Region, to assist USG departments and agencies in accomplishing mutually assigned tasks.

e. Pursuant to the Interagency Partnership Program, senior-grade United States Special Operations Command (USSOCOM) officers serve as special operations support team (SOST) members. The SOST assists in accomplishing mutually assigned tasks in the President's National Implementation Plan. SOST members work within the IC, leverage requirements in the IC, facilitate reporting, and process information requests.

9. Organizational Environments

a. **The Nature of Interagency Coordination.** The executive branch of the USG is organized by function with each department performing certain core tasks. Each department and agency of the executive branch of the USG is established by its enabling or organic legislation. Congress appropriates department and agency funds based on the missions set forth in that legislation, and the ability of an agency to execute specific missions is therefore constrained by both its general authority under its enabling legislation (i.e., whether the enabling legislation allows it to perform certain functions) and the availability of funding to perform those the activities permitted under the enabling legislation. Congress assigns resources based on an agency's core tasks rather than on the execution of specific missions. Individual department and agency interests, reinforced by congressional funding for specific programs or projects, frequently impede interagency cooperation. In executing national security policy, the NSC plays a critical role in unifying the efforts of the interagency community through a strategic collaborative process. NSC principals and deputies are supported in their policy functions by the NSC staff. CCMDs should be proactive in seeking OSD and JS assistance to access the NSC staff to understand individual departmental interests to enable interagency coordination. CCMDs should establish permanent direct lines of communications with partner agencies through periodic video teleconferences, teleconferences, and visits.

b. **Building a COP.** Organizations such as DHS/FEMA and USAID/OFDA remain continuously focused on crisis response, while crisis response is not the primary mission of other USG departments and agencies. Crisis response may not be among the other departments' and agencies' missions defined in their enabling legislation and, consequently, they may not have the staff or funding needed to perform such missions. Participating departments and agencies divert attention, resources, and personnel away from other priorities and their principal missions to accommodate other USG departments and agencies in achieving overall USG goals. Differing department and agency perspectives, capabilities, culture, and interests can cause conflicts on how best to execute a mission and carry out policy in a crisis. Sharing information among department and agency participants is critical to ensure no participant is handicapped by a

lack of situational awareness, uncertainties are reduced as much as possible, and interagency decision making is empowered by a COP.

c. **Unified DOD Position.** Close coordination among the OSD, JS, and the CCMDs is required to ensure a unified DOD position is developed that supports the overarching US policy and strategy.

d. **Establishing Unifying Goals.** Reaching consensus on unifying goals is important for success. At the national level, consensus is usually attained by the NSC staff and usually results in an NSC committee meeting summary of conclusions, a PPD, or a political-military (POLMIL) USG strategic-level plan that establishes the goals of an operation and interagency responsibilities. The objective is to ensure all USG departments and agencies clearly understand national policy objectives and responsibilities. To the extent authorized by law, compromise that limits the freedom of individual departments and agencies may be required to gain consensus. Persistent efforts to reach consensus should not undermine the authority, roles, or core competencies of individual departments and agencies. The greater the number of organizations and the more diverse the goals, the more difficult it is to reach consensus. The JFC recognizes that even when specific goals are agreed upon, they still may be interpreted differently by the various interagency partners. Goals alone are not sufficient. They must be accompanied by an interagency plan, aligned with national objectives. Common unifying goals should be clarified with a discussion on the way to achieve them based upon the roles and responsibilities of each organization with their assigned resources.

e. **Mutual Needs and Interdependence.** Organizations' interests, policies, and core values are considered to facilitate cooperation. Functional interdependence means that one organization relies upon another to employ its resources to achieve the objective. Interdependence can facilitate strong working relationships among departments, agencies, and organizations. For example, DOS facilitates DOD overseas deployment by negotiating some transit and basing agreements. Resource interdependence is based on one organization providing certain capabilities that another organization lacks. This support includes resources such as manpower, logistics, training augmentation, communication, security, and money. It establishes a framework for cooperation. Resource allocation among USG departments and agencies is governed by numerous laws, policy, and regulation. The staff judge advocate (SJA) and comptroller should plan and review joint force funding and resource strategy. The appendices describe the authority, responsibilities, organization, capabilities and core competencies, and pertinent contact information for many of these departments and agencies and organizations.

f. **Long-Term and Short-Term Objectives.** When discussing objectives between agencies, it is important to understand that the definition of long-term and short-term objectives can vary widely between government agencies. A short-term objective for one agency may be measured in weeks, while in years for another. Long-term objectives from the national level shape short-term objectives at the tactical level. At the national level, OSD and JS work with the NSC interagency policy committees (IPCs) to set policy goals. The GCC and subordinate JFCs identify short-term operational and tactical

BUILDING AN UNDERSTANDING IS NECESSARY

“Not only do UN [United Nations], international organizations, and nongovernmental and private voluntary organizations not understand the military organization, we likewise do not understand them. They often have exaggerated impressions as to our capabilities, and little or no understanding of our limitations and restrictions. On the other hand, the US military personnel did not realize that those organizations do not have a real chain of command as we are used to—we simply never had any idea who to listen to...and they lacked one voice that could speak for all subordinates.”

SOURCE: Operation SUPPORT HOPE (1994) After Action Review, Headquarters, United States European Command

objectives supporting the long-term objectives, through operations coordinated with interagency partners (e.g., ambassadors, country teams, multinational and agency staffs, and task forces).

g. When military and civilian agencies share the same operational environment, tension may exist due to different interpretations of strategy and objectives. Military commanders often emphasize immediate action to reduce the risk of violence. Development specialists often focus on structural faults related to HN government legitimacy. Lack of legitimacy can cause instability and further conflict. These approaches generate tension and lead to disjointed programming and disparate results.

(1) During stabilization efforts, the dynamic tension between near-term military imperatives and longer-term development objectives can be managed through interorganizational cooperation. The JFC may consider creating an integrated planning team or other temporary entity to address how military activities may be better synchronized and complement the work of the development community.

(2) USG developmental resources are investments to repair underlying structural faults and may be essential for enabling longer-term stability. Longer-term development efforts should often begin at the same time as joint force operations; when this is necessary, they must be well synchronized and sequenced.

10. Commander’s Communication Synchronization

The USG uses strategic guidance and direction to coordinate use of the informational instrument of national power in specific situations. Commander’s communication guidance is a fundamental component of national security direction. It is essential to our ability to achieve unity of effort through unified action with our interagency partners and the broader interorganizational community. Fundamental to this effort is the premise that key audience beliefs, perceptions, and behavior are crucial to the success of any strategy, plan, or operation. For its part, DOD must be a full participant in developing a

government-wide approach that implements a more robust, synchronized communication effort. This is accomplished by aligning words and deeds. Military pronouncements and actions should be coordinated with efforts conducted across the USG.

For more information on commander's communication synchronization, refer to Chapter IV, "Foreign Considerations," and JP 3-61, Public Affairs.

11. Cyberspace Considerations

Most aspects of joint operations rely on being able to operate effectively in cyberspace, the global domain within the information environment consisting of the interdependent network of information technology infrastructures and resident data, including the Internet, telecommunications networks, computer systems, and embedded processors and controllers. Developments in cyberspace provide the means for the US military and other stakeholders to gain and maintain a strategic, continuing advantage in the operational environment and can be leveraged to ensure the nation's economic and physical security.

a. Cyberspace reaches across geographic and geopolitical boundaries. It is integrated with the operation of critical infrastructures, as well as the conduct of commerce, governance, and national security. Access to the Internet provides adversaries the capability to compromise the integrity of US critical infrastructures/key resources in direct and indirect ways. Military missions taking place in cyberspace are growing both in number and importance; similarly, operations in cyberspace increasingly impact commercial, energy, financial, and business sectors as well. These characteristics and conditions present a paradox within cyberspace: the prosperity and security of our nation have been significantly enhanced by our use of cyberspace, yet these same developments have led to increased vulnerabilities and a critical dependence on cyberspace—for the US in general and the joint force in particular.

b. Threats to all interorganizational networks present a significant risk to national security and global military missions. Transformational changes to DOD's cyberspace culture, workforce, technology, policy, and processes are required to meet the challenges expected by the rapidly evolving operational environment. These changes must be taken into account by all entities when planning joint operations. All organizations with which DOD interacts are likely to heavily leverage cyberspace and cyberspace capabilities.

c. To expedite interoperability, there is often the temptation to bypass cyberspace security procedures and best practices in favor of mission accomplishment. JFCs should keep the risks to DOD information networks at the forefront of planning priorities. Moreover, these factors necessitate close coordination in leveraging existing capabilities and aligning policies, standards, and systems of relevant stakeholders while maintaining separate and distinct authorities, roles, and responsibilities to operate effectively in cyberspace and mitigate the risk posed by our adversaries, both state and non-state actors. For example, DOD, DHS, DOJ, and the private sector provide unique capabilities and venues for increasing cybersecurity to secure cyberspace IAW the National Strategy for

Information Sharing and Safeguarding
(http://www.whitehouse.gov/sites/default/files/docs/2012sharingstrategy_1.pdf).

For more information on cybersecurity, refer to JP 3-12, Cyberspace Operations, and JP 6-0, Joint Communications System.

CHAPTER II

INTERORGANIZATIONAL COOPERATION

“The United States faces profound challenges that require strong, agile, and capable military forces whose actions are harmonized with other elements of US national power. Our global responsibilities are significant; we cannot afford to fail.”

Sustaining US Global Leadership: Priorities for 21st Century Defense
January 2012

1. General

a. USG organizations working to achieve national security objectives require increased and improved communications and coordination. This chapter provides a frame of reference that reflects all levels of interorganizational involvement.

b. Joint planning should include key external stakeholders, ideally starting with mission analysis. Where direct participation is not feasible, joint planners should consider the activities and interests of external stakeholders that affect the command's mission. The CCDR, through the campaign plan, works with civilian organizations to build annex V (Interagency Coordination) of the joint plan. Emphasis should be placed on operationalizing the theater TCP or functional campaign plan (FCP) to facilitate cooperation among all partners, awareness of non-partners, and collective problem framing and synchronization of the CCDR's campaign plan with other interagency planning products. Subordinate JFCs leverage the planning efforts of the CCMD while also building civilian organization participation into their plan and participate in integrated planning with the embassies. Within the area of responsibility (AOR) and the joint operations area (JOA), structures are established at the CCMD, subordinate joint task force (JTF) headquarters (HQ), task force, and Service component levels to coordinate and resolve military, political, humanitarian, and other issues. This chapter identifies tools for the commander to facilitate interorganizational cooperation in domestic or foreign operations.

2. The National Security Council

a. The NSC is the President's principal forum to consider and decide national security policy. The NSC is the President's principal arm to coordinate these policies among various USG departments and agencies.

b. DOD Role in the National Security Council System (NSCS)

(1) Key DOD players in the NSCS come from the OSD and JS. SecDef is a regular member of the NSC and the National Security Council/Principals Committee (NSC/PC). The Deputy Secretary of Defense is a member of the National Security Council/Deputies Committee (NSC/DC). If appointed, an Under Secretary of Defense may chair a National Security Council/interagency policy committee (NSC/IPC).

(2) A primary statutory responsibility assigned to the CJCS in Title 10, USC, is to act as the principal military advisor to the President, SecDef, and the NSC. The CJCS does this through the NSCS. CJCS regularly attends NSC meetings and provides advice and views in this capacity. The other members of the JCS may submit advice or an opinion in disagreement with, or in addition to, the advice provided by the CJCS.

(3) The Military Departments implement, but do not participate directly in, national security policy-making activities of the interagency process. They are represented by the CJCS.

c. **The JS Role in the NSCS**

(1) The CJCS acts as spokesperson for CCDRs operational requirements and represents CCMD interests in the NSCS through direct communication with the CCDRs and their staffs.

(2) The JS provides operational input and staff support through the CJCS (or designee) for policy decisions made by the OSD. It coordinates with the CCMDs, Services, and other USG departments and agencies, and prepares directives (e.g., warning, alert, and execute orders) for SecDef approval. These orders include definitions of command and interagency relationships.

(3) Within the JS, the offices of the CJCS, Secretary of the JS, Joint Staff J-2 [Intelligence Directorate], Joint Staff J-3 [Operations Directorate], Joint Staff J-4 [Logistics Directorate], Joint Staff J-5 [Plans Directorate], and Joint Staff J-7 [Joint Force Development Directorate] are focal points for NSC-related actions. The JS J-3 provides advice on execution of military operations, the JS J-4 assesses logistic implications of contemplated operations, and the JS J-5 often focuses on a particular NSC matter for policy and planning purposes. Each JS directorate solicits Service input through the Military Departments. SecDef may also designate one of the Service Chiefs or functional CCDRs as the executive agent for direction and coordination of DOD activities for specific mission areas.

For more information on the NSC and its membership, refer to JP 1, Doctrine for the Armed Forces of the United States, and Chairman of the Joint Chiefs of Staff Instruction (CJCSI) 5715.01, Joint Staff Participation in Interagency Affairs.

d. **The CCDRs' Role in the NSCS.** Although the CJCS presents the views of the CCDRs at the NSC, the CJCS may request and leverage CCMD participation at key NSC forums, including IPCs, NSC/DCs, NSC/PCs, and other events (e.g., Cabinet-level exercises). Execution of CCMD campaign plans by CCDRs is enhanced by robust interaction with interagency partners based on standing authorities. JS and OSD will coordinate authorizations through the NSCS.

3. **Whole-of-Government Approach**

a. A whole-of-government approach integrates the collaborative efforts of USG departments and agencies to achieve unity of effort. Under unified action, a whole-of-

government approach identifies combinations of USG capabilities and resources that could be directed toward the strategic objectives in support of US regional goals as they align with global security priorities. Commanders integrate the expertise and capabilities of participating USG departments and agencies, within the context of their authorities, to accomplish their missions.

b. Whole-of-government planning refers to NSC-sponsored processes by which multiple USG departments and agencies come together to develop plans that address challenges to national interests. Whole-of-government planning is distinct from the contributions of USG departments and agencies to DOD planning, which remains a DOD responsibility.

c. Planning and consulting with stakeholders optimizes the instruments of national power to achieve operational objectives and attain strategic end states in support of US regional goals in support of global security priorities.

d. USG civilian departments and agencies have different cultures and capacities, and understand planning differently. Many organizations do not conduct operational planning. To compensate for these differences, commanders should ensure joint force organization initiatives and broader interagency processes help sustain civilian presence in military planning.

e. Hallmarks of successful whole-of-government planning and operations include:

- (1) A designated lead or primary agency.
- (2) All USG instruments of national power are integrated into the process.
- (3) Agency core missions are related to mission goals.
- (4) Participants forge a common understanding of the operational environment and the problem USG activities are intended to solve.
- (5) Active lines of communications and pre-established relationships to allow for the ease of information sharing.
- (6) A shared USG goal and clearly stated objectives to achieve results through comprehensive integration and synchronization of activities at the implementation level.
- (7) A common determination of what resources and capabilities are to be aligned to achieve the planning objectives.
- (8) A defined strategic objective.

f. Guidelines to operationalize a whole-of-government approach require that:

- (1) Commanders and civilian decision makers consider all USG capabilities to achieve objectives.

WHOLE-OF-GOVERNMENT PLANNING

By law, the National Counterterrorism Center (NCTC) (<http://www.nctc.gov/overview.html>) serves as the United States Government's (USG's) central and shared knowledge bank on known and suspected terrorists and international terrorist groups. NCTC also provides USG departments and agencies with terrorism intelligence analysis and other information they need to fulfill their missions. NCTC colocates more than 30 intelligence, military, law enforcement, and homeland security networks under one roof to facilitate robust information sharing.

NCTC assigns roles and responsibilities to USG departments and agencies as part of its strategic planning duties, but NCTC does not direct the execution of any resulting operations.

Various Sources

(2) Planning groups include personnel from all sectors and organizations.

(3) Ongoing or existing policies and programs are reassessed, modified where necessary, and integrated into the objectives and desired outcomes defined for the mission and strategic end state.

(4) Planners consider and incorporate interagency capabilities, resources, activities, and comparative advantages in the application of the instruments of national power.

4. Joint Planning and Interorganizational Cooperation

a. CCMD campaign plans, also known as TCPs and FCPs, implement the military portion of national policy and defense strategy as identified in the Guidance for Employment of the Force (GEF) or other issuances, and implement the military portion of national policy and defense strategy. Designated CCMD campaign plans direct the activities the command will do to shape the operational environment and deter crises on a daily basis. The commander identifies the resources assigned and allocated to the CCMD, prioritizes objectives (to include the contingencies the command is directed to prepare for), and commits those resources to shape the operational environment and support the national strategic objectives. The commander assesses the commitment of resources and makes recommendations to civilian leadership on future resources and national efforts in the region. CCMD campaign plans direct military activities (including ongoing operations, security cooperation activities, intelligence collection, exercises, and other shaping or preventive activities) that shape the operational environment to prevent, prepare for, or mitigate contingencies.

(1) Strategic Guidance. CCDRs develop objectives based on strategic guidance provided by the President, SecDef, and CJCS. CCDRs coordinate planning for

operations, actions, and activities at the theater, strategic, and operational levels to achieve strategic objectives.

(2) Once approval has been provided within the proper chains of command, the CCDRs coordinate with affected USG entities throughout the Adaptive Planning and Execution (APEX) enterprise to align the instruments of national power. The CCDR is guided by USG strategic guidance and planning, with respect to USG departments and agencies, and disseminates that guidance to the joint force in annex V (Interagency Coordination) of the CCMD's campaign plans. Considering how best to integrate civilian and military efforts in a mutually supportive way is essential throughout the JPP. Developing a well-crafted and articulated annex V to joint plans is the primary method within POLMIL planning, from the strategic through operational levels, for explaining the linkages and tasks necessary for mission success across all phases of integrated civil-military efforts. Interagency partners should participate at the earliest phases of the operation or campaign. Linking agency actions to phases of the operation enables scheduling and coordination. The development of annex V should enhance early operational coordination with planners from the other USG departments and agencies that will be involved in the operation's planning and execution.

(a) When developing joint plans, planners should identify opportunities to support and promote a unified USG approach to achieve national security objectives.

(b) CCMD campaign plans direct military activities (including ongoing operations, security cooperation activities, intelligence collection, exercises, and other shaping or preventive activities) that shape the operational environment to prevent, prepare for, or mitigate contingencies.

(c) During plan development, planners should identify decision points and desired preparatory activities to be performed by external stakeholders that enable transition from a DOD-supported to DOD-supporting role. Concurrently, planners should analyze and plan for reverting back to a DOD-supported role in the operation.

(d) CCMD campaign and contingency plans should establish a framework to estimate interorganizational and interagency support to DOD activities and DOD support to civilian activities, and then validate, by stakeholder, projected support required.

(3) Flexible deterrent options (FDOs) are pre-planned, deterrence-oriented, diplomatic, informational, military, and economic actions that are carefully tailored to send a signal to influence an adversary's actions. The basic purpose of FDOs is to bring an issue to early resolution without armed conflict. They can be established to dissuade actions before a crisis arises or to deter further aggression during a crisis. FDOs are developed for each instrument of national power—but they are most effective when used to combine the influence across instruments of national power and should include interagency partner participation. The intent of FDOs is to facilitate early strategic decision making, rapid de-escalation, and crisis resolution by laying out the perception of a wide range of interrelated response paths.

For more information on FDOs, refer to JP 5-0, Joint Planning.

b. Plan Development and Coordination. Although planning is conducted in anticipation of future events, there may be crisis situations that call for an immediate US military response (e.g., noncombatant evacuation operation or FHA). CCDRs frequently develop courses of action (COAs) based on recommendations and considerations originating in DOS joint/regional bureaus or in one or more US embassies. The country team provides resident agency experience and links through the CCMD and by extension to agency HQ in Washington, DC. Emergency action plans at every US embassy cover a wide range of contingencies and crises and can assist the commanders in identifying COAs, options, and constraints to military actions and support activities. The GCC's staff also consults with JS and other organizations to coordinate military operations and synchronize actions at the national strategic and theater strategic levels. Under the promote cooperation program, the JS J-5 facilitates periodic interagency working groups that include CCMD planning staffs, other DOD offices, and agency partners for collaboration on planning (e.g., campaign and other contingency plans). Promote cooperation events enable interagency partners' insights on environmental changes to be shared with the CCMDs.

(1) Initial concept of operations (CONOPS) may require revision based on feasibility analysis and consideration of related activities (particularly regarding logistics) by USG departments and agencies and other stakeholders. For example, primitive or damaged seaport and airport facilities may constrain operations by limiting the throughput of personnel and supplies. Such information is frequently provided by the country team that, in turn, may be in contact with relief organizations in country. Directly or indirectly, refinement of the military mission should be coordinated with USG departments and agencies, international organizations, NGOs, and private sector entities to identify the capabilities to achieve unity of effort.

(2) Planning conducted by the CCMD should be coordinated, through the OSD and the JS, with all stakeholders and USG departments and agencies. Joint planning will align with wider USG policy and, in coordination with US diplomatic missions, complement or synchronize with parallel interagency activities. Plans will identify assumed contributions and requested support of interagency partners and comply with the guidance issued in the GEF and Joint Strategic Capabilities Plan (JSCP) related to incorporating interagency input into CCMD planning. Planning will focus on identifying:

- (a) Requests for additional policy direction.
- (b) Operational capabilities, security cooperation activities, and development and diplomacy efforts of interagency partners and other stakeholders.
- (c) Legal and administrative agreements with interagency partners that should precede joint operations.

(d) Requirements (e.g., resources, people, and authorities) to improve interagency contributions or effectiveness (done in consultation with OSD, JS, and interagency partners).

(e) Criteria for DOD to transition between supported and supporting roles.

(3) Interagency and Interorganizational Stakeholder Involvement in CCMD Plan Development. The quality of CCMD plans will improve with the early and regular participation of other USG departments and agencies and other stakeholders during planning. However, USG departments and agencies only have the capacity to support development of a limited number of DOD plans. During planning, CCDRs and their staffs:

(a) Develop options, tasks, and coordination requirements for specific operations and activities directly with affected COMs and state and local authorities.

(b) Share information with, and rely on the subject matter expertise of, LNOs and representatives from other USG departments and agencies detailed to the CCMD.

(c) Conduct internal planning with LNOs and representatives from other USG departments and agencies detailed to the CCMD.

(d) Identify and disseminate communications plans IAW established laws and policy to facilitate ongoing and future coordination and information sharing.

(4) CCDRs should, in coordination with the CJCS, seek SecDef intent and guidance before developing campaign plans, contingency plans, or CONPLANS/OPLANS with other USG departments and agencies.

(5) OUSD(P) and JS J-5's Joint Operational War Plans Division support CCMD planning conferences and workshops involving multiple USG departments and agencies. OUSD(P), via JS J-5, may authorize direct liaison between CCMD planners and their HQ-level counterparts in other USG departments and agencies for planning. The promote cooperation program ensures DOD speaks with one voice and information shared with other USG departments and agencies is fully vetted and authorized. CCMDs work through OUSD(P) and the JS to organize and coordinate these conferences and meetings. Efforts to integrate other organizations into DOD planning efforts are complementary to whole-of-government planning, which is directed by the NSC or a designated lead agency.

c. The GEF translates national security objectives and high-level strategy into DOD priorities and comprehensive planning direction. The GEF identifies SecDef's strategic priorities and policy, and conveys his guidance for near-term plans and defense posture. The JSCP is promulgated by the CJCS. It implements the strategic policy guidance provided in the GEF and initiates the planning process for the development of plans. Together, the GEF and JSCP provide guidance and task CCDRs and staffs to develop TCPs and FCPs that integrate security cooperation (shaping and other military

engagement activities) planning, contingency plans as campaign plan branches, and subordinate campaign plans as CCDRs consider necessary. Posture plans seek to align and synchronize access and needs across CCDR TCPs, global campaign plans, and contingency plans. In developing CCMD campaign plans, coordination with other stakeholders can facilitate collective problem framing and planning at the outset to achieve unity of effort. The linking of posture and security cooperation planning, and military engagement and deterrence activities, along with contingency planning, allows CCDRs to efficiently employ resources and direct operations in alignment with strategic objectives. The APEX enterprise is the compilation of joint policies, processes, procedures, tools, training, education, and stakeholders used to develop and implement joint plans and orders to achieve national security objectives.

d. The efficiency and effectiveness of USG departments and agencies is diminished if they are excluded from joint planning. The quality of military planning and the subsequent effectiveness of operations and achievement of US strategic objectives can be enhanced by early and sustained participation of relevant USG stakeholders during strategic assessment, policy formulation, and planning.

(1) Annex V (Interagency Coordination) should be consistent with the planning guidance contained in CJCSM 3130.03, *Adaptive Planning and Execution System (APEX) Planning Formats and Guidance*. A CCDR is responsible for developing annex V for TCPs, FCPs, OPLANs, and usually for Level 3 CONPLANs. A supported JFC, not a CCDR, is responsible for developing annex V for OPLANs and usually for Level 3 CONPLANs. Annex V should specify, for participating USG departments and agencies, the following: the capabilities desired by the military, the shared understanding of the situation, and the common objectives required to accomplish the mission. Annex V also provides a single location in a plan to capture potential contributions of USG departments and agencies; identify potential DOD supporting roles to other USG departments and agencies; and frame mutually agreeable, integrating relationships (coordination and collaboration processes), linkages, and methods. This enables agency planners to plan in concert with the military, to better determine their support requirements, and to suggest other USG activities or organizations that could contribute to the operation.

(2) DOD plans are approved by SecDef (or designee). While they are not “cosigned” by other USG departments and agencies, DOD typically seeks input from them to gain broad USG consensus.

(3) The military plan may be in support of a wider USG effort. In this case, annex V may approach the same level of effort and importance as annex C (Operations).

(4) The following considerations should guide annex V development:

(a) Leverage habitual relationships developed during shaping to coordinate with interagency partners early in the process.

(b) Develop collaboratively and integrate all instruments of national power.

"In Operation SUPPORT HOPE, the US military and the UN [United Nations] and NGO [nongovernmental organization] community in-theater literally 'met on the dance floor.' Given that a JTF [joint task force] commander's concern will be to ensure unity of effort (not command!), too brief a time to establish relationships can exacerbate the tensions that exist naturally between and among so many disparate agencies with their own internal agenda and outside sponsors. The commander, therefore, will find that, short of insuring the protection of his force, his most pressing requirement will be to meet his counterparts in the US Government, UN, and NGO hierarchies and take whatever steps he thinks appropriate to insure the smooth integration of military support..."

**Lieutenant General Daniel R. Schroeder, US Army
Commander, JTF SUPPORT HOPE**

(c) Identify DOD and interagency cooperative activities toward mutual goals and objectives.

(d) Synchronize the development and content of annex V with the development and content of other portions of the plan dealing with interorganizational cooperation (e.g., annex G, [Civil-Military Operations]).

(e) Develop and share an unclassified and releasable Annex V with agency and multinational partners.

e. In concert with the NSC staff, OSD, other USG departments and agencies, JS, and CCDRs should:

(1) Identify USG departments and agencies that are involved in the operation, or could contribute to it. In most cases, these USG departments and agencies will, in turn, ascertain which international organizations, NGOs, and elements of the private sector should be involved in the operation. Early engagement could ensure support of operational requirements and support unified action.

(2) Understand interagency, international organization, NGO, and private sector relationships and core missions, to include the lead or primary agency identified at the national level. Understand the differences between roles and responsibilities of OSD, the CJCS, JS, CCMDs, and the Services, as well as the different command arrangements, in domestic and foreign operations. Understand the political, business, and personal relationships that affect dealings with international organizations, NGOs, and private sector entities.

(3) Define the objectives of the response. These should be broadly outlined in the summary of conclusions from the relevant NSC, NSC/PC, or NSC/DC meetings that authorize USG participation. Within the military chain of command, objectives are further elaborated in tasking orders that include the commander's intent. Civilian agencies generally have no equivalent to statements of commander's intent. Joint planners should identify orders or directives that guide their USG counterparts.

(4) Develop COAs for the specified and implied military tasks based on mission analysis. Identify potential stakeholder roles and capabilities that can be leveraged in support of those tasks to enhance unity of effort. Interorganizational capabilities should be leveraged, when it is practical, to reduce costs and military footprint.

(5) Communicate with each participating USG department and agency or organization and obtain a clear definition of the role that each plays. In many situations, participating departments and agencies, and organizations may not have representatives either in theater or colocated with the CCMD's staff. The CCCR should request temporary assignment of representatives or LNOs, or otherwise open up reachback and dialogue. OSD and JS can facilitate communication at the national strategic level, while the country team can facilitate communication at the operational level. Considering the relative size of agency staffs, it may be necessary for the military to send LNOs to other organizations.

(6) Identify potential obstacles arising from conflicting departmental or agency priorities or authorities. Early identification of potential obstacles and concurrence for possible solutions is the first step toward resolution. These obstacles often are assumed to have been addressed by another department or agency, or organization. If the obstacles cannot be resolved, they should be forwarded up the military chain of command immediately for resolution.

(7) Identify resources relevant to the situation. Military and civilian planners should determine which departments and agencies, or organizations (to include HN) are committed to providing resources to reduce duplication, increase coherence in the collective effort, and identify additional resource requirements.

(8) Define the desired end states, plan for transition between phases, and recommend termination criteria. The CCCR should confirm and synchronize anticipated roles, capabilities, and commitments of non-military actors during transition.

(9) Maximize joint force assets to support long-term goals. The military's contribution should optimize the varied and extensive resources available to complement and support the broader, long-range objectives of the local, state, national, or international response to a crisis. Interorganizational capabilities should be leveraged, where possible, to best utilize joint force assets.

(10) In the absence of formal embassy structures or designated lead agencies (e.g., USAID/OFDA) for overseas disaster response, coordinate the establishment of interagency assessment teams that can rapidly deploy to the area to evaluate the situation. These can include ad hoc multilateral teams or teams organized under the auspices of an international organization (e.g., the UN or Organization for Security and Cooperation in Europe).

(11) Develop and implement an information sharing strategy. Use methods and tools that enable interorganizational cooperation to occur. Planners should ensure proper operations security (OPSEC) procedures are in place to prevent the disclosure of critical

information. Identify and resolve interoperability issues to assure seamless sharing of information.

(12) Incorporate, support, and participate in interagency planning processes. Various civil-military analyses may be available to inform military planning (e.g., USAID's Conflict Assessment Framework [CAF], DOS's Interagency Conflict Assessment Framework [ICAF], and public-private assessments facilitated by the United States Institute of Peace (USIP). Regardless of the specific methodology, the kinds of analysis conducted by these organizations provide critically important insights for military planners. Along with other open-source resources available about a given country or operational area, assessments such as CAF and ICAF are essential for military planners to build their understanding of the operational environment and accurately define the problem to be solved.

(a) The CAF provides users with an approach to analyze and respond to violent conflicts. Since its release, the USAID Office of Conflict Management and Mitigation has conducted over 60 conflict assessments in every region where USAID operates, informing agency policy, strategic planning, programming, and implementation. The CAF provides guidance to conduct assessments and generate recommendations that mitigate conflict drivers and bolster social and institutional resilience, effectiveness, and legitimacy. The CAF embodies USAID's unique methodological approach to help USAID missions and operating units evaluate the risks of armed conflict, the peace and security goals that are most important in a given context, how existing development programs interact with these factors, how the programs may (inadvertently) be doing harm, and where and how development assistance and humanitarian assistance (HA) can most effectively support local efforts to manage conflict and to build peace.

(b) The ICAF uses a conceptual framework very similar to the CAF. It seeks to understand the underlying causes of conflict, and identify resources and strategies to prevent and mitigate conflict. Based on insights from social science research, the ICAF examines key actors who currently are, or likely could, either drive or mitigate conflict; their motives, means, and strategies for doing so; and upcoming windows in time that provide strategic opportunities for these actors to begin or change such efforts. The ICAF also examines the social groups with whom they have influence, the grievances or key interests that key actors may use to motivate these groups for conflict, and underlying social and institutional properties. Importantly, it also examines social and institutional resiliencies that mitigate grievances and enable society to function normally and peacefully (e.g., peaceful religious teachings or economic interests that link people across conflict lines) that key actors may utilize to mobilize people and resources against conflict or leverage to transform conflict. Each element of this framework can be used to design conflict interventions. The ICAF differs from the CAF in that it is applied to informing a broader range of interventions, including diplomatic, military, and developmental, and can be used to guide and coordinate actions by a range of USG, international, and local actors, as appropriate. The original form of the ICAF emphasized collaborative workshops and field research by interagency teams, and in this mode was used to inform interagency planning and projects for conflict prevention and mitigation. The DOS's CSO subsequently revised the ICAF to draw on a broader range of

methodologies that can more flexibly access non-permissive environments, produce more timely analysis, take advantage of new data collection and analysis technology, by using multiple methods in a complementary fashion. The revised ICAF methodology also emphasizes targeted key questions, accessible products tailored to audience and purpose, an iterative approach, participation of local partners as appropriate and translating findings into targeted realistic recommendations that are mindful of existing efforts and policies.

For more information on the CAF and ICAF, refer to <https://dec.usaid.gov/dec/content/GetDoc.axd?ctID=ODVhZjk4NWQtM2YyMi00YjRmLTkxNjktZTcxMjM2NDBmY2Uy&rID=MzIxNDI3&pID=NTYw&attchmnt=VHJ1ZQ==&rdp=ZmFsc2U=> and <http://www.state.gov/documents/organization/187786.pdf>, respectively.

f. The JIACG is an interagency staff group that establishes regular, timely, and collaborative working relationships between civilian and military operational planners. Composed of USG civilian and military experts accredited to the CCDR and tailored to meet a supported CCDR's requirements, the JIACG (or equivalent organization) provides the CCDR with the capability to collaborate at the operational level with other USG civilian departments and agencies. JIACGs (or equivalent organizations) complement the interagency coordination that takes place at the national strategic level through the DOD and the NSC. Members participate in planning and provide links back to their parent civilian departments and agencies to help synchronize JTF operations with their efforts.

(1) JIACG is a common DOD term across CCMDs. Each CCMD has formed unique organizations (e.g., interagency partnering directorate, interagency group, interagency board of directors), with similar functions to respond to a wide range of missions across operational environments.

(2) If augmented with other partners, such as international organizations, NGOs, and multinational representatives, the JIACG (or equivalent organization) enhances the capability to conduct interorganizational cooperation.

For more information on planning, refer to JP 5-0, Joint Planning.

5. Interorganizational Cooperation

a. **The Civil-Military Relationship.** The crux of interorganizational cooperation is understanding the civil-military relationship as collaborative rather than competitive. The most productive way to look at this relationship is seeing the comparative advantages of each of the two communities. While the military normally focuses on achieving clearly defined and measurable objectives within given timelines under a C2 structure, civilian organizations are concerned with fulfilling shifting political, economic, social, and humanitarian interests using negotiation, dialogue, bargaining, and consensus building. Civilian organizations may have a better appreciation of the political-social-cultural situation, and have better relief, development, and public administration experience, thus potentially acting as agents of change within that society. They work at the local and national, government level, focusing on state-to-state and ministry-to-

ministry relations, and in community development activities where they have substantial insight into local conditions and local operational requirements. At the same time, civilian agencies generally work in permissive environments and may not understand military goals and operations. While the ways and means between military and civilian organizations may differ, they share many purposes and risks, and the ultimate overall goal may be shared. Harnessing the power of disparate organizations with different priorities and procedures is a daunting task. The following steps support an orderly and systematic approach to build and maintain coordination and collaboration:

(1) Develop a Shared Understanding of the Operational Environment.

Civil-military efforts should seek to first establish a shared view of the operational environment upon which future discussions and decision making will be based.

(2) Forge a Collective Definition of the Problem in Clear and Unambiguous Terms. Differences in individual assumptions and organizational perspectives can often cloud a clear understanding of the problem. Forging shared understanding is difficult because operational environments can be complex, ambiguous, confusing, and dynamic. Appropriate representatives from relevant departments and agencies, and organizations, to include field offices, should be involved at the onset of the planning process and share their perspectives. This may include the deployment of an interagency assessment team to the affected area. Stakeholders should be included during planning, execution, and assessment.

(3) Understand the Objectives, Priorities, and Desired Conditions for Success for Each Involved Organization. Commanders and the counterpart decision makers should establish agreed upon objectives that will become the focus of all interorganizational cooperation. Additionally, civilian and military organizations should develop a mutual understanding of planning processes and terminology that enable staffs to exchange information effectively. For example, military end states and transition criteria might be understood by other stakeholders as desired conditions for success that partner agencies view as accomplishing strategic guidance. Being able to effectively communicate across military and civilian terms that are clearly understood by all members of a combined planning effort is a key part of effective collaboration and coordination contributing to unity of effort. Commonly proposed are suggestions to standardize various terms and concepts across the interagency partners with intentions of improving communication effectiveness and efficiency. This temptation should generally be avoided, as an agency's lexicon is often derived from specific legal authorities or formal policy guidance, and attempted standardization may unintentionally obscure the meaning or alienate the term or concept from its own specific policy/doctrine. Accordingly, the importance of recognizing differences in lexicon used by the stakeholders and working through them is paramount.

(4) Develop Common, Agreed Upon Assumptions to Drive Planning Among the Supported and Supporting Departments and Agencies. Collectively validate the assumptions throughout the planning and execution of operations. Commanders understand that the assumptions underlying some of the plans and programs developed by agencies for permissive environments, or for operations where the US does

not have a large footprint, may not be appropriate for uncertain or hostile environments or operations with a large military presence.

(5) Understand Differences

(a) Understand the differences between US national objectives; military end state and transition criteria; and the objectives of other governments, international organizations, NGOs, the private sector, and the parties to the conflict. Although international organizations and NGOs may participate at some level in defining the problem, their goals and objectives may not align with those of the USG. International organizations, including those in which the US is a member, may not necessarily support JFC objectives. NGOs are normally influenced heavily by their principal donor organizations and their priorities may well constrain collaboration with US forces. Some NGOs may depend on grants and contracts from the USG for their activities in the area of operations, thereby underscoring the importance of collaborative planning with USG civilian agencies.

(b) When US military forces perform homeland defense (HD) or DSCA missions on US territory, they must understand and appreciate the differences between federal, state, local, tribal, private sector, and NGO objectives and desired CCMD objectives and supporting military end states. After a major disaster, there may be dozens of federal, state, tribal, and local governments, departments, agencies, and NGOs responding, as well as many private sector organizations. The majority of the US critical infrastructure is owned and/or operated by the private sector. The disparate jurisdictions, objectives, viewpoints, and cultures can present immense challenges to coordination and collaboration in support of missions and efforts. DOD is in support of a lead federal agency, usually DHS/FEMA. The federal coordinating officer (FCO) prioritizes support based on the local, state, tribal, and national priorities, and evaluates and provides resources to meet the needs of the community and the leadership (see Figure II-1).

For more information on DSCA, refer to JP 3-28, Defense Support of Civil Authorities.

(6) **Establish a Common Frame of Reference.** Differences in terminology and, in the case of foreign organizations, the lack of a common language, complicate coordination. The meaning of terms such as “safe zone,” “impartial,” or “neutral” to a JFC may have completely different connotations to another organization’s representative. The operational implication of this potential for misunderstanding is grave. The lexicon differences commonly experienced among the Services increases when working with other USG departments and agencies, international organizations, NGOs, and the private sector. Terms such as “shaping,” “pre-conflict,” and “irregular warfare” can have negative effects on relationships. To mitigate this problem, JFCs and their staffs must anticipate misunderstandings and establish clearly understood common terms. They should reduce the use of military-specific terms and acronyms, and define these when necessary. See *DOD Dictionary of Military and Associated Terms* and the Services’ supplements. Joint force staffs should also strive to learn terminology used by other organizations. See, for example, USAID Primer (http://www.usaid.gov/about_usaid/primer.html) and the US DOS and USAID Strategic Plan (<http://www.state.gov/documents/organization/86291.pdf>).

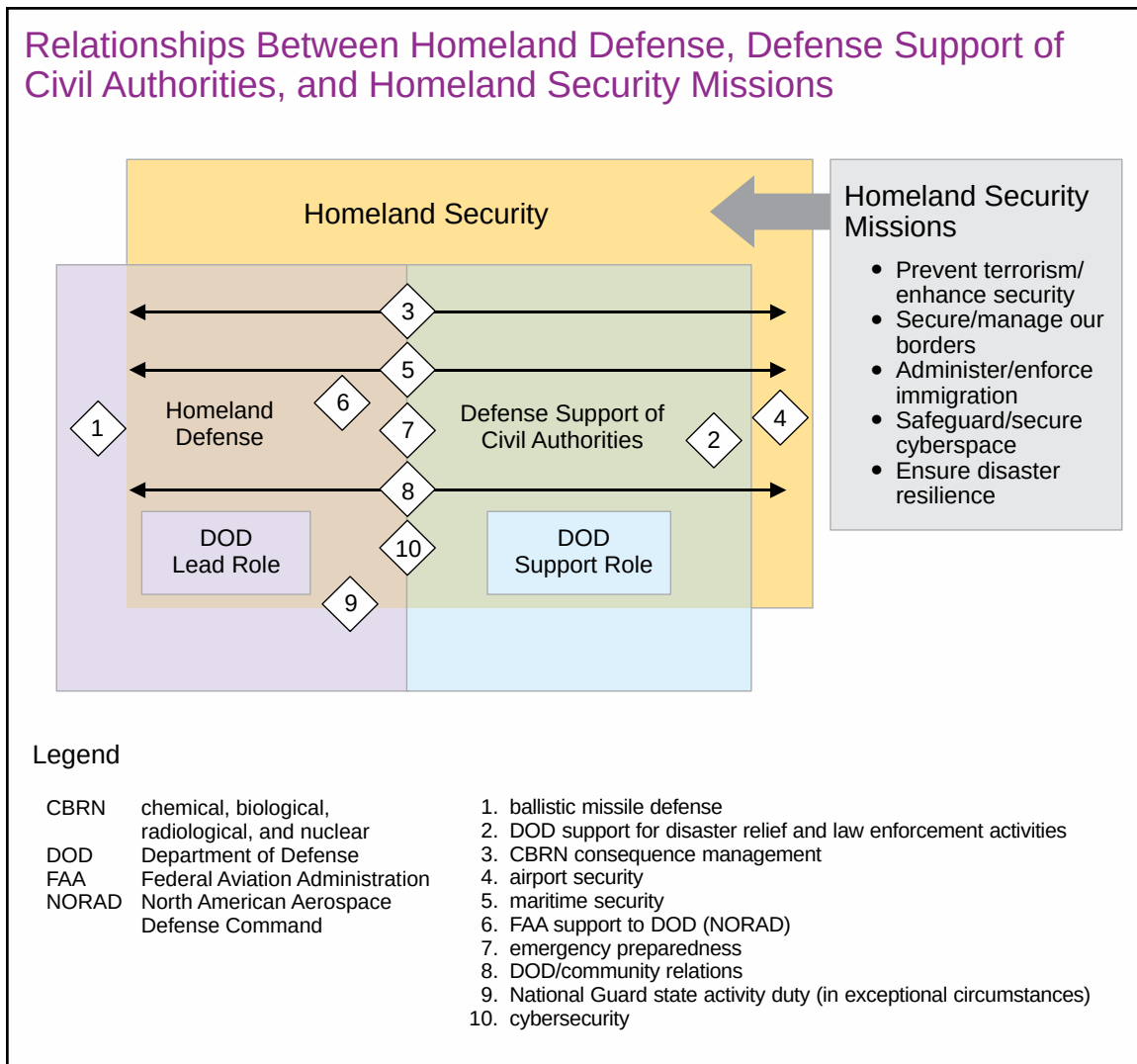


Figure II-1. Relationships Between Homeland Defense, Defense Support of Civil Authorities, and Homeland Security Missions

For more information, see DOS and USAID's Joint Strategic Plan, FY 2014–2017, and USAID's Policy on Cooperation with the Department of Defense.

(7) **Capitalize on Experience.** Review after action reports and lessons learned (e.g., the Joint Lessons Learned Information System, Services' lessons learned systems, and the US Army Peacekeeping and Stability Operations Institute Lessons Learned Information Management System [<https://www.pksoi.org>]) to develop proposed COAs. Although sometimes less formal, organizations outside DOD frequently have their own processes or systems (e.g., the DHS's Lessons Learned Information System).

(8) **Develop COAs or Options.** A good COA is a potential method of accomplishing an assigned mission. Each COA may contain embedded options that describe alternatives to accomplish designated objectives as conditions change. Resource-sensitive problems require flexibility and unified planning that considers the capabilities of all stakeholders. A robust information exchange among USG departments

and agencies, international organizations, NGOs, and the private sector facilitates the formulation of viable options.

(9) Support a Comprehensive Approach. In broad terms, develop unified action by building a strategy to integrate all relevant instruments of national power with multinational partners, HNs, and other participants. Identify the key objectives to attain the strategic end state. Multiple organizations need a coherent plan to guide simultaneous military and civilian department and agency efforts.

(10) Establish Responsibility. Participants can forge a common sense of ownership and commitment when they understand what needs to be done and agree on how to do it. The resources for a mission must be clearly identified, with specific and agreed responsibilities assigned to the supporting departments and agencies. To receive reimbursement from USG departments and agencies or international organizations for materiel support, JFCs must identify and establish lines of authority and accounting procedures.

For more information, refer to JP 1-06, Financial Management Support in Joint Operations, and DODI 4000.19, Support Agreements.

(11) Establish an Interorganizational Element. Establish an interorganizational cooperation office, staff element, or process tailored to the mission and situation. Organizations such as JIACGs (or equivalent organizations), interorganizational cooperation directorates, special staff offices, civil-military operations centers (CMOCs), JIATFs, boards of directors, and other structures and processes are focused on interorganizational cooperation and increased shared situational awareness. Continuously operating centers, forums, or processes provide a “focal point” for all stakeholders and enhance planning and execution. These focal points can take many forms and are not necessarily run by the military. If properly organized and supported, they can help overcome bureaucratic impediments to typical coordination tasks. Early integration of stakeholder capabilities into the planning process may identify gaps that can be mitigated by stakeholder capabilities and resourced to assist the CCMD in achieving desired objectives and promote unity of effort.

(12) Plan for the Transition of Key Responsibilities, Capabilities, and Functions. In most stabilization efforts, civilian organizations and other stakeholders remain after the military has departed the operational area. USG departments and agencies should plan for the transition of responsibility for specific actions or tasks from military commanders to civilian authorities prior to deploying military forces. This process starts at the national level, but is sustained at the CCMD level. When interagency partners, international organizations, NGOs, and the private sector do not participate in transition planning, military operations may be withdrawn prematurely or protracted to compensate for activities normally conducted by those entities. As plans and orders are developed, transition planning should identify trigger points to initiate or resume interagency, international organization, NGO, and private sector activities. JFCs and their staffs should anticipate the impact of transition on the local populace and other organizations.

(a) Transitions should be carefully planned in detail with a clear articulation of responsibilities (who, what, where, when, and how), be it military or civilian led. Eliminate as much ambiguity as possible while retaining a degree of flexibility, as conditions will undoubtedly change during execution. As the lead transitions from the military to the civil authorities, significant military resources may be required to support civil operations, and there may be a requirement to provide military staff augmentation to the civilian organizations as they assume responsibility.

(b) Unity of effort is particularly important in the latter phases of a campaign, but is very difficult to achieve as more and more organizations get involved in the transition process. Continuity on the military side is important to success during transitions.

(13) **Direct All Actions Toward Unity of Effort.** Unity of effort focuses all actions toward USG objectives. Because DOD will often be in a supporting role, it might not determine the mission or specify the participating organizations. Unity of effort is the coordination and cooperation toward common objectives, even if the participants are not necessarily part of the same command or organization and is the product of successful unified action. DOS takes a more diplomatic approach: “In order to achieve unity of effort, it is not necessary for all organizations to be controlled under the same command structure, but it is necessary for each agency’s efforts to be in harmony with the short- and long-term goals of the mission.” There is a subtle distinction. One mission area may be a combat operation that will require intergovernmental support for shaping actions; the other may be a mission in which the joint force is supporting DOJ or DHS and must harmonize actions with the lead agency (e.g., the President’s Strategy to Combat Transnational Organized Crime). Interagency planning and preparation should improve unity of effort by facilitating all government agencies to use their capabilities in a mutually supportive fashion through common understanding.

(14) **Develop an Information Sharing Strategy.** Information sharing is making information available to participants (people, processes, or systems). Information sharing includes the cultural, managerial, and technical behavior by which one participant uses information held or created by another participant. Improving DOD’s ability to share information helps to realize the power of information as a strategic asset:

(a) Facilitate unity of effort across mission and domestic or multinational operations.

(b) Improve the speed and execution of decisions.

(c) Facilitate rapid adaptability across mission and domestic or multinational operations.

(d) Improve situational advantage and set the conditions for success.

b. The following are key focus areas for interorganizational cooperation to foster an integrated approach:

(1) **Dialogue.** Continual dialogue with national leadership helps CCDRs identify national objectives, desired end states, DOD priorities, and how those will be supported by CCMD objectives. The relevant risks and policies must also be assessed. The JFC translates this strategic national guidance into military objectives. This translation is ongoing because national and international positions and objectives are fluid. Dialogue enables CCDRs to keep joint operations and desired military end states aligned with national and international objectives.

(2) **Analysis.** JFCs should analyze the operational environment with non-DOD partners to identify complexities, interconnected people and systems, and other variables.

(3) **Actions.** JFCs should align military actions with those of the other stakeholders. JFCs should use mission-type orders, coupled with guidance and intent, to empower decentralized military operations that are synergized with those of our partners. Establish a command and organizational climate that facilitates inclusion of all stakeholders. A structured integrated approach should provide a method to evaluate and integrate stakeholder contributions across all phases to meet mission needs.

(4) **Accountability.** The JFC is accountable for military operations regardless of limited resources or absence of support by others.

6. International Organizations

An international organization is an organization created by a formal agreement (e.g., a treaty) between two or more governments on a global, regional, or functional basis to protect and promote national interests shared by member states. International organizations may be established for wide-ranging or narrowly defined purposes. Examples include the UN, NATO, Organization of American States (OAS), and the African Union (AU). NATO and the Organization for Security and Cooperation in Europe are regional security organizations, while the European Union (EU), the AU, and the OAS are general regional organizations. However, some general regional organizations and sub-regional organizations conduct security-related activities. For example, the AU conducted peacekeeping operations in the Sudan through the AU Mission in Sudan and operations in Somalia via the AU Mission in Somalia. The Economic Community of West African States, a sub-regional organization, formed the Economic Community of West African States Monitoring Group and supported peacekeeping operations in Guinea-Bissau, Liberia, and Sierra Leone. These organizations have defined structures, roles, and responsibilities, and may be equipped with the resources and expertise to participate in complex interorganizational cooperation.

7. Nongovernmental Organizations

a. NGOs are private, self-governing, not-for-profit organizations dedicated to alleviating human suffering; and/or promoting education, health care, economic development, environmental protection, human rights, and conflict resolution; and/or encouraging the establishment of democratic institutions and civil society. Where long-

term problems precede a deepening crisis, NGOs are frequently on scene before the US military and may have an established presence in the crisis area. NGOs frequently work in areas where military forces conduct military engagement, security cooperation, and deterrence activities. They will most likely remain long after military forces have departed.

b. Because of their capability to respond quickly and effectively to crises, NGOs can lessen the civil-military resources that a JFC would otherwise have to devote to an operation. Although NGOs may have philosophical differences and divergent agendas from military forces, short-term objectives are frequently similar. Identifying common ground with NGOs can be mutually beneficial, although NGOs often object to any sense that their activities have been co-opted for the achievement of military objectives. Their mission is often one of a humanitarian or development nature and in very few cases related to assisting the military. For US forces, there are legal restrictions on the provision of support to NGOs. NGO activities and capabilities are factors the JFC assesses when selecting a COA.

c. Civil society and civil society organizations are nongovernmental, voluntary groups that organize themselves on behalf of individual citizens and local communities. An active civil society partners with government to fill public services and holds government accountable, by pressing for transparent and fair governance, with equal access to government services for all people. Traditional civil society and civil society organizations include religious, tribal, cultural, and informal organizations. Modern civil society and civil society organizations include universities, community-based organizations, professional and trade associations, media, charities, artists, and NGOs financed with national funds.

For more information on civil society and civil society organizations, see the UN website (<http://esango.un.org/civilsociety/login.do>).

8. The Private Sector

a. The private sector is an umbrella term that may be applied to any or all of the nonpublic or commercial individuals and businesses, specified nonprofit organizations, most of academia and other scholastic institutions, and selected NGOs. Private sector organizations range from large and multinational to small with limited resources and focused on one country. The private sector also includes contractors. There may be a plethora of small private sector entities and NGOs in a country. The private sector can help the USG obtain information, identify risks, conduct vulnerability assessments, and provide other assistance. Private organizations' assistance to the USG is most prominent during security cooperation, combat support, and reconstruction.

For additional information on DOD policies and procedures concerning contractor personnel authorized to accompany the force, see DODI 3020.41, Operational Contract Support (OCS).

b. **Multinational Corporations (MNCs).** MNCs, as business entities, are distinct from the “not-for-profit” NGOs. MNCs may have local insight, in-country equipment and resources, pre-established organization, and means to reconstruct devastated areas. MNCs operating in country prior to US intervention are often knowledgeable concerning local government, culture, terrain, and logistics needs. The Department of Commerce (DOC) and DOS in countries where the US embassy is resident can provide advice and contacts for MNCs. In addition, MNCs will likely be motivated to protect their investments and revive their own business operations. US strategic interest may overlap with MNCs’ agendas, particularly in relation to crisis resolution, regional recovery, and building social and economic security. Coordinating operations with MNCs is complex and different in scope and objective than the typical NGO interaction. While NGOs generally have a limited mission and a small footprint, MNCs are often integrated with national, regional, and local governments, with widespread investments, holdings, and large and diverse work forces. MNCs may provide the joint forces with contracted services or may be brought into the area of operations as contracted entities.

c. **Academia.** Universities, think tanks, and research organizations can provide important resources to DOD. In the US, academic organizations and consortiums (e.g., the Homeland Security/Defense Education Consortium, the University of North Carolina at Chapel Hill Institute for Defense and Business, and the University of Colorado Natural Hazards Center) provide research, knowledge, and ideas, and establish dialogue between DOD and academia.

d. **Operational Contract Support.** Contracting is commonly used to augment organic military capabilities with other sources of support (e.g., multinational logistic support and HN support) and to provide support where no organic capability exists. Contracting should be planned for and integrated into the joint force logistic support effort. Operational contracts may also support stabilization efforts through local awards, which strengthen the local economy. If time permits, operational contracts should be coordinated among relevant USG departments and agencies (e.g., DOD, DOS, and USAID), international organizations, NGOs, and the private sector to minimize risk, inefficiencies, duplication, and excessive competition between consumers. Normally, the JFC establishes operational contract support-related boards. All partner organizations in the operational area with contract support interests should be encouraged to participate in these boards.

For more information, refer to JP 4-10, Operational Contract Support.

e. The Department of Labor (DOL) provides the government interface with the workforce. DOL can provide advice on how to increase effectiveness of organizations to meet the needs of the indigenous population and any foreign workers in the operational area.

For more information on the DOL, refer to Annex L, “Department of Labor,” to Appendix A, “United States Government Departments and Agencies.”

9. Joint Task Force Considerations

a. When it is necessary to establish a JTF, the establishing authority is normally a CDR (see Figure II-2). The CDR develops the mission statement and CONOPS based upon direction from SecDef, as communicated through the CJCS. The CDR appoints a commander, joint task force (CJTF), and, in conjunction with the CJTF, determines the capabilities required to achieve military objectives. The CJTF has the authority to organize forces and the JTF HQ, to accomplish the objectives.

b. **JTF Attributes.** The JTF organization has a commander, command element, and forces to execute the mission. The JTF construct is flexible and JTFs are task-organized to fit mission requirements. They often blend Service capabilities to form functional components. A task-organized approach can provide for the phased introduction of forces and the rapid deployment of personnel and equipment. A JTF is normally designated when the mission has a specific limited objective and does not require overall centralized control of logistics. The mission assigned to a JTF will require not only the execution of responsibilities involving two or more military departments but, increasingly, the mutual support of numerous USG departments and agencies, and collaboration with international organizations, NGOs, and the private sector. Normally, a JTF is dissolved when the purpose for which it was created has been achieved. The JTF HQ commands and controls the joint force and coordinates military operations with the activities of other USG departments and agencies, MNFs, international organizations, NGOs, the private sector, and HN forces and agencies. A principal distinction between a JTF and a Service command is the JTF's greater emphasis on interorganizational cooperation to achieve unity of effort.

c. **JTFs in the Interagency Process.** Unlike the military, most USG departments and agencies are not equipped and organized to create separate staffs at the strategic, operational, and tactical levels. Therefore, JTF personnel interface with individuals who are coordinating their organization's activities at more than one level. The USG interagency process requires the JTF HQ to be especially flexible, responsive, and cognizant of the capabilities of USG departments and agencies, international organizations, HN forces and agencies, NGOs, and the private sector. The JTF HQ provides an important basis for a unified effort, centralized planning and direction, and decentralized execution. Depending on the type of operation; the extent of military operations; and the degree of agency, international organization, NGO, and private sector involvement, the focal point for operational- and tactical-level coordination with civilian departments and agencies may occur at the JTF HQ, the country team, the joint field office (JFO), the CMOC, or the humanitarian operations center (HOC). JTF personnel may also participate actively, or as observers, in a civilian-led functional coordinating group concentrating on a specific issue or project.

(1) Upon activation of a JTF outside the US, the CDR determines whether the JTF has direct liaison authority with the affected COM and with the senior defense official/defense attaché (SDO/DATT) to provide consistent, efficient communication with the COM and the country team.

Joint Task Force Establishing Authority Responsibilities

- Appoint the commander, joint task force (CJTF), assign the mission and forces, and exercise command and control of the joint task force (JTF).
 - In coordination with the CJTF, determine the military forces and other national means required to accomplish the mission.
 - Allocate or request forces required.
- Provide the overall mission, purpose, and objectives for the directed military operations.
- Define the joint operations area (JOA) in terms of geography or time. (Note: The JOA should be assigned through the appropriate combatant commander and activated at the date and time specified.)
 - Ensure freedom of action, communications, personnel recovery, and security for forces moving into or positioned outside the JOA.
- Ensure the development and approval of rules of engagement or rules for the use of force tailored to the situation.
- Monitor the operational situation and keep superiors informed through periodic reports.
- Provide guidance (e.g., planning guidelines with a recognizable end state, situation, concepts, tasks, execute orders, administration, logistics, media releases, and organizational requirements).
- Promulgate changes in plans and modify mission and forces as necessary.
- Ensure administrative and sustainment support.
- Recommend to higher authority which organizations should be responsible for funding various aspects of the JTF.
- Establish or assist in establishing liaison with US embassies and foreign governments involved in the operation.
- Determine supporting force requirements.
 - Prepare a directive that indicates the purpose, in terms of desired effect, and the scope of action required. The directive establishes the support relationships with amplifying instructions (e.g., strength to be allocated to the supporting mission; time, place, and duration of the supporting effort; priority of the supporting mission; and authority for the cessation of support).
- Approve CJTF plans.
- Delegate directive authority for common support capabilities (if required).

Figure II-2. Joint Task Force Establishing Authority Responsibilities

(2) JTFs should channel most communications through the LNO team to avoid overwhelming interagency partners with JTF coordination and planning requests.

(3) JTFs should designate the staff office responsible for interorganizational cooperation. Many JTFs designate their plans directorate of a joint staff or CMOC, while others may form a separate directorate.

(4) When a large country team or JFO and a military JTF exist side-by-side, detailed procedures should be developed for staff coordination.

(5) For DSCA operations, the JTF HQ is ideally colocated with the JFO per NRF guidance. All ESFs are represented in the JFO.

(6) JTFs should consider how to integrate military elements that may not be part of the core JTF (e.g., special operations forces, to include those conducting train and advise missions).

For more information on the forming and composition of a JTF, refer to JP 3-33, Joint Task Force Headquarters.

d. A JIATF may be formed when the mission requires close integration of two or more USG departments and agencies. Formation of a JIATF requires significant coordination among the participating organizations. Refer to Appendix E, “Joint Interagency Task Force.”

e. A joint support force may be formed when the mission is a DSCA operation and DOD is operating in support of one or more USG departments and agencies. Although organized similar to a JTF (i.e., with a commander, command element, and forces), the title indicates a more cooperation-focused organization to the interorganizational community.

f. Intelligence and Information Collection and Dissemination. The primary function of joint intelligence is to provide the JFC with as timely, complete, and accurate understanding of the operational environment as possible, particularly with regard to the adversary’s forces, capabilities, and intentions. The architecture to receive and disseminate intelligence and information must accommodate joint, multinational, and interagency consumers.

(1) The CCDR may request national intelligence support for the JTF during a crisis or contingency operation. CCMD liaison offices provide reach-through for intelligence expertise from the Defense Intelligence Agency (DIA), Central Intelligence Agency (CIA), National Security Agency (NSA), National Geospatial-Intelligence Agency (NGA), and other IC agencies. Combat support agency LNOs provide commanders access to national-level databases and agency-unique information and analysis. Intelligence support for domestic operations must be IAW US laws; executive orders; and DOD policies and regulation, including DOD 5240.1-R, *Procedures Governing the Activities of DOD Intelligence Components That Affect United States Persons*; Department of Defense Directive (DODD) 5200.27, *Acquisition of Information Concerning Persons and Organizations not Affiliated with the Department of Defense*; and Chief, National Guard Bureau (CNGB) Manual 2000.01, *National Guard Intelligence Activities*.

For more information on the CIA, refer to Annex R, “Central Intelligence Agency,” to Appendix A, “United States Government Departments and Agencies.”

(2) Collection of intelligence during military operations is conducted IAW JP 2-01, *Joint and National Intelligence Support to Military Operations*. JTF intelligence collection, analysis, production, and dissemination may be complicated by the presence

of non-USG civilians, especially members of international organizations, NGOs, and private sector entities. These individuals may be sensitive to the perception that they are being used to gather intelligence. Intelligence gathering may be regarded as an act of direct participation in hostilities under the law of war. NGO involvement, or even the perception of involvement, causes NGOs to lose protection from attack. If captured, they may also be prosecuted for their belligerent acts under the domestic law of the captor. However, general information provided by personnel from international organizations, NGOs, and private sector entities may corroborate intelligence gained from other sources. Generally, the best approach to information sharing with NGOs and the international civilian community is to keep the focus on complete transparency in sharing operational information and developing a shared situational awareness and understanding of the objectives to accomplish the mission.

(3) Procedures for control and disclosure of classified information, as practiced by DOD and other USG departments and agencies, normally do not exist with international organizations, NGOs, and private sector entities. Under the USC, it is unlawful to disclose classified information and controlled unclassified information to foreign governments without proper authorization. Classified military information and controlled unclassified information shall not be disclosed to foreign nationals until the appropriate designated foreign disclosure authority receives a security assurance from the recipient foreign government on the individuals who are to receive the information. Open-source information is normally sufficient to share with organizations that cannot receive classified intelligence. Specific guidance for the disclosure of classified military information to foreign governments is contained in DODD 5230.11, *Disclosure of Classified Military Information to Foreign Governments and International Organizations*. Guidance for the identification and protection of controlled unclassified information is contained in DOD Manual 5200.01, Volume 4, *DOD Information Security Program: Controlled Unclassified Information (CUI)*.

(a) In most multinational operations, the JFC will be required to share intelligence with foreign military forces and to coordinate the receipt of intelligence from those forces. Release procedures should be established in advance, and the JFC participating in the MNF should tailor the policies and procedures for that particular operation based on national and theater guidance. To share intelligence information with multinational partners efficiently, US intelligence information should be written for release at the lowest possible classification level and given the fewest possible dissemination restrictions within foreign disclosure guidelines.

(b) Consideration must also be given to the control of sensitive or classified information in forums (e.g., the CMOC) that include representatives from non-USG departments and agencies. In most cases, the best method to provide necessary information to NGOs, international organizations, the UN, and similar organizations is through liaison personnel from USAID, DOS, and other USG departments and agencies, who hold security clearances and can read such information in its original form and advise JTF personnel on what specific material they would like cleared for release to non-USG organizations.

(c) The joint force foreign disclosure officer and intelligence directorate of a joint staff (J-2) should obtain all the necessary foreign disclosure authorization from DIA, national agencies, and other originators of classified military information and controlled unclassified information, through the supported CCMD, as soon as possible to affect the seamless transfer of intelligence and information to foreign partners conducting joint operations. All JTF-affected personnel should be aware of the specific foreign disclosure policies, procedures, and regulations for the operation. The efficient flow of classified and sensitive information will be enhanced by the assignment of trained personnel who are experienced in foreign disclosure procedures. The foreign disclosure officer may also be required to train all newly assigned personnel on techniques and procedures for disclosure of classified, unclassified, and for official use only information.

g. **Force Protection (FP).** FP planning considerations are developed during the joint intelligence preparation of the operational environment process and are based on the multinational nature of the operation and the nonmilitary organizations operating in an operational area. Other aspects of FP the CJTF considers include:

(1) JTF FP measures are derived from CCDR guidance. Country team personnel FP standards are established by the COM's regional security office.

(2) Other nations do not necessarily execute FP in the same manner as the US military. If a joint force is under the OPCON of an MNF commander, the JFC implements the appropriate FP measures IAW CCDR directives.

(3) Special measures may be required for joint force personnel who must interact with local populations and NGOs. Unfamiliar procedures, lack of a common language, and differing operational terms of reference increase the risk to these joint force personnel.

(4) Because US forces often assume the leadership role in multinational operations, joint force personnel can potentially be a greater target.

(5) In addition to actions taken to prevent or mitigate hostile actions against the joint force, the JFC may provide security for other personnel and assets. These requirements should be clearly stated in the mission. A MOA may be required to document joint FP provided to:

(a) Personnel and equipment belonging to USG departments and agencies, international organizations, NGOs, and private sector entities.

(b) HN or multinational personnel and assets.

(c) Non-USG relief convoys, supplies, and main supply routes.

(d) Non-USG relief distribution centers.

(e) Non-USG stocks of supplies.

- (f) HN or partner nation ports and airfields.

For more information, refer to JP 3-07.2, Antiterrorism, and JP 3-10, Joint Security Operations in Theater.

(6) Employment of nonlethal capabilities. Well-developed response measures, to include the use of nonlethal weapons such as vehicle/vessel stoppers, acoustic/optical hail and warning devices, and blunt impact munitions, provide joint forces additional escalation-of-force options short of lethal force. Designed to minimize civilian casualties and limit collateral damage, nonlethal weapons may assist in gaining the trust of the population and should be fully considered in any joint operation.

h. **Logistic Support.** JFCs identify logistic requirements and resource availability, and then determine financial authorities to sustain a joint force operation.

(1) USG departments and agencies, international organizations, NGOs, and MNFs provide for their own logistics support. However, US military logistic capabilities are frequently requested and provided to these organizations. Pursuant to the Economy Act of 1932 or other applicable authorities (e.g., Section 632 of the Foreign Assistance Act; Title 22, USC, Section 2392; and Chapter 138, Cooperative Agreements with NATO Allies and other Countries, Title 10, USC, Sections 2341-2350), the JTF may be able to provide all or part of the logistics for these organizations. This support may include intertheater and intratheater airlift; ground transportation of personnel, equipment, and supplies; and management of air, land, or sea transportation nodes. Where there is limited or denied access and civilian transportation infrastructure is degraded or otherwise limited, DOD-provided transportation may be the only viable mode. A MOA should be established between two organizations whenever resources are changing hands and should comply with relevant DOD instructions, the Economy Act of 1932, and other statutory authorities. NGOs and international organizations should request logistics support directly from US military forces only in extremely rare circumstances. There is a well-developed request process by which these organizations first request support from USG departments and agencies (mainly DOS, USAID, and DHS/FEMA), which will attempt to provide such support through contracted or other means. If such means are not available, the USG civilian agency could request support, on behalf of these organizations, from US forces (using, for example, the USAID/OFDA mission tasking matrix [MITAM] or other similar tools).

For more information on intertheater and intratheater movement processes, refer to JP 3-35, Deployment and Redeployment Operations.

(2) Unity of effort in joint and multinational operations requires coordination of logistics operations not only between Services and USG departments and agencies, but also among relief and humanitarian organizations in theater. Authority for logistics matters should be clearly stated in the TCP and applicable plans. The JFC should validate logistics requirements throughout the operation and adjust to efficiently allocate resources. If the plan designates the JTF as the primary source of movement support, the CJTF establishes movement priorities between JTF requirements and those of USG

departments and agencies, the country team, multinational or UN forces, NGOs, and any international joint logistic center (e.g., UN Joint Logistic Center) that may be established. United States Transportation Command (USTRANSCOM) is responsible for global synchronization of distribution support. The GCC's joint deployment and distribution operations center or equivalent logistics management organization integrates, synchronizes, and optimizes strategic and theater deployment and distribution operations in a GCC's AOR. The joint deployment and distribution operations center controls the theater segment, and coordinates and synchronizes distribution responsive to the tactical segment of intratheater movement. All elements (e.g., USG department or agency, international organization, NGO) articulate their movement requirements to the JTF to enable prioritization and effective planning and security for materiel movement.

(3) Normally, joint forces are supported through a combination of scheduled US resupply, operational contract support, HN support, domestic support operations, and UN logistic support.

(4) When joint forces participate in a UN operation, many of the costs incurred by the US are reimbursable by the supported UN agency.

(5) In multinational operations not sponsored by the UN, a single nation may plan and coordinate logistic support for all forces on a reimbursable basis.

(6) Operational contract support is commonly used to augment organic logistic military and other sources of support (e.g., multinational logistic support and HN support), and when joint forces have limited or no organic deployed logistic capability

For more information, see JP 4-10, Operational Contract Support.

(7) Acquisition and cross-servicing agreements are negotiated on a bilateral basis with multinational partners that allow US forces to exchange most common types of support (e.g., food, fuel, transportation, ammunition, and equipment).

For more information on acquisition and cross-servicing agreements, refer to DODD 2010.9, Acquisition and Cross-Servicing Agreements; CJCSI 2120.01, Acquisition and Cross-Servicing Agreements; and JP 4-08, Logistics in Support of Multinational Operations.

(8) **Economy Act of 1932.** The Economy Act of 1932 provides agencies the authority to provide services to, or secure the services of, another executive agency for in-house performance or performance by contract where there is no other statutory authority. The head of an agency or major organizational unit within an agency may place an order for goods or services with a major organizational unit within the same agency or another agency if the agency has available funds; the order is in the best interests of the USG; the agency filling the order can provide, or acquire by contract, the ordered goods or services; and the head of the agency decides that the ordered goods or services cannot be provided by contract as conveniently or cheaply by a commercial enterprise (see Title 31, USC, Section 1535[a]).

i. **Legal Issues.** The SJA provides legal services to the JFC and staff. The SJA should possess a comprehensive understanding of the regulations and laws applicable to military forces, as well as be familiar with regulations and laws applicable to other governmental and nongovernmental entities, both domestic and international. In addition, the SJA can advise/assist with communications with international organizations/NGOs; negotiations with foreign officials; and drafting command policies, orders, and international agreements. The SJA participates in interorganizational cooperation to identify and resolve interagency and multinational legal issues including:

- (1) US legal authorities.
 - (a) Roles, missions, and authorities for USG departments and agencies.
 - (b) Direction and constraints of USG interaction with NGOs and multinational partners.
- (2) International law.
 - (a) Dislocated civilians, immunity and asylum, arrests, interrogations, and detentions.
 - (b) War crimes, status-of-forces agreements, law of war, counter-piracy, counternarcotics, weapons proliferation, and trafficking in persons.
- (3) Military justice system.
- (4) Environmental law.
- (5) In concert with J-2, assist with intelligence oversight concerns.
- (6) Disaster relief (DR) and claims.
- (7) Contract/fiscal law and authorities.
- (8) Rules of engagement (ROE) and rules for the use of force.
- (9) Authorization for, and limitations on, use of military forces to support civilian authorities.
- (10) State, local, and tribal laws and jurisdictional issues.
- (11) Cooperative military agreements and other authorizations for, and limitations on, assistance to foreign militaries and vice versa.
- (12) Information-related capabilities (IRCs) and authorities (e.g., cyberspace operations and military information support operations).
- (13) Laws and policies on civilian and contractor personnel authorized to accompany US forces.

(14) Investigations and evidence-based operations.

(15) Arming contractor personnel (includes arming for self-defense and for security support).

(16) Integration and employment of nonlethal capabilities/weapons.

For more information on legal support, refer to JP 1-04, Legal Support to Military Operations.

10. Organizing the Joint Force Headquarters for Interorganizational Cooperation

a. Joint force HQ organization structure should support interorganizational cooperation. This applies to CCMD HQ, standing JTFs, and JTFs stood up for a specific mission.

(1) The JFC's mission will determine the number of participants and amount of interorganizational cooperation. CCMDs plan and execute security cooperation in collaboration with country teams, foreign governments, international organizations, NGOs, and private sector entities. JTFs engaged in combat may have limited requirements for interorganizational cooperation. Conversely, JTFs focused on foreign internal defense, counterinsurgency, or FHA missions will have extensive interface with external stakeholders. Nearly all JTFs will have a multinational aspect to their missions. Mission analysis should identify external stakeholders that impact on the command's mission, either positively or negatively. Such impact can be based on capabilities, authorities, or political influence.

(2) The JFC's mission analysis should identify each staff functional area's requirements to coordinate with external stakeholders. Mission analysis should also evaluate the activities, perspectives, and interests of external stakeholders.

(3) The JFC should synchronize interorganizational cooperation with higher HQ and subordinates. The JFC should define interorganizational cooperation roles, responsibilities, and authorities between its level and its subordinates. The JFC's interorganizational cooperation should enable the subordinates' coordination. The JFC should anticipate that civilian actors (e.g., NGOs) may only have a tactical presence and may lack operational-level planners or representatives.

(4) The JFC should synchronize its interorganizational cooperation with adjacent DOD commands, particularly those who support or are supported by the JFC. This enables joint forces to speak with one voice and act consistently with external stakeholders.

(5) Interorganizational cooperation is similar to staff processes such as operations, sustainment, or intelligence. It requires ownership and defined responsibilities within the staff to function. Interorganizational cooperation often occurs at multiple points across a joint force staff. A lack of discipline in coordinating with external entities can result in inefficient, stovepiped efforts prone to gaps and needless

duplication. Internal synchronization of the external coordination enables accurate and consistent messages to other organizations; improved internal situational awareness; and the more accurate consideration of the perspectives and equities of external stakeholders in planning, assessment, and decision making.

b. A joint force HQ should be able to accomplish certain continuous functions, across the range of military operations, with respect to interorganizational cooperation. The key is to support the commander's decision cycle by successfully performing these functions:

(1) Synchronize joint force military actions with the actions of external stakeholders.

(2) Conduct appropriate information sharing with external stakeholders.

(3) Bring perspectives, interests, and equities of external stakeholders into the planning and assessment processes.

(4) Understand the capabilities and limitations of external stakeholders.

(5) Assess and maintain awareness of a potential request for assistance (RFA) from external stakeholders in the accomplishment of their objectives.

(6) Establish and maintain relationships with external stakeholders during military engagement, security cooperation, and deterrence activities.

(7) Use reachback and collaborative networking to augment the resident and temporary organizational representatives available at the HQ.

(8) Conduct key leader engagement with external stakeholders in a manner consistent with the overall DOD and USG engagement objectives.

(9) Effectively tie in with CMOCs and humanitarian assistance coordination centers (HACCs), when established, as a forward extension of the staff.

(10) Support and remain consistent with, and cognizant of, the nation's whole-of-government effort.

c. The JFC enables interorganizational cooperation by establishing clear processes and assigning responsibilities within the staff. The JFC has many options available to focus interorganizational cooperation. The JFC can:

(1) Centralize interorganizational cooperation within the command group. Under this model, the chief of staff or a special staff officer within the command group synchronizes the staff's interorganizational cooperation. This is feasible if the level of effort is manageable within the command group's span of control.

(2) Assign lead responsibilities to a directorate (e.g., operations directorate of a joint staff [J-3] or plans directorate of a joint staff). This is an appropriate COA when the level of effort required to synchronize the staff's interorganizational cooperation actions can be managed within one of these directorates or when the nature of the staff's interorganizational cooperation is focused on a specific function. If necessary, a separate organization can be established in the directorate for interorganizational cooperation.

(3) Establish a separate directorate for interorganizational cooperation. CCMDs and other joint forces establish separate directorates when interorganizational cooperation rises to the level of a principal staff function. A separate directorate centralizes effort and focus, and provides a clear entry point for outside organizations. However, this option expands the staff horizontally and requires additional resources.

(4) Decentralize interorganizational cooperation. This option leaves coordination with external stakeholders to individual directors and special staff officers. This approach obviates the requirement for additional staff structure and makes the individual staff leaders responsible for interorganizational cooperation for their respective functional area. This decentralized approach makes internal synchronization of the staff's activity more difficult. It incurs the highest risk of functional stovepiping and a disjointed or duplicative effort with external entities.

(5) Establish a JIACG. A JIACG is an interagency staff group composed of USG civilian and military experts accredited to the CDR. It is designed to be a forum for joint force commands to collaborate with USG departments and agencies, and potentially other external organizations as well. The term JIACG can also describe a network of contacts among agencies and other external stakeholders that can plan and share information by several means. A JIACG can be a standing, recurring, or temporary organization, and is always tailored to meet the JFC's requirements. JIACGs can support any of the options for HQ organization discussed in this section.

(6) Staff integrating elements can be key staff activities to support interorganizational cooperation under any of the above options. A periodic executive-level steering group or decision board may aid in understanding, promote adherence to established processes, and reinforce responsibilities to prevent gaps and duplication of effort. Such a steering group should be supported by a working group meeting on a regular basis to monitor interorganizational cooperation occurring throughout the staff and identify issues for the steering group or decision board.

(7) The position of advisors and organization representatives in the HQ, whether they are assigned on a permanent or temporary basis, correlates to their effectiveness. At the CCMD level, and occasionally at the JTF level, DOS assigns foreign policy advisors (POLADs) to the commander for diplomatic and political issues. The POLAD should always be located in the command group, with direct access to the commander. While it is inappropriate to use the POLAD to synchronize or oversee staff activity, they should be encouraged to observe and participate in staff planning events. USG department and agency representatives bring their expertise and facilitate reachback to their parent agencies. Whether they are centrally positioned and supported under one

staff directorate, or dispersed among multiple directorates, they should be available to advise the JFC directly, as well as to bring their perspectives to various staff activities (e.g., operational planning teams and appropriate staff integrating elements). For example, during HA operations for which a JTF has been deployed, one or more HA advisors from USAID/OFDA may be assigned to the JTF to advise the commander and their staff on humanitarian issues and to prioritize requests from NGOs and other civilian organizations for JTF support. USG department and agency personnel assigned to the JFC to bring specific functional expertise normally should be positioned in the directorate they support (e.g., intelligence analysts in the J-2).

11. Information Management and Sharing

a. Joint operations collect and disseminate large volumes of information. Other on-scene stakeholders can provide information that may contribute to USG objectives. Non-USG organizations may maintain a distance from military activities. CJTFs can sometimes accommodate the concerns of these organizations and share information and resources to encourage international organization and NGO cooperation. International organization and NGO personnel often understand local culture, practices, and the needs of the people. Commanders at all levels should provide guidance on information sharing outside of the USG. DOD information should be secured and made available to mission partners to the maximum extent allowed by US laws and DOD policy. CJTFs and their staffs should communicate with non-USG stakeholders from the outset of complex operations, and not as an afterthought. Civilian entities (e.g., local authorities, emergency responders, and NGOs) can provide information regarding:

- (1) Historical perspective and insight.
- (2) Local cultural practices.
- (3) Local political structure, political aims of various parties, and the roles of key leaders, to corroborate information provided by Service intelligence and non-intelligence organizations.
- (4) Security situation.
- (5) Role and capabilities of the HN government.

b. International organizations and NGOs may have information not available through military channels. To preserve international organization and NGO access to local information, JFCs should avoid the perception that international organization and NGO workers are intelligence-gathering. International organizations and NGOs can be alienated when they believe that, contrary to their philosophical ideals, military forces are using them to gather intelligence.

c. A collaborative environment is one in which participants are encouraged to solve problems and share information, knowledge, perceptions, ideas, and concepts in a spirit of mutual cooperation that extends beyond the requirement to coordinate with others.

d. The components of civil-military coordination are information and task sharing, and collaborative planning. Both components depend on communications and data and information management. The following shortcomings can degrade civil-military coordination:

(1) Lack of understanding about the information culture of the affected nation(s).

(2) Suspicions regarding the balance between information sharing and intelligence gathering.

(3) Tensions between military needs for classification (secrecy) of data, need to know, and OPSEC versus the civilian needs for transparency.

(4) Differences in the C2 style of military operations versus civilian activities.

(5) Compatibility and interoperability of planning tools, processes, and civil-military organization cultures.

e. No single entity—whether it is an NGO, international organization, national government, or HN—can provide, store, and analyze all mission-essential data and information. JFCs should make critical information widely available to multiple civilian and military elements to reduce duplication of effort and enhance coordination and collaboration. Civil-military collaboration networks can be designed to build a common knowledge base so critical information can be pooled, analyzed, compared, contrasted, validated, and reconciled. In most humanitarian crises and areas of conflict, there will be information sharing platforms already being used, generally managed by UN agencies. The JTF should use these systems for information exchange wherever possible, rather than creating new platforms that will be duplicative, and are often viewed with suspicion by NGOs. Also, it is difficult for most USG departments and agencies, and impossible for NGOs and international organizations, to communicate through classified systems, so it is crucial to keep communications on unclassified systems when possible.

f. The JFC should be equipped to collaborate with external mission participants (e.g., international organizations, NGOs). The JFC establishes interoperable communications by using available commercial telecommunications networks, military satellite channels, C2 coverage, and conventional military communications systems to exchange orders, directions, and information among all participants. Direct communications between commanders, interagency partners, NGOs, international organizations, indigenous populations and institutions (IPI), and the private sector facilitates coordination and decision making. Nonsecure communications must be protected. Additionally, communications systems planners should plan for the termination or transition of US involvement and the transfer of responsibility to the HN, UN, regional organizations, another military force, or civilian organizations.

g. The *Department of Defense Information Sharing Strategy* provides the common vision, goals, and approaches that guide the many information sharing initiatives and investments for DOD. The *Department of Defense Information Sharing Strategy* guides

DOD's exchange of information within DOD and with federal, state, local, and tribal governments; multinational partners; foreign governments and security forces; international organizations; NGOs; and the private sector.

h. The information sharing environment (ISE) (<http://www.ise.gov>) network supports five communities (i.e., intelligence, law enforcement, defense, homeland security [HS], and foreign affairs). The ISE focuses on sharing information related to terrorism and HS. The need for collaboration and sharing of information extends beyond terrorism-related issues to all information relevant to US national security and the safety of the American people. The Homeland Security Information Network (<https://hsin.dhs.gov>) also supports these communities with specific focus on critical infrastructure, emergency management, emergency services, health and public health, intelligence, and law enforcement with real-time with collaboration tools, situation rooms, chat, bulletins, and regional assessments.

For more information, refer to Annex U, "Office of the Director of National Intelligence," to Appendix A, "United States Government Departments and Agencies."

i. **Information Sharing Enablers.** Interorganizational cooperation necessitates the ability to plan, collaborate, and execute mission-related activities throughout an operation. Planning and collaboration is enhanced when all mission partners exchange critical information in a mutually understood language at a mission-specific classification and releasability level throughout an operation.

(1) When the US leads multinational operations, DOD will establish a communication network, built on a federation of networks contributed by the CCMD/JTF and willing mission partners.

(2) As the operation matures with interorganizational entities participation, DOD may establish a communications network to provide trusted and protected information sharing among peers.

For more information on communications, refer to JP 6-0, Joint Communications System.

j. **OPSEC.** The OPSEC process is an inherent part of the whole-of-government approach to operations. National Security Decision Directive 298, *National Operations Security Program*, mandates the establishment of formal OPSEC programs for all executive departments or agencies that support national security missions. The current operational environment may require coordination of OPSEC efforts with other government departments and agencies, such as the CIA, DHS, the Department of Energy (DOE), or FBI.

(1) When formed at a CCMD, the JIACG provides a venue to integrate other USG departments and agencies into joint planning. The information operations (IO) cell within the joint staff coordinates OPSEC planning efforts with the JIACG throughout the JPP.

(2) Military planners should include interagency partners when developing the critical information list and pay particular attention to avoid creating additional OPSEC vulnerabilities while coordinating with other USG departments and agencies that are not controlled by the JFC. Military planners also need to include other USG department and agency activities in the assessment process, along with those of the component forces.

(3) Military planners consider and assess potential OPSEC vulnerabilities and threats whenever international organizations and NGOs are present in the operational area. Joint force representatives in the CMOC or joint civil-military operations task force (JCMOTF) must be vigilant in protecting critical information when coordinating with various international organizations and NGOs. While international organizations and NGOs provide unique capabilities, they may also create a large vulnerability for the loss of critical information. In many cases, international organizations and NGOs will have established relationships with USG departments and agencies, such as the DOS. Another significant vulnerability of many NGOs is their reliance on nonsecure communications, such as free e-mail accounts and social networking sites, for the conduct of routine operations. Military planners ensure all of these relationships are included in developing the critical information list, identifying OPSEC indicators, and applying OPSEC countermeasures.

(4) It is vital to integrate any and all willing mission partners, which may include international organizations and NGOs, interagency, and military partners operating in the operational area, into joint planning as early as possible so an integrated comprehensive and achievable OPSEC plan can be developed. Initial requirements for integration include clarification of objectives, understanding how partners intend to conduct activities, establishment of liaison and deconfliction procedures, and identification of vulnerabilities and possible countermeasures to adversary exploitation.

For more information, refer to JP 3-13.3, Operations Security.

12. Training and Readiness

a. USG departments and agencies conduct continuous and integrated interagency, international organization, NGO, and public and private sector planning and training to synchronize all aspects of a US response to humanitarian and complex crises. Interagency training and training with non-USG stakeholders should provide for individual military and civilian instruction, military unit and civilian agency instruction, and combined military and civilian agency training in a formal joint program.

b. CCDRs should, in coordination with other USG departments and agencies, encourage international organization, NGO, and private sector involvement in routine training and exercises, as well as train for specific operations. Ideally, interorganizational cooperation training audiences should include members of the HACC, CMOC, joint logistics operations center (JLOC), the liaison section, NGOs, the UN, and USG departments and agencies. Predeployment training can enhance operational capability. Other USG departments and agencies, international organizations, and the FHA community also offer training. For example, staff members who could deploy to support

a. FEMA mission, or participate in planning for such a mission, would benefit from attending the USAID/OFDA Joint Humanitarian Operations Course, which is offered to civilian-military audiences by mobile training teams multiple times every year. Because OFDA is the lead USG agency for international disaster response, civil-military coordination in such operations is substantially improved by understanding OFDA capabilities and authorities. Agency, international organization, and NGO training should focus on identifying and assessing organizational capabilities and core competencies, and identifying procedural gaps. Rotations and visits to a command improve mutual awareness of missions, objectives, cultures, corresponding activities, and programs. Even short rotations enhance reachback capability and facilitate common understanding.

c. The JS J-7 chairs a DOD interagency working group to coordinate DOD interagency participation requirements and opportunities. JS J-7 presents the working group results to the Interagency Training Coordinator Working Group. This working group facilitates interagency participation in the CJCS's Exercise Program and oversees requirements for DOD participation in the National Exercise Program.

For more information, see DODI 3020.47, DOD Participation in the National Exercise Program (NEP).

d. USAID is the USG agency that maintains the most direct relationship with NGOs, some of which may receive USAID funding to implement activities in support of USAID's development assistance programs. USAID maintains an advisory committee on Voluntary Foreign Aid—established after World War II by presidential directive—to serve as a link between the USG and NGOs conducting economic development or relief efforts. Also, with some exceptions, most NGOs must register to receive USAID funding to ensure they meet certain standards. USAID advisors at CCMDs, as well as USAID mission and country team members, can establish contacts with, and gain situational awareness of, NGO and private sector activity and capability.

e. Many US NGOs participate in a consortium called InterAction, which helps represent NGO interests at the national level. InterAction coordinates with various USG departments and agencies to gain NGOs' participation in realistic peace operations (PO) simulations conducted by the Joint Readiness Training Center. The military and participating NGOs gain a better understanding of each organization's culture, capabilities, and procedures. InterAction has briefed CA units and US military schools to improve their understanding of NGO activities and promote the use of NGO members as role players in military exercises. Joint exercise planners should coordinate with NGOs to make optimal use of their time and expertise during exercises. NGO personnel should be invited to participate in after action reviews. This would allow feedback in an open forum and contribute to developing ways to avoid polarization of positions.

f. USG department and agency, international organization, and NGO training is also available through the senior Service schools (including the DOS's Foreign Service Institute) and other civilian institutions. For example, the US Army War College's Peacekeeping and Stability Operations Institute provides courses on interagency and

whole-of-government planning. Interagency training is also provided on the job through exchange programs between DOD and other USG departments and agencies.

(1) The Foreign Service Institute is the USG primary training institution for officers and support personnel of the US foreign affairs community, preparing American diplomats and other professionals to advance US foreign affairs interests overseas and in Washington, DC. At the George P. Shultz National Foreign Affairs Training Center, the Foreign Service Institute provides several courses with an interagency focus to enrollees from DOS and more than 40 USG departments and agencies, including the military.

(2) The Joint Forces Staff College, National Defense University, provides USG department and agency, international organization, and NGO training to civilian and military personnel assigned or pending assignment to a CCMD. National Defense University also provides policy simulations and exercises to members of the executive branch strategic decision-making community in the National Capital Region and at the CCMD JIACGs (or equivalent organizations). The Institute for National Strategic Studies uses simulations that stress regional and functional crisis management and conflict resolution, as well as after action review, to provide participants a non-threatening environment to discuss and test innovative approaches to complex crises and encourage interagency cooperation. The Center for Complex Operations (<http://cco.ndu.edu/>) fosters unity of effort among DOD and other USG departments and agencies during complex operations; collects and analyzes lessons from military and civilian personnel; and incorporates those lessons into policy, doctrine, education, training, and exercises. National Intelligence University provides policy-level academics, including bachelor and master degree programs in intelligence studies, to all branches of the DOD and interagency partners.

(3) USIP (<http://www.usip.org>) is a nonpartisan, independent agency created by the US Congress, with a bipartisan board appointed by the President. This status allows USIP to play a distinctive role in addressing violent conflicts. The Academy for International Conflict Management and Peacebuilding is the education and training leader of the USIP. USIP Academy courses—designed for practitioners in governments, international organizations, NGOs, and the private sector—build and strengthen the skills required to manage conflict in all its phases, from preventing conflict to post-conflict peacebuilding.

For more information, refer to the Quadrennial Diplomacy and Development Review (<http://www.state.gov/s/dmr/qddr>).

g. The UN conducts training and education at various levels to improve the responsiveness, effectiveness, and efficiency of international humanitarian relief operations. Training is available to leaders of the military, civil defense, and civilian relief organizations, or for personnel of countries and organizations with no prior experience in international emergency and disaster response situations. One example is the UN Civil-Military Cooperation Course—offered by United Nations Office for the Coordination of Humanitarian Affairs (UNOCHA)—which informs participants of the roles of military and humanitarian actors in international relief response. Another

example is the UN Humanitarian Civil-Military Coordination Impact course, offered for no charge online at <http://www.disasterready.org/>.

h. Joint Special Operations University educates special operations executive, senior, and intermediate leaders, and select national and international security leaders, both military and civilian, through teaching, research, and outreach. The Joint Special Operations University's Interagency Division runs several courses each year.

CHAPTER III

DOMESTIC CONSIDERATIONS

"I believe that the challenges confronting our Nation cannot be dealt with by military means alone. They instead require whole-of-government approaches..."

Robert M. Gates
Secretary of Defense Senate Testimony, 30 April 2009

1. Key Roles of United States Government Stakeholders

a. DHS leads the unified national effort to secure America by preventing terrorism and enhancing security, securing and managing our borders, enforcing and administering immigration laws, safeguarding and securing cyberspace, and ensuring resilience to disasters. Within DOD, SecDef has overall authority and is the President's principal advisor on military matters concerning use of federal forces in HD and DSCA. CNGB is SecDef's principal advisor, through the CJCS, for non-federalized NG forces. The Assistant Secretary of Defense (Homeland Defense and Global Security) (ASD[HD&GS]) serves as the principal staff assistant delegated the authority to manage and coordinate HD and DSCA functions at the SecDef level. The two CCMDs with major HD and DSCA missions are United States Northern Command (USNORTHCOM) and United States Pacific Command (USPACOM), as their AORs include the US and its territories. USNORTHCOM and USPACOM HD missions include conducting operations to deter, prevent, and defeat threats and aggression aimed at the US, its territories, and interests within the assigned AOR; and, as directed by the President or SecDef, provide DSCA. These geographic CCMDs may also have senior DHS representatives and a NG representative assigned as advisors. The senior DHS representative advises the commander and staff on HS and DSCA issues and requirements, and facilitates information sharing, coordination, and collaboration between the command and the operational agencies of DHS (e.g., FEMA, US Customs and Border Protection [CBP], and United States Coast Guard [USCG]).

b. **SecDef.** As authorized by the President, authority for the conduct and execution of both the HD and DSCA missions resides with SecDef. For DSCA missions, SecDef retains approval authority for RFAs requesting the use of DOD forces and capabilities in support of another USG department or agency. SecDef provides DOD policy and oversight for DSCA in the event of a domestic incident and considers the impact on HD and other elements of the nation's defense from committing these resources to DSCA.

c. **ASD(HD&GS).** The Office of the ASD(HD&GS) within OUSD(P) supervises all DOD HD and DSCA operations. Responsibilities include employment policy, guidance, and oversight; support to civil authorities IAW national frameworks; and assistance to civilian departments and agencies conducting HS missions. ASD(HD&GS) coordinates internal DOD policy direction and assists SecDef in coordinating with DHS and providing guidance, through CJCS, to CDRs for HD and DSCA missions.

d. **Assistant Secretary of Defense (Special Operations and Low-Intensity Conflict) (ASD[SO/LIC]).** ASD(SO/LIC) provides civilian oversight for special operations core activities. This includes oversight of policy, program planning, and allocation and use of resources. ASD(SO/LIC) supports planning of US counterterrorism (CT) forces in response to domestic terrorist incidents and also represents SecDef on combating terrorism matters outside the DOD.

e. **Assistant Secretary of Defense (Reserve Affairs) (ASD[RA]).** ASD(RA) monitors Reserve Component readiness. In coordination with ASD(HD&GS), the JS, the Services, and the NGB, ASD(RA) provides policy regarding integration of reserve and NG forces into HD and DSCA operations.

f. **Assistant Secretary of Defense (Public Affairs) (ASD[PA]).** ASD(PA) coordinates public affairs (PA) planning with ASD(HD&GS) and DHS prior to an HD or DSCA response. In coordination with ASD(HD&GS), the JS, and the Services, ASD(PA) identifies DOD PA capabilities and forces for potential response.

g. **CJCS.** CJCS responsibilities relating to HD and DSCA are to advise the President and SecDef on policies, responsibilities, and programs; assist SecDef in implementing responses to threats or an act of terrorism abroad with the National Counterterrorism Center (NCTC); assist SecDef in support to the NCTC and DHS during domestic terrorism incidents and some maritime terrorism threats under the Maritime Operational Threat Response (MOTR) Plan; and convey presidential and SecDef decisions and direction to the CDRs through orders to provide assistance to the primary agency. CJCS ensures HD and DSCA plans and operations are compatible with other military plans. CJCS also assists CDRs in meeting their operational requirements for executing HD missions and for providing DSCA that has been approved by SecDef. In the DSCA area, CJCS is the principal military advisor to the President and SecDef to prepare for, and respond to, chemical, biological, radiological, and nuclear (CBRN) incidents; ensures military planning is accomplished to support the primary agency for incident response; and provides strategic guidance to the CDRs for counterdrug operations.

h. **Commander, United States Northern Command (CDRUSNORTHCOM).** CDRUSNORTHCOM has specific responsibilities for HD and for providing DSCA within the US portion of its AOR. USNORTHCOM is also responsible for security cooperation with Canada, Mexico, and the Bahamas; synchronizing DOD global pandemic influenza planning; and supporting countering WMD efforts. The CJCS conveys presidential and SecDef decisions and direction through orders to CDRUSNORTHCOM.

i. **Commander, United States Pacific Command (CDRUSPACOM).** CDRUSPACOM is the supported commander in the designated AOR for providing DSCA. CDRUSPACOM is responsible for security cooperation, support planning for pandemic influenza, and countering WMD in the AOR. USPACOM also combats terrorism and sets FP policy. USPACOM is DOD's principal planning agent and supported command for HD in Hawaii, Territory of Guam, Territory of American Samoa,

Commonwealth of the Northern Mariana Islands (CNMI), US administrative entities, and US territorial waters within their AOR. CDRUSPACOM is responsible for detecting, deterring, and preventing attacks against US sovereign territory, and employing appropriate force if deterrence fails. The CJCS conveys presidential and SecDef decisions and direction through orders to CDRUSPACOM.

j. **Other CCMDs.** While CDRUSNORTHCOM and CDRUSPACOM are responsible for the homeland within their AORs, other CCMDs could support these two GCCs during HD and DSCA operations. Commander, USTRANSCOM, has specific missions during DSCA. For example, it provides common-user air, land, and sea transportation to the supported CCMD and civil authorities during DSCA IAW an approved RFA. It is also the authority to concur or non-concur with Maritime Administration (MARAD) requests for the temporary use of Maritime Administration Ready Reserve Force (MARAD RRF) vessels for storage of non-defense related cargo; provides air refueling to the supported CCMDs; and, when local needs exceed transportation capabilities, provides necessary aeromedical evacuation in support of DHHS as part of the National Disaster Medical System (NDMS).

k. **CNGB.** CNGB is a principal advisor to SecDef through the CJCS on matters involving non-federalized NG forces and through other DOD officials as determined by SecDef. CNGB is the DOD's official communication channel to the governors and TAGs on all matters pertaining to the NG. The governors and TAGs ensure Army National Guard (ARNG) and Air National Guard (ANG) personnel are accessible, capable, and ready to provide combat resources to the US Army and United States Air Force (USAF). CNGB serves as an advisor to the CCDRs on NG matters pertaining to the CCMD missions, and supports planning and coordination for DSCA activities as requested by the CJCS or the CCDRs. The National Guard Coordination Center (NGCC) provides shared situational awareness among the National Guard joint force headquarters-state (NG JFHQ-State), the NGB, USNORTHCOM, and USPACOM during events ranging from a CBRN incident or other catastrophic incident, including major storms, to providing situational awareness of NG support to local events and minor incidents and routine reporting. It enables the NGB to coordinate NG assistance to the supported state on a national level. It also provides coordination for support to law enforcement and community-based organizations for domestic counterdrug missions. Sourcing solutions are coordinated through the ARNG and ANG. For more information, see Appendix G, "National Guard Organizations and Relationships."

l. Additional Civilian Stakeholders

(1) Per Homeland Security Presidential Directive (HSPD)-18, *Medical Countermeasures Against Weapons of Mass Destruction*, DHHS leads USG efforts to research, develop, evaluate, and acquire public health emergency medical countermeasures to prevent or mitigate the health effects of CBRN threats facing the US civilian population.

(2) Per NSPD-47/HSPD-16, *Aviation Security Policy*, DOT responsibilities are to protect the nation and US interests in the air domain by conducting a broad range of HD, law enforcement, and crisis response-related activities.

(3) PPD-21, *Critical Infrastructure Security and Resilience*, provides policy for critical infrastructure protection (CIP). This endeavor is a shared responsibility among the federal, state, local, tribal, and territorial entities, and public and private owners and operators of critical infrastructure.

2. Homeland Defense and Defense Support of Civil Authorities

a. **Mission Areas.** The use of the Armed Forces inside the US and its territories, though limited in some respects, falls into two mission areas: HD—for which DOD is lead agency and employs military forces to conduct military operations in defense of the homeland; and DSCA—for which DOD supports other USG departments and agencies by providing military resources in support of civil authorities. DSCA is consistent with the national frameworks in that it supplements the efforts and resources of other USG departments and agencies in support of state, local, territorial, and tribal governments, as well as NGOs and volunteer organizations. In most cases, the President and SecDef determine when DOD will be involved in HD and DSCA missions. Interorganizational cooperation for HD and DSCA is particularly sensitive when joint forces conduct operations in proximity to our domestic population and critical infrastructure. While the HD and DSCA missions are distinct, some department roles and responsibilities overlap, and operations require extensive coordination between lead and supporting agencies. HD and DSCA operations may occur concurrently and require extensive integration and synchronization. DOD may conduct HD operations in a lead agency role, while at the same time providing DSCA in response to the consequences of an attack or natural disaster. In addition, operations may also transition from HD to DSCA to HS or vice versa (e.g., the USCG in maritime security) with the lead shifting depending on the situation and USG's desired outcome. While the lead may transition, a single department or agency has the lead at any given time for a particular activity (e.g., DSCA includes HS operations during which DHS is the lead). However, the designation of the federal department or agency with lead responsibility is not always predetermined. In certain time-critical situations, on-scene leaders are empowered to conduct operations in response to a particular threat. The interrelationship between HD, HS, and DSCA operations, and the potential for transition between the missions, creates a dynamic where interorganizational cooperation is a focal point.

b. **HD.** HD is the protection of US sovereignty, territory, domestic population, and critical infrastructure against external threats and aggression, or other threats, as directed by the President. DOD is responsible for the HD mission and leads HD responses, with other USG departments and agencies in support. DOD's capability to respond quickly to multiple threats in a variety of situations can strain limited resources. For example, the same force constituted to deploy on a contingency operation overseas may also be the most qualified force for a HD mission. For HD missions, the President authorizes military action to counter threats to and within the US. An example of an ongoing HD operation is Operation NOBLE EAGLE, which provides enhanced air defense of the US.

(1) HD operations may be conducted in a complex operational environment characterized by numerous and varied threats, multiple jurisdictions (i.e., federal, state, tribal, territorial, and local), nontraditional partners (e.g., international organizations, NGOs, and private sector), and international partnerships. The NG may provide support to HD operations in a Title 32, USC, status or in a state active duty status IAW DODD 3160.01, *Homeland Defense Activities Conducted by the National Guard*. The operational environment makes coordination imperative to ensure synchronized and integrated operations. DOD should be prepared to operate in concert with other USG personnel conducting HS or other law enforcement activities. The overlap in departmental roles, responsibilities, authorities, and capabilities among USG organizations, other governmental authorities, and nontraditional partners requires an approach that promotes early identification of desired results. Early identification of objectives should drive collaboration between operational partners.

(2) Within the US, HD operations must comply with domestic legal and policy guidelines designed to mitigate adverse impacts on the US domestic population and critical infrastructure. Domestic military operations are subject to continuous media scrutiny. Joint forces conducting HD must be sensitive to the jurisdiction of state and local governments, and respect individual civil rights and civil liberties. Interagency processes and programs should enable joint forces to conduct HD seamlessly with federal, state, tribal, and local government partners.

(3) DOD Requests for Interorganizational Assistance in Support of the HD Mission. DOD may request assistance or support from other USG departments and agencies for HD missions. These requests are made under the Economy Act of 1932, which provides for USG support between USG departments and agencies. Training and exercises can help joint forces efficiently activate the requirements process for interorganizational assistance and expedite a collaborative USG response to HD threats.

For more information on HD, refer to JP 3-27, Homeland Defense.

c. DSCA

(1) DOD DSCA activities must be specifically authorized and are generally conducted in support of a primary civilian agency. The exceptions are those noted in the NRF (ESF #3, Public Works and Engineering, and ESF # 9, Search and Rescue) where DOD/US Army Corps of Engineers and DOD have primary or shared primary responsibilities. RFAs from another department or agency may be predicated on mutual agreements between organizations or stem from a presidential designation of a federal disaster area or a federal state of emergency. DOD support is typically requested only when the resources of state, local, and tribal governments or other USG departments and agencies prove insufficient to provide critical support in a timely manner, or when specialized military assets are required.

(2) The USG evaluates all requests from civil authorities and qualifying entities for DOD assistance for legality, lethality, risk, cost, appropriateness, and impact on readiness. This is true even if leaders are considering providing assistance under their

immediate response authority or emergency authority. When military forces in Title 10, USC, status are authorized to support state and local civil authorities, command of those forces will remain with SecDef. Typically, supporting DOD entities remain under the C2 of the supported CCDR. In the absence of delegated control, DOD elements in the incident area of operations and NG forces under the command of a governor will coordinate closely with response organizations at all levels.

For further guidance on DSCA, refer to JP 3-28, Defense Support of Civil Authorities; DODD 3025.18, Defense Support of Civil Authorities (DSCA); and DODI 3025.22, The Use of the National Guard for Defense Support of Civil Authorities.

d. Planning Considerations for Interorganizational Cooperation. DOD works closely with other USG departments and agencies when planning. The supported GCCs are DOD principal planning agents and provide joint planning directives for peacetime assistance rendered by DOD within their assigned AORs. Upon issuance of an execute order by the CJCS, at the direction of the President or SecDef, to initiate or conduct military operations, the supported commander implements and relays the authority of the order with their own orders directing action to subordinate commanders, supporting commanders, and directors of supporting agencies. Thorough joint planning requires that a GCC's operations and activities align with national security objectives contained in strategic guidance. The GEF prioritizes these objectives and DOD priorities for each CCMD, which then develop a FCP or TCP, as required. In addition to participating in interagency steering groups and councils, DOD has responsibilities under the NRF. The salient frameworks and directives that will guide DSCA operations are the following:

(1) The Robert T. Stafford Disaster Relief and Emergency Assistance Act provides the authority for the USG to assist with state and local government response to a major disaster or emergency. The act gives the President the authority to declare an area a major disaster, declare an area an emergency, exercise 10-day emergency authority, and send in federal assets when an emergency occurs in an area over which the federal government exercises primary responsibility.

(2) The NRF is a guide that details how the nation conducts all-hazards response—from the smallest incident to the largest catastrophe. The NRF identifies the response principles, to include DOD, as well as the roles and structures that organize national response. It describes how communities, states, the USG, private sector, and US NGO partners apply these principles to coordinate a national response. In addition, it describes special circumstances where the USG exercises a larger role, including incidents where exclusive, preeminent, or similarly weighty federal interests are involved and catastrophic incidents where a state would require significant support. It lays the groundwork for first responders, decision makers, and supporting entities to provide a unified national response. In addition to the NRF base document, the ESF annexes and support annexes are available online at the NRF Resource Center (<http://www.fema.gov/national-response-framework>). The annexes provide CONOPS, procedures, and structures to achieve response directives for all partners to fulfill their roles under the NRF.

(3) The NIMS, and its associated ICS, provides a systematic, proactive approach to guide departments and agencies at all levels of government, NGOs, and the private sector to work seamlessly to prevent, protect against, respond to, recover from, and mitigate the effects of incidents, regardless of cause, size, location, or complexity, to reduce the loss of life and property and harm to the environment. NIMS is integrated with the NRF. The NIMS provides the template for the management of incidents, while the NRF provides the structure and mechanisms for national-level policy for incident management. The NIMS is a tested system that interagency partners utilize and practice regularly. Leaders with NRF responsibilities should have an understanding of its principles, structures, and techniques.

(4) To align DOD planning with the needs of those requiring DSCA, DOD coordinates with interagency partners and with the NGB. Coordination should align national frameworks, NIMS, and interagency guidelines provided in the JSCP. The standing CJCS DSCA Execute Order delegates limited approval authority to supported CDDRs to respond to domestic emergencies and/or disasters and aligns with the NRF to provide a unified national response.

(5) The domestic operating environment for DSCA presents unique challenges to the JFC. When executing DSCA, the US military is normally in support of another USG department or agency that is coordinating the federal response. The President can direct DOD to be the lead for the federal response; however, this would only happen in extraordinary situations and would involve other DOD core mission areas. US federal and NG forces may also support state, territorial, local, or tribal activities. Commanders and staffs at all levels must understand the relationships, both statutory and operational, among all USG departments and agencies involved in the operation. It is equally important to understand DOD's role in supporting other USG departments and agencies. DOD can provide assistance to the primary agency as authorized by SecDef or the President. The NRF and associated CONPLANS and OPLANS, specified by the National Preparedness System, detail the roles and missions of USG departments and agencies in the event of a domestic crisis. There are also USNORTHCOM and USPACOM domestic plans (e.g., DSCA, and civil disturbance operations) that describe the responsibilities of USG entities in detail.

(6) Examples of plans associated with DSCA include:

(a) Operation Plan Vigilant Sentry is a comprehensive DHS contingency plan for a unified response to a mass migration event in the Caribbean. This plan integrates the USG response with assistance from the state of Florida and local agencies.

(b) National Oil and Hazardous Substances Pollution Contingency Plan (Title 40, Code of Federal Regulations [CFR], Part 300), more commonly referred to as the National Contingency Plan, is authorized by the Comprehensive Environmental Response, Compensation and Liability Act, Section 311 of the Clean Water Act, and the Oil Pollution Act of 1990. The National Contingency Plan provides an organizational structure and procedures for preparing for, and responding to, discharges and substantial

threats of releases of hazardous substances, pollutants, and contaminants. The National Contingency Plan designates the:

1. Environmental Protection Agency (EPA) as the lead federal agency for directing the removal and mitigation of oils spills and releases of hazardous substances, pollutants, or contaminants into, or threatening, the inland zone.

2. USCG as the lead federal agency for directing the removal and mitigation of oils spills and releases of hazardous substances, pollutants, or contaminants into, or threatening, the waters and adjoining shorelines of the coastal zone.

3. DOD as the lead federal agency in the case of releases of hazardous substances, pollutants, or contaminants on, or the sole source of the release is from, any facility or vessel under the jurisdiction, custody, or control of the DOD.

4. DOD as the removal authority with respect to incidents involving DOD military weapons and munitions or weapons and munitions under the jurisdiction, custody, or control of the DOD.

5. DOE as the lead federal agency in the case of releases of hazardous substances, pollutants, or contaminants on, or the sole source of the release is from, any facility or vessel under the jurisdiction, custody, or control of the DOE.

(c) The National Search and Rescue Plan ensures the coordination for, and effective use of, available resources for all types of civil search and rescue (SAR) missions in compliance with US humanitarian and national and international legal obligations. These resources include aircraft, vessels, pararescue and ground rescue teams, and monitoring emergency locator transmitter signals. Under the plan, the USCG is the SAR coordinator for the US aeronautical and maritime SAR regions, and CDRUSNORTHCOM is the SAR coordinator for both the continental US and Alaska. To carry out these responsibilities, the USCG and USNORTHCOM have established rescue coordination centers to coordinate SAR operations within their respective SAR regions.

(d) The MOTR Plan provides a coordinated USG response to threats against the US and its interests in the maritime domain. The MOTR agencies use their designated network of integrated national-level maritime command centers to coordinate information flow in support of MOTR execution, including interdiction and disposition. Threats include terrorism, piracy, and other criminal or hostile acts committed by foreign states and non-state groups or individuals. DHS is the lead MOTR agency for the interdiction of maritime threats to the homeland. DOJ, through FBI, is the lead MOTR agency for investigations of terrorist acts or terrorist threats by individuals or groups inside of the US, or directed at US citizens or institutions abroad, when such acts are within the federal criminal jurisdiction of the US. DOD is the lead for nation-state maritime threats to US territories and US interests overseas.

(7) Per the Memorandum of Agreement Between the Department of Defense and the Department of Homeland Security for Department of Defense Support to the